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STANDARD EIGHT

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Department of School Education

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HOW TO USE THE BOOK

Learning Objectives — The scope of the lesson is presented.

Introduction — The subject to be discussed in the lesson is introduced.

Leads the students to animated audio, video aids for getting experiential learning.

Provides additional information related to the subject in boxes to stir up the curiosity of students.

Infographs — Visual representations intended to make the complex simple and make the students grasp difficult concepts easily.

Activities — Activities for 'learning by doing' individually or in groups.

Summary — Describe the main points briefly in bullets for recapitulation.

Exercise — For self-study and self evaluation.

Glossary — Key words and technical terms explained at the end of the lesson for clarity.

References — List of books and net sources for further reading.

ICT Corner — Using technology for learning activities, which enables the students to access digital sources relevant to their lessons.

8th Social Science_Front pages.indd 3 25-01-2025 10.11.25 AM

Table of Contents

Unit	Contents	Page.no.	Month
	HISTORY		
1	Advent of the Europeans	01	June
2	From Trade to Territory	11	June
3	Rural Life and Society	26	July
4	People's Revolt	35	August
5	Development of Education in India	47	October
6	Development of Industries in India	58	November
7	Urban changes during the British period	67	November
8	Status of Women in India through the ages	76	January
	GEOGRAPHY		
1	Rocks and Soils	85	June
2	Weather and Climate	95	July
3	Hydrological Cycle	104	July
4	Migration and Urbanisation	112	August
5	Hazards	122	October
6	Industries	132	October
7	Exploring Continents Africa, Australia and Antarctica	139	November & December
8	Map Reading	156	January

8th Social Science_Front pages.indd 4 25-01-2025 10.11.25 AM

CIVICS			
1	How the State Government Works	168	June
2	Citizens and Citizenship	177	July
3	Understanding Secularism	182	August
4	Human Rights and UNO	189	October
5	Road Safety Rules and Regulations	198	November
6	Defence & Foreign Policy	208	January
7	The Judiciary	217	February
ECONOMICS			
1	Money, Savings and Investments	226	August & September
2	Public and Private Sectors	238	February

E - book

Assessment

8th Social Science_Front pages.indd 5 25-01-2025 10.11.25 AM

HISTORY

8th Social Science_Front pages.indd 6 25-01-2025 10.11.25 AM

Unit - 1

Advent of the Europeans

Learning Objectives

- To know about the kinds of sources of Modern India.
- To understand the Portuguese trade interests in India.
- To understand the impact of Portuguese and Dutch presence in India.
- To know the colonial settlements of Denmark.
- To know the arrival and settlement of English and French East India Companies.

Introduction

Many of the foreign travellers, traders, missionaries and civil servants who came to India in the 18th and 19th centuries have left accounts of their experiences and their impressions of various parts of the country. To know the events of modern period, we have abundant sources at the international, national, and regional level.

Sources of Modern India

The sources for the history of Modern India help us to know the political, socio-economic and cultural developments in the country. From the very beginning, the Portuguese, the Dutch, the French, the Danes, and the English recorded their official transactions in India on state papers. Well preserved records are very valuable to know about their relations in India. The archives at Lisbon, Goa, Pondicherry and Madras were literally storehouses of precious historical information. All these sources must, however, be critically evaluated before they are used for historical writing.

Kinds of Sources

We can write history with the help of sources like written sources and material sources.

Written Sources

Ananda Rangam

After the advent of the printing press, numerous books were published in different languages. Hence, people began to acquire knowledge easily in the fields such as art, literature, history and science. The Europeans came to know about the immense wealth of India from the accounts of Marco Polo and similar sources. The wealth of India attracted Europeans to this country. Ananda Rangam is a name to conjure with in

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 1 25-01-2025 10.28.59 AM

the annals of Tamil history. He was a Dubash (Translator) in Pondicherry to assist French trade in India. He recorded the events that took place in French India. His diaries contain the daily events from 1736 to 1760, which are the only written secular record available during that period. His diaries reveal his profound capacity for political judgement, and are the most valuable source of history. Written sources include Literatures, Travel Accounts, Diaries, Auto Biographies, Pamphlets, Government Documents and Manuscripts.

Archives

This is the place where historical documents are preserved. The National Archives of India (NAI) is located in New Delhi. It is the chief storehouse of the records of the Government of India. It is the main source of information for understanding past administrative machinery, as well as a guide to the present and future generations related to all matters. It contains authentic evidence for knowing the political, social, economic, cultural and scientific life and activities of the people of India. It is one of the largest Archives in Asia.

George William Forrest can rightly be called as the **"Father of National Archives of India"**.

Tamil Nadu Archives

The Madras Record Office, presently known as Tamil Nadu Archives (TNA) is located in Chennai. It is one of the oldest and largest document repositories in Southern India. The most of the records in the Tamil Nadu archives are in English. The collections include a series of administrative records in Dutch, Danish, Persian and Marathi. A few documents are in French, Portuguese, Tamil and Urdu.

Tamil Nadu Archives

Tamil Nadu Archives have 1642 volumes of Dutch records which relate to Cochin and Coromandal coast. These records cover the period from 1657 to 1845. The Danian records cover the period from 1777 to 1845. Dodwell prepared with great effort and the first issue of the calendar of Madras records was published in 1917. He was highly interested in encouraging historical research. He opened a new chapter in the history of Tamil Nadu Archives.

Material Sources

St. David Fort (Cuddalore)

Many paintings and statues are the main sources of Modern Indian history. They give us a lot of information about the achievement of national leaders and historical personalities. Historical buildings such as St. Francis Church at Cochin, St. Louis Fort at Pondicherry, St. George Fort in Madras, St. David Fort in Cuddalore, India Gate, Parliament House, the President House in New Delhi, etc., are different styles and techniques of Indian architecture. Other objects and materials of religious, cultural and historical value are collected and preserved in Museums. These museums help

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 2 25-01-2025 10.29.00 AM

to preserve and promote our cultural heritage. The National Museum in Delhi is the largest museum in India which was established in 1949.

Coins are a good source to know about administrative history. The first coinage in Modern India under the crown was issued in 1862. Edward VII ascended after Queen Victoria and the coins issued by him bore his portrait. The Reserve Bank of India was formally set up in 1935 and was empowered to issue Government of India notes. The first paper currency issued by RBI in January 1938 was the 5-rupee notes bearing the portrait of King George VI.

In 1690, Fort St. David was built by the British in Cuddalore.

Advent of the Europeans

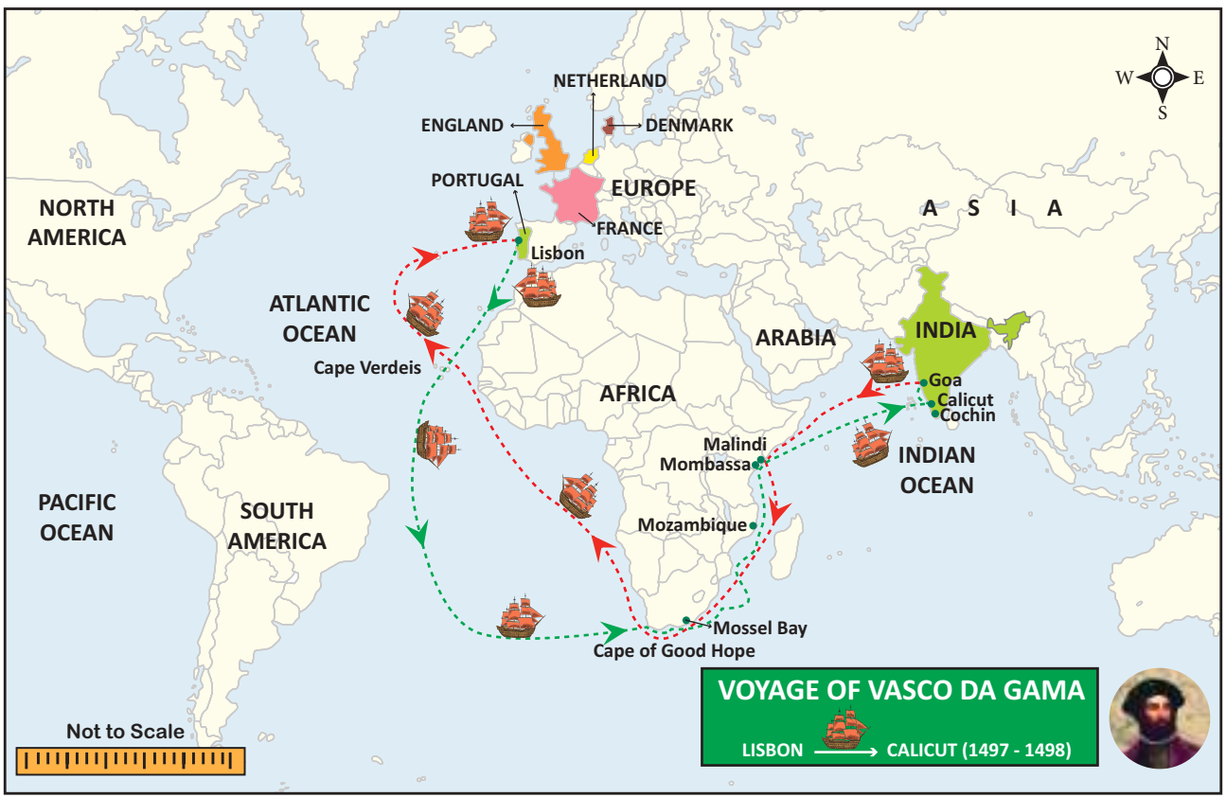
After the capture of Constantinople by the Turks in 1453 A.D. (C.E.), the land route between India and Europe was closed.

The Turks penetrated into North Africa and the Balkan Peninsula. It became imperative on the part of the European nations to discover new sea routes to the East.

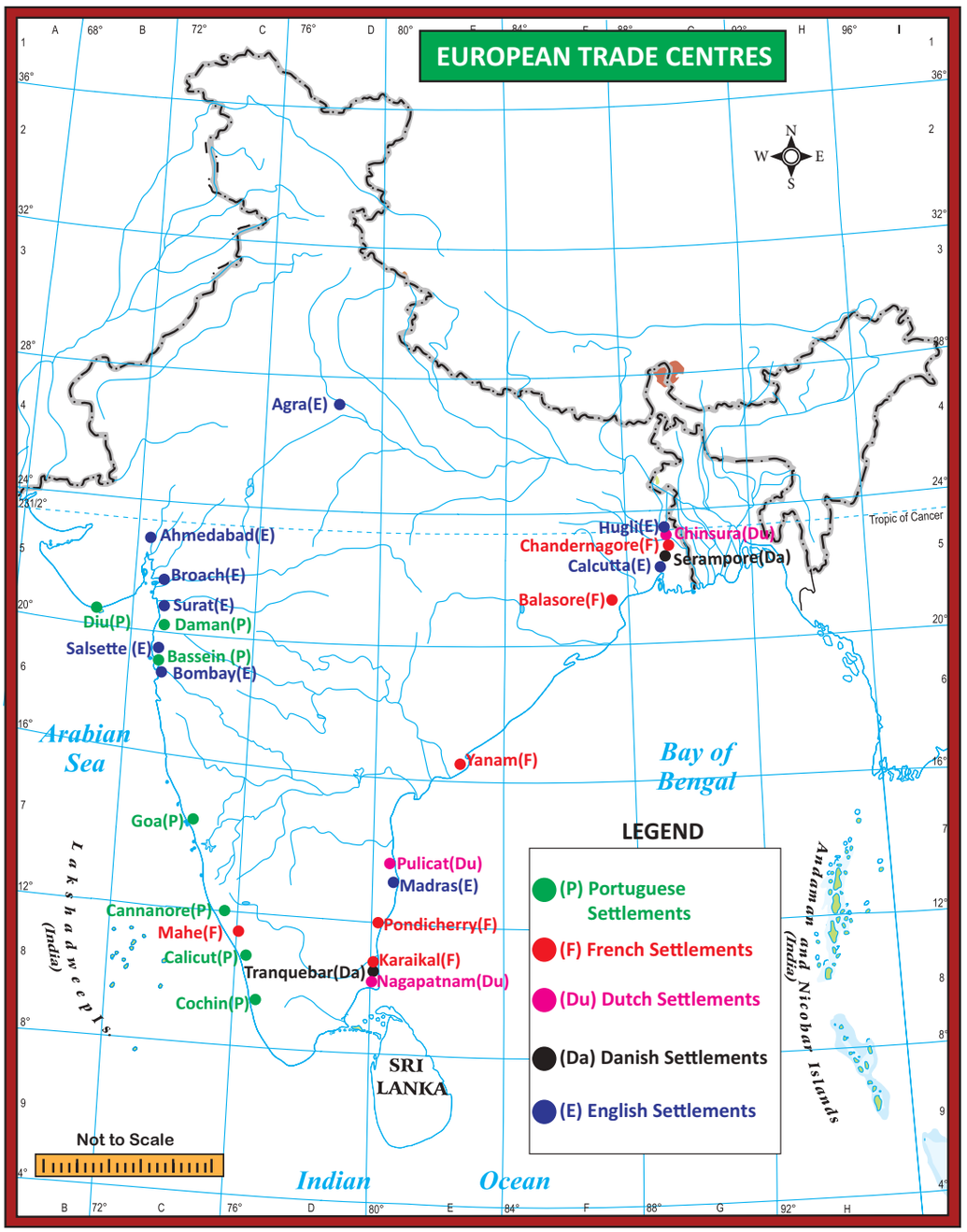
Audio-visual means possessing both a sound and a visual component, such as slide-tape presentations. Audio-visual service providers frequently offer web streaming, video conferencing and live broadcast services. Television, films, internet are called 'Audio-visual media'.

Portugal

Amongst the entire European nations Portugal was the foremost to make a dynamic attempt to discover sea route to India. Prince Henry of Portugal, who is commonly known as the "Navigator", encouraged his countrymen to take up the adventurous life of exploring the unknown regions of the world. Bartholomew Diaz, a Portuguese sailor reached the southernmost point of Africa in 1487. He was patronized by the King John II.



Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 3 25-01-2025 10.29.00 AM



Vasco da Gama

Vasco da Gama, another Portuguese sailor reached the southernmost point of Africa and he continued his journey to Mozambique, from where he sailed to India with the help of an Indian pilot.

Vasco da Gama

In A.D. (C.E.) 1498, he reached Calicut, where he was cordially received by King Zamorin, the ruler of Calicut. A second Portuguese navigator, Pedro Alvares Cabral, sailed towards India, following the route discovered by Vasco da Gama with 13 ships and a few hundred soldiers in 1500. On his arrival at Calicut, there arose conflicts between the Portuguese and King Zamorin.

Vasco da Gama came to India for the second time in 1501 with 20 ships and

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 4 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

founded a trading centre at Cannanore. One after another, they established factories at Calicut and Cochin. King Zamorin attacked the Portuguese in Cochin, but was defeated. Cochin was the first capital of the Portuguese East India Company. The third voyage of Vasco da Gama was in 1524. He soon fell ill, and in December 1524 he died in Cochin.

Francisco de Almeida (1505-1509)

In 1505, Francisco de Almeida was sent as the first Governor for the Portuguese possessions in India. Almeida had the aim of developing the naval power of the Portuguese in India. His policy was known as the "Blue Water Policy".

As the Portuguese tried to break the Arabs' monopoly on Indian Ocean trade, it negatively impacted on the trade interests of Egypt and Turkey. Sultans of Bijapur and Gujarat were also apprehensive of the expansion of Portuguese control over ports, which led to an alliance between Egypt, Turkey and Gujarat against Portuguese invaders. In a naval battle fought near Chaul, the combined Muslim fleet won a victory over the Portuguese fleet under Almeida's son who was killed in the battle. Almeida defeated the combined Muslim fleet in a naval battle near Diu, and by the year 1509, the Portuguese claimed the naval supremacy in Asia.

Alfonso de Albuquerque (1509-1515)

The real founder of the Portuguese power in India was Alfonso de Albuquerque. He captured Goa from the Sultan of Bijapur in November 1510. In 1515, he established the Portuguese authority over Ormuz in Persian Gulf. He encouraged the marriages of the Portuguese with Indian women. He maintained friendly relations with Vijayanagar Empire.

Nino de Cunha (1529-1538)

Governor, Nino de Cunha, moved capital from Cochin to Goa in 1530. In 1534, he acquired Bassein from Bahadur Shah of Gujarat. In 1537, the Portuguese occupied Diu. Later, they wrested Daman from the local chiefs of Gujarat. In 1548, they occupied Salsette.

Thus during the 16th century, the Portuguese succeeded in capturing Goa, Daman, Diu, Salsette, Bassein, Chaul and Bombay on the western coast, Hooghly on the Bengal coast and Santhome on the Madras coast and enjoyed good trade benefits. The Portuguese brought the cultivation of tobacco to India. Due to the influence of Portuguese Catholic religion spread in certain regions of India's western and eastern coasts. The printing press was set up by the Portuguese at Goa in 1556. A scientific work on the Indian medicinal plants by a European writer was printed at Goa in 1563. In 17th century, the Portuguese power began to decline to the Dutch and by 1739 the Portuguese pockets became confined to Goa, Diu and Daman.

The Dutch

The Dutch followed the Portuguese into India. In 1602, the United East India Company of the Netherlands was formed and it received the sanction of its government to trade in East India. After their arrival in India, the Dutch founded their first factory in Masulipatnam, (Andhra Pradesh) in 1605. This company captured Amboyna from the Portuguese in 1605 and established its supremacy in the Spice Islands. They captured Nagapattinam near Madras from the Portuguese and made this place as their strong hold in South India. At first, Pulicat was their headquarters. Later, they shifted it to Nagapattinam in 1690.

The most important Indian commodities traded by the Dutch were silk, cotton, indigo, rice and opium. They monopolized the trade in black pepper and trading other spices. The important factories in India were Pulicat, Surat, Chinsura, Kasim bazar, Patna, Nagapattinam, Balasore and Cochin.

The English East India Company remained engaged in rivalry with the Portuguese and

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 5 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

the Dutch throughout the 17th century. In 1623, the Dutch cruelly killed ten English traders and nine Javanese in Amboyna. This incident accelerated the rivalry between the two European companies. Their final collapse came with their defeat by the English in the Battle of Bedera in 1759. The Dutch lost their settlements one by one to the English and was completely wiped out by the year 1795.

Dutch in Tamil Nadu

The Portuguese who established a control over Pulicat since 1502 were overthrown by the Dutch. In Pulicat, the Dutch built the fort Geldria in 1613. This fort was once the seat of Dutch power.

Geldria Fort (Pulicat)

The Dutch established their settlement at Pulicat in 1610. Diamonds were exported from Pulicat to the western countries. The other Dutch colonial forts and possessions were Nagapattinam, Punnakayal, Porto Novo, Cuddalore and Devanampatinam.

The British

On 31st December 1600, Elizabeth, the Queen of England granted a charter to the governor and company of Merchants of London to trade with East Indies. The Company was headed by a Governor and a court of 24 directors. Captain Hawkins visited Jahangir's court in 1608 to get certain concessions for the company. He secured permission to raise a settlement at Surat. However, the Emperor cancelled the permission under pressure from the Portuguese.

In 1612, the English Captain Thomas Best, inflicted a severe defeat over the Portuguese in a naval battle near Surat. The Mughal Emperor Jahangir permitted the English to establish their factory in 1613 at Surat, which initially became the headquarters of the English in Western India. Captain Nicholas Downton won another decisive victory over the Portuguese in 1614. These events enhanced the British prestige at the Mughal court. In 1615, Sir Thomas Roe was sent to Jahangir's court by King James I of England. He remained at Agra for three years and succeeded in concluding a commercial treaty with the emperor. Before the departure of Sir Thomas Roe, the English had established their trading centres at Surat, Agra, Ahmedabad and Broach.

On the coastline of the Bay of Bengal, the English established their first factory in 1611 at Masulipatam, an important port in the territory of the kingdom of Golconda. In 1639, the English merchant, Francis Day, obtained Madras as a lease from Chennappa Nayaka, the ruler of Chandragiri. The East India Company built its famous factory known as 'Fort St. George' in Madras, which became their headquarters for the whole of the eastern belt and was the first fort built by British.

King Charles II of England received the island of Bombay as a part of his dowry from the Portuguese King, on the occasion of his marriage with Catherine. In 1668, the East India Company acquired the island at an annual rent of £ (pounds) 10 from Charles II.

In 1690, a factory was established at Sutanuti by Job Charnock. The Zamindari of the three villages of Sutanuti, Kalikata and Govindpur was acquired by the British in 1698. These villages later grew into the city of Calcutta. The factory at Sutanuti was fortified in 1696 and this new fortified settlement was named as 'Fort William' in 1700.

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 6 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

After the Battle of Plassey in 1757 and the Battle of Buxar in 1764, the Company became political power. India was under the East India Company's rule till 1858 after that it came under the direct administration of the British Crown.

Danish

On March 17, 1616 the King of Denmark, Christian IV, issued a charter and created a Danish East India Company. They established settlement at Tranquebar (Tamil Nadu) in 1620 and Serampore (Bengal) in 1676. Serampore was their headquarters in India. They failed to strengthen themselves in India and they sold all their settlements in India to the British in 1845.

Danish called Tranquebar as Danesborg. The king of Denmark sent Ziegenbalg to India. Ziegenbalg set up a printing press at Tranquebar (Tarangambadi).

Tranquebar Danish Fort

The French

The French East India Company was formed in 1664 by Colbert, a Minister of King Louis XIV. In 1667, a French expedition came to India under Francois Caron. France was the last European country to come to India as traders. Caron founded the first French factory in India at Surat. In1669, Marcara founded second French factory at Masulipatam by securing a patent from the Sultan of Golkonda. In 1673, the settlement of Pondicherry was founded by Martin under a grant from Sher Khan Lodi, the ruler of Bijapur. Pondicherry became the most important and prosperous French settlement in India. A fort known as St. Louis was built by Francois Martin in Pondicherry. In 1673, the French obtained permission from Shaista Khan, the Mughal Subedar (governor) of Bengal to establish a township at Chandranagore, near Calcutta.

Colbert

The French East India Company established factories in different parts of India, particularly in the coastal regions such as Mahe, Karaikal, Balasore and Kasim Bazar. These were a few important trading centres of the French East India Company.

The vision of the French power in India was further reinforced by the appointment of Joseph Francois Dupleix as the Governor of the French East India Company in 1742. He succeeded Dumas as the French governor of Pondicherry.

The Swedish

The Swedish East India Company was founded in Gothenburg, Sweden, in 1731 for the purpose of conducting trade with the Far East. The venture was inspired by the success of the Dutch East India Company and the British East India Company.

Conclusion

Since the Portuguese were eliminated by the Dutch and the later extinguished by the English, the French were left to face the English for control over trade and territory. The French neglected trade and entangled themselves in wars with Indian and other

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 7 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

European powers. The three "Carnatic wars" ruined the French and rejuvenated the English to embark on a systematic territorial expansion. The comparative success of the British over the Portuguese, the Dutch, the Danish, and the French was largely due to their commercial competitiveness, spirit of supreme sacrifice, government support, naval superiority, national character and their ascendancy in Europe.

Recap

- Ananda Rangam is a name to conjure with in the annals of Tamil history.
- The Madras Record Office, known as Tamil Nadu Archives (TNA) is located in Chennai.
- Prince Henry of Portugal, is commonly known as the "Navigator".
- The "Blue Water Policy" was followed by Almeida.
- The Mughal Emperor Jahangir permitted the English East India Company to establish their factory in 1613 at Surat.
- French East India Company was formed in 1664 by Colbert.
- Pondicherry became the most important and prosperous French settlement in India.

GLOSSARY		
Missionaries	religious missions	சமயப்பரப்பு குழுவினர்
Pamphlets	a small booklet	பிரசுரங்கள்
Archives	the place where historical documents and records are kept	ஆவணக்காப்பகம்
Manuscripts	handwritten books or documents	கையெழுத்து பிரதிகள்
Repository	a person or thing regarded as a store of information	களஞ்சியம்
Voyage	a long journey especially by ship	கடற்பயணம்
Monopoly	exclusive control or possession of something	முற்றுரிமை
Navigator	in earlier times, a person who explored by ship	கடல்வழி வல்லுநர்/ மாலுமி

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Who laid the foundation of Portuguese power in India?
   a) Vasco da Gama
   b) Bartholomew Diaz
   c) Alfonso de Albuquerque
   d) Almeida
2. Which of the following European Nations made the foremost attempt to discover a sea route to India?
   a) Dutch b) Portugal
   c) France d) Britain
3. In 1453, Constantinople was captured by _____.
   a) The French b) The Turks
   c) The Dutch d) The British
4. Sir William Hawkins belonged to _____.
   a) Portugal b) Spain
   c) England d) France

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 8 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

5. The first fort constructed by the British in India was _____.
   a) Fort William b) Fort St. George
   c) Fort St. Louis d) Fort St. David
6. Who among the following Europeans were the last to come to India as traders?
   a) The British b) The French
   c) The Danish d) The Portuguese
7. Tranquebar on the Tamil Nadu coast was a trade centre of the _____.
   a) The Portuguese b) The British
   c) The French d) The Danish

II Fill in the blanks

1. National Archives of India (NAI) is located in _____.
2. Bartholomew Diaz, a Portuguese sailor was patronized by _____.
3. The printing press in India was set up by _____ at Goa in 1556.
4. The Mughal Emperor _____ permitted the English to trade in India.
5. The French East India Company was founded by _____.
6. _____ the King of Denmark issued a charter to create Danish East India Company.

III Match the following

1	The Dutch	-	1664
2	The British	-	1602
3	The Danish	-	1600
4	The French	-	1616

IV State true or false

1. Autobiography is one of the written sources.
2. Coins are one of the material sources.
3. Ananda Rangam was a translator served under British.
4. The place where historical documents are preserved is called archives.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

i) Governor Nino de Cunha moved Portuguese capital from Cochin to Goa.

ii) Portuguese were the last to leave from India.

iii) The Dutch founded their first factory at Surat.

iv) Sir Thomas Roe was sent to Jahangir's court by King James I of England.

a) i & ii are correct.

b) ii & iv are correct.

c) iii is correct.

d) i, ii & iv are correct.

Find out the wrong pair

a) Francis Day - Denmark
b) Pedro Cabral - Portugal
c) Captain Hawkins - Britain
d) Colbert - France

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Give a short note on Archives.
2. Write about the importance of Coins.
3. Why Prince Henry is called 'Henry the Navigator'?
4. Name the important factories established by the Dutch in India.
5. Mention the trade centres of the English in India.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Give an account of the sources of Modern India.
2. How did the Portuguese establish their trading centres in India?
3. How did the British establish their trading centres in India?

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 9 25-01-2025 10.29.01 AM

VIII Map skill

1. On the river map of India, mark the following trading centres of the Europeans.
   1) Calicut 2) Cochin
   3) Madras 4) Pondicherry
   5) Surat 6) Chinsura
   7) Pulicat 8) Calcutta

IX HOTs

1. How did the fall of Constantinople affect the European nations?

X Student Activity

1. Prepare a chart on the kinds of sources of Modern India.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. Bipan Chandra - History of Modern India, Orient Blackswan Private Limited 2018
2. Sumit Sarkar, Modern India 1885-1947, Laxmi Publications; Reprint edition (2008)
3. Ishita Banerjee-Dube - *A History of Modern India*, Cambridge University Press 2014

INTERNET RESOURCES

- www.india.gov.in
- www.historynet.com
- www.ducksters.com

ICT CORNER

Advent of the Europeans

Through this activity you will visualize the Sources of Indian History

Steps

- Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
- Click on Timeline, go to left side menu and Select any one (Ex. Paintings)
- Drag the Time line bar to appropriate period (Ex.1500-1600 A.D)

Website URL:

http://museumsofindia.gov.in/repository/home

DWQAC

Unit-1 HISTORY.indd 10 25-01-2025 10.29.02 AM

Unit - 2

From Trade to Territory

Learning Objectives

- To know the rise of the Political Power of English East India Company.
- To know the events and impact of Battle of Plassey and Buxar.
- To know the Carnatic wars and Mysore wars.
- To know the Anglo-Maratha wars.
- To understand the growth of colonial army and civilian administration.
- To understand the principles of Subsidiary Alliance and Doctrine of Lapse.

GCQP2

Introduction

In the 15th Century, Europe witnessed an era of geographical discoveries through land and sea routes. In 1498, Vasco da Gama of Portugal discovered a new sea route from Europe to India. The main motive behind those discoveries was to maximize profit through trade and to establish political supremacy. The rule of English East India Company in India became strong after the conquest of Bengal. The main interest of the company in India was territorial and commercial expansion.

Establishment of Political Power by the English East India Company

Battle of Plassey (1757)

Alivardi Khan, the Nawab of Bengal died in 1756 and his grandson Siraj-ud-daula ascended the throne of Bengal. The British taking advantage of the new Nawab's weakness and unpopularity seized the power. So, Siraj-ud-daulah decided to teach them (British) a lesson by attacking their political settlements in Calcutta. The Nawab captured their factory at Kasim bazar. On 20th June 1756, Fort William surrendered but Robert Clive recovered Calcutta.

The Black Hole tragedy (1756)

There was a small dungeon room in the Fort William in Calcutta, where troops of the Nawab of Bengal Siraj-ud-daula, held 146 British Prisoners of war for one night. The next day morning, when the door was opened, 123 of the prisoners were found dead because of suffocation.

On 9th February 1757, Treaty of Alinagar was signed, where by Siraj-ud-daulah conceded

Battle of Plassey (1757)

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 11 25-01-2025 10.34.28 AM

practically all his claims. British then captured Chandranagore, the French settlement, on March 1757. The Battle of Plassey took place between the British East India Company and the Nawab of Bengal and his French allies. It was fought on 23 June 1757. The English East India Company's forces under Robert Clive defeated the forces of Siraj-ud-daulah. After the collapse of Bengal, the company gained a huge amount of wealth from the

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 12 25-01-2025 10.34.28 AM

treasury of Bengal and used it to strengthen its military force. The beginning of the British political sway over India may be traced from the Battle of Plassey. It was the most decisive battle that marked the initiation of British rule in India for the next two centuries.

Battle of Buxar (1764)

After the Battle of Plassey in 1757, the company was granted undisputed right to have free trade in Bengal, Bihar and Orissa. It received the place of 24 Parganas in Bengal. Mir Jafar (1757 to 1760) the Nawab of Bengal, however fell into arrears and was forced to abdicate in favour of his son-in law, Mir Qasim.

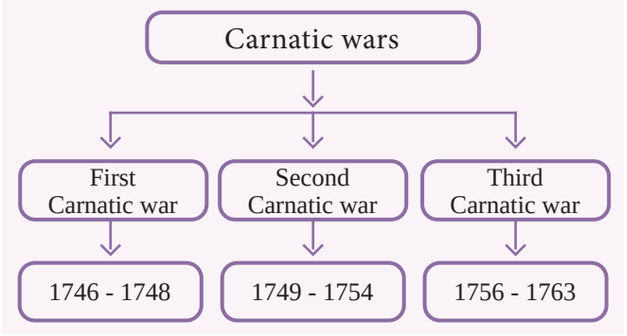
Mir Qasim ceded Burdwan, Midnapore and Chittagong. He shifted his capital from Mursidabad to Monghyr. Mir Qasim soon revolted, as he was angry with the British for misusing the destakes (free duty passes). However, having been defeated by the British, he fled to Awadh, where he formed a confederacy with Shuja-ud-daulah and Shah Alam.

Battle of Buxar (1764)

The Battle was fought on October 22, 1764 at Buxar, a "small fortified town" within the territory of Bihar, located on the banks of the Ganges River, about 130 kilometres west of Patna. It was a decisive victory for the British East India Company. Shuja–ud-daulah, Shah Alam and Mir Qasim were defeated by General Hector Munro. Mir Jafar was again placed on the throne. On Mir Jafar's death, his son Nizam-ud-daulah was placed on the throne and signed Allahabad Treaty on 20th February 1765, by which the Nawab had to disband most of his army and to administer Bengal through a Deputy Subedar nominated by the company. Robert Clive concluded two separate treaties with Shuja-ud-daula and Shah Alam II. Thus, Dual System of government started in Bengal.

Carnatic wars

In the 18th century, three Carnatic wars were fought between various Indian rulers, British and French East India Company on either side. Traditionally, Britain and France were rival countries in Europe. Their rivalry continued in India over trade and territories. It resulted in a series of military conflicts in the south known as the Carnatic wars which spanned from 1746 to 1763. These wars resulted in establishment of political supremacy of British East India Company.



First Carnatic war (1746 - 48)

On the outbreak of the Austrian War of Succession in Europe, the English and the French were on opposite camps and this increased the hostility between these two forces. The echo of this war was felt in India.

Battle of Adayar (1746)

The First Carnatic War is remembered for the battle of Santhome (Madras) fought between the French forces and the forces of Anwar-ud-din, the Nawab of Carnatic, who appealed the British for help. A small French army under Captain Paradise defeated the strong Indian Army under Mahfuz Khan at Santhome on the banks of the River Adayar. This was the first occasion when the superiority of the well-trained and

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 13 25-01-2025 10.34.28 AM

well-equipped European army over the Indian army was proved beyond doubt.

Treaty of Aix-la-Chapelle (1748)

The war was ended by the Treaty of Aix-la-Chapelle which brought the Austrian War of Succession to an end. Under the terms of this treaty, Madras was returned to the English, and the French, in turn, got their territories in North America.

Second Carnatic War (1749 - 54)

The main cause of this war was the issue of succession in Carnatic and Hyderabad. Anwar-ud-din Khan and Chanda Sahib were the two claimants to the throne of Carnatic, whereas Nasir Jang and Muzaffar Jang were claimants to the throne of Hyderabad. The French supported Chanda sahib and Muzaffar Jang, while the British supported the other claimants with the objective of keeping their interest and influence in the entire Deccan region.

Battle of Ambur (1749)

Finally Dupleix, Chanda Sahib and Muzaffar Jang formed a grand alliance and defeated and killed Anwar-ud-din Khan, the Nawab of Carnatic, on 3 August 1749, in the Battle of Ambur. Muhammad Ali, the son of Anwar-ud-din, fled to Trichinopoly (Tiruchirappalli). Chanda Sahib became the Nawab of Carnatic and rewarded the French with the grant of 80 villages around Pondicherry.

In the Deccan too, the French defeated and killed Nasir Jang and made Muzaffar Jang as the Nizam. The new Nizam gave ample rewards to the French. He appointed Dupleix as the governor of all the territories in south of the River Krishna. Muzaffar Jang was assassinated by his own people in 1751. Salabat Jang, brother of Nasir Jang was raised to the throne by Bussy. Salabat Jang granted the Northern Circars excluding the Guntur District to the French. Dupleix's power was at its zenith by that time.

Battle of Arcot (1751)

In the meantime, Dupleix sent forces to besiege the fort of Trichy where Muhammad Ali had taken shelter. Chanda Sahib also joined with the French in their efforts to besiege Trichy. Robert Clive's proposal was accepted by the British governor, Saunders, and with only 200 English and 300 Indian soldiers, Clive was entrusted the task of capturing Arcot. His attack proved successful.

Robert Clive defeated the French at Arni and Kaveripak. With the assistance of Major General Stringer Lawrence, Chanda Sahib was killed in Trichy. Muhammad Ali was made the Nawab of Arcot under British protection. The French Government recalled Dupleix to Paris.

Robert Clive

Treaty of Pondicherry (1755)

Dupleix was succeeded by Godeheu, who agreed the Treaty of Pondicherry. According to it, both the powers agreed not to interfere in the internal affairs of the native states. They were to retain their old positions. New forts should not be built by either power. The treaty made the British stronger.

The second Carnatic war also proved inconclusive. The English proved their superiority on land by appointing Mohammad Ali, as the Nawab of Carnatic. The French were still very powerful in Hyderabad. However, the predominant position of the French in the Deccan peninsula was definitely undermined in this war.

Third Carnatic War (1756 - 63)

The outbreak of the Seven Years' War in Europe led to the third Carnatic war in India. By this time, Robert Clive established the British power in Bengal by the Battle

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 14 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

of Plassey which provided them with the necessary finance for the third Carnatic war.

Count de Lally was deputed from France to conduct the war from the French side. He easily captured Fort St. David. He ordered Bussy to come down to the Carnatic with his army, to make a united effort to push the British out of the Carnatic. Taking advantage of Bussy's departure, Robert Clive sent Colonel Forde from Bengal to occupy the Northern Circars (parts of Andhra Pradesh and Odhisha).

Battle of Wandiwash (1760)

The decisive battle of the third Carnatic war was fought on January 22, 1760. The English army under General Eyre Coote totally routed the French army under Lally. Within a year the French had lost all their possessions in India. Lally returned to France where he was imprisoned and executed.

Treaty of Paris (1763)

The Seven Years' War was concluded by the Treaty of Paris. The French settlements including Pondicherry were given back to the French. But they were forbidden from fortifying those places. They were not allowed to gather armies. The French dominance in India practically came to an end.

Mysore and its Resistance to British Expansion

The state of Mysore rose to prominence in the politics of South India under the leadership of Haider Ali (1760-82). He and his son Tipu Sultan (1782-99) played a prominent role against the expansion of British Empire in India. Both of them faced the English with undoubted courage. In 1761, he became the de facto ruler of Mysore. He also proved to be the most formidable enemy of the English in India.

The First Anglo-Mysore War (1767 - 69)

Causes

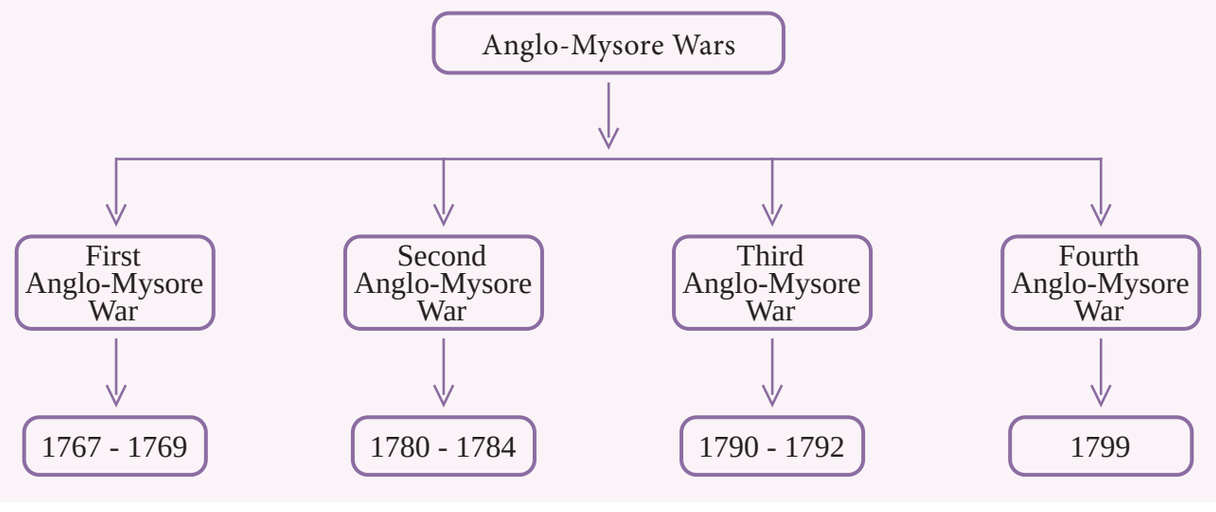
- Haider Ali's growing power and his friendly relations with the French became a matter of concern for the English East India Company.
- The Marathas, the Nizam and the English entered into a triple alliance against Haider Ali.

Course

The Nizam, with the help of British troops under General Joseph Smith, invaded Mysore in 1767. Haider Ali defeated English and captured Mangalore. In March 1769, he attacked Madras and forced the English to sign a treaty on 4 April 1769.

Treaty of Madras (1769)

At the end of the war, the Treaty of Madras was signed between Haider Ali and



Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 15 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

British East India Company. Both the parties returned the conquered territories and promised to help each other in case of any foreign attack on them.

The Second Anglo-Mysore War (1780-84)

Causes

- The English did not fulfill the terms of the treaty of 1769, when Haider's territories were attacked in 1771 by Marathas, Haider did not get help from the British.
- British captured Mahe, a French settlement within Haider's Jurisdiction. It led to the formation of an alliance by Haider with the Nizam and Marathas against the English in 1779.

Course

In 1781, the British General Sir Eyre Coote defeated Haider Ali at Porto Novo. The Mysore forces suffered another defeat at Solinger. Haider Ali died of cancer during the course of the war. After the death of Haider Ali in 1782, his son Tipu Sultan, continued the war against the English.

Tipu captured Brigadier Mathews, the supreme commander of the British forces along with his soldiers in 1783. It was a serious loss to Tipu.

Treaty of Mangalore (1784)

On 7th March 1784, the Treaty of Mangalore was signed between the two parties. Both agreed to return the conquered territories and also the prisoners of war.

Thus, Warren Hastings saved the newly-established British dominion from the wrath of powerful enemies like Marathas and Haider Ali. When the British lost their colonies in America and elsewhere, Warren Hastings lost nothing in India. Instead, he consolidated the British power in India.

The Third Anglo-Mysore War (1790-92)

Causes

- Tipu was trying to seek alliance of foreign powers against the English and for that purpose he had sent his ambassadors to France and Turkey.
- Tipu attacked on Travancore in 1789 whose ruler was an ally of the British.
- The English, the Nizam and the Marathas entered into a "Triple Alliance" against Mysore.

Course

Tipu fought alone which continued for two years. It was fought in three phases. The attack of the English under General Medows failed. Therefore, in December 1790, Cornwallis himself took the command of the army. Cornwallis captured all the hill-forts which obstructed his advance towards Srirangapatnam and reached near its outer wall. Tipu felt desperate and opened negotiations with the English. Cornwallis agreed and the treaty of Srirangapatnam was concluded in 1792.

Treaty of Srirangapatnam (1792)

- Tipu surrendered half of his kingdom to the allies.
- Tipu agreed to pay 3.6 crore of rupees to the English as war indemnity and surrendered two of his sons as hostages to the English.
- The English acquired Malabar, Coorg, Dindigul and Baramahal (Coimbatore and Salem).

The Fourth Anglo-Mysore War (1799)

Tipu Sultan did not forget the humiliating treaty of Srirangapatnam imposed upon him by Cornwallis in 1792.

Causes

- Tipu sought alliance with foreign powers against the English and sent ambassadors to Arabia, Turkey, Afghanistan and the French.
- Tipu was in correspondence with Napoleon who invaded Egypt at that time.
- The French officers came to Srirangapatnam where they founded a Jacobin Club and planted the Tree of Liberty.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 16 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

Course

Wellesley declared war against Tipu in 1799. The war was short and decisive. As planned, the Bombay army under General Stuart invaded Mysore from the west. The Madras army, which was led by the Governor-General's brother, Arthur Wellesley, forced Tipu to retreat to his capital Srirangapatnam. On 4th May 1799, Srirangapatnam was captured. Tipu fought bravely and was killed finally. Thus ended the fourth Mysore War and the whole of Mysore lay prostrate before the British.

Mysore after the War

- The English occupied Kanara, Wynad, Coimbatore, Darapuram and Srirangapattinam.
- Krishna Raja Odayar of the former Hindu royal family was brought to the throne.
- Tipu's family was sent to the fort of Vellore.

Anglo-Maratha Wars

The Marathas managed to overcome the crisis caused by their defeat at Panipat and after a decade recovered their control over Delhi. However, the old Maratha Confederacy controlled by the Peshwa had given way to five virtually independent states. Peshwa at Pune, Gaikwads at Baroda, Bhonsle at Nagpur, Holkars at Indore, and Scindias at Gwalior. The Peshwa's government was weakened by internal rivalries, and the other four leaders were often hostile to one another. Despite this, the Marathas were still a formidable power. The internal conflict among the Marathas was best utilized by the British in their expansionist policy.

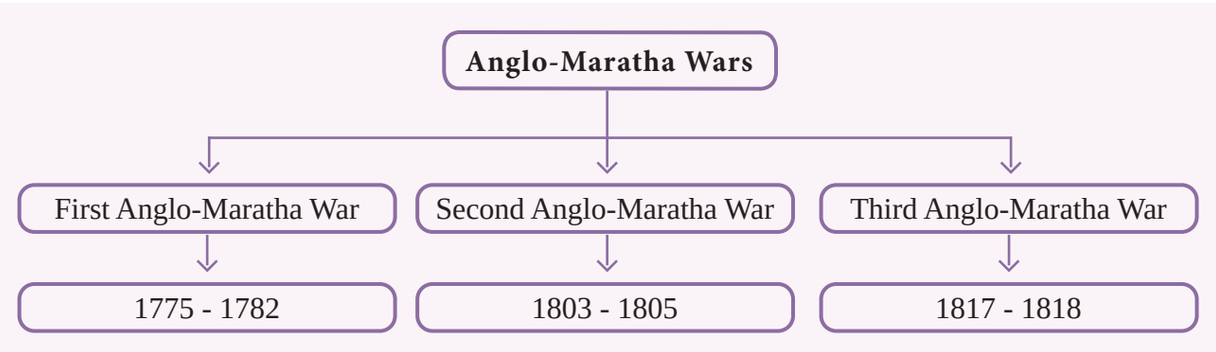
The First Anglo-Maratha War (1775-82)

Causes

In the case of the Marathas, the first British intervention was at the time of dispute over succession to the Peshwaship following the death of Narayan Rao. After the death of Narayan Rao, Raghunath Rao (Raghoba) became the Peshwa, but his authority was challenged by a strong party at Poona under Nana Phadnavis. The party recognised the infant born posthumously to Narayan Rao's wife, Ganga Bai, as the Peshwa and set up a council of regency in his name. Having failed in his bid to capture power, Raghunath Rao approached the British for help. The Treaty of Surat between the English and Raghunath Rao was concluded in 1775. However, the majority of the Supreme British Council in Calcutta was opposed to the Surat treaty, although Warren Hastings himself had no objection to ratifying the treaty. The council sent Colonel Upton to Poona to negotiate a peace with the Poona regency. Accordingly, Upton concluded the Treaty of Purandhar in 1776. The treaty, however, did not take effect due to opposition from the English government in Bombay.

Course

In 1781, Warren Hastings dispatched British troops under Captain Popham. He defeated the Maratha chief, Mahadaji Scindia, in a number of small battles and captured Gwalior. Later on 17th May 1782, the Treaty of Salbai was signed between Warren Hastings and Mahadaji Scindia.



Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 17 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

Results

- Raghunath Rao was pensioned off and Madhav Rao II was accepted as the Peshwa.
- Salsette was given to the British.
- The Treaty of Salbai established the British influence in Indian politics. It provided the British twenty years of peace with the Marathas.

The internal affairs of the Marathas

The internal affairs of the Marathas deteriorated further after the end of the first Maratha War. Nana Fadnavis grew fond of power, became jealous of Mahadaji Scindia and became progressively inclined to seek the support of the English. The young Peshwa, Madhava Rao II, tried to improve the affairs but could not check the rivalry of the Maratha chiefs. Mahadaji Scindia died in 1794 and was succeeded by his grand nephew Daulat Rao Scindia. His death left Nana Fadnavis supreme at Poona and allowed the English to expand their influence in North India. Peshwa Madhav Rao II committed suicide in 1795 and Baji Rao II, the worthless son of Raghunath Rao, became the Peshwa. The death of Nana Fadnavis in 1800 gave the British an added advantage.

Jaswant Rao Holkar and Daulat Rao Scindia were fighting against each other. The Peshwa supported Scindia against Holkar. The Peshwa and Scindia agreed to help each other. Holkar marched against the Peshwa. The combined forces of Scindia and the Peshwa were utterly defeated in 1802 and Holkar captured the city. Baji Rao II approached Lord Wellesley, the then Governor-General of India, for help. Lord Wellesley welcomed the Peshwa and made him sign the Treaty of Bassein, in other words, the Treaty of Subsidiary Alliance, accepting the status of a British subsidiary in 1802. As an immediate consequence to the Treaty of Bassein, the British troops marched under the command of Arthur Wellesely towards Poona and restored the Peshwa to his position. The forces of Holkar vanished from the Maratha capital.

The Second Anglo-Maratha War (1803-05)

Causes

After accepting the subsidiary alliance by the Peshwa, Daulat Rao Scindia and Raghoji Bhonsle attempted to save Marathas' independence. But the well-prepared and organised army of the English under Arthur Wellesely defeated the combined armies of Scindia and Bhonsle at Assaye and Argaon.

Course

The English forced them to conclude separate subsidiary treaties namely the Treaty of Deogaon and the Treaty of Surji-Arjungaon respectively in 1803. But, Yashwant Rao Holkar (also called as Jaswant Rao Holkar) was yet undefeated. He had not participated in the war so far. Holkar plundered the territory of Jaipur and, in 1804, the English declared war against him. Yashwant Rao Holkar made an attempt to form a coalition of Indian rulers to fight against the British. But his attempt proved unsuccessful. The Marathas were defeated, reduced to British vassalage and isolated from one another.

Results

- The Maratha power was gradually weakened.
- The English East India Company started becoming the paramount power in India.

The Third Anglo-Maratha War (1817-18)

Causes

The Third Anglo-Maratha War was the final and decisive conflict between the British East India Company and the Maratha Empire in India. It began with an invasion of the Maratha territory by British East India Company troops. The troops were led by the Governor General Hastings and he was supported by a force under General Thomas Hislop.

Course

The Peshwa Baji Rao II's forces, followed by those of Mudhoji II Bhonsle of Nagpur and Malhar Rao Holkar III of Indore, rose against the British. Daulat Rao Scindia of Gwalior remained neutral. The Peshwa was defeated in the battles of Khadki and Koregaon and several minor battles

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 18 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

were fought by the Peshwa's forces to prevent his capture. Bhonsle was defeated in the battle of Sitabaldi and Holkar was defeated in the battle of Mahidpur.

Results

- The Maratha confederacy was dissolved and Peshwaship was abolished.
- Most of the territory of Peshwa Baji Rao II was annexed and became part of the Bombay Presidency.
- The defeat of the Bhonsle and Holkar also resulted in the acquisition of the Maratha kingdoms of Nagpur and Indore by the British.
- The Baji Rao II, the last Peshwa of the Maratha was given an annual pension of 8 lakh rupees.

The British Administrative Organisation in India

The British Indian administration was run by four principal institutions - Civil Services, Army, Police and Judiciary.

Civil Services

The term 'civil service' was used for the first time by the East India Company to distinguish its civilian employees from their military counterparts. Translating law into action and collecting revenue were the main jobs of the civil service. The civil service was initially commercial in nature but later it was transformed into a public service. In the beginning, the appointment to these services was the sole prerogative of the Court of Directors of the Company. But the nominated civil servants indulged in corruption, bribery and illegal private trade. As a result, Cornwallis who came to India as Governor-General in 1786, enforced the rules against private trade. He also raised the salary of the Company's servants making them the highest-paid civil servants in the world.

Lord Wellesley, who came to India as Governor-General in 1798, introduced the idea of providing suitable training for the civil servants in India. In 1800, he established Fort William in Calcutta to provide training in literature, science and languages. However, the directors of the company disapproved of his action and replaced it by their own East India College, established at Haileybury in England in 1806.

The idea of competition for recruitment was introduced first by the Charter Act, 1833. But under this system, candidates who were not nominated by the Court of Directors were not eligible to write the competitive examination. Hence, the system was called as nomination-cum-competition system. The system of recruitment on the basis of an open competitive examination was introduced in 1853. This system was confirmed by the Government of India Act of 1858. The maximum age for competitors was fixed at 23. Subsequently, the East India College at Haileybury was abolished in 1858, and recruitment to civil services became the responsibility of the Civil Service Commission. By the Regulation of 1860 the maximum age was lowered to 22, in 1866 to 21 and in 1876 to 19.

The Indian Civil Service Act of 1861 passed by the British Parliament exclusively reserved certain categories of high executive and judicial posts for the covenanted civil service, which was later designated as the Indian Civil Service. Due to the lowering of age limit and the holding of examinations in London it could be possible only for a very few wealthy Indians to appear at the I.C.S. examination. In 1869, three Indians - Surendra Nath Banerje, Ramesh Chandra Dutt and Bihari Lal Gupta became successful in the I.C.S. examination.

Satyendranath Tagore, the elder brother of poet Rabindranath Tagore, was the first Indian to pass the I.C.S. Examination in 1863.

Later on, the Indians demanded to increase the age limit and to establish centre for examination in India instead of England.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 19 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

In 1892, the minimum age limit for appearing for the Civil Service Examination was raised to 21 and the maximum to 23. In 1912, a Royal Commission on Public Service was appointed. Chaired by Lord Islington, this commission had two Indian members - G.K. Gokhale and Sir Abdur Rahim - besides four Englishmen. The Commission published its report in 1917. Islington commission's recommendations partly fulfilled the demand for the Indianisation of Civil Service.

In 1918, Montague and Lord Chelmsford recommended that 33% of Indian should be recruited in Indian Civil Services and gradually the number should be increased. In 1923, a Royal Commission on Public Services was appointed with Lord Lee of Fareham as chairman. This commission recommended that recruitment to all-India services such as the Indian Civil Service, the Indian Police Service and the Indian Forest Service should be made and controlled by the Secretary of State for India. The Lee Commission recommended the immediate establishment of a Public Service Commission.

The Act of 1935 also made provisions for the establishment of a Federal Public Service Commission at the Centre and the Provincial Public Service Commissions in the various provinces. Provision was also made for a Joint Public Service Commission in two or more Provinces. Although, the main aim of this measure was to serve the British interests, it became the foundation of the civil service system in independent India.

Army

The army was the second important pillar of the British administration in India. The East India Company started recruiting its own army, which came to be known as the sepoy (from sipahi or soldier) army. That sepoy army was trained and disciplined according to European military standards and was commanded by European officers in the battlefield. During the early stage of British rule, three separate armies had been organised in three Presidencies of Bengal, Bombay and Madras. Army had a great contribution in the establishment and expansion of British rule in India. Indian soldiers were given lower salaries and allowances than English soldiers. In 1857, the Indians constituted about 86 percent of the total strength of the Company's army. However, the officers of the army were exclusively British. For example, in 1856, only three Indians in the army received a salary of 300 rupees per month. The highest rank an Indian could ever reach was that of a subedar.

Strength of British Army

- Plassey war (1757): 1950 European infantry, 100 European artillery, 50 English sailors, and 2,100 Indian sepoys, an English army of 6000 troops was maintained in Bengal.
- In 1857, the strength of the army in India was 3,11,400 of whom 2,65,900 were Indians. Its officers were British.

Police

When the East India Company took over the Diwani in 1765, the Mughal police system was under the control of faujdars, who were in charge of their 'sarkars' or rural districts. The kotwals were in charge of towns, while the village watchmen were paid and controlled by the Zamindars.

The police system was created by Lord Cornwallis. He relieved the Zamindars from police functions and established a regular police force in 1791. Cornwallis established a system of circles or 'thanas' each headed by a 'daroga'. The authority of the daroga extended to village watchmen who performed the police duties in the villages. The hereditary village police became 'chowkidars'. In the big cities, the old office of kotwal was, however, continued, and a daroga was appointed to each of the wards of a city. The daroga system was extended to Madras in 1802.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 20 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

Before the post of district superintendent of police was created, all the thanas were under the general supervision of the district judge. In 1808, a Superintendent of Police was appointed for each division. Later, the district collector was entrusted with the task of controlling the police force in the districts. The main task of the police was to handle crime and to prevent conspiracies against the British rule.

Judicial system

In 1772, the Dual Government was abolished and the Company took over the direct responsibility for the collection of revenue as well as the administration of justice. Consequently a Diwani Adalat and Faujdari Adalat were established. By the Regulating Act of 1773, a Supreme Court was set up in Calcutta. This court consisted of a chief justice and three puisne judges who were appointed by the Crown. This court decided civil, criminal, ecclesiastical and admiralty cases. On the model of the Supreme Court of Calcutta, a Supreme Court was established in Madras in 1801 and in Bombay in 1823. In 1832, William Bentinck started jury system in Bengal. An Indian Law Commission was established to compile the laws. A rule of law was established for the whole empire. According to the Indian High Courts Act, 1861, three High Courts were set up in Calcutta, Bombay and Madras in place of the old Supreme Courts.

Sir Elijah Impey was the first Chief Justice of the Supreme Court at Fort William in Bengal.

Sir Thiruvarur Muthusamy was the first Indian Chief Justice of the Madras High Court.

The Subsidiary Alliance-1798

Lord Wellesley introduced the system of Subsidiary Alliance to bring the princely states under the control of the British. It was the most effective instrument for the expansion of the British territories and political influence in India. The princely state was called 'the protected state' and the British came to be referred as 'the paramount power'. It was the duty of the British to safeguard the state from external aggression and to help its ruler in maintaining internal peace.

Main Features of Subsidiary Alliance

- An Indian ruler entering into this alliance with the British had to dissolve his own armed forces and accept British forces.
- A British Resident would stay in ruler's capital.
- Towards the maintenance charges of the army, he should make annual payments or cede some territory permanently to the company.
- All the non-English European officials should be turned out of his state.
- The native ruler should deal with foreign states only through the English Company.
- The British would undertake to defend the state from internal trouble as well as external attack.

Merits for the British

- The British Company maintained a large army at the expense of the Indian rulers.
- All Frenchmen in the service of native rulers were dismissed and the danger of French revival was completely eliminated.
- The British Company began to control the foreign policy of the Princely States.
- Wellesley's diplomacy made the British the paramount power in India. He transformed the British Empire in India into the British empire of India.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 21 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

Defects of the Princely states

The Subsidiary Alliances made the Indian rulers weak, oppressive and irresponsible. Protected by British arms, they neglected their duty towards their subjects and even exploited them.

The first Indian state to accept the Subsidiary Alliance was Hyderabad (1798). It was followed by Tanjore (1799), Awadh (1801), Peshwa (1802), Bhonsle (1803), Gwalior (1804), Indore (1817), Jaipur, Udaipur and Jodhpur (1818).

Doctrine of Lapse - 1848

Lord Dalhousie was one of the chief architects of the British Empire in India. He was an imperialist. He adopted a new policy known as Doctrine of Lapse to extend British Empire. He made use of this precedent and declared in 1848 that if the native rulers adopted children without the prior permission of the Company, only the personal properties of the rulers would go to the adopted sons and the kingdoms would go to the British paramount power. This principle was called the Doctrine of Lapse. It was bitterly opposed by the Indians and it was one of the root causes for the Great Revolt of 1857.

By applying the Doctrine of Lapse policy, Dalhousie annexed Satara in 1848, Jaipur and Sambalpur in1849, Baghat in 1850, Udaipur in 1852, Jhansi in1853 and Nagpur in 1854.

Factors for the success of the British

- Greater naval power.
- Development of textile.
- Scientific division of labour.
- Economic prosperity and skillful diplomacy of the British.
- Feelings of insecurity among the Indian merchants.
- The inequality and ignorance of the Indian kings.

Conclusion

The Battle of Plassey was the foundation of British dominion in India. The company's administration was not for the interests of people. It was imperialistic, expansionist and exploitative. It brought more Indian territories under British domain through subsidiary Alliance and Doctrine of Lapse. This policy led to a South Indian rebellion (1800-01), Vellore Rebellion (1806) and the Great Rebellion (1857).

Recap

- Siraj-ud-daula ascended the throne of Bengal.
- On 9th February 1757, Treaty of Alinagar was signed.
- The Carnatic wars which spanned from 1746 to 1763.
- Tipu agreed to pay 3.6 crore of rupees to the English as war indemnity.
- Wellesley declared war against Tipu in 1799.
- Cornwallis established a system of circles or 'thanas' each was headed by a 'daroga'.
- Sir Elija Impey was the first Chief Justice of the Supreme Court at Fort William in Bengal.
- Lord Wellesley introduced the system of Subsidiary Alliance to bring the princely states under the control of the British
- Lord Dalhousie was one of the chief architects of the British Empire in India.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 22 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

GLOSSARY		
Confederacy	a league or alliance	கூட்டமைப்பு
Ecclesiastical	relating to the Christian Church or its clergy	திருச்சபை தொடர்பான
Entrust	assign the responsibility	ஒப்படைப்பு
Hostility	opposition	எதிர்ப்பு
Negotiation	discussion aimed at reaching an agreement	பேச்சுவார்த்தை
Paramount	supreme	தலையாய
Predominant	the most powerful	மிகுந்த வலிமை

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

V2KX5

1. The ruler of Bengal in 1757 was _____.
   a) Shuja-ud-daulah
   b) Siraj – ud – daulah
   c) Mir Qasim
   d) Tipu Sultan
2. The Battle of Plassey was fought in _____.
   a) 1757 b) 1764 c) 1765 d) 1775
3. Which among the following treaty was signed after Battle of Buxar?
   a) Treaty of Allahabad
   b) Treaty of Carnatic
   c) Treaty of Alinagar
   d) Treaty of Paris
4. The Treaty of Pondichery brought the _____ Carnatic war to an end .
   a) First b) Second
   c) Third d) None
5. When did Hyder Ali ascend to the throne of Mysore?
   a) 1756 b) 1761 c) 1763 d) 1764
6. Treaty of Mangalore was signed between _____.
   a) The French and Tipu Sultan
   b) Hyder Ali and Zamorin of Calicut
   c) The British and Tipu Sultan
   d) Tipu Sultan and Marathas
7. Who was the British Governor-General during Third Anglo-Mysore War?
   a) Robert Clive b) Warren Hastings
   c) Lord Cornwallis d) Lord Wellesley
8. Who signed the Treaty of Bassein with the British?
   a) Baji Rao II
   b) Daulat Rao Scindia
   c) Sambhaji Bhonsle
   d) Sayyaji Rao Gaekwad
9. Who was the last Peshwa of Maratha empire?
   a) Balaji Vishwanath b) Baji Rao II
   c) Balaji Baji Rao d) Baji Rao
10. Which was the first Indian state to join the Subsidiary Alliance?
    a) Awadh b) Hyderabad
    c) Udaipur d) Gwalior

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 23 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

II Fill in the blanks

1. The Treaty of Alinagar was signed in _____.
2. The commander in Chief of Siraj-ud-daula was _____.
3. The main cause for the Second Carnatic war was _____.
4. _____ adopted the policy of Doctrine of Lapse to extend the British Empire in India.
5. Tipu Sultan was finally defeated at the hands of _____.
6. After the death of Tipu Sultan Mysore was handed over to _____.
7. In 1800, _____ established a college at Fort William in Calcutta.

III Match the following

1.	Treaty of Aix-La-Chapelle	The First Anglo Mysore War
2.	Treaty of Salbai	The First Carnatic War
3.	Treaty of Paris	The Third Carnatic War
4.	Treaty of Srirangapatnam	The First Maratha War
5.	Treaty of Madras	The Third Anglo Mysore War

IV State true or false

1. After the death of Alivardi Khan, Siraj-ud-daulah ascended the throne of Bengal.
2. Hector Munro, led the British forces in the Battle of Plassey.
3. The outbreak of the Austrian War of Succession in Europe led to Second Carnatic War in India.
4. Sir Elijah Impey was the first Chief Justice of the Supreme Court at Fort William in Bengal.
5. The Police system was created by Lord Cornwallis.

V Which one of the following is correctly matched?

a) Battle of Adayar – 1748
b) Battle of Ambur – 1754
c) Battle of Wandiwash – 1760
d) Battle of Arcot – 1749

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Write a short note on Black Hole Tragedy.
2. What were the benefits derived by the English after the Battle of Plassey?
3. Mention the causes for the Battle of Buxar.
4. What were the causes for the First Mysore War?
5. Bring out the results of the Third Maratha War.
6. Name the states that signed the Subsidiary Alliance.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Write an essay on second Carnatic war.
2. Give an account of the Fourth Anglo Mysore war.
3. Describe the policy adopted by Lord Dalhousie to expand the British empire in India.
4. How did Lord Wellesley expand the British power in India?

VIII HOTs

1. Explain the causes for the success of the English in India.

IX Mark the following on the River map of India

1. Plassey
2. Buxar
3. Purandhar
4. Arcot
5. Wandiwash

X Life skill

1. Collect pictures, stories, poems and information about Hyder Ali and Tipu Sultan.

Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 24 25-01-2025 10.34.29 AM

XI Project and Activity

1. Organise a discussion in your class on the reasons for the defeat of the Indian rulers at the hands of the British.

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INTERNET RESOURCES

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ICT CORNER

From Trade to Territory

Through this activity you will know about the maps of India (Colonial Period)

Steps

- Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
- Scroll down, click any period (e.g., COLONIAL MAPS)
- Click the topics one by one and explore the maps (e.g., Historical maps, c.1750 to 1800)

Website URL:

http://ektara.org/magazine/histmaps.html

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Unit-2 HISTORY.indd 25 25-01-2025 10.34.30 AM

Unit - 3

Rural Life and Society

Learning Objectives

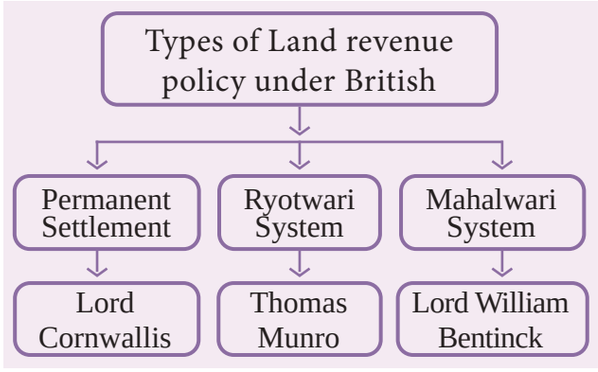
- To know the land revenue policy under the British Rule.
- To understand the Merits and Demerits of the land revenue policy.
- To know the agrarian crisis and revolts.

ACM1W

Introduction

In the pre-colonial period, Indian economy was predominantly an agrarian economy. Agriculture was then the primary occupation of the people and even industries like textiles, sugar, oil, etc., were dependent on it. The British Government in India did not adopt a pro-Indian agriculture and land revenue policy. British Government introduced three major land revenue and tenurial systems in India, namely, the Permanent Settlement, the Mahalwari system and the Ryotwari system. The economic exploitation of the peasants led to the revolt in future.

The Land Revenue Policy under the British



Permanent Settlement

When Robert Clive obtained the Diwani of Bengal, Bihar and Orissa in 1765, there used to be an annual settlement (of land revenue). Warren Hastings changed it from annual to quinquennial (five-yearly) and back to annual again. During the time of Cornwallis, a ten years' (decennial) settlement was introduced in 1793 and it was known Permanent Settlement.

Permanent settlements were made in Bengal, Bihar, Orissa, Varanasi division of U.P., and Northern Karnataka, which roughly covered 19 percent of the total area of British India. It was known by different names like Zamindari, Jagirdari, Malguzari and Biswedari.

Lord Cornwallis

Salient Features of the Permanent Settlement

- The Zamindars were recognised as the owners of land as long as they paid the revenue to the East India Company regularly.
- The Zamindars acted as the agent of the Government for the collection of revenue from the cultivators.

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 26 25-01-2025 10.36.14 AM

- The amount of revenue that the Zamindars had to pay to the Company was firmly fixed and would not be raised under any circumstances.
- They gave 10/11 of the revenue collected by them from the cultivator to the Government.
- The Zamindars would grant patta (written agreements) to the ryots. The ryots became tenants since they were considered the tillers of the soil.
- All judicial powers were taken away from the Zamindars.

Merits

- Under this system many of the waste lands and forests became cultivable lands.
- The Zamindars became the owner of the land.
- The Zamindars were made free from the responsibility of providing justice.
- The Zamindars remained faithful to the British Government.
- This system secured a fixed and stable income for the British Government.

Demerits

- The British Government had no direct contact with the cultivators.
- The rights of the cultivators were ignored and they were left at the mercy of the Zamindars.
- The peasants were almost treated as serfs.
- This system made the Zamindars lethargic and luxurious.
- Many conflicts between the Zamindars and the peasants arose in rural Bengal.

Ryotwari system

Ryotwari system was introduced by Thomas Munro and Captain Read in 1820. Major areas of introduction of Ryotwari system included Madras, Bombay, parts of Assam, and Coorg provinces of British India. By Ryotwari system, the rights of ownership was handed over to the peasants. British government collected taxes directly from the peasants. Initially, one-half of the estimated produce was fixed as rent. This assessment was reduced to one-third of the produce by Thomas Munro. The revenue was based on the basis of the soil and the nature of the crop.

Thomas Munro

Rents would be periodically revised, generally after 20 to 30 years. The position of the cultivators became more secure. In this system the settlement was made between the Government and the Ryots. Infact, the Government later claimed that the land revenue was rent and not a tax.

Salient Features of the Ryotwari system

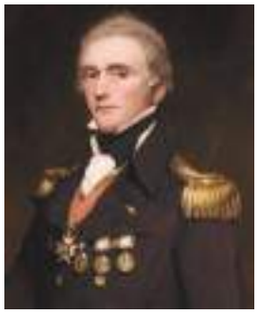
- Revenue settlement was done directly with the ryots.
- Measurement of field and an estimate of produce was calculated.
- Government fixed the demand at 45% to 55% of the produce.

Effects of the Ryotwari Settlement

- In most areas the land revenue fixed was excessive; the ryots were hardly left with bare maintenance even in the best of seasons.
- Under this system the government exploited the farmers instead of Zamindars.

Mahalwari system

Mahalwari system, a brain child of Holt Mackenzie was modified version of the Zamindari settlement introduced in the Ganga Valley, the North-West Province, parts of the Central India and Punjab in 1822. Lord William Bentinck was to suggest radical changes in



Lord William Bentinck

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 27 25-01-2025 10.36.14 AM

the Mahalwari system by the guidance of Robert Martins Bird in 1833. Assessment of revenue was to be made on the basis of the produce of a Mahal or village. All the proprietors of a Mahal were severally and jointly responsible for the payment of revenue. Initially the state share was fixed two-thirds of the gross produce. Bentinck, therefore, reduced to fifty percent. The village as a whole, through its headman or Lambardar, was required to pay the revenue. This system was first adopted in Agra and Awadh, and later extended to other parts of the United Provinces. The burden of all this heavy taxation finally fell on the cultivators.

Salient Features of the Mahalwari Settlement

- The Lambardar acted as intermediaries between the Government and the villagers.
- It was a village-wise assessment. One person could hold a number of villages.
- The village community was the owner of the village common land.
- The village land belonged to the village community.

Effects of the Mahalwari Settlement

- The Lambardar enjoyed privileges which was misused for their self-interest.
- This system brought no benefit to the cultivators.
- It was a modified version of the Zamindari system and benefited the upper class in villages.

Impact of the British land revenue system on the cultivators

- A common feature of all the settlements was the assessment and the maximize income from land. It resulted in increasing land sales and dispossession.
- The peasants were overburdened with taxation. Due to the tax burden and famines, in general, the people suffered in poverty and burdened with debts. They had to seek the moneylenders who became rich and acquired lands from the peasants.
- The Zamindars, money-lenders and lawyers exploited the poor peasants.
- The stability and continuity of the Indian villages was shaken.
- Cottage industries disappeared on account of the import of British goods and the peasants had nothing to supplement their income.
- The old body of custom was replaced by new apparatus of law, courts, fees, lawyers and formal procedures.
- The British policy proved advantageous only to the government and a privileged section of the society at the cost of the cultivators who were the rightful owners of their lands and claimants to the larger share of the produce.

Peasants Revolts

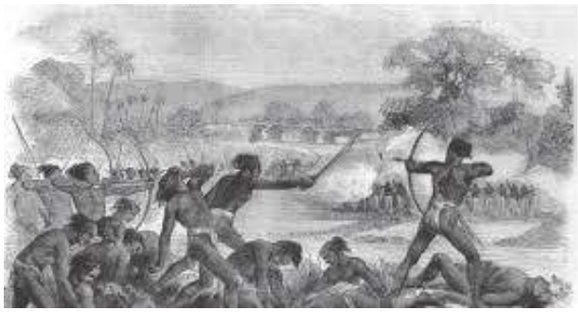
The British rule in India brought about many changes in the agrarian system in the country. The old agrarian system collapsed and under the new system, the ownership of land was conferred on the Zamindars. They tried to extract as much as they could from the cultivators of land. The life of the peasants was extremely miserable. The various peasant movements and uprisings during the 19th and 20th centuries were in the nature of a protest against of the existing conditions under which their exploitation knew no limits.

The Santhal Rebellion (1855-56)

The first revolt which can be regarded as peasants' revolt was the Santhal Rebellion in 1855-56. The land near the hills of Rajmahal in Bihar was cultivated by the Santhals. The landlords and money-lenders from the cities took advantage of their ignorance and began grabbing their lands. This created bitter resentment among them leading to their armed uprising in 1855. Consequently, under the belief of a divine order, around 10,000 Santhals gathered under two Santhal brothers, Siddhu and Kanhu, to free their country from the foreign oppressors and set up a government of

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 28 25-01-2025 10.36.14 AM

their own. The rebellion assumed a formidable shape within a month. The houses of the European planters, British officers, railway engineers, zamindars and money-lenders were attacked. The rebellion continued till February 1856, when the rebel leaders were captured and the movement was put down with a heavy hand. The government declared the parganas inhabited by them as Santhal Parganas so that their lands and identity could be safeguarded from external encroachments.



Santhal Rebellion

Indigo Revolt (1859-60)

The Bengal indigo cultivators' strike was the most militant and widespread peasant uprisings. The European indigo planters compelled the tenant farmers to grow indigo at terms highly disadvantageous to the farmers. The tenant farmer was forced to sell it cheap to the planter and accepted advances from the planter that benefited the latter. There were also cases of kidnapping, looting, flogging and burning. Led by Digambar Biswas and Bishnu Charan Biswas, the ryots of Nadia district gave up indigo cultivation in September 1859. Factories were burnt down and the revolt spread. To take control of the situation, the Government set up an indigo commission in 1860 whose recommendations formed part of the Act VI of 1862. The indigo planters of Bengal, however, moved on to settle in Bihar and Uttar Pradesh. The newspaper, Hindu Patriot brought to light the misery of the cultivators several times. Dinabandhu Mitra wrote a drama, Nil-Darpan, in Bengali with a view to draw the attention of the people and the government towards the misery of the indigo-cultivators.

Indigo Revolt

Pabna Revolt (1873-76)

Pabna Peasant Uprising was a resistance movement by the peasants against the oppression of the Zamindars. It originated in the Yusufshahi Pargana of Pabna in Bengal. It was led by Keshab Chandra Roy. The zamindars routinely collected money from the peasants by the illegal means of forced levy, abwabs, enhanced rent and so on. Peasants were often evicted from land on the pretext of non-payment of rent.

Large crowds of peasants gathered and marched through villages frightening the zamindars and appealing to other peasants to join with them. Funds were raised from the ryots to meet the costs. The struggle gradually spread throughout Pabna and then to the other districts of East Bengal. Everywhere agrarian leagues were organised. The main form of struggle was that of legal resistance. There was a very little violence. It occurred only when the zamindars tried to compel the ryots to submit to their terms by force. There were only a few cases of looting of the houses of the zamindars. A few attacks on police stations took place and the peasants also resisted attempts to execute court decrees. Hardly zamindars or zamindar's agent were killed or seriously injured. In the course of the movement, the ryots developed a strong awareness of the law and their legal rights and the ability to combine and form associations for peaceful agitation.

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 29 25-01-2025 10.36.14 AM

Deccan Riots (1875)

In 1875, the peasants revolted in the district of Poona, this event has been called the 'Deccan Riots'. The peasants revolted primarily against the oppression of local moneylenders who were grabbing their lands systematically. The uprising started from a village in Poona district when the village people forced out a local moneylender from the village and captured his property. Gradually, the uprising spread over 33 villages and the peasants looted the property of Marwari Sahukars. The uprising turned into violent when the Sahukars took help of the police. It was suppressed only when the army was called in to control it. However, it resulted in passing of the 'Deccan Agriculturists Relief Act', which removed some of the most serious grievances of the peasants.

Punjab Peasant Movement (1890-1900)

The peasants of the Punjab agitated to prevent the rapid alienation of their lands to the urban moneylenders due to their failure to pay debts. The British India did not want any revolt in that province which provided a large number of soldiers to the British army in India. In order to protect the peasants of the Punjab, the 'Punjab Land Alienation Act' was passed in 1900, "as an experimental measure" to be extended to the rest of India if it worked successfully in the Punjab. The Act divided the population of the Punjab into three categories, viz., the agricultural classes, the statutory agriculturist class and the rest of the population including the moneylenders. Restrictions were imposed on the sale and mortgage of the land from the first category to the other two categories.

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 30 25-01-2025 10.36.15 AM

Champaran Satyagraha (1917-18)

Champaran Satyagraha

The European planters of Champaran in Bihar resorted to illegal and inhuman methods of indigo cultivation at a wholly unjust costs. Under the Tinkathia system in Champaran, the peasants were bound by law to grow indigo on 3/20 part of their land and send the same to the British planters at prices fixed by them. They were liable to unlawful extortion and oppression by the planters. Mahatma Gandhi took up their cause. The Government appointed an enquiry commission of which Mahatma Gandhi was a member. The grievances of the peasants were enquired and ultimately, the Champaran Agrarian Act was passed in May 1918.

Kheda (Kaira) Satyagraha (1918)

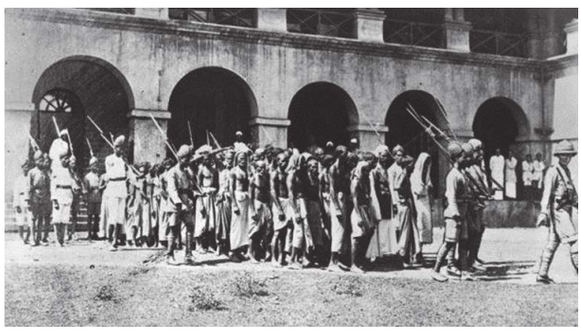
In Kheda District of Gujarat, due to constant famines, agriculture failed in 1918, but the officers insisted on the collection of full land revenue. The local peasants, therefore, started a 'no-tax' movement in Kheda district in 1918. Gandhi accepted the leadership of this movement.

Gandhiji organised the peasants to offer Satyagraha and opposed official insistence on the full collection of oppressive land revenue despite the conditions of famine. He inspired the peasants to be fearless and face all consequences. The response to his call was unprecedented and the government had to bow to a settlement with the peasants. Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel emerged as an important leader of the Indian freedom struggle during this period.

Moplah Rebellion (1921)

The Muslim Moplah (or Moplah) peasants of Malabar (Kerala) were suppressed and exploited by the Hindu zamindars (Jenmis) and the British government. This was the main cause of this revolt.

The Moplah peasants got momentum from the Malabar District Conference, held in April 1920. This conference supported the tenants' cause, and demanded legislation for regulating landlord-tenant relations. In August 1921, the Moplah tenants rebelled against the oppressive zamindars. In the initial phase of the rebellion, the Moplah peasants attacked the police stations, public offices, communications and houses of oppressive landlords and moneylenders. By December 1921, the government ruthlessly suppressed the Moplah rebellion. According to an official estimate, as a result of government intervention, 2337 Moplah rebels were killed, 1650 were wounded and more than 45,000 were captured as prisoners.



Moplah prisoners

Bardoli Satyagraha (1929-30)

In 1928, the peasants of Bardoli (Gujarat) started their agitation under the leadership of Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel, in protest against the government's proposal to increase land revenue by 30 percent. The peasants refused to pay tax at the enhanced rate and started no-tax campaign from 12 February 1928. Many women also participated in this campaign.

In 1930, the peasants of Bardoli refused to pay taxes, faced the auction sales and the eventual loss of almost all of their lands but refused to submit to the Government. However,

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 31 25-01-2025 10.36.15 AM

all their lands were returned to them when the Congress came to power in 1937.

Bardoli Satyagraha

Recap

- The British Government in India did not adopt a pro-Indian agriculture and land revenue policy.
- Lord Cornwallis introduced Permanent Settlement in 1793.
- Ryotwari system was introduced by Thomas Munro and Captain Read in 1820.
- Mahalwari system was a brainchild of Holt Mackenzie.
- The land near the hills of Rajmahal in Bihar was cultivated by the Santhals.
- Dinabandhu Mitra wrote a drama, Nil-Darpan, in Bengali.
- In 1875, the peasants revolted in the district of Poona, that event has been called the 'Deccan Riots'.
- The Punjab Land Alienation Act was passed in 1900.
- In August 1921, the Moplah tenants rebelled against the oppressive Zamindars.
- The peasants of Bardoli (Gujarat) started their agitation under the leadership of Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel.

GLOSSARY		
Apparatus	new system	புதிய அமைப்பு
Claimants	a person making a claim	உரிமை கோருபவர்
Cultivator	a person who cultivates the land	விவசாயி
Encroachment	intrusion on	ஆக்கிரமிப்பு
Moneylender	a person who lends money to people, at a high rate of interest	வட்டிக்குப் பணம் தருபவர்
Predominantly	mainly	முக்கியமாக
Tenants	a person who occupies land rented from a land lord	குத்தகையாளர்/ குடியிருப்பவர்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Which system was called by different names like Jagirdari, Malguzari and Biswedari etc.,?

   a) Mahalwari b) Ryotwari

   c) Zamindari d) None of these

2. Under which Governor General the Permanent Settlement was implemented in Bengal.

   a) Lord Hastings

   b) Lord Cornwallis

   c) Lord Wellesley

   d) Lord Minto

3. What was 'Mahal' in the Mahalwari system?

   a) House b) Land

   c) Village d) Palace

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 32 25-01-2025 10.36.15 AM

4. In which region was the Mahalwari system imposed?
   a) Maharashtra b) Madras
   c) Bengal d) Punjab
5. Who among the following Governors introduced Mahalwari system?
   a) Lord Hastings
   b) Lord Cornwallis
   c) Lord Wellesley
   d) Lord William Bentinck
6. In which region was the Ryotwari system not introduced by the British?
   a) Bombay b) Madras
   c) Bengal d) None of these
7. The Indigo revolt was led by whom?
   a) Mahatma Gandhi
   b)Keshab Chandra Roy
   c) DigambarBiswas and Bishnu Biswas
   d) Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel
8. The Bardoli Satyagraha was led by whom?
   a) Sardar Vallabhbhai Patel
   b) Mahatma Gandhi
   c) DigambarBiswas
   d) Keshab Chandra Roy

II Fill in the Blanks

1. _____ is the modified version of the Zamindari system.
2. The Mahalwari system was a Brainchild of _____.
3. Indigo Revolt took place in _____ .
4. Moplah Rebellion was held in _____.
5. The Champaran Agrarian Act was passed in _____.

III Match the following

1.	Permanent Settlement	Madras
2.	Mahalwari Settlement	Misery of the Indigo cultivators
3.	Ryotwari System	North west province
4.	Nil Darpan	Bengal
5.	Santhal Rebellion	First Peasant revolt

IV State true or false

1. Warren Hastings introduced quinquennial land settlement.
2. Ryotwari system was introduced by Thomas Munro.
3. Pabna revolt originated in the Yusufshahi Pargana in Gujarat.
4. The Punjab land alienation Act was passed in 1918.

V Consider the following statement and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. Which of the following statement is not true about Zamindari system?
   (a) This settlement was introduced in 1793.
   (b) The Zamindars became the owner of the land.
   (c) This system secured a fixed and stable income for the cultivators.
   (d) This practice was applicable to the area of 19% of India.
2. Which of the following statement is correct about Peasants revolt in India?
   (a) The Santhal rebellion was held in Bengal.
   (b) Dinabandhu Mitra wrote a drama called Nil Darpan.

Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 33 25-01-2025 10.36.15 AM

(c) The Deccan riots started from a village at Pune in 1873.

(d) The Moplah peasants rebellion was held in Tamil Nadu.

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. List out any two salient features of the Permanent Settlement?
2. What were the salient features of the Ryotwari system?
3. Bring out the effects of the Mahalwari settlement.
4. What was the cause of Indigo Revolt in 1859 – 60?
5. What was the contribution of Mahatma Gandhi on Champaran Satyagraha.
6. Mention the role of Vallabhai Patel in Bardoli Satyagraha.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Discuss the merits and demerits of the Permanent Settlement.
2. What were the impacts of the British Land Revenue System on the cultivators?
3. Write a paragraph about the Moplah Rebellion?

VIII HOTs

Apart from exploiting through taxes, how did the British further exploit the land?

IX Project and Activity

1. Point out the influence which shaped Gandhiji's ideas on Ahimsa and Satyagraha.
2. Organise exhibition in your school on the peasants conditions and highlight the similarities between past and present.

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Unit-3 HISTORY.indd 34 25-01-2025 10.36.15 AM

Unit - 4

People's Revolt

Learning Objectives

- To know the Palayakkarar (Poligar) system in Tamil Nadu.
- To understand the role of Puli Thevar and Kattabomman in the anti-British uprising.
- To know about the South Indian Rebellion.
- To know the causes and effects of Vellore Mutiny.
- To understand the causes and impacts of Revolt of 1857.

C7PST

Introduction

The establishment of political and economic dominance by the British over many parts of India after the Battle of Plassey, 1757 disrupted the political, social and economic order of the country. This led to the divesting many landlords and chieftains of their power and estates. Naturally, many of them revolted against the British. The English assumed the right of collecting the annual tribute from the Palayakkarar. The first resistance to the British was offered by the Puli Thevar. Since then there had been rebellions by Palayakkarars such as the Veerapandiya Kattabomman, Oomathurai, Marudu brothers and Dheeran Chinnamalai.

Origin of Palayam

The Vijayanagar rulers appointed Nayaks in their provinces. The Nayak of Madurai in turn appointed Palayakkarar. Viswanatha became the Nayak of Madurai in 1529. He noticed that he could not control the chieftain who wanted more powers in their provinces. So with the consultation of his minister Ariyanatha Mudaliyar, Viswanatha instituted Palayakkarar system in 1529. The whole country was divided into 72 Palayams and each one was put under a Palayakkarar. A Palayakkarar was the holder of a territory or a Palayam. These Palayams were held in military tenure and extended their full co-operation to meet the needs of the Nayaks. The Palayakkarars collected taxes, of which one-third was given to the Nayak of Madurai, another one-third for the expenditure of the army and rest was kept for themselves.

Early revolts of South India

Revolt of the Palayakkars

During the 17th and 18th centuries the Palayakkarars played a vital role in the politics of Tamil Nadu. They regarded themselves as independent. Among the Palayakkarars, there were two blocs, namely the Eastern and the Western blocs. The Eastern Palayams ruled by the Nayaks were under the control of Kattabomman and the Western Palayams ruled by the Maravas were under the control of

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 35 25-01-2025 10.38.57 AM

Puli Thevar. These two Palayakkarars refused to pay the kist (tribute) to the English and rebelled.

The early struggle between the Palayakkaras and the East India Company had a strong political dimension. By the Carnatic treaty of 1792, consolidated the English power over the Palayakkars. The English got the right to collect taxes. The result was the outbreak of the revolt of Palayakkars.

Puli Thevar

Puli Thevar was the pioneer in Tamil Nadu, to protest against the English rule in India. He was the Palayakkarar of the Nerkattumseval, near Tirunelveli. During his tenure he refused to pay the tribute neither to Mohammed Ali, the Nawab of Arcot nor to the English. Further he started opposing them. Hence, the forces of the Nawab of Arcot and the English attacked Puli Thevar. But the combined forces were

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 36 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

defeated by Puli Thevar at Tirunelveli. Puli Thevar was the first Palayakkar who have fought and defeated the British in India. After this victory Puli Thevar attempted to form a league of the Palayakkars to oppose the British and the Nawab.

In 1759, Nerkattumseval was attacked by the forces of Nawab of Arcot under the leadership of Yusuf Khan. Puli Thevar was defeated at Anthanallur and the Nawab's forces captured Nerkattumseval in 1761. Puli Thevar who lived in exile recaptured Nerkattumseval in 1764. Later, he was defeated by Captain Campell in 1767. Puli Thevar escaped and died in exile without fulfilling his purpose, although his courageous trail of a struggle for independence remains forever in the history of South India.

Veera Pandiya Kattabomman

Veera Pandiya Kattabomman

As a feudatory under Pandyas, Jagaveerapandiya Kattabomman ruled Veerapandiyapuram. Panchalankurichi was its capital. He later became a Poligar during the rule of Nayaks. He was succeeded by his son Veera Pandiya Kattabomman. His wife was Jakkammal and his brothers were Oomathurai and Sevathaiah.

Nawab of Arcot

After the decline of the Vijayanagar empire, the Mughals established their supremacy in the south. The Nawabs acted as their representatives in Carnatic. Panchalankuruchi palayam was acted as an ally to the Nawab of Arcot. Hence it paid tribute to the Nawabs. But in 1792, the political condition had completely changed. Based on the Carnatic Treaty of 1792, the company gained the right to collect taxes from Panchalankuruchi. The collection of tribute was the main cause for the rivalry between the English and Kattabomman.

Kattabomman met Jackson

In 1798, Colin Jackson, the collector of Ramanathapuram wrote letters to Kattabomman, asking him to pay the tribute arrears. But Kattabomman replied that he was not in a position to remit the tribute due to the famine in the country. Colin Jackson got angry and decided to send an expedition to punish Kattabomman. However, the Madras government directed the collector to summon the Palayakkarar at Ramanathapuram and hold a discussion.

In 1798, Kattabomman and his minister Sivasubramaniam met the Collector at Ramanathapuram. Upon a verification of accounts, Colin Jackson was convinced that Kattabomman had cleared most of the arrears leaving only 1080 pagodas as balance. During this interview Kattabomman and his Minister, Sivasubramaniam were made to stand before the arrogant collector for three hours. The Collector insulted them and tried to arrest Kattabomman and his minister. Kattabomman tried to escape with his minister. Oomathurai suddenly entered the fort with his men and helped the escape of Kattabomman. But unfortunately Sivasubramaniam was taken as prisoner.

Edward Clive and Kattabomman

After his return to Panchalankuruchi, Kattabomman wrote a letter to the Madras Council narrating the behaviour of the Collector Colin Jackson. Edward Clive, the Governor of Madras Council ordered Kattabomman to surrender. The Madras Council directed Kattabomman to appear before a Committee. Meanwhile, Edward Clive dismissed the Collector for his misbehaviour and released Sivasubramaniam. Kattabomman appeared before the Committee, and found Kattabomman was not guilty. S.R. Lushington was appointed as collector in the place of Colin Jackson, who was eventually dismissed from service.

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 37 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

The confederacy of Palayakkarars

During that time, Marudu Pandyas of Sivaganga formed the South Indian Confederacy of rebels against the British, along with the neighbouring Palayakkarars. This confederacy declared a proclamation which came to be known as Tiruchirappalli Proclamation. Kattabomman was interested in this confederacy. He tried to establish his influence over Sivagiri, which refused to join the alliance of the rebels. Kattabomman advanced towards Sivagiri. But the Palayakkar of Sivagiri was a tributory to the Company. So the Company considered the expedition of Kattabomman as a challenge to their authority. So the Company ordered the army to march to Panchalankuruchi.

Fall of Panchalankuruchi

Major Bannerman moved his army to Panchalankuruchi on 5th September. They cut off all the communications to the Fort. In a clash at Kolarpatti, Sivasubramaniam was taken as a prisoner. Kattabomman escaped to Pudukottai. Vijaya Ragunatha Tondaiman, Raja of Pudukottai, captured Kattabomman from the jungles of Kalapore and handed him over to the Company. After the fall of Panchalankuruchi, Bannerman brought the prisoners to an assembly of the Palayakkarars and after the trial sentenced them to death. Sivasubramaniam was executed at Nagalapuram. On 16th October 1799 Veera Pandiya Kattabomman was tried before an assembly of Palayakarar and was hanged at Kayathar. Kattabomman's heroic deeds were the subject of many folk ballads which kept his memory alive among the people.

Velu Nachiyar

Velu Nachiyar was a queen of Sivagangai. At the age of 16, she was married to Muthu Vaduganathar, the Raja of Sivagangai. In 1772, the Nawab of Arcot and the British troops invaded Sivagangai. They killed Muthu Vaduganathar in Kalaiyar Koil battle. Velu Nachiyar escaped with her daughter Vellachi Nachiyar and lived under the protection of Gopala Nayakar at Virupachi near Dindigul. During this period she organised an army and employed her intelligent agents to find where the British stored their ammunition. She arranged a suicide attack by a faithful follower Kuyili, a commander of Velu Nachiyar. She recaptured Sivagangai and was again crowned as queen with the help of Marudu brothers. She was the first queen to fight against the British colonial power in India. She is known by Tamils as Veeramangai and also known as 'Jhansi Rani of South India'.

Velu Nachiyar

Marudu Brothers

Marudu brothers were the sons of Mookiah Palaniappan and Ponnathal. The elder brother was called Periya Marudu (Vella Marudu) and the younger brother was called Chinna Marudu. Chinna Marudu was more popular and was called Marudu Pandiyan. Chinna Marudu served under Muthu Vaduganatha Peria Udaya Devar (1750-1772) of Sivagangai. In 1772 the Nawab of Arcot laid siege of Sivagangai and captured it. Muthu Vaduganatha Peria Udaya Devar, died in battle. However after a few months Sivaganga was recaptured by Marudu Brothers and Periya Marudu was enthroned as the ruler. Chinna Marudu acted as his adviser. Due to the terrorist activities against the British, he was called as "Lion of Sivaganga". In the later half of the eighteenth century the rebellion against the British was carried out by Marudu Brothers in South India.

Marudu Brothers

Causes for the conflict

Kattabomman was hanged to death and his brother Oomaithurai and others fled to Sivaganga, where Marudu Pandiya gave protection to them. The merchants of

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 38 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

Sivaganga did not like the interference of the company in their internal politics. The company waged war against Sivaganga for these two causes.

The South Indian Rebellion (1800-1801)

In February 1801, the brothers of Kattabomman, Oomathurai and Sevathaiah escaped from Palayamkottai prison and reached Kamudhi. Chinna Marudu took them to Siruvayal, his capital. They reconstructed their ancestral fort at Panchalankurichi. The British troops under Colin Macaulay retook the fort in April and the Palayakkarar brothers sought shelter in Sivagangai. The English demanded Marudu Pandyas to hand over the fugitives, the latter refused. Col. Agnew and Colonel Innes marched against them.

The Palayakkarar War assumed a much broader character than its predecessor. It was directed by a confederacy consisting of Marudu Pandiar of Sivagangai, Gopala Nayak of Dindigul, Kerala Varma of Malabar and Krishnappa Nayak and Dhoondaji of Mysore. The English declared war against the confederacy.

The Tiruchirappalli Proclamation (1801)

The Marudu Pandyas issued a proclamation of Independence called Tiruchirappalli Proclamation in June 1801. The Proclamation of 1801 was the first call to the Indians to unite against the British. A copy of the proclamation was pasted on the walls of the Nawab's palace in the fort of Tiruchi and another copy was placed on the walls of the Vaishnava temple at Srirangam. Thus Marudu brothers spread the spirit of opposition against the English everywhere. As a result many Palayakkarars of Tamil Nadu went on a rally to fight against the English. Chinna Marudu collected nearly 20,000 men to challenge the English Army. British reinforcements were rushed from Bengal, Ceylon and Malaya (Malaysia). The rajas of Pudukkottai, Ettayapuram and Thanjavur stood by the British. Divide and rule policy followed by the English split the forces of the Palayakkarars.

English annexed Sivagangai

In May 1801, English attacked the rebels in Thanjavur and Tiruchi areas. The rebels went to Piranmalai and Kalayarkoil. They were again defeated by the forces of the English. In the end, the superior military strength and the able commanders of the British army won the battle. The rebellion failed and English annexed Sivagangai in 1801. The Marudu brothers were executed in the Fort of Tirupathur in Ramanathapuram District (Now in Sivagangai District) on 24 October 1801. Oomathurai and Sevathaiah were captured and beheaded at Panchalankuruchi on 16 November 1801. Seventy three rebels were exiled to Penang in Malaya, then called the Prince of Wales Island. Though they fell before the English, they were the pioneers in sowing the seeds of nationalism in the land of Tamil.

Thus the South Indian Rebellion is a land mark in the history of Tamil Nadu. Although the 1800-1801 rebellion was to be categorized in the British records as the Second Palayakkarar War. Under the terms of the Carnatic Treaty on 31 July 1801, the British assumed direct control over Tamil Nadu. The Palayakkarar system was abolished.

Dheeran Chinnamalai

Dheeran Chinnamalai was born at Melapalayam in Chennimalai near Erode. His original name was Theerthagiri. He was a palayakkarar of Kongu country who fought against the British East India Company. The Kongu country comprising Salem, Coimbatore, Karur and Dindigul formed a part of the Nayak kingdom of Madurai but had been annexed by the Wodayars of Mysore. After the fall of the Wodayars, these territories along with Mysore were controlled by the Mysore Sultans. After the third and fourth Mysore wars the entire Kongu region passed into the hands of the English.

Dheeran Chinnamalai was trained by French military in modern warfare. He was along the side of Tipu Sultan to fight against the British East India Company and got victories against the British. After Tipu Sultan's death Chinnamalai settled down at Odanilai and constructed a fort

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 39 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

there to continue his struggle against the British. He sought the help of Marathas and Maruthu Pandyas to attack the British at Coimbatore in 1800. British forces managed to stop the armies of the allies and hence Chinnamalai was forced to attack Coimbatore on his own. His army was defeated and he escaped from the British forces. Chinnamalai engaged in guerrilla warfare and defeated the British in battles at Cauvery, Odanilai and Arachalur. During the final battle, Chinnamalai was betrayed by his cook Nallapan and was hanged in Sankagiri Fort in 1805.

Vellore Revolt (1806)

The family members of Tipu were imprisoned at Vellore Fort after the fourth Mysore war. Some three thousand ex-servants and soldiers of Hyder and Tipu had also been moved to the vicinity of Vellore and their property in Mysore was confiscated. It was quite natural that they were all unhappy and they hated the English.

Vellore Fort

The Vellore Fort consisted of large majority of Indian troops, a good part of it recently been raised in Tirunelveli after the Palayakarar uprising of 1800. Many of the trained soldiers of the various Palayams were admitted into the English army. Thus the Vellore fort became the meeting ground of the rebel forces of South India.

In 1803, William Cavendish Bentinck became Governor of Madras. During his period certain military regulations were introduced in 1805-06 and were enforced by the Madras Commander-in-Chief Sir John Cradock. But the sepoys felt that these were designed to insult them.

Causes for the revolt

- The strict discipline, new weapons, new methods and uniforms were all new to the sepoys.
- The sepoys were asked to shave the beard and to trim the moustache.
- The wearing of religious mark on the forehead and the use of ear-rings were also banned.
- The English treated the Indian sepoys as their inferior. There was racial prejudice.

Immediate Cause

In June 1806 Military General, Agnew introduced a new turban, resembling a European hat with a badge of cross on it. It was popularly known as 'Agnew's turban'. Both the Hindu and Muslim soldiers opposed it. So the soldiers were severely punished by the English.

Course of the Revolt

The Indian soldiers were waiting for an opportunity to attack the English officers. Tipu's family also took part. Fateh Hyder, the elder son of Tipu, tried to form an alliance against the English. On July 10th in the early morning the native sepoys of the 1st and 23rd Regiments started the revolt. Colonel Fancourt, who commanded the garrison, was their first victim. The fort gates were closed. Meantime, the rebels proclaimed Fateh Hyder, as their new ruler. The British flag in the fort was brought down. The tiger-striped flag of Tipu Sultan was hoisted on the fort of Vellore.

Suppression of the Revolt

Major Cootes who was outside the fort rushed to Ranipet and informed Colonel Gillespie. Col. Gillespie reached Vellore fort. He made an attack on the rebel force. The revolt was completely suppressed and failed. Peace was restored in Vellore. On the whole, 113 Europeans and about 350 sepoys were killed in the uprising. The revolt was suppressed within a short period. It was one of the significant events in the history of Tamil Nadu.

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 40 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

Effects of the Vellore Revolt

- The new methods and uniform regulations were withdrawn.
- The family of Tipu as a precautionary measure was sent to Calcutta.
- William Cavendish Bentinck was removed from his service.

Causes for the failure of the Revolt

- There was no proper leadership to guide the soldiers properly.
- The rebellion was also not well organised.
- Divide and Rule policy of the English, split the unity of the Indians.

Evaluation

V.D. Savarkar calls the Vellore revolt of 1806 as the prelude to the First War of Indian Independence in 1857.

The Revolt of 1857

The early uprisings did not succeed in threatening the British in India. It led the way for the Revolt of 1857 and the company to return to its country. The British thought that their rule was not accepted by a large section of the population. The Revolt of 1857 was a product of the character and the policies of colonial rule. The cumulative effect of British expansionist policies, economic exploitation and administrative innovations over the years had adversely affected the positions of all rulers of Indian states.

Causes of the Revolt

- The most important cause of Revolt 1857 was a popular discontent on the British policy of economically exploiting India. This hurt all sections of society. The peasants suffered due to high revenue demands and the strict revenue collection policy.
- Policies of doctrine of lapse, subsidiary alliance and policy of effective control created discontent among people. Annexation of Awadh (Oudh) proved that even the grovelling loyalty can't satisfy the British greed for territories.
- The conversion activities of Christian missionaries were looked upon with suspicion and fear. The priests and the maulavis showed their discontent against the British rule.
- Abolition of practices like sati, female infanticide, support to widow remarriage and women education were seen by many as interference in their Indian culture by the Europeans.
- The Indian sepoys were viewed as inferior beings and treated with contempt by their British officers. They were paid much less than the British soldiers. All avenues of the promotion were closed to them as all the higher army posts were reserved for the British.

Immediate cause

The immediate cause was the introduction of new Enfield Rifles in the army. The top of the cartridge of this rifle was to be removed by the mouth before loading it in the rifle. The cartridges were greased by the fat of pig and the cow. The Indian sepoys believed that the British were deliberately attempting to spoil the religion of both the Hindus and the Muslims because while the Hindus revered the cow, the Muslims hated the pig. The soldiers, therefore, determined to refuse their service and, ultimately revolted. Thus, the primary and the immediate cause of the revolt was the use of the greased cartridges.

The Outbreak of the Revolt

Mangal Pandey

On 29 March 1857, at Barrackpur (near Kolkata) Mangal Pandey, a young Sepoy from Bengal Regiment, refused to use the greased cartridge, and shot down his sergeant. He was arrested, tried and executed. When this news spread many sepoys revolted.

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 41 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

Course of the Revolt

On 10 May 1857, the Sepoys of the third cavalry at Meerut openly revolted by swarming the prisons and releasing their comrades. They were immediately joined by the men of the 11th and 20th Native Infantries, and they murdered some English officers and then marched to Delhi. Meerut sepoys arrived at Delhi on 11th May and declared Bahadur Shah II as the Emperor of India. Delhi became the centre of the Great Revolt and Bahadur Shah, its symbol.

The revolt spread quickly. There were mutinies at Lucknow, Kanpur, Jhansi, Bareilly, Bihar, Faizabad, and many other places in North India. Many of them found that it was a good opportunity to burn the papers of their landlords. Many others whose titles and pensions were abolished by the British had participated in it, inorder to take revenge.

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 42 25-01-2025 10.38.58 AM

In Central India the revolt was guided by Rani Lakshmi Bai of Jhansi. She was one of the greatest patriots of India. Sir Hugh Rose occupied Jhansi. Rani Lakshmi Bai fled from Jhansi and joined hands with Tantia Tope who had assumed the leadership of the rebel army at Gwalior. But the British captured Gwalior in June 1858. Rani was killed in the battle. Tantia Tope fled away but was captured and later executed. According to the British historians, present at the time of revolt, Rani Lakshmi Bai was the best and the bravest among the leaders of the Revolt of 1857.

Suppression of the Revolt

Lord Canning, the governor-general took immediate steps to suppress the revolt. He collected the forces of Madras, Bombay, Sri Lanka and Burma. On his own initiative, he called the British army which was deputed to China by Britain to Calcutta. He ordered the loyal Sikh army to proceed to Delhi immediately. The British regained their lost positions very soon.

Delhi was recaptured by General John Nicholson on 20 September, 1857 and Bahadur Shah II was deported to Rangoon where he died in 1862.

Military operations for the recovery of Kanpur were closely associated with those for recovery of Lucknow. Sir Colin Campbell occupied Kanpur. Nana Saheb was defeated at Kanpur and he escaped to Nepal. His close associate Tantia Tope escaped to central India, was captured and put to death. The Rani of Jhansi had died in the battle-field. Kunwar Singh, Khan Bahadur Khan, both were dead, while the Begum of Awadh was compelled to hide in Nepal. The revolt was finally suppressed. By the end of 1859, British authority over India was fully re-established.

Places of Revolt	Indian Leaders	British Officials who suppressed the revolt
Delhi	Bahadur Shah II	John Nicholson
Lucknow	Begum Hazrat Mahal	Henry Lawrence
Kanpur	Nana Saheb	Sir Colin Campbell
Jhansi & Gwalior	Lakshmi Bai, Tantia Tope	General Hugh Rose
Bareilly	Khan Bahadur Khan	Sir Colin Campbell
Bihar	Kunwar Singh	William Taylor

The Causes for the Failure of the Revolt

Various causes were responsible for the failure of the revolt.

- Lack of organisation, discipline, common plan of action, centralised leadership, modern weapons and techniques.
- The rebel leaders were no match to the British Generals. Rani Lakshmi Bai, Tantia Tope and Nana Saheb were courageous but they were not good generals.
- Non-participation of Bengal, Bombay, Madras, Western Punjab and Rajputana.
- The modern educated Indians did not support the revolts as they believed that only the British rule could reform Indian society and modernize it.
- The British managed to get the loyalty of the Sikhs, Afghans and the Gurkha regiments. The Gurkhas actually helped the British in suppressing the revolt.
- The British had modern weapons, better generals, and good organisation.

Consequences of the Revolt

- The Revolt of 1857 marked a turning point in the history of India. It led to changes in the system of administration and the policy of the Government.
- The administration of India was transferred from the East India Company to the British Crown through the 'Queen's Proclamation' in 1858.

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 43 25-01-2025 10.38.59 AM

- The governor-general was given the title of viceroy.
- The Board of Directors and the Board of Control were replaced by the Council of 15 members headed by the Secretary of State to supervise Indian affairs.
- The Indian Army was thoroughly reorganised. More Britishers were employed in the army.
- The British military policy came to be dominated by the idea of 'divide and counterpoise'.

Infact, the Revolt of 1857 played an important role in bringing the Indian people together and imparting them the consciousness of belonging to one country. The Revolt paved the way for the rise of the modern national movement. It was at the beginning of the twentieth century that the 1857 Revolt came to be interpreted as a "planned war of national independence", by the Historian V.D. Savarkar in his book, 'First War of Indian Independence'.

Recap

- The Vijayanagar rulers appointed Nayaks in their provinces.
- The Nayak of Madurai in turn appointed Palayakkarar.
- The English got the right to collect taxes and the result was the outbreak of the revolt of Palayakkarars.
- The collection of tribute was the main cause for the rivalry between the English and Kattabomman.
- Marudu brothers were the sons of Mookiah Palaniappan and Ponnathal.
- Dheeran Chinnamalai was trained by French military in modern warfare.
- Tipu Sultan fought against the British East India Company.
- Rani Lakshmi Bai was the best and the bravest among the leaders of the Revolt of 1857.

GLOSSARY		
Hang	to suspend by the neck until dead	தூக்கிலிடு
Betrayed	give away information about somebody	காட்டிக்கொடு
Cartridge	bullet	தோட்டா
Eventually	in the end	முடிவாக
Infantry	an army unit consisting of soldiers who fight on foot	காலாட்படை
Tribute / Kist	payment made periodically by one state	கப்பம் / வரி
Swarm	crowd	கூட்டம்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. The Palayakkarar system was instituted in
   a) 1519 b) 1520
   c) 1529 d) 1530
2. Which of the following Palayakkarar of Tamil Nadu was the pioneer against the English rule
   a) Puli Thevar
   b) Yusuf Khan
   c) Kattabomman
   d) Marudu brothers
3. Colin Jackson was the collector of
   a) Madurai b) Tirunelveli
   c) Ramanathapuram d) Tuticorin

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 44 25-01-2025 10.38.59 AM

4. Veera Pandiya Kattabomman was hanged at

a) Panchalankurichib) Sivagangai

c) Tiruppathur d) Kayathar

5. Velu Nachiyar was a queen of

a) Nagalapuram b) Sivagiri

c) Sivagangai d) Virupachi

6. Tiruchirapalli proclamation was issued by

a) Marudu Pandyas

b) Krishnappa Nayak

c) Velu Nachiyar

d) Dheeran Chinnamalai

7. Which of the following place was associated with Dheeran Chinnamalai

a) Dindigul b) Nagalapuram

c) Pudukottai d) Odanilai

8. Rani Lakshmi Bai led the revolt at

a) Central India b) Kanpur

c) Delhi d) Bareilly

II Fill in the Blanks

1. The Eastern Palayams were ruled under the control of _____.
2. Vishwanatha Nayakar instituted the Palayakarar system with the consultation of his minister _____.
3. The ancestors of Kattabomman belonged to _____.
4. _____ was known by Tamils as Veeramangai and Jhansi Rani of South India.
5. _____ was called as 'lion' of Sivagangai.
6. _____ was described the Revolt of 1857 as First War of India Independence.

III Match the following

1.	Delhi	Kunwar singh
2.	Kanpur	Khan Bahudar Khan
3.	Jhansi	Nana Saheb
4.	Bareilly	Lakshmi Bai
5.	Bihar	Bahadur Shah II

IV State true or false

1. The Vijayanagar rulers appointed Nayaks in their provinces.
2. Sivasubramaniam was the minister of Marudu pandiyas.
3. Kattabomman was hanged on 16th October 1799.
4. Fateh Hyder was the elder son of Tipu Sultan.

V a) Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

i) The Vellore revolt was held in 1801.

ii) The family members of Tipu were imprisoned at Vellore fort after the fourth Mysore war.

iii) At the time of Vellore revolt, the Governor of Madras was Lord William Bentinck.

iv) The victory of revolt of Vellore against British was one of the significant event in the history of India.

a) i & ii are Correct

b) ii & iv are Correct

c) ii &iii are correct

d) i, ii & iv are correct

b) Find out the wrong pair

a) Marudu Pandiyar - Ettayapuram

b) Gopala Nayak - Dindigul

c) Kerala Varma - Malabar

d) Dhoondaji - Mysore

Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 45 25-01-2025 10.38.59 AM

c) Find out the odd one

a) Kattabomman b) Oomaithurai
c) Sevathaiah d) Tipu Sultan

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. What do you know about the Palayakarars? Name some of them.
2. What was the role of Velu Nachiyar in the Palayakkarar revolt?
3. Who were the leaders of Palayakkarar confederacy in the South Indian Rebellion?
4. What was the importance of Tiruchirappalli proclamation?
5. Bring out the effects of the Vellore revolt.
6. What was the immediate cause of the Revolt of 1857?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. What do you know about the Puli Thevar?
2. Explain the events that led to conflict between Dheeran Chinnamalai and the British.
3. What were the causes for the Great revolt of 1857?
4. What were the causes for the failure of the Revolt of 1857?

VIII HOTs

Prove that there was no common purpose among the leaders of the Great Revolt of 1857.

IX Map skill

On the River map of India mark the following centres of the revolt of 1857.

1) Delhi 2) Lucknow
3) Meerut 4) Barrackpore
5) Jhansi 6) Gwalior
7) Kanpur

X Project and Activity

Collect pictures of Palayakkarars and prepare an album.

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Unit-4 HISTORY.indd 46 25-01-2025 10.38.59 AM

Unit - 5

Development of Education in India

Learning Objectives

EGSYB

To acquaint oneself with

- Formal education in ancient India.
- Learning under *Gurukula* system in traditional centres and in mutts and monasteries.
- Education in Medieval India.
- European missionaries and advancement of Western education in British India.
- Educational progress in the Post-Independence India.

Introduction

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Education is a process that begins at birth and continues until the end of life. The primary objective of formal education at school is to help children develop intellectual skills and physical capabilities. The pupils who join college or university after schooling acquire required skills to prepare themselves for the future. A person graduated from an institution of higher learning is expected to be endowed with holistic knowledge in their chosen subject of study, possessing scientific outlook and historical perspective. How an education system anticipating such a possibility evolved in India over time is dealt with in this chapter.

Education in Ancient India

In ancient India, daughters, as well as sons of priestly and warrior classes had access to education. The pupils were taught in ashramas and hermitages to memorize Vedic hymns and learn the subjects such as Sanskrit grammar, prose, and verse compositions, logic and metaphysics. Their curriculum also included astronomy, mathematics, medicine and astrology. This tradition of teaching-learning was called Gurukula system.

In ancient Tamil Nadu, we find references to learned women in Sangam literature. We have examples of Aadhimanthiyar and Avvaiyar, and forty other poetesses who lived during the Sangam Age. The scripts engraved on potsherds excavated in Keeladi, Sivagangai district in Tamil Nadu is illustrative of the high literacy level the people had attained even as early as 6th century BC (BCE).

Avvaiyar

Potsherd scripts, Keeladi

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 47 25-01-2025 10.41.59 AM

In Purananuru (183) Ariyapadai Kadandha Nedunchezhiyan (Nedunchezhiyan defeated the Aryan Army) of Sangam period in his poem emphasised the importance of education. He exhorted everyone to learn from the teacher, irrespective of poverty, and to give gifts to him, while pointing out that even a mother favours the learned among the children born to her, and a ruler follows the one who is learned. He further added, if a lower class person is learned, even upper class person would bow before him.

Upanishads marked a radical departure from the Vedic beliefs. The term *upa-ni-shad*, meaning 'to sit down near one', refers to the wisdom learned in secret at the feet of a sage, usually in a forest retreat. The Upanishads shifted their emphasis from gods and rituals to mystic knowledge. Education in post-Vedic period was organised in living quarters or private houses of learned teachers. We know about the continuing Gurukula system followed in Varanasi (Banaras/Kasi) from the accounts of the French traveller Bernier. According to him in Banaras, masters were sent to different parts of the town to teach in private houses, mainly in the gardens of the rich merchants. Some of these masters had four disciples, others six or seven and the most eminent had twelve. Here teaching was on Vedas, Upanishads, Dharmasastras and epics. The teacher earned their livelihood from the *dakshinas*, or customary gifts of the community. There were also charities to house and feed teachers without charge.

Education in Monasteries

The great religious reformers of 6th century BC (BCE), Mahavira, Buddha and Gosala rejected the authority of Vedas. In the age that followed numerous sects emerged, of which only Jainism and Buddhism survived into modern times. Jaina and Buddhist monasteries educated and trained their monks. Here students had to remain for a specified period of time to complete their education. Jainas had their religious literature in Ardha-Magadhi and in Pali languages. In south India, they established centres for religious instruction near Madurai, Kanchipuram and at Shravanabelagola, Karnataka.

The Tamil word *palli* meaning school referred to Jaina monasteries. The contribution of Jains to Tamil literature was immense. Notable among their celebrated works were *Thirukkural* and *Naladiyar*.

Hiuen Tsang

In contrast to traditional educational centres of ancient types, Jaina and Buddhist centres provided education in large university like campuses. Nalanda in Bihar was a great Buddhist educational centre attracted students from places as far as China and Southeast Asia. These students carried back with them the message of Buddha's teachings. The same was with Vikramshila University that was established in the eighth century AD (CE) by King Dharmapala of Pala dynasty in Bengal. There were monasteries and colleges at Kanchipuram which had gained fame equal to Nalanda. Hiuen Tsang, a Buddhist monk from China visited Kanchipuram during the reign of Narasimha Pallava I.

Nalanda University

Palm leaf manuscripts (Olai Chuvadi)

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 48 25-01-2025 10.41.59 AM

Hiuen Tsang visited Nalanda in the seventh century AD (CE). At that time, students there studied the Vedas and were trained in fine arts, medicine, mathematics, astronomy, politics and the art of warfare. UNESCO declared the excavated remains at Nalanda in the list of World Heritage in 2009.

Education in Medieval India

Temples functioned as places for imparting formal education during the medieval period. In small villages, temple priest taught the pupils. Education imparted at a more advanced level conducted in colleges attached to the large temples. Mutts or monasteries also emerged as centres of learning in medieval period. Saivite and Vaishnavite mutts received royal patronage in the form of endowments. The education these mutts focused was on Saivism, Vaishnavism, martial arts, music and painting. These mutts continued to exist and the Tamil savant U.V. Saminathar pursued his learning in Tiruvaduthurai Saivite mutt that was established in the fourteenth century.

Technical education remained with guilds. Knowledge of mining, metallurgy, weaving, dyeing and carpentry was the preserve of the relevant guild. The sons of artisans were trained in hereditary occupations. These guilds functioned separately and there was no exchange of knowledge between these guilds and the educational centres.

During the sultanate and the Mughal rule, unlike the Sanskrit schools that catered to the upper and ruling classes, Islamic schools (*Maktabs*) were open to all without restriction. Here, pupils in addition to memorising portions of the Quran also learned vernacular and Persian. In the *Madrasahs*, (Islamic institutions of higher learning) a poor student coming from a far-off place could get the necessities of life from a pious family in the neighbourhood. *Madrasahs* functioned as a theological seminaries and law schools. Curriculum centred on the Quran and the Hadith. In addition students were taught Arabic grammar, literature, arithmetic and accounting and logic.

Madrasah

English East India Company and Modern English Education

The concern for Indian education was first shown by Governor-General Warren Hastings. Responding to a delegation of leading Muslims headed by a *maulvi*, he facilitated the establishment of a *Madrasah* at Calcutta in 1780-'81. There were forty stipendiary students studying there. In the next decade (1791-'92) with the support of his successor Cornwallis, Jonathan Duncan, later governor of Bombay, founded a Sanskrit college at Banaras at the cost of the government. Thereafter, for twenty years the government did not accept direct responsibility for education. Educational funds continued to be spent for many years on oriental learning. English Parliament, while renewing the East India Company's Charter in 1813, included a clause to provide 'not less than one lakh of rupees' for the promotion of literature and sciences in British territories in India. But the money earmarked for the purpose remained unspent.

Meanwhile, thanks to the initiative of social reformer Raja Rammohan Roy, the Hindu College was founded in Calcutta with local subscriptions in 1817. The purpose was to

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 49 25-01-2025 10.41.59 AM

provide a liberal education in English language. The Christian missionaries making use of their freedom on their part, opened a Baptist Mission College in the following year (1818) at Serampore. Raja Rammohan Roy pleaded for a more 'enlightened system of education in which mathematics, philosophy, chemistry, anatomy and other useful sciences would be included'.

The Hindu College, Calcutta

English Education

Noting that the cultured classes were desirous of English education, William Bentinck upon his appointment as Governor-General of India, appointed Thomas Babington Macaulay as the chairman of the then existing Education Committee to recommend a definite policy on education to be adopted. Macaulay prepared his famous Minute of 1835. According to this Minute, the objective of the government's educational policy was to be 'the promotion of European literature and science among the natives of India'. It was also clearly stated that the medium of language to be used was English. Bentinck endorsed Macaulay's Minute and decided that the Education fund henceforth should be spent on English education alone.

Wood's Despatch

Charles Wood

The Company's charter renewal came up in 1852 and this provided an occasion for the British Parliament to take a definite decision on education. The new educational policy statement was sent in the famous Charles Wood's Despatch of 1854. The Wood's Despatch reiterated what had been stated in Macaulay's famous Minute of 1835. Though there were protests from orthodox sections of Indians, the government went ahead with its policy and founded a university in each of the three presidencies. University education in India began with the setting up of universities at Madras, Bombay and Calcutta modeled after the University of London in 1857. The main function was to hold examinations and to confer degrees on successful candidates appearing from affiliated colleges. The university in each presidency prescribed the courses and the syllabi.

Christian Missionaries and Education

Bengal

The contribution of Christian missionaries to education was praiseworthy. A Bengal elementary school was started by Baptist missionaries with forty boys at Serampore in 1800. This was followed by the establishment of a number of schools in the presidency by the London Missionary Society. European missionaries showed more interest than the government in Indian women's progress. Miss Mary Ann Cook, on her arrival in India in 1821 established 23 girls schools with an average of 25 to 30 students in each in Calcutta and the surrounding villages. Another notable event was the establishment of the Bethune School (1849) at Calcutta by John Elliot Drinkwater Bethune. This school was later taken over by the government after his death and it became the first institution of higher education for women in 1879.

Bombay

The American Society established a school for girls in 1824 with the objective of educating the daughters of soldiers. Dr. and Mrs. Wilson founded six girls schools in Bombay during the year 1829-'30. Jyotiba Phule opened a pioneering school (1848) for girls of the historically marginalised sections of the society in Pune. In 1889 Professor Karve of Poona started a school for Hindu

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 50 25-01-2025 10.41.59 AM

widows. This developed into the Women's University (Shreemati Nathibai Damodar Thackersey Women's University - SNDT) in 1916. Parsis in Bombay took active interest in women's education. In 1913, out of ten high schools for girls in Bombay, eight were run by Parsis. Later, the All India Women's Conference (1926) resolved to start a college to be entirely staffed and managed by women. This college is Lady Irwin College, Delhi.

SNDT Women's University, Pune

Lady Irwin College, Delhi

Tamil Nadu

The missionary education started in Tamil Nadu with German Lutheran missionary Bartholomaus Ziegenbalg and his elder colleague Henri Plustscham who arrived in India on 9 July 1706. Though the purpose was to serve the cause of Protestant religion, they established schools in the Danish settlement of Tharangambadi (Tranquebar). This was a pioneering effort which was followed by the missionaries of the later period. Ziegenbalg learnt Tamil and translated the Bible into Tamil. He imported a printing press from Germany and arranged for the publication of Christian literature.

Ziegenbalg

In the presidency of Madras, a survey made in 1822 showed the existence of 12,498 institutions of all kinds with 1, 84, 110 students on roll. Sir Thomas Munro, Governor of Madras from 1820 to 1827, claimed that the state of education, though low compared to England, was higher than in most of European countries.

In Madras two Scottish chaplains Rev. Lawrie and Rev. Bowie started a school in the vicinity of St. Andrew's Church, Egmore, in 1835. This school was later shifted to Black Town (George Town from 1911) in 1837. There were 59 students studying in that school. Rev. William Miller upgraded the school into a college in 1862. This is the Madras Christian College, Tambaram. Realising the importance of English education, the elite of the Madras city presented a petition in 1839 to provide facilities for Western education. In response, a high school was established at Egmore in 1840 which was upgraded to the status of a college in 1857. This is Madras Presidency College.

Madras Christian College

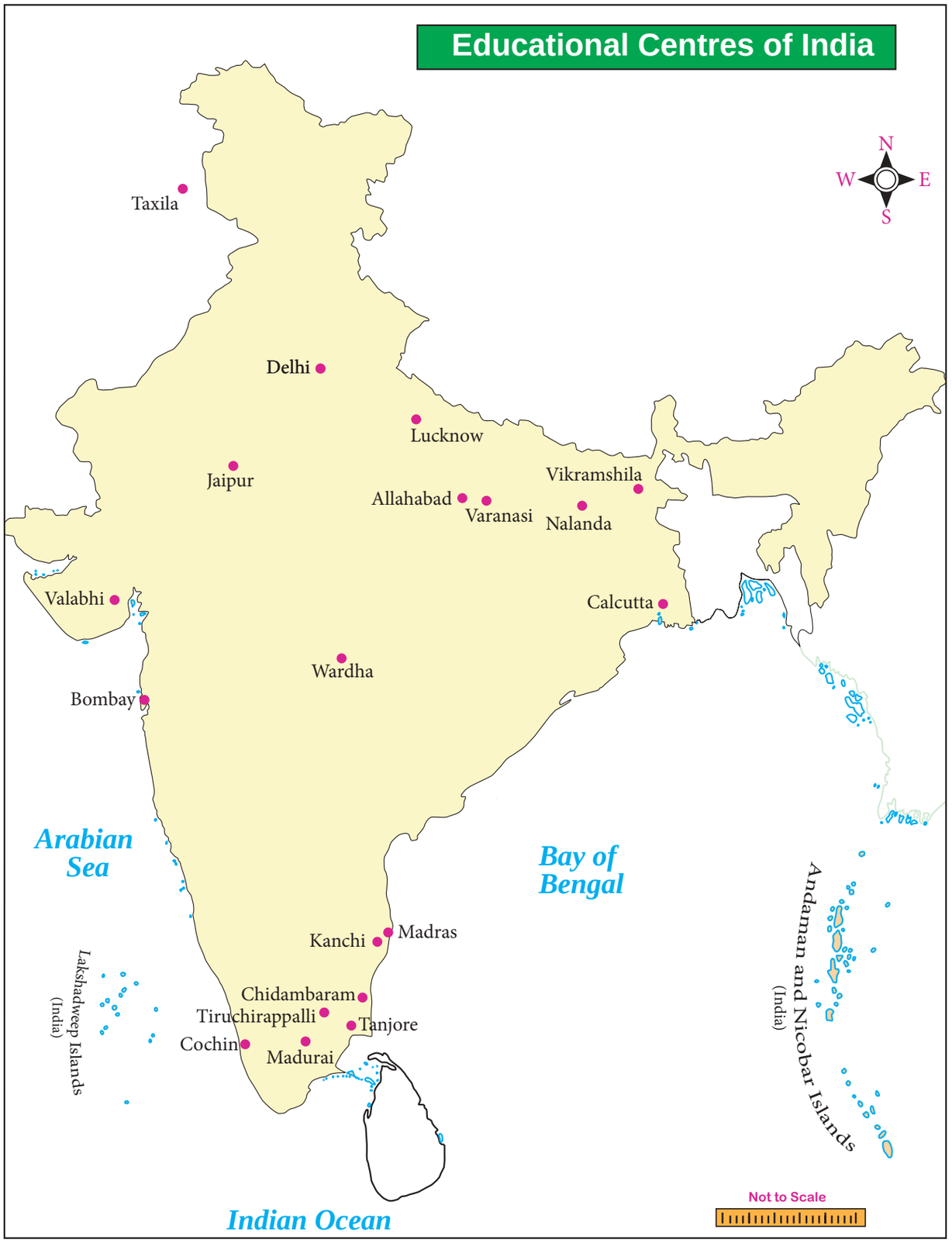
Madras Presidency College

In Tiruchirappalli in 1838, Holy Cross Sisters founded the St. Joseph's Anglo Indian School. The Jesuits established St. Joseph's College in 1844. In Tirunelveli the Christian Mission Society started a school in 1844 which was upgraded to the status of a college (then C.M.S. College, now St. John's College) in 1876.

Progress in Higher Education under Crown

After the British Parliament transferred the government and territories of the East India Company to the Crown, in educational affairs the policy of the Company continued to be the policy of the Crown. The success of university education and the growing demand for educated Indian in administration, in law courts provided stimulus for the establishment of more number of colleges and universities. At the same time, the substitution of English in courts and offices deprived Muslims of their employment when Persian was the court and administrative

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 51 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM



Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 52 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM

Aligarh Muslim University and Sir Syed Ahmad Khan

language. It was at this time, Sir Syed Ahmad Khan established Muhammadan-Anglo School (1875) at Aligarh, which ultimately developed into the Muslim University of Aligarh (1920). By the second decade of the twentieth century universities had come up in prominent cities, following Sadler Commission Report (1917). There were unitary and residential universities started, thanks to the initiatives taken by the philanthropists. The notable example is Jamsetji Tata's Indian Institute of Science (1909), Bengaluru. In Madras, the Pachaiyappa's School named after a dubash of the 18th century came up in 1845, which was later upgraded to a college in 1880.In Tamil Nadu, Annamalai University was established in 1929.

Jamsetji Tata

Vallal Pachaiyappa

Spread of Education

Notwithstanding the colleges and universities education continued to be the preserve of the upper and middle classes. Gandhiji came up with Wardha educational scheme which aimed at imparting elementary education through some craft along with the basics. It was hoped that children would produce enough to pay the cost of their education and make possible the introduction of free and compulsory education. However, the Hunter Commission's recommendation of fixing the responsibility of providing primary education with local and municipal governments became possible when Dyarchy was in operation in provinces (1921-1937). The Sargent Commission's Scheme (1944) of introducing free and compulsory education for all Indian children in the 6-11 years age group had to await independence for its implementation.

Education in Independent India

In 1951 only 18.3% of people were literate. The male literacy was 27.2% while female literacy rate was 8.9% In 1950-51 there were two lakh students on rolls in Institutions of higher learning. There were 58 universities when University Grants Commission was set up in 1956 to maintain standards in higher education. The national government appointed the Dr. Radhakrishnan Commission (1948), the Secondary Education Commission under the chairmanship of Dr. Lakshmanaswami (1952-53), and the Kothari Commission (1964) suggested measures for modernisation of education system in the country.

Dr. Radhakrishnan

Dr. Lakshmanaswami

Kothari

Important recommendations of the Kothari Commission are: 1. 10+2+3 pattern of education 2. Vocationalisation of secondary education 3.Common school system of public education where students would learn up to 5th standard at schools in neighbourhood in their mother tongue.4. Free and compulsory education for children aged 6-14 years. 5. Union government to invest at least six per cent of its GDP in the education sector.

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 53 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM

Education in Science and Technology

The Government of India, in the meantime, adopted measures to strengthen the much neglected sphere of science and technology in the country. Before the end of the three plan periods five IITs, 17 national laboratories specialising in different areas of research, the Council of Scientific and Industrial Research (CSIR), Defence Research and Development Organisation (DRDO) and Atomic Energy Commission had been established. Thereafter D.P. Chattopadhyay Committee on Teacher Education (1983), National Education Policy Commission (1986), Acharya Ramamurthy Review Committee (1990), Yashpal Committee (1993), T.S.R. Subramanian Committee (2015), constituted with the objective of reforming the curriculum in keeping with the changing time, had come up with several recommendations.

IIT Madras

Accomplishment until Now

Thanks to the remedial measures taken by the successive governments, both Union and State, based on the reports of the said Commissions and Committees, as well as the governmental programmes, such as scholarships to the meritorious, deprived and disadvantaged, waiving of tuition fee for undergraduate courses, free uniform and noon meal schemes in schools, the enrolment rate increased and dropout rate decreased remarkably in schools. As a sequence, male literacy in 2019-21 stood at 84.4% (against 27.2% in 1951) and female literacy stood at 71.5% (against 8.9% in 1951). In 2018, about 36.6 million students were in 907 institutes of higher learning (against 58 institutes in 1956).

Recap

- In ancient period the pupils were taught in ashramas and hermitages to memorize vedic hymns.
- Education under gurukula system was organised in quarters and private houses of learned teachers.
- Temples and mutts functioned as a place for imparting formal education during the medieval period.
- Maktabs (Muslim schools) and Madrasahs (institution of higher education) started with admission to all without restrictions.
- Support of Governor Generals, Warren Hastings and Cornwallis for oriental learning.
- The contribution of Christian missionaries to modern education in general and women's education in particular.
- The national government's measures for modernisation of education by appointing commissions:
  - Dr. Radhakrishnan Commission (1948)
  - Dr. Lakshmanaswami Mudaliyar Commission (1952)
  - Kothari Commission (1964)
  - Progress in education – A comparison of condition in the immediate post – independence period and condition at the close of second decade of the 21st century.

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 54 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM

GLOSSARY		
Philanthropist	refers to someone who makes donations to charities intended to increase human well being	பிறர் நலனுக்கு உழைப்பவர், கொடையாளி, நன்கொடையாளார்.
Hadith	a collection of traditions containing sayings of the prophet Muhammad with accounts of his daily practices	இஸ்லாமிய கிரந்தங்கள்
Hermitage	the abode of a hermit	துறவிகள் வாழ்விடம்
Maulvi	expounder of Muhammadan law, Muslim theologian	இஸ்லாமியச் சட்ட நிபுணர்
Savant	Genius	அறிவாளி
Reiterated	restated	வலியுறுத்துதல்
Waiving	refraining from insisting on	தள்ளுபடி செய்தல்
Dubash	an Indian translator or interpreter	இந்திய மொழிபெயர்ப்பாளர்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

EM3P7

1. Whose account is the source of information for the Gurukula system followed in Varanasi ?
   a) Nikitin b) Hiuen Tsang
   c) Domingo Paes d) Bernier
2. Which University was established by King Dharmapala in Bengal?
   a) Taxila University b) Vikramshila University
   c) Banaras University d) Nalanda University
3. In whose reign Chinese monk Hiuen Tsang visited Kanchipuram?
   a) Chandragupta II
   b) Mahendira Pallava
   c) Narasimha Pallava I
   d) Harsha Vardhana
4. When did UNESCO declare Nalanda as a world heritage site?
   a)2006 b) 2007 c) 2008 d) 2009
5. Who was the Governor General to establish the first Madrasah in Calcutta?
   a) Warren Hastings b) Robert Clive
   c) William Bentinck d) Ripon
6. Who was the social reformer who started a school for the women of historically marginalized section?
   a) Jyotiba Phule
   b) Raja Rammohan Roy
   c) Keshub Chandra Sen
   d) Sir Syed Ahmed Khan
7. Where did the German missionary Bartholomaus Ziegenbalg start first school in Tamil Nadu?
   a) Tranquebar b) Tirunelveli
   c) Thanjavur d) Tiruchirappalli

II Fill in the blanks

1. Daughters as well as sons of priestly and warrior classes had access to education in _____ India.
2. Baptist Mission College was started in 1818 at _____ .
3. Professor Karve started a school for Hindu Widows in _____ .

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 55 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM

4. _____ College in Delhi was started by the initiative of the All India Women's Conference.
5. The first Commission on Secondary education was chaired by _____.

III Match the following

1. University Grants Commission	-	1964
2. Kothari Commission	-	English Education
3. Macaulay	-	Bengaluru
4. Free and compulsory education	-	1956
5. Tata's Indian Institute of Science	-	6-14 years.

IV State True or False

1. We have evidence to show that the script of Indus and the script on pottery unearthed in Keeladi is same.
2. Naladiyar was the contribution of Jains
3. The term *upa-ni-shad*, means "to sit down near one",
4. Buddha, Mahavira and Gosala revolted against the authority of Vedas.
5. Nalanda was a great Vedic educational centre.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. i) Sanskrit education focused on Vedas, Upanishads, Dharma Sastras and epics
   ii) In Varanasi, teachers under the Gurukula system taught in their own houses.
   iii) Monasteries were built on the models of universities.
   iv) Under the Gurukula system the teachers were supported by the endowments of the kings.

   a) i) and ii) are correct b) ii) and iv) are correct
   c) iii) and iv) are correct d) i) and iii) are correct

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Write about the reference to importance given to education in *Purananuru.*
2. Highlight the contribution of Jains to Tamil literature.
3. What do you know about Nalanda University?
4. Point out the essence of Islamic education in Medieval India.
5. What is Gandhiji's Wardha Scheme of Education?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Discuss the essential features of learning in Jaina and Buddhist monasteries.
2. Attempt a brief account of the famous Minute of Macaulay.
3. What were the institutions founded to strengthen Science and Technology by the Indian government in the post-independence context?
4. Highlight the important recommendations of Kothari Commission.

VIII HOTs

1. Assess the role of Christian missionaries in the development of modern education in the British India.

IX Mark the following places on the outline map of India

1.	Nalanda	6.	Delhi
2.	Tiruchirappalli	7.	Varanasi
3.	Madurai	8.	Bombay
4.	Kanchipuram	9.	Calcutta
5.	Vikramshila	10.	Chennai

X Project and Activity

1. Collect the pictures of educational centres of learning, Vedic, Jainas, Buddhists, Islamic, in Ancient and Medieval India and prepare an album.

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 56 25-01-2025 10.42.00 AM

2. Conduct a debate in the class for and against the British system of Education.

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ICT CORNER

Development of Education in India

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
Step – 2 Type 'Education in India' in the search box
Step – 3 Explore the Timeline Events with Pictorial Descriptions.

Web URL: https://www.timetoast.com/categories

*Pictures are indicatives only.

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

Unit-5 HISTORY.indd 57 25-01-2025 10.42.01 AM

Unit - 6

Development of Industries in India

Learning Objectives

- Acquit with the traditional crafts of India.
- Analyse the causes for the decline of Indian industries.
- Understand the beginning of modern industries.
- Know the aim of five-year plans.
- Understand the phases of industrial development in India.

EAUH7

Introduction

The history of Indian industry perhaps dates back to the history of humankind. India's traditional economy was characterised by a blend of agriculture and handicrafts. According to Edward Baines, 'The birthplace of cotton manufacture is India, where it probably flourished long before the dawn of authentic history.' Bernier, who visited India during the reign of Mughal emperor Shah Jahan, marvelled at the incredible quantity of manufactured goods. Tavernier, a French traveller, admired the peacock throne, carpets of silk and gold as well as mini carvings.

Traditional Crafts of India

The crafts in India has a rich history. Crafts were an integral part in the life of the people. Before arrival of mechanised industry, the production of Indian handicrafts was the second-largest source of employment in rural India next to agriculture. The traditional Indian industry was known in the fields of textiles, woodwork, ivory, stone cutting, leather, fragrance wood, metal work and jewellery. The village artisans such as potters, weavers, smiths produced articles and utensils for domestic use. But some specialised goods were produced for domestic and international markets. Some of such specialised goods produced were cotton textiles, muslin, wool, silk and metal articles. India was famous for its fine quality of cotton and silk clothes. There are references made in many scholarly works to the professions of the weaver, the tailor and the dyer. Certain centres of metal industry were quite well known. For example, Saurashtra (Gujarat) was known for bell metal, Vanga (Bengal) for tin industry and Dacca was identified with muslin clothes.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 58 25-01-2025 10.44.23 AM

The muslin of Dacca

Mummies in Egyptian tombs dating from 2000 BC (BCE) were found wrapped in Indian muslins of the finest quality.

A 50 metres of this thin fabric could be squeezed into a match box.

Decline of Indian Industries

a. Loss of Royal Patronage

The British conquest transformed Indian economy (self-reliant) into colonial economy.

As the British conquered the Indian territories one after another, the native rulers, the nobles and the landlords lost their power and prosperity. The demand for the fine articles to be displayed in durbars and other ceremonial occasions disappeared. As a result, the craftsmen who were patronised by these rulers lost their importance and became poor. For generations, these craftsmen had been practising their crafts and they did not possess any other skills. So they had to work as labourers in fields to meet their daily needs. This change resulted in increased pressure on agriculture and there was large-scale under-employment in agriculture. The substitution of commercial food crops in agriculture ruined the Indian agro-based industry. The splendid period of indigenous handicraft industries came to an end as the political influence of the East India Company spread over various parts of the country.

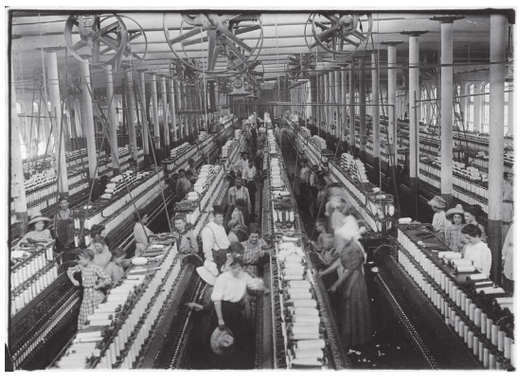
b. Transition from producer to exporter of raw materials

Indian handicrafts that had made the country famous, collapsed under the colonial rule. This was mainly due to the competition posed by the machine-made goods that were imported from Britain by the British rulers. The ruling British turned India into the producer of raw materials for their industries and markets for their finished products. Moreover, the railways and roadways introduced by the British facilitated the movement of finished products to reach the remotest parts of India and the procurement of raw materials from these parts.

Steam Engine

c. Competition of Machine-Made Goods

Textile was the oldest industry in India. The highly specialised skills of Indian weavers and the low production cost gave a tough competition to the European manufactures. It led to the invention of cottongin, flying shuttle, spinning jenny and steam engine in England, which made the production of textiles on large scale. India became the market for the finished products of Britain. As a result, peasants who had supplemented their income by part-time spinning and weaving had to now rely only on cultivation. So they lost their livelihood. Moreover, the Indian goods made with primitive techniques could not compete with industrial goods made in England.



Textile industry

The Drain Theory of Dadabai Naoroji

Dadabai Naoroji was the first to acknowledge that the poverty of the Indian people was due to the British exploitation of India's resources and the drain of India's wealth to the Britain.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 59 25-01-2025 10.44.24 AM

d. Trading policy of the British

All the policies implemented by the British government in India had a deep impact on India's indigenous industries. Free trade policy followed by the East India Company compelled the Indian traders to sell their goods below the market prices. This forced many craftsmen to abandon their ancestral handicraft talents. The East India Company's aim was to buy the maximum quantity of Indian manufactured goods at the cheapest price and sell them to other European countries for a huge profit. This affected the traditional Indian industry. The British followed the policy of protective tariffs that was much against the trading interests of India. Heavy duties were charged on Indian goods in Britain,but at the same time, the English goods entering India were charged only nominal duties.

e. De-Industrialisation

During the first half of 19th century, western countries were experiencing industrialisation, while India suffered a period of industrial decline.

The process of disruption of traditional Indian crafts and decline in national income has been referred to as de-industrialisation.

The Indian domestic industry could not have withstood foreign competition, which was backed by a powerful industrial organisation, big machinery, large-scale production. The difficulties in Indian industries were complicated further by the construction of Suez Canal, because of which transport cost was reduced, which made the British goods cheaper in India. The main cause for the decline of handicraft industry was the greater employment opportunities and income-generating effect of the modern factory.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 60 25-01-2025 10.44.24 AM

Beginning of Modern Industries

The process of industrialisation started in India from the mid-19th century. The beginning of modern industry is associated with the development mainly in plantations like jute, cotton and also steel. There was a limited development of mining, especially coal. The accelerated industrialisation began with the development of railways and roadways. This growth greatly influenced the economic and social life of people in the country. The two World Wars gave an impetus to the development of a number of industries, such as chemical, iron and steel, sugar, cement, glass and other consumer goods. Most mills were setup by wealthy Indian businessmen. Initially, this development was confined to the setting up of cotton and jute textile mills.

SW07K

a. Plantation Industries

The plantation industry was the first to attract the Europeans. The plantation industry could provide jobs on a large scale, and in reality, it could meet the increasing demands for tea, coffee and indigo by the British society. Therefore, plantation industry was started early on. The Assam Tea Company was founded in 1839. Coffee plantation also started simultaneously. As the tea plantation was the most important industry of Eastern India, coffee plantation became the centre of activities in South India. The third important plantation, which gave birth to factories, was jute. All these industries were controlled by the many former employees of the British East India Company.

b. Machine-based Industries

Tea plantation

In India, modern industrial sector in an organized form started with the establishment of cotton textile industry in Bombay in 1854. In 1855, jute industry was started in the Hooghly valley at Rishra near Calcutta. The first paper mill was started in Ballygunj near Calcutta in 1870. The cotton mills were dominated by Indian enterprises and the jute mills were owned by the British capitalists. Cotton mills were opened in Bombay and Ahmedabad, and jute mills proliferated on the Hooghly river banks. The woollen and leather factories became prominent in Kanpur.

c. Heavy Industries

The heavy industries included the iron and steel industry. Steel was first manufactured by modern methods at Kulti in 1874. Iron and steel industries began rooting in the Indian soil in the beginning of 20th century. However, the credit for the development of large-scale manufacture of steel in India goes to Jamshedji Tata. The Tata Iron and Steel Company (TISCO) was set up in 1907 at Jamshedpur. It started producing pig iron in 1911 and steel ingots in 1912.

TISCO - Jamshedpur

Growth of Modern Industries

The length of railways increased from 2,573 km in 1861 to 55,773 km in 1914. The opening of the Suez Canal also shortened the distance between Europe and India by about 4,830 km. This reduced distance facilitated further industrialisation of India. As a result of Swadeshi Movement, the cotton mills increased from 194 to 273 and jute mills from 36 to 64.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 61 25-01-2025 10.44.24 AM

The British had consolidated their power in India and thereby attracted a large number of foreign entrepreneurs and capital particularly from England. Foreign capitalists were attracted to Indian industry as it held the prospect of high profit. Labour was extremely cheap. Raw materials were cheaply available. India and its neighbours provided a ready market.

Confederation of Indian Industry (CII)

The Confederation of Indian Industry is a business association in India. CII is a non-government, not-for-profit, industry-led and industry-managed organisation. It was founded in 1985. It has over 9,000 members from the private, as well as public sectors, including small and medium enterprises (SMEs) and multinational corporations (MNCs).

Industrial Growth in India

To realise the dream of development of industries, the Indian government adopted certain industrial policies and Five-Year Plans. One of the most important innovations in the industrial field after the independence has been the introduction of the Five-Year Plans and the direct participation in industry by the government as expressed in the Industrial Policy Resolution of 1948. This Resolution delineated the role of the state in the industrial development both as an entrepreneur and as an authority. As per the Industrial Policy Resolution 1956, industries were classified into three categories:

Schedule A: Only the Government can handle these industries. Some of these are atomic energy, electrical, iron and steel and others.

Schedule B: These comprise road and sea transportation, machine tools, aluminium, chemicals including plastics and fertilisers, ferro alloys and certain types of mining.

Schedule C: Under this category, the remaining industries are left to the private sector.

Classification of Industries

- On the basis of raw materials used, industries can be classified into agro-based and mineral-based. According to their role, they can be classified into basic and key industries.
- On the basis of ownership, they can be classified into public sector, private sector, joint sector and co-operative sector.

Phases of Industrial development in India

a. Industrial development during 1950s to1965

During this phase, a majority of consumer goods were produced in India. The industrial sector was underdeveloped with weak infrastructure. Technical skills were in short supply. The first three Five-Year Plans were very important because their aim was to build a strong industrial base in independent India. These plans mostly focused on the development of capital goods sector. As a result, this phase witnessed a strong acceleration in the growth rate of production.

b. Industrial development during 1965–1980

As the first three Five-Year Plans mostly focused on the development of the capital goods sector, the consumer goods sector was neglected. The consumer goods sector is the backbone of rural economy. As the result, there was a fall in the growth rate of industrial production. So this period is marked as the period of structural retrogression.

c. Industrial Development during 1980s till 1991

The period of the 1980s can be considered as the period of the industrial recovery. This period witnessed quite a healthy industrial growth.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 62 25-01-2025 10.44.25 AM

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d. Industrial Development Post 1991 Reforms

The year 1991, ushered a new era of the economic liberalisation. India took a major decision to improve the performance of the industrial sector. The Tenth and Eleventh Five-Year Plans witnessed a high growth rate of industrial production. The abolition of industrial licensing, dismantling of price controls, dilution of reservation of small-scale industries and virtual abolition of monopoly law enabled Indian industry to flourish. The new policy welcomed foreign investments.

Modernisation

India has now a large variety of industries producing goods of varied nature, which shows a high degree of modernisation. Some modern industries have really grown and they are competing effectively with the outside world. This has reduced our dependence greatly on foreign experts and technologists. On the contrary, India is exporting trained personnel to relatively less developed countries.

The term information technology includes computer and communication technology along with software. Along with the three-sector model of primary, secondary and tertiary industries, a fourth sector, information-related industries, has emerged. The knowledge economy depicts the automation of labour-intensive manufacturing and service activities, as well as growth in new service industries such as healthcare, distance education, software production, multimedia and entertainment.

Self-Reliance

Another positive aspect of industrial growth is the attainment of the goal of self-reliance. We have achieved self-reliance in machinery, plant and other equipment. Today, the bulk equipment required for industrial and infrastructural development is produced within the country.

The Indian road network has become one of the largest in the world. Government efforts led to the expansion of the network of National Highways, State highways and major district roads, which in turn has directly contributed to industrial growth.

As India needs power to drive its growth engine, it has triggered a noteworthy improvement of availability of energy. After almost seven decades of independence, India has emerged as the third largest producer of electricity in Asia.

Conclusion

Industrialisation is an important component of economic growth. India's industrial expansion over the plan period presents a mixed picture. Compared to the pre-independence level, industrial growth during the Five-Year plan periods is phenomenal.

Recap

- The history of Indian Industry dates back to the history of humankind.
- The crafts in India have a rich history.
- Indian handicrafts that had made the country famous, collapsed under the Colonial rule.

GLOSSARY

incredible	unbelievable	நம்பமுடியாத
indigenous	native	உள்நாட்டு
acceleration	increasing the speed	விரைவுப்படுத்துதல்
swadeshi	produced within this country	உள்நாட்டு உற்பத்திப்பொருள்
entrepreneur	businessman	தொழில் முனைவோர்
retrogression	to return to older	பின்னோக்கிச் செல்லுதல்

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 64 25-01-2025 10.44.25 AM

- The process of industrialisation started in India from the mid of 19th Century.
- In India modern industrial sector in an organised form started with the establishment of cotton textile industry.
- Confederation of Indian Industry is a non-government, not-for-profit, industry-led and industry-managed organisation.

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Which of the following activities of the people will not come under handicraft?
   a) Carving statues out of stone
   b) Making bangles with glass
   c) Weaving silk sarees
   d) Smelting of iron
2. The oldest industry in India was _____ industry.
   a) Textile b) Steel
   c) Electrical d) Fertilizers
3. The woollen and leather factories became prominent in _____
   a) Bombay b) Ahmadabad
   c) Kanpur d) Dacca
4. What was the aim of first Three Five-year Plans of India?
   a) To control population growth
   b) To reduce illiteracy rate
   c) To built a strong industrial base
   d) To empower the women
5. What was not the reason for the decline of Indian industries?
   a) Loss of royal patronage
   b) Competition of machine made goods
   c) Industrial policy of India
   d) Trading policy of British

II Fill in the blanks

1. _____ was the integral part in the life of the people.
2. Industrial revolution took place in _____.
3. The Assam Tea Company was founded in _____.
4. Jute industry was started in the Hoogly Valley at _____ near Calcutta.
5. _____ shortened the distance between Europe and India.

III Match the following

1.	Tavernier	-	Drain Theory
2.	Dacca	-	Paper mill
3.	Dadabai Naoroji	-	Artisan
4.	Ballygunj	-	Muslin
5.	Smiths	-	French traveller

IV State True or False

1. India was famous for cotton and silk clothes.
2. The railway was introduced in India by the British.
3. Steel was first manufactured by modern methods at Jamshedpur.
4. The industrial policy of 1948, brought mixed economy in industrial sector.
5. The tenth and eleventh five-year plans witnessed a high growth rate of agricultural production.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. Which of the following statements are correct?
   i) According to Edward Baines, 'The birth place of cotton manufacture is in England'.
   ii) Before mechanised industry, handicraft was the second largest source of employment in rural India.
   iii) Saurashtra was known for tin industry.

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 65 25-01-2025 10.44.25 AM

iv) Construction of Suez Canal made the British goods cheaper in India.

a) i and ii are correct
b) ii and iv are correct
c) iii and iv are correct
d) i, ii and iii are correct

2. **Assertion (A):** Indian handicrafts collapsed under the colonial rule.
   Reason (R) : British made India as the producer of raw materials and markets for their finished products.

   a) A is correct R is correct explanation of A
   b) A is correct and R is not the correct explanation of A
   c) Both A and R are correct
   d) Both A and R are wrong

3. Which one of the following is wrongly matched?

   a) Bernier - Shajahan
   b) Cotton mill - Ahmadabad
   c) TISCO - Jamshedpur
   d) Economic Liberalisation - 1980

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. What are the traditional handicrafts industries of India?
2. Write about the drain theory.
3. Name the inventions which made the production of textiles on large scale.
4. Write a short note on Confederation of Indian Industry.
5. What is de-industrialisation?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. How was the trading policy of the British caused for the decline of the Indian industries?
2. Write in detail about the plantation industries.
3. Explain industrial development after 1991 reforms.

VIII HOTs

1. How do handicraft products differ from machine made products?

IX Mark the following places on the outline map of India

1. Bombay
2. Calcutta
3. Dacca
4. Jamshedpur
5. Rishra
6. Ahmadabad
7. Kanpur
8. Kulti
9. New Delhi
10. Assam

X Project and Activity

1. Name the industries in your state and divide them into agro-based, metal-based and forest-based.
2. Prepare a project on air, water, and land pollution due to the industrial development in India.
3. Make a power point presentation on the industrial development of India and highlight the main features of those developments.

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3. *India 1995 - A reference Annual,* Publications Division

INTERNET RESOURCES

- http://www.suezcanal.gov.eg
- http://www.cii.in

Unit-6 HISTORY.indd 66 25-01-2025 10.44.25 AM

Unit - 7

Urban changes during the British period

Learning Objectives

- Understand the growth and development of towns in ancient and medieval - periods.
- Analyse the nature and feature of urbanization under the British period.
- Learn about the emergence of new urban centres such as Cantonments, hill stations and port cities.
- Trace the origin and growth of Madras (Chennai).

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Introduction

The evolution of towns (urban settlements) has occurred in different ways and in different stages. Towns flourished since pre-historic times in India. Towns in India can be classified into ancient towns, medieval towns and modern towns.

Ancient Towns

In ancient times, towns emerged in and around the residential places of kings with its locations being easily accessible to sea and rivers for trade. Most of them developed as administrative, religious and cultural centres. Harappa, Mohenjadaro, Varanasi, Allahabad and Madurai are well-known ancient towns.

Medieval towns

During medieval times, most of the towns developed as headquarters of principalities and kingdoms. They functioned as either fort city or port city. Important among them are Delhi, Hyderabad, Jaipur, Lucknow, Agra and Nagpur.

Modern towns

The arrival of Europeans brought new changes in the development of towns. They first developed some coastal towns such as Surat, Daman, Goa and Pondicherry. The British, after consolidating their power in India developed three main cities - Mumbai, Chennai and Kolkata as their administrative headquarters and trading centres. With the extension of domination, they developed new towns, depending on its location, purpose and resources. The newly developed towns were known differently as hill towns, industrial towns, court towns, railway station towns, cantonments and administrative towns.

Unique features of urbanisation under the British

I. De-industrialisation

In the beginning of the eighteenth century, the policies of the British proved harmful to the process of urbanisation. Later, the economic policies followed by the British led to the rapid transformation of India's economy into a colonial economy and development of cities.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 67 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

With the help of one–way free trade predominance of the British, Indian manufacturing industries were destroyed. The effect of complete destruction of the Indian manufacturing industries led to the ruin of millions of artisans and craftsmen. There was a sudden collapse of the urban handicrafts industry which had for centuries, made India's name in the markets of the entire civilised world.

Towns and cities long famed for their specialized products faced a continually shrinking market. As a result, old populous manufacturing towns such as Dacca, Murshidabad, Surat and Lucknow lost their former importance. The entire industrial structure crashed down due to stiff competition of imported goods.

The traditional industrial base of Indian cities, established by the indigenous handicraft production was destroyed by industrial revolution. The high import duties and other restrictions imposed on the import of Indian goods into the Britain and the Europe led to the decline of Indian industries. Thus, India became an agricultural colony of Britain.

II. De-urbanisation

The transformation of India's economy into a colonial one – a market for the manufactures and source for the supply of the raw materials to British industries hit hard at the industrial and commercial bases of a number of towns.

The gradual erosion of kings' power led to the demise of towns associated with their rule. Agra, once an imperial city in the first quarter of the 19th century was surrounded by extensive ruins all around. The native rulers lost their kingdoms to the British by means of various policies of the colonial power.

Another factor which contributed to the decline of the urban centres of the pre- British period was the introduction of the network of railroads in India since 1853.The introduction of the railways resulted in the diversion of trade routes and every railway station became a point of export for raw materials. The railways enabled the British manufactures to reach every nook and corner of the country and uprooted traditional industries in the villages of the country.

III. The Growth of New Urban Centres

The British developed new centres of trade such as Calcutta, Madras and Bombay on the eastern and western coastal areas. Madras (1639), Bombay (1661) and Calcutta (1690) - cities largely created and fortified by the British. All those were once fishing and weaving villages. In these locations, they built their homes, shops and churches, as well as their commercial and administrative headquarters.

From the mid-eighteenth century, there was a new phase of change. As the British gradually acquired political control after the Battle of Plassey in 1757, the trade of English East India Company expanded.

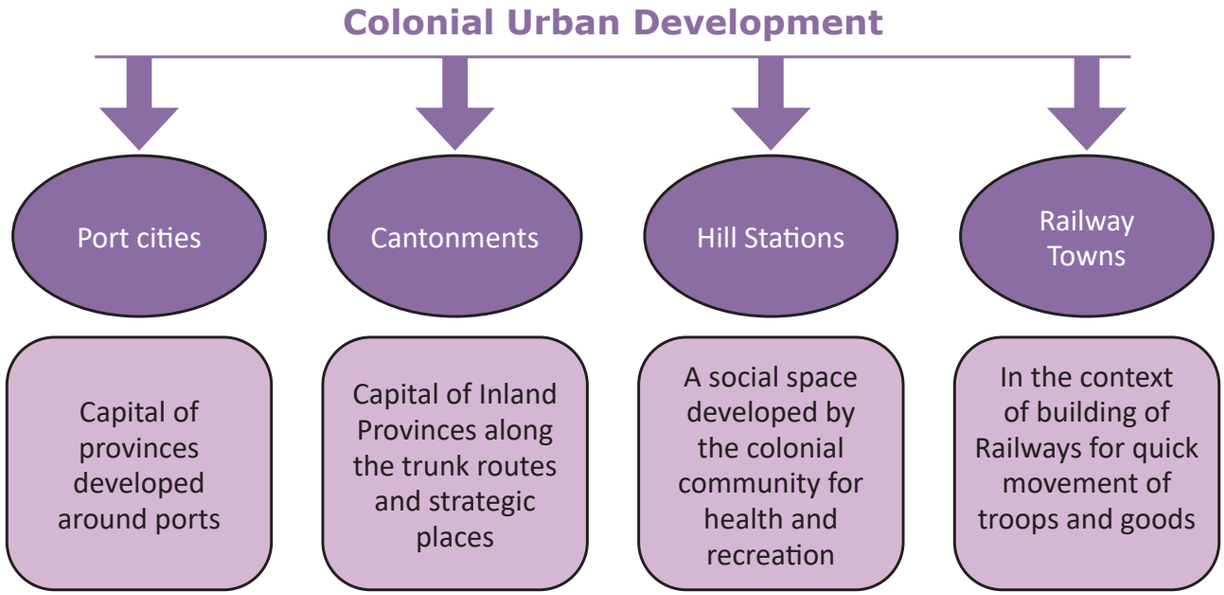
A new trend of urbanisation began in the latter half of the nineteenth century as a result of the opening of Suez Canal, introduction of steam navigation, construction of railways, canals, harbours, growth of industries, coal mining, tea plantation, banking, shipping and insurance. Changes in the networks of trade were reflected in the development of urban centres.

An urban area is one that has a high population density engaged in occupations other than food production, living in a highly developed environment.

a. Port cities

The British arrived in India for trading. Madras, Calcutta and Bombay became the important ports. They played important role in trade. These cities became the prominent commercial areas with tall European – styled buildings. The English East India Company built its factories and fortified them for the protection of their settlements. Fort St. George in Madras and Fort William in Calcutta were the best examples.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 68 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM



Fort William in Calcutta

b. Cantonment towns

The British occupied the Indian territories and political power by their military force. So they needed strong military camps and established the cantonments. Thus, the cantonments were an entirely new kind of urban centres. Army people began to live in these places and gradually, they grew into cities, e.g., Kanpur and Lahore.

c. Hill stations

Hill stations were distinctive features of colonial urban development. Although hill stations existed before the British era in India, they were a few and had a small population and were often visited for specific purpose. For e.g., Srinagar was a Mughal recreational centre, Kedarnath and Badrinath were Hindu religious centres. The British coming from a cool temperate climate, found the Indian summer season inhospitable. So the cool climate of Indian hills was seen as protective and advantageous. It protected the Europeans from hot weather and epidemics. As a result, they built the alternative capitals in cool areas, such as Darjeeling (as an alternative to Calcutta) and Dehradun (as an alternative to Delhi). Hill stations became strategic places for billeting troops, guarding frontiers and launching campaigns. Hill stations were developed both in North and South India, e.g., Simla, Nainital, Darjeeling, Ootacamund and Kodaikanal. Simla (Shimla) was founded during the Gurkha war (1814-16). Darjeeling was acquired from the rulers of Sikkim in 1835. These hill stations were also developed as sanatoriums (places for soldiers to rest and recover from illness). The introduction of railways made hill stations more accessible.

d. Railway towns

Railway towns were also a type of urban settlements and were established in 1853 after the introduction of railways by the British. By the nature of railway transport, all the rail towns were located on the plains, e.g., Chennai, Mumbai and Kolkata.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 69 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

Creation of Municipalities and Corporation

The development of local government in the British India can be traced in three distinct phases.

a. First phase (1688-1882)

Municipal government in India has been existing since 1688 with the formation of Madras Municipal Corporation with a Mayor. Sir Josiah Child, one of the Directors of the East India Company was responsible for the formation of the Corporation. The Charter Act of 1793, established Municipal administration in the three presidency towns. According to the provisions of the Act of 1850, municipalities were formed in North Western Frontier provinces, Oudh and Bombay. Lord Mayo's famous Resolution of 1870 intended to afford opportunities for the development of self-government.

b. Second phase (1882-1920)

Ripon's Resolution on Local Self–Government was a landmark in the history of local self-government. So Ripon is rightly regarded as the Father of Local Self–Government in India and his Resolution was known as the Magna–Carta of Local Self-Government.

c. Third phase (1920-1950)

The Government of India Act of 1919 introduced Dyarchy in the provinces. The Government of India Act of 1935 introduced Provincial Autonomy. With the attainment of Independence in 1947 India had the unique opportunity of making and moulding local government to meet the needs of the free nation.

Administration of the Presidency Towns

Towards the close of the eighteenth century, a Parliamentary statute authorized the Governor-General to appoint justices of peace in these towns. After various trials a system of government was evolved for the three presidency towns which had the essential features like a large corporation with elected members, a strong independent executive authority with adequate safeguards for checking accounts and statutory provision for the performance of essential duties such as sanitation, water supply and collection of revenue, etc.

Origin and Growth of Madras

The beginning of the city of Madras dates back to the earliest stages of British commercial enterprise in India. The English East India Company was started in 1600 A.D. (C.E.). Twelve years later, a Factory was set up at Surat on the West coast. Subsequently the search for textiles brought British merchants to establish a port on the east coast.

> Presently Fort St. George is the power centre of Tamil Nadu State Government, extending across 172 sq. km (66 sq. miles)

The English, after some efforts secured the privilege of building a factory at Masulipatnam. It was well protected from the monsoon winds. But then, Masulipatnam was in the throes of a famine. In spite of every assurance of protection, English trade did not thrive at that place.

Then the English traders looked for a new site. Francis Day, the member of the Masulipatnam council and the chief of the Armagon Factory, made a voyage of exploration in 1637 with a view to choose a site for a new settlement. At last, he was given the offer to choose Madrasapatnam. Francis Day inspected the place and found it favourable to set up a factory.

The official grant for the land was given by Damarla Venkatapathy Nayak, the deputy of the Raja of Chandragiri (12 km west of Tirupathi). Damarla gave the British a piece of land between the Cooum River and the Egmore. In 1639 the deed was signed by English East India Company's Francis Day accompanied by his interpreter

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 70 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

Fort St. George

Beri Thimmappa and superior Andrew Cogan. By this Francis Day and Andrew Cogan (the chief of the Masulipatnam Factory), was granted permission to establish a factory – cum - trading post and a fort at Madrasapatnam in 1639. This fortified settlement came to be known as Fort St. George settlement. It is otherwise referred to as the White Town. While the nearby villages inhabited by local population were called as the Black Town. Collectively the White Town and the Black Town were called Madras.

Madrasapatnam

Damarla Venkatapathy gave the English the grant of Madrasapatnam. He was under the control of Venkatapathy Rayalu, the Rajah of Chandragiri. Venkatapathy was succeeded by Srirangarayalu in 1642. He issued a new grant to the English in 1645 called Srirangarayapatnam. Venkatapathy desired that the name Chennapatnam should be given to the new Fort and settlement of the English after his father Chennappa Nayak. But the English preferred to call the two united towns by the name of Madrasapatnam.

Making of Chennai

Chennai was once a group of villages set amidst palm fringed paddy fields until two English East India Company merchants visited there. Raja Mahal in Chandragiri palace, where Sir Francis Day of the East India Company was granted land in 1639 in order to set up factory which later came to be known as Madras. This first factory was completed on St. George's Day, 23 April 1640 and named Fort St. George. Day and Cogan were jointly responsible for the construction of Fort St. George. This was the East India Company's principal settlement until 1774.

The first building to be seen on entering the Fort through the Sea Gate is the seat of the Government of Tamil Nadu. These impressive buildings built between 1694 and 1732 are among the oldest surviving British Construction in India.

The Madras presidency was an administrative sub division which was referred to as the Madras province. The Madras presidency during the British regime covered a vast expanse of the southern part of India that encompasses modern day Tamil Nadu, the Lakshadweep Island, Northern Kerala, Rayalaseema, coastal Andhra, districts of Karnataka and various districts of southern Odisha.

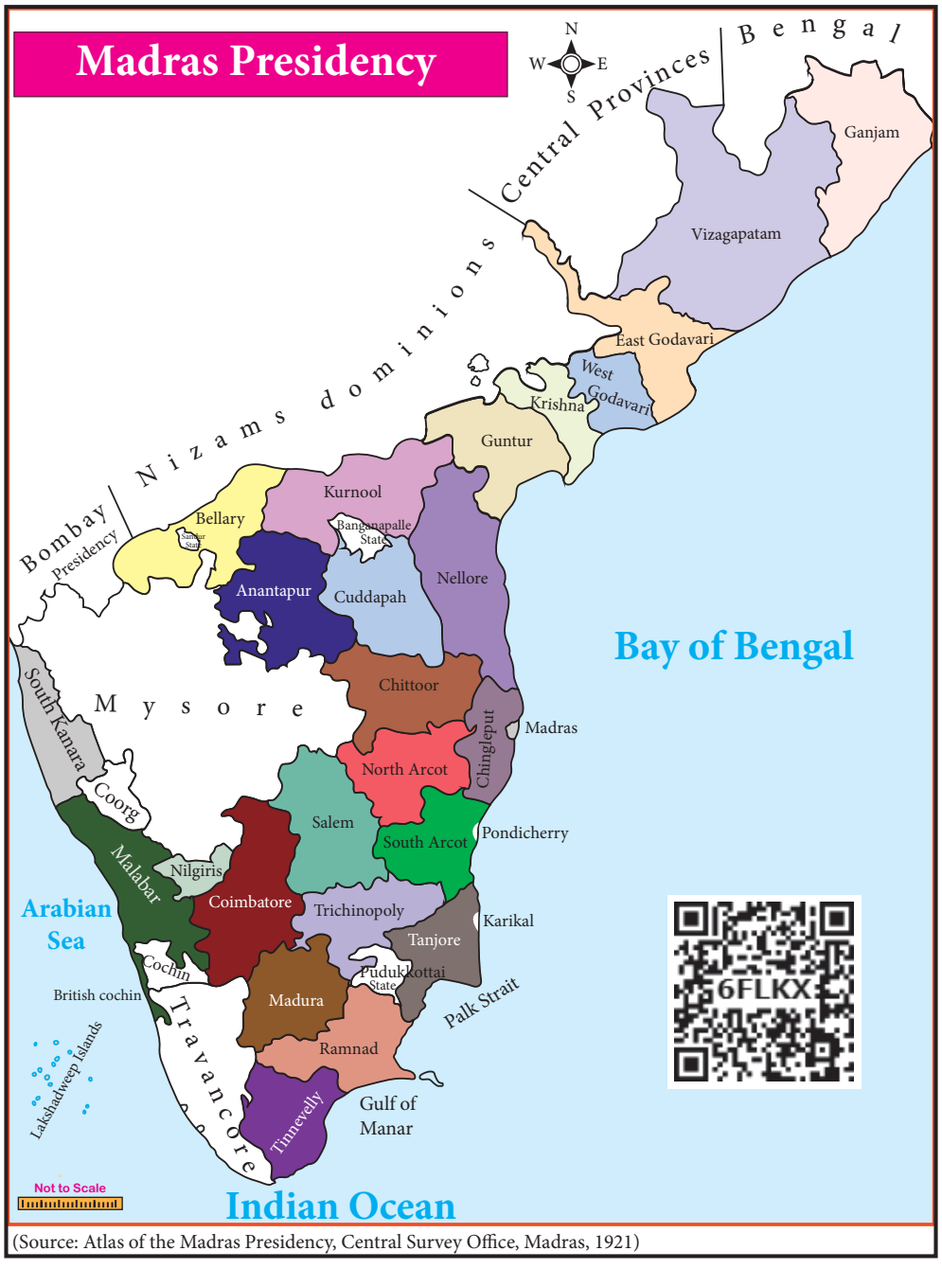
Dalhousie Square in Calcutta and Fort St. George in Madras were close to the central commercial area and had massive buildings which were British variants of Roman styles.

After independence in 1947 the Madras presidency became the state of Madras and the other regions that were a part of the erstwhile presidency were constituted in separate states of Andhra Pradesh, Kerala and Mysore under the States Reorganisation Act, 1956. Later on in 1969 the State of Madras was rechristened as Tamil Nadu. On 17th July 1996, Madras was officially renamed as Chennai.

Bombay

Bombay was initially seven islands. It was under the control of the Portuguese from 1534 onwards. Portuguese king gave it as a dowry to Charles II of England when he married the former's sister in 1661. The King leased it to the East India Company. The city of Bombay began to grow when the East India Company started

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 71 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM



(Source: Atlas of the Madras Presidency, Central Survey Office, Madras, 1921)

using Bombay as its main port in Western India. In 1687, the English East India Company transferred its headquarters from Surat to Bombay.

Calcutta

In 1690, the English merchants founded a settlement at Sutanati. In 1698, they secured Zamindari rights over Sutanati, Calcutta and Gobindpur. The company established Fort William in Calcutta. Calcutta became a Presidency with a Governor and Council to manage its affairs.

Conclusion

The British empire gradually consolidated and established an elaborate spatial structure of administration with an imperial capital, provincial capitals and district headquarters. The new rulers brought new officials, new institutions and new structure to these towns with a kacheri, cantonment, police station, jail treasury. Public garden, post office, schools, dispensary and above all a municipal committee.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 72 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

Thus in course of time, administrative headquarters emerged as the most important towns and cities of the country. For example, by the beginning of the 20th century, Calcutta, Bombay and Madras had become the leading administrative commercial and industrial cities of India. These cities became the central commercial area with buildings of European style. Suburban railways, tram cars and city buses gave the colonial cities a new look and status.

Recap

- The evolution of urban settlements has occurred in different ways and in different stages.
- In ancient times towns emerged around the king's palaces. During medieval times the towns functioned either as fort city or port city.
- With the extension of domination British developed new towns depending on its location, purpose and resources.
- In the late 18th century Calcutta, Bombay and Madras rose as Presidency cities.
- Chennai was once a group of villages. Sir Francis Day of the East India Company was granted land in 1639 to set up a factory which later came to be known as Chennai.
- On 17th July 1996, Madras was officially renamed as Chennai.

GLOSSARY

Cantonment	a military station in British India	இராணுவ முகாம்
Urbanisation	the process of making an area more urban	நகரமயமாதல்
Municipality	a town or district that has local government	நகராட்சி
Dyarchy	government by two independent authorities	இரட்டையாட்சி
Rechristened	give a new name to	பெயரிடப்பட்டது
Treasury	a place or building where treasure is stored	கருவூலம்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Ancient towns are
   a) Harappa and Mohenjodaro
   b) Delhi and Hyderabad
   c) Bombay and Calcutta
   d) None of the above
2. Coastal towns developed by the British were
   a) Surat b) Goa
   c) Bombay d) All of these
3. A new trend of urbanisation began in the latter half of 19th century as a result of
   a) Opening of Suez Canal
   b) Introduction of steam navigation
   c) Construction of railways
   d) All the above
4. The British arrived in India
   a) for trading
   b) for preaching their religion
   c) for working
   d) for ruling

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 73 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

5. Fort St. George was constructed by the British in

   a) Bombay b) Cuddalore

   c) Madras d) Calcutta

6. Which of the following port was the East India Company's principal settlement until 1774?

   a) Fort William b) Fort St. David

   c) Fort St. George d) None of these

II Fill in the blanks

1. The network of railroads in India was introduced in _____.
2. _____ rightly regarded as the Father of Local Self - Government in India.
3. The Government of India Act of 1919 introduced _____ in the provinces.
4. _____ was responsible for the formation of the corporation.
5. Francis Day and Andrew Cogan got permission to establish a factory – cum trading post at Madrasapatnam in _____.

III Match the following

1.	Bombay	Religious centre
2.	Cantonment towns	Hill stations
3.	Kedarnath	Ancient town
4.	Darjeeling	Seven island
5.	Madurai	Kanpur

IV State true or false

1. Towns flourished since pre-historic times in India.
2. British acquired political control after the Battle of Plassey.
3. Fort William is in Madras.
4. Army people began to live in cantonments.
5. Madras was officially renamed as Chennai in 1998.

V. Choose the correct statement

1. **Assertion:** India became the agricultural colony of Britain.

   Reason: The one-way free trade policy followed by British and the Industrial revolution destroyed Indian indigenous industries.

   a) A is correct and R is Wrong

   b) A is wrong and R is Correct

   c) A is correct and R explains A

   d) A is correct and R does not explain A

2. Which of the following statement(s) is/are not true?

   i) Srirangarayalu gave the English the grant of Madrasapatnam.

   ii) Day and Cogan were jointly responsible for the construction of Fort St. George.

   iii) In 1969 the state of Madras was rechristened as Tamil Nadu.

   a) i only b) i and ii

   c) ii and iii d) iii only

3. **Assertion (A):** British built up their alternative capitals in hilly areas.

   Reason (R): They found the Indian summer inhospitable.

   a) A is correct and R is Wrong

   b) A is wrong and R is Correct

   c) A is correct and R explains A

   d) A is correct and R does not explain A

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. What is an urban area?
2. Hilly areas were distinctive features of colonial urban development. Why?
3. Name the three Presidency cities?
4. State any four reasons for the new trend of urbanization in the 19th century.
5. Write short note on Cantonment towns.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 74 25-01-2025 10.46.10 AM

6. What were the regions covered in the Madras presidency during British regime?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Describe the colonial urban development.
2. Trace the origin and growth of Madras.
3. India became an agricultural colony of Britain. How?

VIII Project and Activity

1. Make an album – 'Making of Chennai' (from early period till now)
2. Mark port cities, cantonment towns, hill stations on the outline map of India. (any four places from each)

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ICT CORNER

Urban changes during the British period

Through this activity you will visualize the historical atlas of the world

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.

Step – 2 Click the play button in left side on the screen.

Step – 3 Scroll down to explore the pictorial map with descriptions.

Web URL: https://www.zum.de/whkmla/region/india/xpresbengal.html

*Pictures are indicatives only.

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

Unit-7 HISTORY.indd 75 25-01-2025 10.46.11 AM

Unit - 8

Status of Women in India through the ages

Learning Objectives

To acquaint ourselves with

- The position of women in the ancient society.
- Deterioration in the status of women in medieval period.
- The major social evils prevalent in the Indian society.
- The Role of Reformers in the social evils eradication.
- Women emancipation through education.
- Social Legislations and Empowerment.

QJX04

Introduction

Generally, human society is constantly changing with additions, assimilations and omissions from within and outside. Women constitute half of the population. Therefore, it is imperative to have a historical understanding of the status of women through the ages.

The position of women differed with regional variations. In early Vedic period, women were respected. But with the passage of time their status in the society found deteriorated, particularly after the commencement of the settlement in Gangetic plain. They were subjected to subjugation and subordination. New social practices, customs and systems which crept into the society in turn put limitations and restrictions on the liberty of women.

During the British Raj, many socio-religious reformers like Raja Rammohan Roy, Dayananda Saraswathi, Keshab Chandra Sen, Iswara Chandra Vidyasagar, Pandita Ramabai, Dr. Muthulakshmi Ammaiyar, Jyoti Rao Phule, Periyar E.V.R, Dr. Dharmambal were the prominent leaders who fought for the upliftment of women. Raja Rammohan Roy's efforts led to the abolition of sati in 1829. Vidyasagar's crusade for the improvement in the condition of widows led to the passing of Widow Remarriage Act in 1856. The reformers rightly realized that female education as an emancipating agent in eradicating social evils. So they started girls' schools in various parts of the country, which brought significant changes in the lives of women.

Women played an important part in Indian freedom struggle. Until independence, there were no radical changes in the status of women. In independent India, last few decades have witnessed the all-round development of women. Women are now making their presence felt in every walk of life.

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 76 25-01-2025 10.47.30 AM

The position of women

a) Ancient Period

In the ancient Indus civilization of India, evidences show the worship of the mother goddess. Hence, the adoration for the mother is evident during that period. During the Rig Vedic period, it is believed that the position of wife was honoured and women's position was acknowledged, especially in the performance of religious ceremonies.

During later Vedic age, it witnessed a transitional development in the status of women restricting her role in the social life except in the performance of religious sacrifices. Her social and political freedom was restricted. Sati became popular during the later Vedic period where the widows either chose for themselves or were forced to jump into the pyre of their husbands. The patriarchal system became rigid. Women were denied the right to study Vedic scriptures.

b) Medieval Period

The position of women in the society further deteriorated during the medieval period and they suffered from many social evils such as sati, child marriages, female infanticide, and slavery. Normally, monogamy was in practice, but among the rich, polygamy was prevalent. 'Sati' was in practice particularly among the royal and upper strata of the society. Widow remarriage was rare. Devadasi system was in practice in some parts of India. Among the Rajputs of Rajastan, the Jauhar was practiced. The condition of widows became miserable during the medieval period. But we cannot ignore the fact that the Mughal ruler Akbar who attempted to abolish sati. In fact, very little attention was paid to female education.

Jauhar refers to the practice of collective voluntary immolation by wives and daughters of defeated Rajput warriors, in order to avoid capture and dishonour.

In spite of general determination, we can find some exceptions Razia Sultana, Queen Durgavati, Chand Bibi, Nurjahan, Jahannara, Jijabai and Mirabai.

During medieval times Women's education was not completely ignored, though no regular separate school seems to have existed. Female education was informal. Girls usually had their lessons from their parents in their childhood. The rich appointed tutors to teach their daughters at home. The daughters of Rajput chiefs and Zamindars studied literature and philosophy.

c) British Period

For centuries women in India had been subordinated to men and socially oppressed. The major effect of national awakening in the nineteenth century was seen in the field of social reform. The enlightened persons increasingly revolted against rigid social evils and outdated customs. Numerous individuals, reform societies and religious organisations worked hard to spread education among women, to encourage widow remarriage, to improve the living conditions of widows, to prevent child marriage, to enforce monogamy and to enable middle-class women to take up professions or public employment.

In the beginning of nineteenth century female literacy was extremely low when compared to male literacy. The Christian missionaries were the first to set up the Calcutta Female Juvenile Society in 1819. The Bethune school was founded in 1849 by J.E.D. Bethune, who was the president of the council of education in Calcutta.

Charles Wood's Despatch on education in 1854 laid a great stress on the need for female education. Indian Education Commission (Hunter) of 1882 recommended to start primary schools for girls, teacher-training institutions and suggested special scholarships and prizes for girls. In 1880's Indian women began to enter universities. They were also trained to become doctors and teachers. They

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 77 25-01-2025 10.47.30 AM

began to write books and magazines. In 1914, the women's medical service did a lot of work in training midwives. In the 1890s, D.K. Karve established a number of female schools in Poona. Prof D.K. Karve, Pandita Ramabai, made sincere effort to emancipate women through education was really remarkable. The Indian Women's University was started by Prof. D.K. Karve in 1916. It was an outstanding institution imparting education to women. In the same year Lady Hardinge Medical College was started in Delhi.

Major Social Evils

a) Female infanticide

Female infanticide was another inhuman practice afflicting the nineteenth century Indian society. It was particularly in vogue in Rajputana, Punjab and the North Western Provinces. It was mainly to avoid economic burden.

Factors such as family pride, dowry system the fear of not finding a suitable match for the girl child were some of the major reasons responsible for this practice. Therefore, immediately after birth, the female infants were killed.

The company administration in India took steps to ban this practice by passing the Bengal Regulatory Act XXI of 1795, the Regulating Act of 1802 and the Female Infanticide Act of 1870.

b) Female Foeticide

Female foeticide is also an inhuman practice which cuts across the caste, creed, class and regional boundaries. Whether it is female infanticide or female foeticide the prime motive remained the same. In order to ban the female foeticide and sex-determination the Central Government passed various Acts.

c) Child marriage

The practice of child marriage was another social disgrace for the women.

Akbar prohibited child marriage and made it obligatory for the parents to obtain the approval of both the bride and the bridegroom before the marriage. He prescribed 14 years as the age of constant for girls and 16 years for boys.

In 1846, the minimum marriageable age for a girl was only 10 years. The Native Marriage Act was passed in 1872. It fixed the minimum marriageable age of girls at 14 and boys at 18.

In 1930, the Central Legislative Assembly passed Rai Saheb Harbilas Sarada's Child Marriage Bill fixing the minimum marriageable age for boys at 18 and 14 for girls. It was later amended to 18 for girls and 21 for boys according to Hindu Marriage Act 1955.

d) Sati

Sati was a social evil that prevailed in Indian society, especially among the Rajputs. Earlier it was a voluntary act, but later the relatives forced the widow to sit on the funeral pyre. The Italian traveler, Niccolo Conti, who visited Vijayanagar about the year A.D. (C.E) 1420, notes that 'the inhabitants of this region marry as many wives as they please, who are burnt with their dead husbands'.

In the early years of 19th century, sati was in practice in various parts of Bengal, Western India and Southern India. In 1811, Jagan Mohan Roy, brother of Rammohan Roy, passed away and his wife was burnt along with him. Rammohan Roy was moved to the extreme at the sight of it and took an oath that he would have the cruel practice abolished by law. He carried on a continuous agitation through the press and platform for the abolition of sati.

Raja Rammohan Roy published his tracts in 1818-20, making the point that the rite of sati was not enjoined by the sastras. This material was used by the Serampore missionaries to shatter the generally accepted view that sati was an integral part of the Hindu religion.

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 78 25-01-2025 10.47.30 AM

Orthodox Hindu opinion against the abolition was advocated by Radhakanta Deb and Bhawani Charan Banerji.

When Lord William Bentinck took up the question of sati, he found that the abolition had been recommended by the judges of the criminal courts. He passed Regulation XVII on December 4, 1829 'declaring the practice of sati or burning or burying alive the widow of Hindus, illegal and punishable by Criminal Courts'. Similar legislative measures were enacted soon after in Bombay and Madras.

e) Devadasi System

The word Devadasi (Sanskrit) or Devaradiyal (Tamil) means "servant of God" dancing girl dedicated to the service of god in a temple. Devadasi system was a social evil. There was also a tradition of dedicating one daughter to the temple. In addition to taking care of the temple, they learned and practiced Bharathanatiyam and other classical traditional Indian arts.

Later on, they were ill-treated and humiliated. The Devadasis lost their dignity, sense of pride, self-respect and honour.

Dr. Muthulakshmi Ammaiyar who was the first woman doctor in India, dedicated herself for the cause of abolishing the cruel practice of Devadasi system from Tamil Nadu. Appreciating her role in the agitation against the Devadasi system she was nominated to the Tamil Nadu legislative council in 1929. Periyar E.V. Ramasamy was instrumental in passing the "Devadasi abolition bill". Dr. Muthulakshmi Ammaiyar proposed the bill to the Madras legislative council in 1930.

Moovalur Ramamirdham was yet another woman who fought for the emancipation of the Devadasi. With the continuous moral support rendered by Rajaji, Periyar and Thiru.Vi.Ka, she raised slogan against this cruel practice. As a result the government passed the "Devadasi Abolition Act".

The Madras Devadasi Act was a law that was enacted on 9th October 1947. The law was passed in the Madras presidency and gave Devadasis the legal right to marry and made it illegal to dedicate girls to Indian temples.

Role of Social Reformers

From the second half of the nineteenth century, a number of social reformers and social reform movements sought to promote the upliftment of women by giving them education, raising their marriageable age and taking care of widows, as well as to remove the rigidity of caste and raise the suppressed class to a status of equality. The reformers who led the movements were the forerunners of modern India.

a) Raja Rammohan Roy

There were some enlightened Indians who supported the British attempt to reform the oppressive social order of India. The first was the abolition of sati by law, on humanitarian grounds. Raja Rammohan Roy, the pioneer of Indian social reform movement was a casteless crusader against sati after having seen this practice in the case of his own sister-in-law. He started his camping against this inhuman evil practice. Influenced by the ruthless attack of the movement led by Rammohan Roy the British government declared this act as "culpable Homicide". Raja Rammohan Roy is most remembered for helping Lord William Bentinck to declare the practice of sati a punishable offence in 1829. He also protested against the child marriage and female infanticide. He favoured the remarriage of widows, female education and women's right to property. Thus the evil practice of sati on any scale was wiped out.

b) Ishwar Chandra Vidhyasagar

Ishwar Chandra Vidhyasagar carried on the movement for female education, widow remarriage and abolition of polygamy in Bengal. He submitted petitions to this effect to the Indian

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 79 25-01-2025 10.47.31 AM

Legislative Council and to the passing of the Hindu Widow Remarriage Act in 1856. His son Narayanachandra set an example to others by marrying a widow of his choice. To promote female education, Vidhyasagar founded several girls' schools in the districts of Nadia, Midnapur, Hugli and Burdwan in Bengal.

c) Kandukuri Veeresalingam

Kandukuri Veeresalingam Pantulu was the earliest champion in South India of women's emancipation. He published a journal Viveka Vardhani. He opened his first girls' school in 1874 and made widow remarriage and female education the key points of his programme for social reform.

Kandukuri Veeresalingam

d) M.G. Ranade and B.M. Malabari

In Bombay presidency, M.G. Ranade and B.M. Malabari carried on the movement for the upliftment of women. In 1869, Ranade joined the Widow Remarriage Association and encouraged widow remarriage and female education and opposed child marriage. In 1887, he started the National Social Conference, which became a pre-eminent institution for social reform. In 1884, B.M. Malabari, a journalist, started a movement for the abolition of child marriage. He published pamphlets on this subject and appealed to the government to take action.

e) Gopal Krishna Gokhale

In 1905, Gopal Krishna Gokhale started the Servants of India Society which took up social reform measures such as primary education, female education and depressed classes' upliftment. The spread of female education further led to the participation of women in the freedom struggle.

Gopal Krishna Gokhale

f) Periyar E.V.R.

Periyar E.V.R. was one of the greatest social reformers of Tamil Nadu. He advocated women education, widow remarriage and inter-caste marriages and opposed child marriages.

g) Women Reformers

Most of the reform movements like Brahma Samaj (1828), Prarthana Samaj (1867) and Arya Samaj (1875) were led by male reformers who set the limit of the freedom and development of women. Women reformers like Pandita Ramabai, Rukhmabai and Tarabai Shinde tried to extend further. In 1889, Pandita Ramabai opened Sharada Sadan (Home of Learning) for Hindu widows in Bombay. It was later shifted to Poona. Her greatest legacy was her effort, the first in India, to educate widows. Theosophical society was established at Chennai and Dr. Annie Besant, who came from Europe and joined it. It also developed general social reform programme.

Dr. S. Dharmambal was another reformer who was very much influenced by the ideas of Periyar. She showed great interest in implementing widow remarriage and women education. Among them, 'Moovalur Ramamirdham Ammaiyar' raised her voice against Devadasi system along with Dr. Muthulakshmi Ammaiyar. In her memory, the Government of Tamil Nadu has instituted the "Moovalur Ramamirdha Ammal Ninaivu Marriage assistance scheme", a social welfare scheme to provide financial assistance to poor women as poverty was the root cause for all these evils. Thus, women reformers also contributed a lot for winning their own rights.

Moovalur Ramamirdham

Leading women realized the need of forming their own associations in order to safeguard their interests. As a result three major national women's organizations – Women's India Association, National Council of Women in India and the All India Women's Conference were founded.

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 80 25-01-2025 10.47.31 AM

Women in the freedom movement

Velunachiyar

In the early anti-colonial struggle women played major roles in various capacities. Velunachiyar of Sivaganga fought violently against the British and restored her rule in Sivaganga. Begum Hazrat Mahal, Rani Lakshmi Bai of Jhansi led an armed revolt of 1857 against the British.

In the freedom struggle, thousands of women came out of their homes, boycotted foreign goods, marched in processions, defied laws, received lathi charges and courted jails. Their participation in the struggle added a new dimension of mass character.

Impact of reform movement

- Significant advances were made in the field of emancipation of women.
- It created a national awakening among the masses.
- It created the feeling of sacrifice, service and rationalism.
- The practice of sati and infanticide were made illegal.
- It permitted widow remarriage.

Women in Independent India

Women in India now participate in all activities such as education, politics, medicine, culture, service sectors, science and technology.

The Constitution of India guarantees equal opportunity and equal pay for equal work.

The National policy for empowerment of women was passed under the National Policy on Education (1986) and a new programme was launched called Mahila Samakhya, its main focus was on empower of women. The reservation of 33 percent to women envisaged an improvement in the socio-political status of women.

The National Commission for women was set up January 1992. Its main functions is to review women related legislation and intervene in specific individual complaints of atrocities and denial of rights.

The following legislations have enhanced the status of women in matters of marriage adoption and inheritance.

Legislation	Provisions
Bengal regulation of XXI, 1804	Female infanticide was declared illegal
Regulation of XVII,1829	Practice of sati was declared illegal
Hindus Widow Remarriage Act, 1856	It permitted widow remarriage
The Native Marriage Act, 1872	The Child Marriage was prohibited
The Sarada Act,1930	The age of marriage was raised for boys and girls
Devadasi abolition Act, 1947	It abolished Devadasi system

Recap

- The position of women was not uniform in all periods and differed with regional variations.
- There were many social evils in Indian society.
- A number of social reformers and social reform movements sought to promote the upliftment of women by giving them education.
- Women in India now participate in all activities.

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 81 25-01-2025 10.47.31 AM

GLOSSARY		
Zamindar	A landowner	பெரு நிலக்கிழார்
Emancipation	Free from social, or political restriction	விடுதலை
Enlightenment	The state of being enlightened	அறிவொளி
Polygamy	The custom of being married to more than one person	பலதார மணம்
Reformer	A person who makes changes to something in order to improve it	சீர்திருத்தவாதி

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. _____ society is constantly changing with additions, assimilations and omissions from within and outside.
   a) Human b) Animal
   c) Forest d) Nature
2. The First women doctor in India was
   a) Dharmambal
   b) Muthulakshmi Ammaiyar
   c) Moovalur Ramamirdham
   d) Panditha Ramabai
3. The practice of sati was abolished in _____.
   a) 1827 b) 1828 c) 1829 d) 1830
4. B.M Malabari was a
   a) Teacher b) Doctor
   c) Lawyer d) Journalist
5. Which of the following was/were the reform movement(s)?
   a) Brahma Samaj
   b) Prarthana Samaj
   c) Arya Samaj
   d) All the above
6. The Bethune school was founded in _____ by J.E.D. Bethune.
   a) 1848 b) 1849 c) 1850 d) 1851
7. Which commission recommended to start primary schools for girls in 1882 ?
   a) Wood's b) Welby
   c) Hunter d) Muddiman
8. Sarada's Child Marriage Bill fixing the minimum marriageable age for girls at _____.
   a) 11 b) 12 c) 13 d)14

II Fill in the blanks

1. _____ society was setup by the Christian missionaries in 1819.
2. _____ of Sivaganga fought bravely against the British.
3. Servants of India Society was started by _____.
4. _____ was the one of the greatest social reformer of Tamil Nadu.
5. Kandukuri Veeresalingam published a journal called _____.

III Match the following

1. Theosophical society - Italian traveller
2. Sharada Sadan - Social evil
3. Wood's Despatch - Annie Besant
4. Niccolo Conti - Pandita RamaBhai
5. Dowry - 1854

Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 82 25-01-2025 10.47.31 AM

IV State True or False

1. Women were honoured in Rig Vedic period.
2. Devadasi system was a social evil.
3. Raja Rammohan Roy, was the pioneer of Indian social reform movement.
4. Reservation of 23% to women envisaged an improvement in the socio-political status of women.
5. The age of marriage was raised for boys and girls by the Sarda Act of 1930.

V Choose the correct statement

1. Find out the correct pair.
   a) Women's university - Prof. D.K. Karve
   b) Justice Ranade - Arya Samaj
   c) Widow Remarriage Act - 1855
   d) Rani Lakshmi Bhai - Delhi
2. Find the odd one out.
   a) child marriage b) sati
   c) devadasi system d) widow remarriage
3. Consider the following Statements.
   i) Begum Hazarat Mahal, Rani Lakshmi Bhai led an armed revolt against the British
   ii) Velunachiyar of Sivaganga, Tamil Nadu fought bravely against the British

   Which of the statement (s) given above is/are correct?
   a) i only b) ii only
   c) i and ii d) neither i nor ii
4. **Assertion (A):** Raja Rammohan Roy is most remembered by all Indians

   Reason (R): He wiped out the evil practice of sati from the Indian Society
   a) A and R are wrong
   b) A is correct and R is Wrong
   c) A is correct and R explains A
   d) A is correct and R does not explain A

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Name the prominent leaders who fought for the upliftment of women.
2. List out some social evils.
3. Who were the notable women during the medieval period?
4. Mention the important women freedom fighters of India.
5. Give a note on sati.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Trace the role of women in freedom struggle.
2. Explain the contribution of the Social Reformers for the eradication of social evils.
3. Give a detailed account on the Impact of reform movement.

VIII Project and Activity

1. Prepare an information package of the social reformers contributed in the development of women. (Choose any one reformer and collect information related to him).
2. Group Discussion: Participation of Women in Freedom Movement.

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Unit-8 HISTORY.indd 83 25-01-2025 10.47.31 AM

GEOGRAPHY

Unit - 1

Rocks and Soils

Learning Objectives

- To understand the nature of rocks, their types and uses.
- To identify the different types of rocks.
- To study about the nature of soil and its composition.
- To understand the importance of soil conservation.

10ZQC

Introduction

Have you ever noticed any mountains or rocks nearby your location or during your travel? Have you ever been to any hill station during your vacation? Do you know how they originated on the earth surface? Do you know what kinds of material are used in the construction of temples, buildings, roads, flyovers etc. In this lesson, we will learn about rocks and soils.

In lower classes, we have studied about four realms of the earth, namely lithosphere, hydrosphere, atmosphere and biosphere. Lithosphere is the upper most and significant layer of the earth. It is composed of solid rocks and unconsolidated materials. The literal meaning of lithosphere is "**The sphere of rock**".

DO YOU KNOW?

Petrology is a branch of geology, which deals with the study of rocks. '**Petrology**' is derived from the Greek word "**Petrus**" refers to rock and "**Logos**" refers to study.

Find out

What is the base of the house made up of ?

Rocks

The rocks are the solid mineral materials forming a part of the surface of the earth and other similar planets. The earth's crust (Lithosphere) is composed of rocks. A rock is an aggregate of one or more minerals. Rock is an important natural resource and is found in solid state. It may be hard or soft in nature. An estimation reveals that there are 2,000 different types of minerals found on the earth surface, out of which only 8 basic minerals commonly found all over the earth. Minerals are chemical substances which exist in nature. They may occur either in the form of elements or compounds.

Classification of Rocks

According to the mode of formation the rocks are classified into three types as follows.

1. **Igneous Rocks**
2. **Sedimentary Rocks and**
3. **Metamorphic Rocks**

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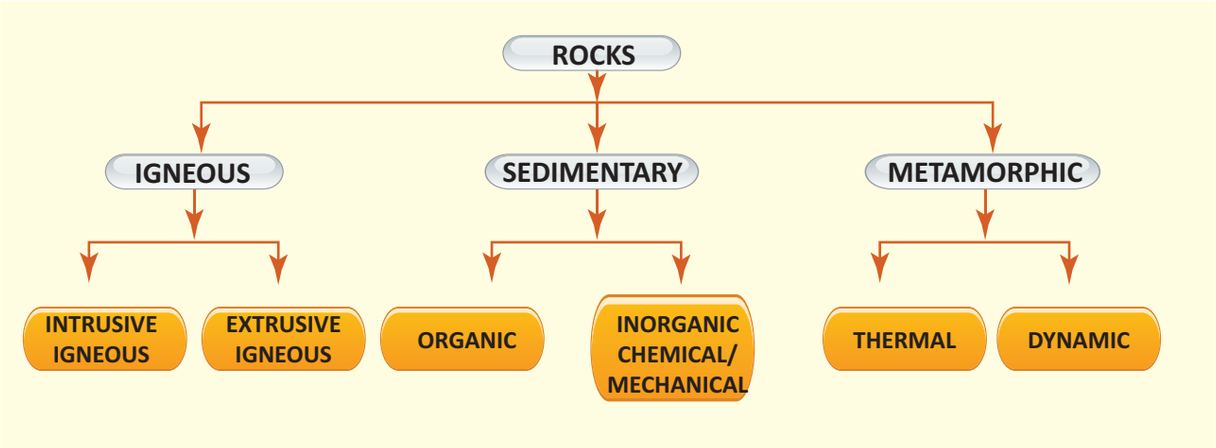


Igneous Rocks

The igneous rocks are formed by the solidification of molten magma. These rocks are also called as the '**Primary Rocks**' or '**Parent Rocks**', as all other rocks are formed from these rocks.

Igneous rock

The word **Igneous** is derived from the Latin word '**Ignis**' means '**fire**'

Characteristics of Igneous Rocks

1. These rocks are hard in nature
2. These are impermeable
3. They do not contain fossils
4. They are associated with the volcanic activities

Types of Igneous Rocks

Igneous Rocks are of two types. They are:

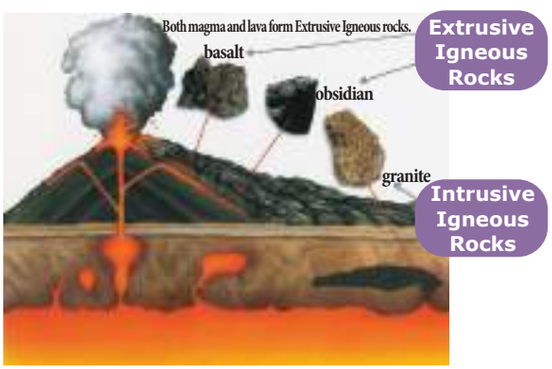
1. Extrusive Igneous rocks
2. Intrusive Igneous rocks

1. Extrusive Igneous Rocks

Can you visualize the lava comes out from a volcano? Lava is actually a fiery red molten magma that comes out from the interior of the earth onto its surface. After reaching the earth surface the molten materials get solidified and form rocks. Rocks formed in such a way on the crust are called Extrusive igneous rocks. These rocks are fine grained and glassy in nature due to rapid solidification. Basalt found in the north western part of Peninsular India is the example for this type of rock.

2. Intrusive Igneous Rocks

The molten magma sometimes cools down deep inside the earth's crust and becomes solid. The rocks formed this way is called '**Intrusive Igneous Rocks**'. Since they cool down slowly and form crystals, they are called 'crystalline rocks'. Intrusive Igneous rocks are two types. They are, 1. Plutonic rocks 2. Hypabysal rocks. The deep seated rocks are called 'Plutonic rocks' and the ones formed at shallow depths are called 'Hypabysal rocks'. Granite, Diorite and Gabbro are the examples of plutonic rocks and dolerite is an example of hypabysal rocks.



Extrusive & Intrusive Igneous rocks

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Some major **Active Volcanoes**: Mount Vesuvius, Mt. Stromboli and Mt. Etna in Italy and Mauna Loa and Mauna Kea in Hawaii Islands.

Sedimentary Rocks

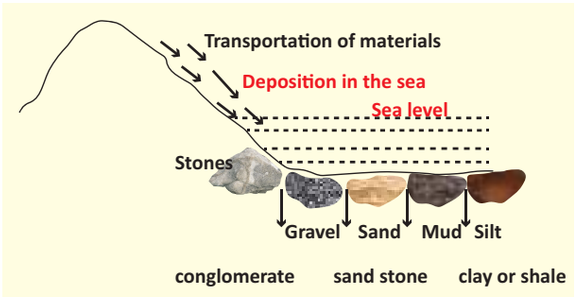
Sedimentary Rocks

The word '**S e d i m e n t a r y**' has been derived from Latin word '**S e d i m e n t u m**' means settling down. The sedimentary rocks are formed by the sediments derived and deposited by various agents (wind, running water, glaciers). Due to high temperature and pressure, the undisturbed sediments of long period are cemented to form sedimentary rocks. Sedimentary rocks consist of many layers, which were formed by the sediments deposited at different periods. As it consists of many strata, it is also known as **'Stratified rocks'.**

Sedimentary rocks are the important source of natural resources like coal, oil and natural gas.

Characteristics of Sedimentary rocks

1. They have many layers.
2. They are non-crystalline rocks.
3. They contain fossils.
4. They are soft and get eroded easily



Formation of Sedimentary Rocks

The oldest sedimentary rocks of the world has been identified in Greenland and estimated as 3.9 billion years old.

Types of Sedimentary Rocks

1. Organic Sedimentary Rocks

These rocks are formed as a result of the decomposition of dead plants and animals. It contains fossils. Chalk, Talc, Dolomite and Limestone rocks belong to this category.

2. Mechanical Sedimentary Rocks

These rocks are formed due to the disintegration of igneous and metamorphic rocks. The natural agents erode and transport these rocks and deposit them at some places. After a long period of time, they are cemented to form rocks. Sandstone and Shale are the examples of sedimentary rocks.

3. Chemical Sedimentary rocks

These are formed by precipitating of minerals from water. It is formed usually through evaporation of chemical rich solutions. These rocks are also called as evaporates. Gypsum is an example of this kind.

Metamorphic Rocks

The word Metamorphic is derived from two Greek words "Meta" and "Morpha", Meta means 'change' and Morpha means 'shape'. When Igneous and sedimentary rocks are subjected to high temperature and pressure, the original rocks get altered to form a new kind of rock called metamorphic rocks. Metamorphism is of two types. They are

1. Thermal Metamorphism
2. Dynamic Metamorphism

If the change in the rocks is mainly caused by high temperature, the process is called as 'Thermal Metamorphism'.

If the change in the rock is mainly caused by high pressure, the process is called as 'Dynamic Metamorphism'.

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DO YOU KNOW?

One of the world wonders, Taj Mahal, in India was built with White Marbles a metamorphic rock.

Metamorphic Rock

Formation of Metamorphic Rocks from Igneous rocks

1. Granite into gneiss caused by dynamic metamorphism.
2. Basalt into Eclogite caused by thermal metamorphism.

Formation of Metamorphic Rocks from Sedimentary rocks

1. Sandstone into quartzite caused by thermal metamorphism.
2. Shale into slate caused by thermal metamorphism.

Characteristics of Metamorphic Rocks

1. Metamorphic rocks are mostly crystalline in nature.
2. They consist of alternate bands of light and dark minerals.

Rock cycle

Igneous rocks are the primary rocks formed first on the earth. These rocks are weathered, eroded, transported and deposited at some places to form sedimentary rocks. The Igneous and Sedimentary rocks are changed into metamorphic rocks under the influence of temperature and pressure. The metamorphic rocks are also get disintegrated and deposited to form sedimentary rocks. Formation of igneous rocks takes place when there is an outflow of molten materials. Similarly, the rocks of the Earth's crust keeps on changing from one form to another form under the influence of various natural forces and agents. This endless process is referred as **Rock Cycle**.

DO YOU KNOW?

Marbles are the rocks commonly used for construction and sculpture works. They are also widely used for making beautiful statues and decorative items, such as vase, tiny gift articles, etc.

Uses of rocks

Rocks have been used by mankind throughout the history. Rocks are highly valuable and important to almost all aspects of our economy. The minerals and metals in rocks have been found essential to human civilization. Rocks are used for many purposes in our life and some of them are given below:

Rocks are useful for making

1. Cement
2. Writing chalk
3. Fire
4. Building materials
5. Bath scrub
6. Kerb stone
7. Ornament
8. Roofing materials
9. Decorative materials
10. These are valuable source of minerals, such as gold, diamond, sapphire etc.

ACTIVITY

Collect different types of rocks and display them in the class room.

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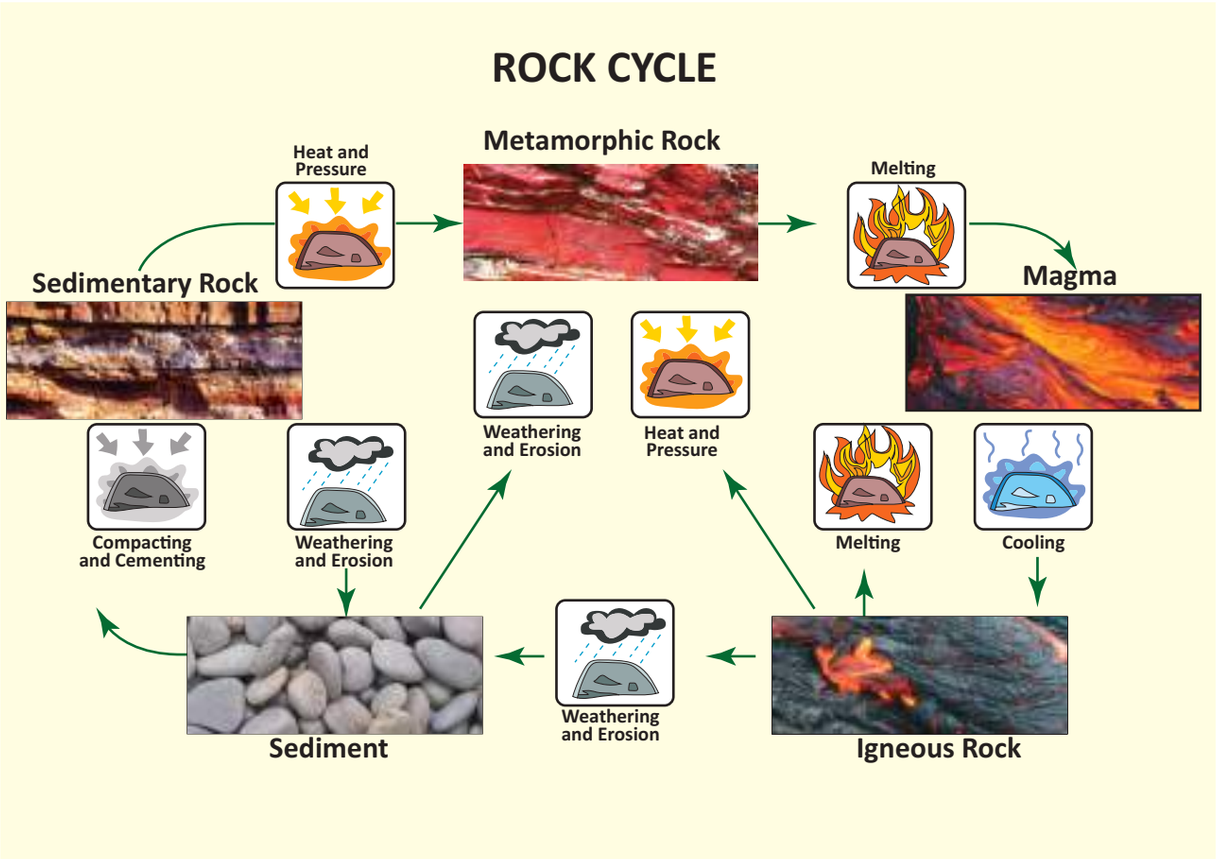
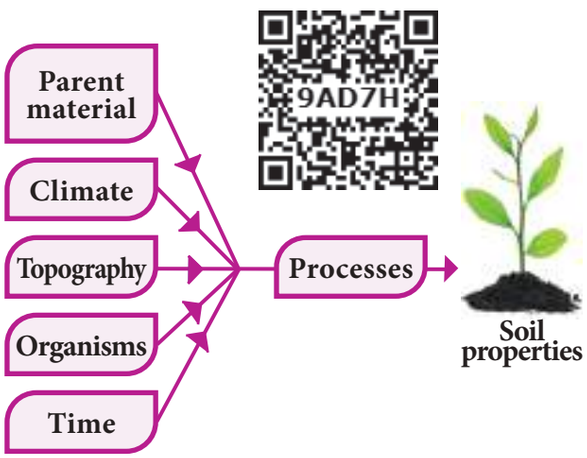


Rock Cycle

Soil and its Formation



Soil is a mixture of organic matter, minerals, gases, liquids and organisms that together support life. **Soil** minerals form the basis of soil. It forms on the surface of the earth. It is known as the '**skin of the earth**'. Soils are formed from rocks (parent material) through the **processes** of weathering and natural erosion. Water, wind, temperature change, gravity, chemical interaction, living organisms and pressure differences all contribute to the breakdown of parent material. It results in the formation of loose material. In course of time, they further break down into fine particles. This process release the minerals locked in the rock fragments. Later on, the vegetative cover which develop in that region adds humus content in the soil. This way the soil gradually matures.

World Soil Day is observed on 5th December, every year.

Soil Composition

The basic components of soil are minerals, organic matters, water and air. It consists of about 45% mineral, 5% organic matter, 25% of water and 25% air. It is only a generalized fact, so composition of soil varies from place to place and time to time.

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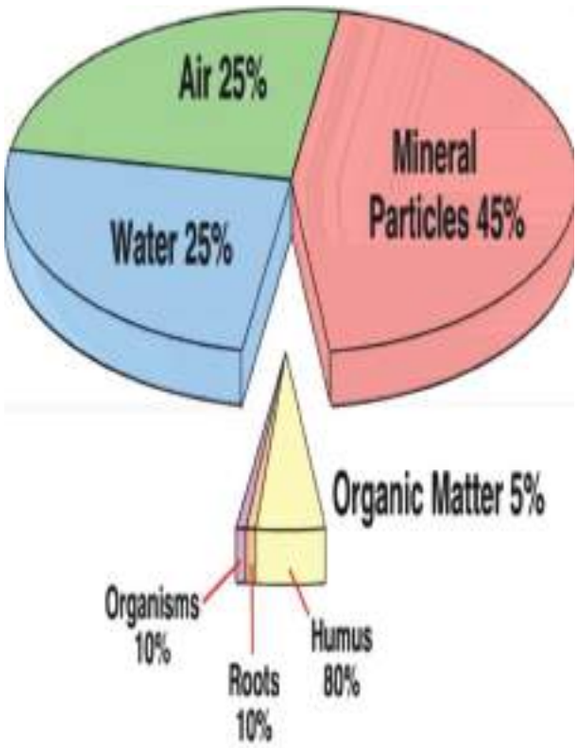

Soil Composition

Soil profile

The soil profile is defined as the vertical section of the soil from the ground surface and extends downwards.

ACTIVITY

Collect sample of soils from your place and exhibit in the classroom.

Classification of soils

Soils are classified on the basis of their formation, colour, physical and chemical properties. Based on these, soil is classified into six major types. They are: Alluvial soil, Black soil, Red soil, Laterite soil, Mountain soil and Desert soil.

Alluvial soils

These soils are found in the regions of river valleys, flood plains and coastal regions. These are formed by the deposition of silt by the running water. It is the most productive of all soils. It is suitable for the culitivation of sugarcane, jute, rice, wheat and other food crops.

Black soils

These soils are formed by weathering of igneous rocks. Black soil is clayey in nature. It is retensive of moisture. It is ideal for growing cotton.

Red Soils

These soils are formed by weathering of metamorphic rocks and crystalline rocks. The presence of iron oxide makes this soil appear brown to red in colour. It is usually found in semi-arid regions. It is not a fertile soil. It is suitable for millet cultivation.

Laterite soils

These are the typical soils of tropical regions. These soils are found in the regions which experience alternate wet and dry condition. As these soils are formed by the process of leaching, it is infertile. It is suitable for plantation crops like tea and coffee.

Mountain soils

These soils are found on the slopes of mountain. Soils in these regions are thin and acidic. However, characteristics of soil differs from region to region based on the altitude.

Desert soils

These are sandy soil found in the hot desert regions. These soils are porous and saline. Since it is infertile, agriculture in these soils are not so successful.

Soil Erosion

Soil erosion is the removal or destruction of the top layer of soil by natural forces and human activities. Soil erosion reduces the fertility of soil, which in turn reduces the agricultural productivity. Running water and wind are the major agents of soil erosion. Sheet erosion, Rill erosion and Gully erosion are the major types of soil erosion.

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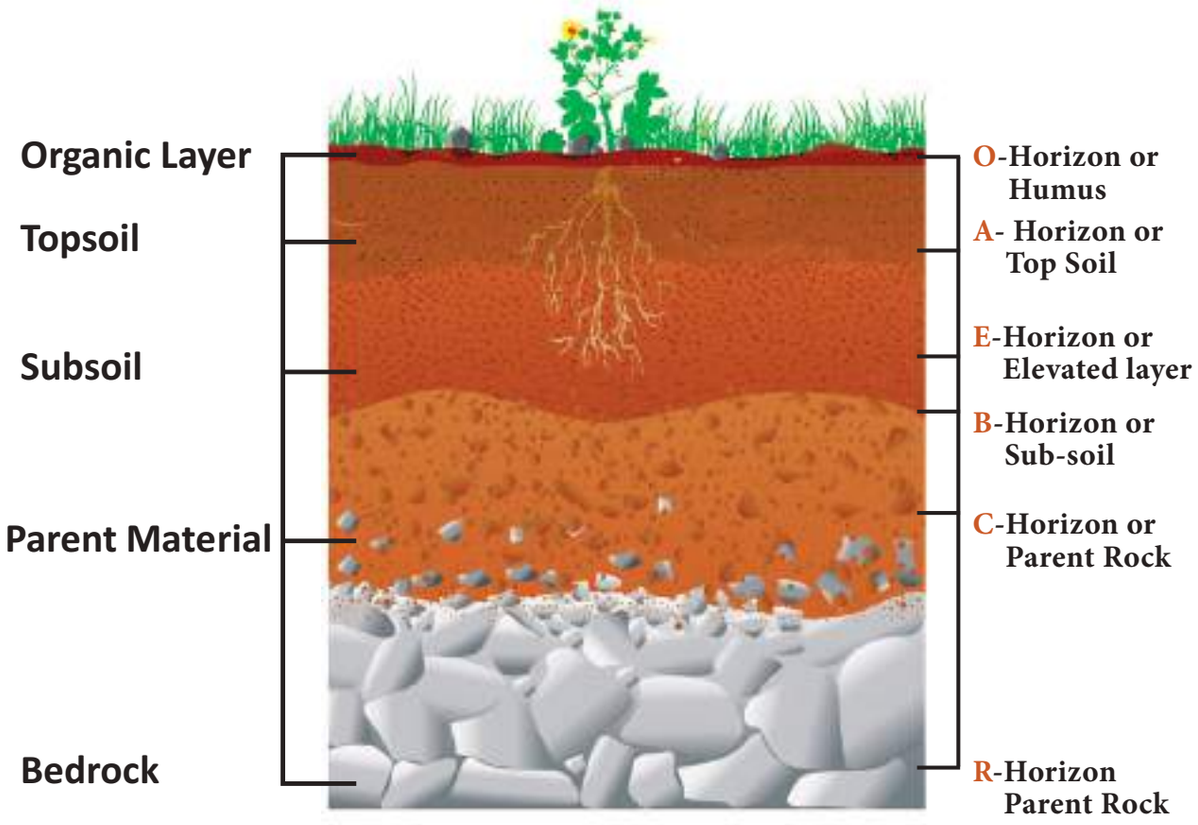
LAYERS OF SOIL



Layers of Soil

Layers of soil	
O-Horizon or Humus	This layer is dominated by organic material (leaves, needles, twigs, moss and lichens).
A- Horizon or Top Soil	It is a part of top soil, composed of organic matter mixed with mineral matter.
E- Horizon or Elevated layer	E-Stands for elevated layer. This layer is significantly leached of clay, iron, and aluminum oxides, leaving a concentration of ore
B- Horizon or Sub-soil	This layer reflects the chemical or physical alteration of parent material. Thus iron, clay, aluminum and organic compounds are found accumulated in this horizon.
C- Horizon or Parent Rock	Partially weathered parent material accumulates in this layer.
R- Horizon Parent Rock	This layer consists of unweathered part of bed rock.

Soil conservation

Soil conservation is the process of protecting the soil from erosion to maintain its fertility. The methods that are widely practised for conserving soil are afforestation, controlled grazing, construction of dams, crop rotation, strip farming, contour ploughing, terrace farming, checking shifting cultivation, wind break etc.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_I.indd 91 25-01-2025 10.49.39 AM

How long does it take to form soil?

The time needed to form a soil depends on the climate. The environment with mild climate, takes 200 to 400 years to form 1cm of soil. In wet, tropical area, soil formation is faster and takes up to 200 years. To become a well-matured soil, it takes about 3000 years.

Uses of soils

Soil is one of the important natural resource. It is a basic requirement for plant growth and supports various life forms on the Earth.

- The minerals present in the soil enhance and nourishes the crops and plants.
- It is used in the production of ceramics and pottery.
- It is a source of material for construction and handicraft works.
- It acts as natural filter of water and purifies it.
- Soil supports ecosystem and play an important role in land management.

Rocks and soils are the important renewable natural resources. Both of them play an important role in everyday life of human beings, as well as economic development. Nowadays, rock-based companies flourishing providing employment to a sizeable population. Soils attract human settlement and other economic activities. As India is an agricultural country, the proper management of soil resource will lead to sustainable food production as well as for various other purposes. So, the soil resources must be conserved.

Recap

- A rock is an aggregate of one or more minerals.
- The word **'Sedimentary'** has been derived from Latin word **'Sedimentum'** means settling down.
- Igneous rocks are the primary rocks formed first on the earth.
- Soil is a mixture of organic matter, minerals, gases, liquids and organisms that together support life.

GLOSSARY		
Crust	Outermost layer of the earth.	புவியின்மேலோடு
Lava	Hot molten rock erupted from a volcano.	லாவா
Magma	Hot fluid or semi-fluid material found beneath the earth crust.	பாறைக் குழம்பு
Rock cycle	The continuous process of transformations of rocks from one form to another.	பாறை சுழற்சி

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Which of the following is known as sphere of rocks
   a) Atmosphere b) Biosphere
   c) Lithosphere d) Hydrosphere

2. World soil day is observed on
   a) 15th August
   b) 12th January
   c) 15th October
   d) 5th December

CL53G

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_I.indd 92 25-01-2025 10.49.39 AM

3. Fossils are found in
   a) Sedimentary rocks
   b) Igneous rocks
   c) Metamorphic rocks
   d) Plutonic rocks
4. The top layer of soil is called as
   a) organic layer or humas
   b) topsoil
   c) subsoil
   d) bedrock
5. Ideal soil for growing cotton is
   a) Red soil b) Black soil
   c) Alluvial soil d) Mountain soil
6. The major components of soil are,
   a) Rocks b) Minerals
   c) Water d) All the above
7. Which one of the following is the most widespread most and productive category of soil
   a) Alluvial soil b)Black soil
   c) Red soil d) Mountain soil

II Fill in the blanks

1. Scientific study of rocks is called _____.
2. _____ soil is highly suitable for millets cultivation.
3. The "skin of earth" is _____.
4. _____ is the kind of metamorphic rock using which Taj Mahal was built.
5. _____ is known as the primary rocks.

III State whether the following statements are true or false

1. Igneous rocks are called primary rocks.
2. Slate is formed from shale.
3. Red soil is formed by the process of leaching.
4. M-sand is used as alternative for natural sand in construction.
5. Volcanic mountains are covered with sedimentary rocks.

IV Match the following

1)

A.	Granite	1.	Bed rock
B.	Soil layer	2.	Plutonic rock
C.	Barren island	3.	Strip farming
D.	Soil conservation	4.	Active Volcano

	A	B	C	D
a)	2	1	4	3
b)	2	1	3	4
c)	4	3	2	1
d)	3	4	2	1

2)

A.	Basalt	1.	Anthracite
B.	Limestone	2.	Extrusive igneous
C.	Coal	3.	Metamorphic rock
D.	Gneiss	4.	Sedimentary rock

	A	B	C	D
a)	2	4	3	1
b)	2	4	1	3
c)	3	1	2	4
d)	3	1	4	2

V Choose the incorrect statement from the following

1. a) Igneous rocks are called the primary rocks.
   b) Soil is the product of weathering of rocks.
   c) Sedimentary rocks are the hardest one.
   d) Deccan plateau is the region of Igneous rocks.
2. a) Soil erosion decreases its fertility.
   b) Dynamic metamorphism is caused by high temperature.
   c) Soil is a renewable source.
   d) Humus is a part of the top layer of soil.

VI Consider the following statements and choose the right option from the given ones

1) **Statement (1):** Sedimentary rocks consist of many layers.
   Statement (2): Sedimentary rocks are formed by the sediments deposited at different points of time.
   a) 1 and 2 are correct and 2 explains 1
   b) 1 and 2 are correct but, 2 does not explain 1

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_I.indd 93 25-01-2025 10.49.39 AM

c) 1 is correct but, 2 is incorrect

d) 2 is correct but, 1 is incorrect.

VII Give reasons

1. Chemical sedimentary rocks are found in the beds of reservoirs.
2. Igneous rocks are found in the regions of volcanoes.

VIII Distinguish between

1. Metamorphic rock and sedimentary rock.
2. Soil conservation and Soil erosion.

IX Answer briefly

1. How are igneous rocks formed?
2. Describe about the composition of soil.
3. Define 'rock'.
4. State the types of soils.
5. What is soil conservation?

X Answer in a Paragraph

1. Explain the process of soil formation.
2. Classify and explain the rocks.
3. Give an account on different layers of soil.
4. Classify and explain the soil.

XI Activities

1. Complete the following table with the help of internet source

Rocks	Mode of formation	Characteristics	Examples	Uses

2. **Exhibition:** Collect the soil samples of different types and display them with their names in the classroom .
3. **Group Discussion:** Natural sand is replaced by M-sand in construction.

1. Status -

2. Advantages -

3. Disadvantages -

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. *Physical geography*-Dr. Shanti Swaroop.
2. *Outlines of General Geography* - By E.O. Robinson, M.A.
3. Text book in Geography for class VIII-Social Science Resource and Development - NCERT- New Delhi.
4. Geography for UPSC Civil Service Preliminary Examination - By Surender Singh.
5. School Atlas Book - Tamil Nadu Text Book Corporation.

INTERNET RESOURCES

- *www.Fert.nic.in*
- *www.greathimalayannationalpark.org*
- *www.csmrs.gov.in*

ICT CORNER

Rocks and Soils

Steps

- Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
- Click the '**Begin**' button, start your rock collection.
- Click '**Add to rock collection**' one by one.
- Go to '**identify rock types**' and play the game.

Website URL:

http://www.learner.org/interactives/rockcycle/index.html

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_I.indd 94 25-01-2025 10.49.39 AM

Unit - 2

Weather and Climate

Learning Objectives

- To understand the importance of weather and climate.
- To learn about the nature of the elements of weather and climate.
- To know the instruments used for measuring weather elements.
- To be able to recognize the kind of weather and climate of a place.

8YWC3

Introduction

Climate is one of the basic elements in the natural environment. It affects landforms, soil types, fauna and flora. It influences man to a large extent.

In a small village in Dharmapuri district of Tamil Nadu, in the month of May, Yuktha enjoys her vacation with her brother and family. She always wears cotton cloths. Her mother makes food like porridge, buttermilk, lemonade, watermelon etc., which suits to summer. At the same time (In May month), Tiya, who lives in Auckland, New Zealand with her parents, wears fleece jacket, jeans, gloves and socks. Her mother makes hot food, such as sandwich, salmon, oatmeal, soups, etc. Yuktha celebrates Christmas with friends in winter, where as Tiya celebrates Christmas during summer. Can you think of why?

Yuktha and Tiya stay in two different hemispheres and have different way of life. This is because of the difference in weather condition of those places.

Weather and climate influence man's activities, such as what we eat, wear, the house in which we live and work, farming, sailing, fishing, modern transport and even our playtime etc. Hence, one should have knowledge about the weather and climate. So, in this chapter we are going to learn about weather and climate, its elements and how they influence our lifestyle?

Weather

Weather is the day-to-day condition (state) of the atmosphere at any place, as recorded through elements such as sunshine, temperature, cloud cover, wind fog condition, air pressure, humidity, precipitation, etc. It refers to atmospheric condition over a short period such as a day, a week, a month or a little longer. Moreover, weather changes from time to time in a day and one period to the other in a year.

DO YOU KNOW?

Earth's atmosphere is a layer of gases surrounding the planet earth and retained by the earth's gravity. It contains about 78% nitrogen, 21% oxygen, 0.97% argon, 0.03% carbon dioxide and 0.04% trace amounts of other gases and water vapour.

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Find out

Do all the planets in the solar system have atmosphere?

In the morning, the weather might be sunny with a clear sky in a place and evening there might be clouds and rain. Similarly, the weather is cool in winter and hot in summer.

We often hear people saying, "Today the climate is good or bad". It is incorrect to say like that. Instead, it has to be said that the weather is good or bad. We could observe the television news readers saying weather report and not the climate report for e.g., cricket match have been postponed due to bad weather etc.

Climate

Climate is generally defined as the average conditions (state) of the weather of a place or a region. The average atmospheric conditions are determined by measuring the weather elements for a long period of time, which is usually for 35 years. The elements of weather and climate are the same. The climate does not change often like weather.

DO YOU KNOW?

The word Climate is derived from the ancient Greek word "**Klimo**" which means "**Inclination**".

Controlling factors of weather and climate

Angle of the sun's rays, the length of daytime, altitude, distribution of land and water bodies, location and direction of mountain ranges, air pressure, winds and ocean currents are the major factors which affect the weather and climate of a region.

The earth is spherical in shape. So, the sun's rays fall unevenly on the earth's surface. The polar regions receive slanting sun's rays. There is a little or no sunlight, thus there is an extreme cold winters. Vertical sun's ray's fall directly on regions around the equator, hence

DO YOU KNOW?

Scientific study of weather is called **Meteorology** and the scientific study of climate is called **climatology**.

the climate is very hot and almost no winters. The difference in temperature makes the air and water move in currents. Warm air rises and creates more space for air beneath, while cool air settles down.

ACTIVITY

Discuss in the classroom how altitude, distribution of land and water bodies, direction of mountain ranges, air pressure, winds and ocean currents affect weather/climate.

Elements of weather and climate

Temperature, rainfall, air pressure, humidity and wind are the major elements of weather and climate.

ZT2V3

a) Temperature

Thermometer

Temperature is one of the key elements of weather and climate. The earth and its atmosphere get heated from the sun through insolation. The degree of heat present in the air is termed as temperature. Apart from sun's rays, the heat in air also depends on the atmospheric mass to a small extent.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 96 25-01-2025 10.52.37 AM

Distribution of weather elements are shown by means of Isolines on maps. Isolines are those which join the places of equal values. Isolines are given different names based on the weather element they represent.

Isotherm	Equal temperature
Isocryme	Equal lowest mean temperature for a specified period
Isohel	Equal sunshine
Isollobar	Equal pressure tendency showing similar changes over a given time
Isobar	Equal atmospheric pressure
Isohyet	Equal amount of rainfall

Temperature varies with time due to changes in the level of radiation which reach the earth surface. This is due to motions of the earth (The rotation and revolution) and inclination of the earth's axis.

The temperature influences the level of humidity, the process of evaporation, condensation and precipitation.

Heat energy from solar radiation is received by the earth through three mechanisms. They are radiation, conduction and convection. The Earth's atmosphere is heated more by terriestrial radiation than insolation.

Temperature varies both horizontally and vertically. Temperature decreases with increasing height is known as Lapse rate, which is 6.5 degree celsius per 1000 meters in troposphere .

b) Factors affecting the distribution of temperature

Latitude, altitude, landforms, ocean currents, prevailing winds, and distance from the sea, natural vegetation and soil are the major factors which affect the distribution of temperature.

c) Measuring Temperature

The temperature of a unit volume of air at a given time is measured in scales like Celsius, Fahrenheit, and Kelvin. Meteorologist measures the temperature by the Thermometer, Stevenson screen and minimum and maximum Thermometer. The energy received by the earth through insolation is lost by outgoing radiation. Atmosphere is mainly heated by outgoing radiation from 2 to 4 pm. So, the maximum temperature is recorded between 2 and 4 pm regularly and minimum temperature is recorded around 4 am before sunrise.

Mean Temperature

The average of maximum and minimum temperatures within 24 hours is called **mean daily temperature** [(87°F+73°F)/2=80°F]. **Diurnal range of temperature** is the difference between the maximum and minimum temperatures of a day. **Annual range of temperature** is the difference between the highest and lowest mean monthly temperatures of a year. The distribution of temperature is shown by means of Isotherms. **Isotherms** are imaginary lines which connect the same temperatures of different places.

d) Heat zones of the earth

The fact that the earth is spherical in shape results in different parts of the earth

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 97 25-01-2025 10.52.37 AM

getting heated differently. Based on the heat received from the sun, Earth is divided into three heat zones. They are,

Torrid Zone

It is a region between the Tropic of Cancer and the Tropic of Capricorn. This region receives the direct rays of the sun and gets the maximum heat from the sun. This zone known as the torrid or the tropical zone

Temperate zone

This zone lies between the Tropic of Cancer and the Arctic Circle in the Northern Hemisphere and between the Tropic of Capricorn and the Antartic Circle in the Southern Hemisphere. This zone gets the slanting rays of the sun and the angle of the sun's rays decrease gradually towards the poles. Thus, this zone experiences moderate temperature.

Frigid Zone

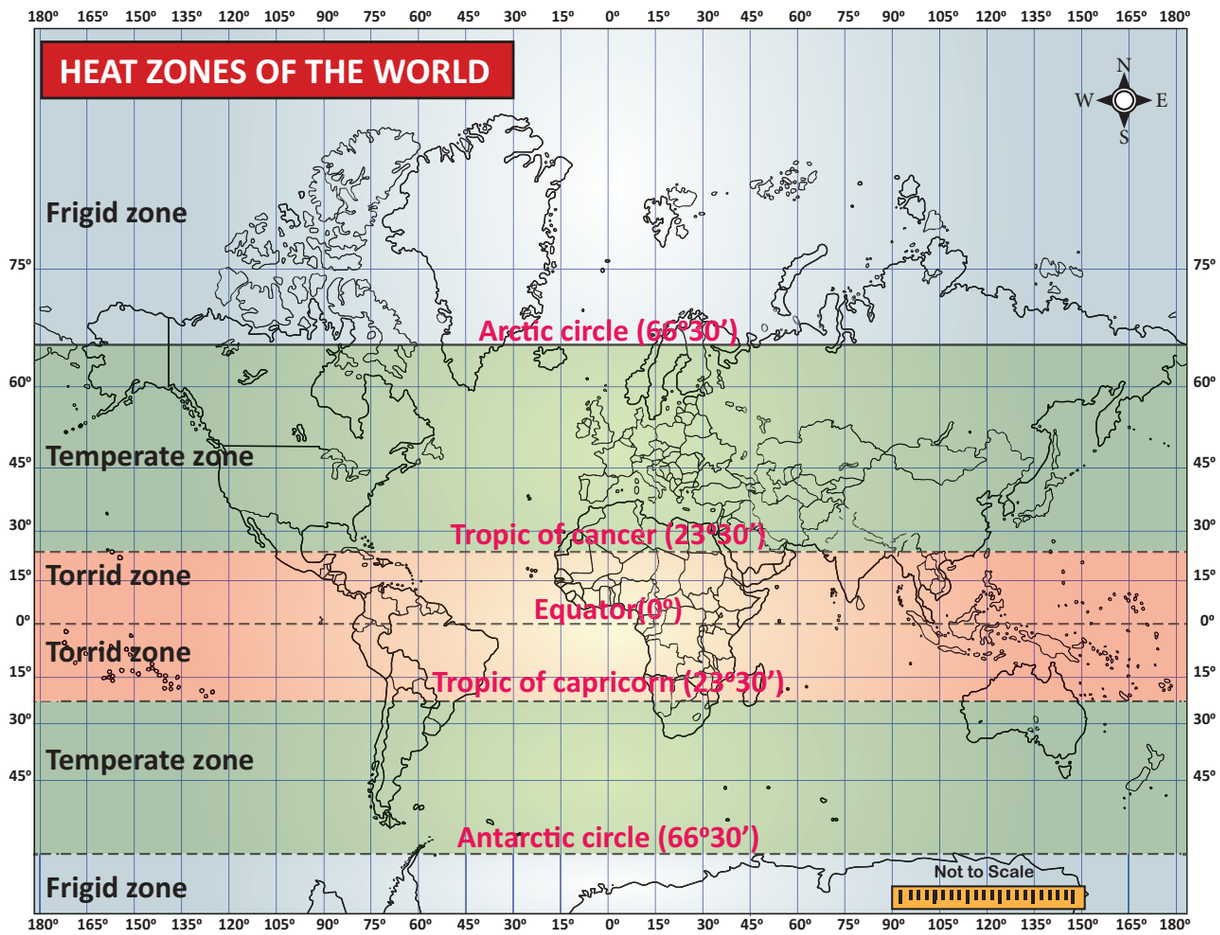
The frigid zone lies between the Arctic circle and the North Pole and between the Antartic circle and the South Pole. This region is also known as Polar region. Since it receives extremely low temperature throughout the year,these regions are covered with snow.

Highest Temperature ever recorded

The highest temperature ever recorded on the earth was **56.7°C (134°F)**. It was recorded on 10th July 1913 at **Greenland Ranch of Death Valley**, California, USA.

Lowest Temperature ever recorded

The lowest temperature ever recorded on the earth was **–89.2 °C (–128.6 °F; 184.0 K).** It was recorded on 21st July, 1983 at **Soviet Vostok** Station in Antarctica.



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Rainfall

Rainfall is a liquid water in the form of droplets that have condensed from atmospheric water vapour and then become heavy enough to fall due to gravity. Rainfall is a major component of the water cycle and is responsible for depositing most of the fresh water on the Earth. It is the source of water for all purposes. There is a close relationship between the temperature and rainfall distribution. Generally, rainfall is high in the equatorial region and decreases gradually towards poles. Rainfall is measured by **Raingauge**.

Raingauge

Air Pressure

Aneroid Barometer

The weight of air above a given area on the earth's surface is called atmospheric pressure or air pressure. The air pressure is measured by Barometer. **The standard air pressure at sea level is 1013.25 mb.** At the earth's surface the pressure is 1.03 kg.per sq cm. The variation in standard atmospheric pressure is found both horizontally and vertically. Based on the level of pressure, it is categorised into low pressure and high pressure. Low pressure area is an area in the atmosphere, where the pressure is lower than its surrounding areas. In this situation, the wind from the surroundings blow towards the centre of low pressure. High pressure is an area of atmosphere, where the barometric pressure is higher than its surrounding areas. In this case, the wind from the centre of high pressure blows towards the surrounding low pressure areas. Low-pressure system is marked as "**L**" on weather map, where as, the high-pressure system is marked as "**H**". Low-pressure systems are also called as a **depression and cyclones**. High-pressure system is called **anti cyclones. Low pressure leads** to cloudiness, wind, and precipitation. High pressure leads to fair and calm weather. **Isobar** is used to show the distribution of air pressure.

DO YOU KNOW?

Highest pressure ever recorded.

The highest air pressure at sea level ever recorded was at Agata, Russia on 31st December, 1968. The pressure was 1083.8 mb

Lowest pressure ever recorded

The lowest pressure of 870 mb ever recorded was at Typhoon Tip, near Guam, Mariana Island in Pacific Ocean on 12th October, 1979.

Humans are not sensitive to small variations in air pressure. But the small variations in pressure that do exist largely determine the wind and storm patterns of the earth. The distribution of atmospheric pressure is controlled by altitude, atmospheric temperature, air circulation, earth rotation, water vapour, atmospheric storms, etc.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 99 25-01-2025 10.52.39 AM

Measuring air pressure

Meteorologist uses barometer/aneroid barometer to measure the air pressure. Barograms are used for recording continuous variation in atmospheric pressure.

Why Do Your Ears Pop in Airplanes?

As you go up in an airplane, the atmospheric pressure becomes lower than the pressure of the air inside your ears. Your ears pop because they are trying to equalize or match the pressure. The same thing happens when the plane is on the way down and your ears have to adjust to a higher atmospheric pressure.

Humidity

Humidity refers to the degree of water vapour present in the atmosphere in gaseous form in particular time and place. It ranges from 0-5 percent by volume in atmosphere. Climatically, it is an important constituent of the atmosphere and its quantity depends on the level of temperature. So, the level of humidity decreases towards poles from equator. Humidity is expressed in different ways.

Hygrometer

Specific humidity is a ratio of the water vapor content of the mixture to the total air content on a mass basis. It is expressed in grams of vapour per kilogram of air.

Absolute Humidity is the mass or weight of water vapour present per unit volume of air. It is expressed usually in grams per cubic meter of air.

Relative humidity is a ratio between the actual amount of water vapour present in the air and the maximum amount of water vapour it can hold at a given temperature. It is expressed as a percentage.

Generally, warm air holds more water vapour than the cold air. When relative humidity reaches 100%, the air gets saturated. In this condition, the temperature is said to be at dew-point. Further cooling will condense the water vapour into the clouds and rain. Relative humidity affects human health and comfortness. Very high and very low humidity are injurious to health. It also affects the stability of different objects, buildings and electrical applications.

Measurement of Humidity

Hygrometer is used to measure the humidity. (which comprises wet and dry bulb-plate side by side in the Stevenson screen)

Find out

The effect of low and high humidity over Human beings in particular.

With decreasing air pressure,the availability of oxygen to breath also decreases. At very high altitudes, atmospheric pressure and available oxygen are very low that people can become sick and even die. Mountain climbers use bottled oxygen when they ascend very high peaks. They also take time to get used to the altitude as the quick move from high pressure to low pressure can cause decompression sickness. Aircraft creates artificial pressure in the cabin, which makes the passengers remain comfortable while flying.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 100 25-01-2025 10.52.39 AM

Wind

The horizontal movement of air is called wind. Vertical movement of air is said as air current. The winds move from high pressure to low pressure. Unlike other elements, wind is made up of a series of gusts and eddies, which can only be felt and not seen. Winds get their name from the direction from which they blow i.e, wind blows from south west is called southwest wind.

The wind systems are broadly categorized into three as follows.

- Planetary winds
- Seasonal winds
- Local winds

Planetary Winds are the ones which blow almost in the same direction throughout the year. So, they are called as Permanent or planetary winds. Trade winds, Westerlies and polar easterlies are the types of prevailing winds. **Seasonal winds are those** which change their direction according to season in a year. They are called as monsoon winds. These winds blow from sea to land during summer and land to sea during winter. **Local winds** are the winds blow over a small area only during a particular time of a day or a short period of a year. Land and sea breezes are example of these winds.

The Beaufort scale is a scale for measuring wind speed. It is based on observation rather than accurate measurement. It is the most widely used system to measure wind speed today. The scale was developed in 1805 by Francis Beaufort, an officer of the Royal Navy and first officially used by HMS Beagle.

Al-Balakhi, an Arab Geographer collected climatic data from the Arab travellers and prepared the First climatic Atlas of the world.

Measuring wind direction and speed

Meteorologist measures wind direction using **wind vane or weather cock**. Wind speed is measured by **anemometer**. Wind rose is a diagram used to depict the direction and periods (No. of days) of prevailing winds on map. **Meteorograph or triple register is an instrument**, which records wind speed and direction, sunshine and precipitation. It also provides graphic representation.

Anemometer

Brazil has a large area, where the average wind speed is low. Gabon, Congo and DR Congo in Africa, Sumatra, Indonesia and Malaysia are the least windy places on Earth.

Recap

- **Weather** is the day-to-day condition of the atmosphere at any place. **Climate** is the average weather condition (state) of a place for a long period and is usually for 35 years.
- Temperature, precipitation, pressure, humidity and wind are the major elements of weather and climate.
- Temperature is the degree of heat present in the air.
- The weight of air above a given area on the earth's surface is called atmospheric pressure or air pressure.
- Horizontal movement of air is called wind.

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GLOSSARY		
Conduction	Transfer of heat energy from one place to another through the substances that are in direct contact with each other	வெப்பக்கடத்தல்
Condensation	The process in which the water vapour changes into liquid form.	ஆவிசுருங்குதல்
Eddies	They are the wind circulation that develops when the wind blows over or adjacent to rough terrain, buildings, mountains or other obstructions.	சுழற்காற்று
Humidity	The amount of water vapour in the air	ஈரப்பதம்
Insolation	Incoming solar radiation	சூரியக்கதிர்வீசல்
Radiation	The transmission of heat energy from one body to the other body without any medium is called radiation	கதிர்வீச்சு

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Earth's atmosphere contains about _____ percentage of nitrogen and oxygen.
   a) 78% and 21% b) 22% and 1%
   c) 21% and 0.97% d) 10% and 20%
2. _____ is generally defined as the average conditions of the weather of a place or a region.
   a) earth b) atmosphere
   c) climate d) sun
3. The earth receives energy from _____.
   a) current b) electro magnetic radiation
   c) waves d) heat
4. Which one the following represents places with equal amount of rainfall?
   a)isotherm b) isohel
   c)isobar d) isohytes
5. _____ is used to measure the humidity.
   a) anemometer b) barometer
   c) hygrometer d) thermometer

II Fill in the blanks

1. _____ refers to the condition of atmosphere for a short period of time.
2. The scientific study of weather is called ____.
3. The highest temperature ever recorded on the earth is _____.
4. _____ is a ratio between the actual amount of water vapour and the maximum amount of water vapour the air can hold.
5. _____ and_____ are measured by anemometer and wind vane respectively.
6. _____ are imaginary lines which connect the same temperatures of different places.

III Match the following

1.	Climate	Locating and Tracking Storms
2.	Isonif	Cyclone
3.	Hygrometer	Equal Snowfall
4.	Radar	Long Term Changes
5.	Low Pressure	Humidity

IV State whether the following statements are True or False

1. The atmosphere is a layer of gases surrounding the earth.
2. The Scientific study of weather is called Climatology.
3. Isohel refers equal sunshine.
4. Humidity is calculated by Aneroid Barometer.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 102 25-01-2025 10.52.40 AM

V Answer briefly

1. Define 'weather'.
2. What is insolation?
3. What is meant by atmospheric pressure?
4. Write a short note on "Planetary winds"
5. What are "Isolines"?

VI Distinguish between

1. Weather and climate.
2. Absolute and relative humidity.
3. Permanent and seasonal winds.

VII Give reasons

1. The Weather and climate in different regions vary.
2. Temperature decreases with increase in altitude.
3. Mountain climbers carry oxygen cylinders while ascending peaks.

VIII Answer in a paragraph

1. How is temperature measured?
2. Write about the wind and its types.
3. List out the weather elements and associated measuring instruments.

IX 1. Give any three suggestions to reduce global warming

1. _____.
2. _____.
3. _____.

2. Map Activity

On the outline map of world mark the following

1. Heat zones of the world
2. Pressure belt and planetary winds

X Activities

1. Make weather instruments like wind vane and rain gauge using web resources.
2. Make mini-meteorological station model in your school.
3. Observe and record the weather condition of your place in the following table.

Date			
Place and Time			
Temperature			
Barometric pressure			
Precipitation type and amount			
Wind direction			
Wind speed			
Source of information-			

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1. *Climatology an Atmospheric Science* John E. Oliver, John J. HIdore, 2003, Pearson Education (Singapore) Pvt. Ltd. India branch, Delhi.
2. Goh Cheng Lelong, *Certificate Physical and Human Geography,* Goh Cheng Lelong, Oxford Publication (India).
3. *Climatology,* Savindra Singh, 2005, Prayag Pustak Bhawan, Allahabad, India.

INTERNET RESOURCES

- https://www.nationalgeographic.com/
- https://climatekids.nasa.gov/menu/atmosphere/

ICT CORNER

Weather and Climate

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
Step – 2 Enter your location in search box (Ex. Tiruchirappalli).
Step – 3 Use the Drag flag and zoom in your area.
Step – 4 Go to menu in right side and select from the list to know the weather of your area (Ex. Temperature).

Website URL:
https://www.windy.com
Mobile: https://play.google.com/store/apps/details?id=com.windyty.android

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit II.indd 103 25-01-2025 10.52.40 AM

Unit - 3

Hydrological Cycle

Learning Objectives

- To understand the status of water on the earth.
- To learn the basic concepts of Hydrological cycle.
- To study the different components of hydrological cycle.

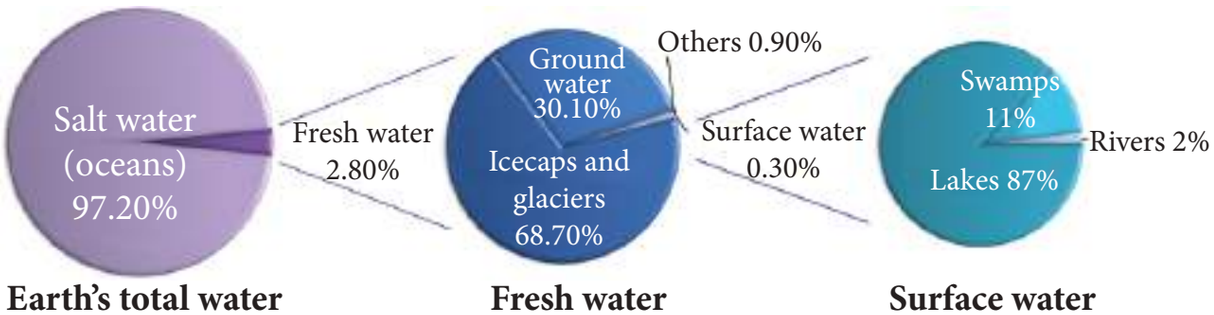
FDZWC

Introduction

Water is one of the most important elements on the earth. All plants and animals need water for survival. Apart from drinking, water is required for domestic, agriculture, industrial purposes, etc. Water is essential for carrying out almost all economic activities. So, water is an indispensable element without which life form on the earth is not possible.

Water on the Earth

About 71% of the earth's surface is covered by water. The quantity of water present on the earth is about 326 million cubic miles. It is hard to visualise this massive quantity of water. Most of the water on the earth is saline and is found in seas and oceans. The salt water constitutes about 97.20% and the fresh water is 2.80%. Out of this 2.80%, about 2.20% is available as surface water and the remaining 0.60% as groundwater. From this 2.20% of surface water, 2.15% is available in the form of glaciers and icecaps, 0.01% in lakes and streams and the remaining 0.04% is in other forms. Only about 0.60% of the total ground water can be economically extracted with the present drilling technology.



Water on the Earth

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Water resources are potentially useful to humans. Water in India is available in three sources. They are **precipitation, surface water** and **groundwater**.

Table 1: Estimated Volume of Water on the Earth's Surface

Water Source	Volume of water (Cubic Miles)	Percentage to Total Water
Oceans, Seas, & Bays	321,000,000	96.54
Ice caps, Glaciers, & Permanent Snow	5,773,000	1.74
Groundwater	5,614,000	1.69
Soil Moisture	3,959	0.001
Ground Ice & Permafrost	71,970	0.022
Lakes	42,320	0.013
Atmosphere	3,095	0.001
Swamp Water	2,752	0.0008
Rivers	509	0.0002
Biological Water	269	0.0001

(*Source: Shiklomanov, 1993*)

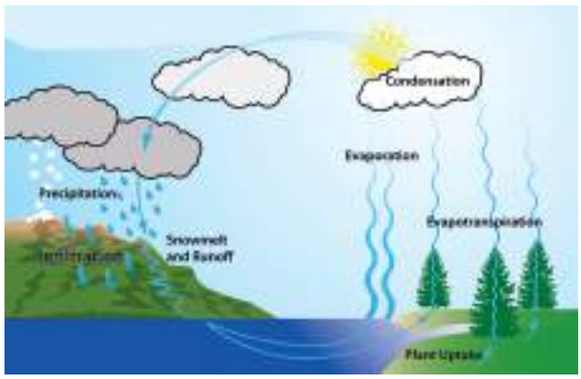
Hydrological Cycle or Water Cycle

Hydrology is the science which deals with the various aspects of water, such as its occurrence, distribution, movement and properties on the planet Earth. Availability of water on the earth is not uniform. Some places are very rich and some places are poor in water resources.

Hydrological cycle is a global sun-driven process, where water is transported from oceans to atmosphere, from atmosphere to land and from land back to oceans. The water cycle can be considered as a closed system for the earth, as the quantity of water involved in the cycle is invariable, though its distribution varies over space and time.

Evaporation takes place from the surface water and transpiration from the plants. Water vapour gets condensed at higher altitudes by condensation nuclei and form clouds. The clouds melt and sometimes burst resulting in precipitation of different forms. A part of water from precipitation flows over the land is called runoff and the other part infiltrates into the soil which builds up the groundwater.

Hydrological cycle is a circulation of water. It is a continuous process and takes place naturally. The three important phases of the hydrological cycle are: **1) Evapotranspiration, 2) Precipitation** and **3) Runoff**.



Hydrological Cycle

Components of Hydrological Cycle

There are six main components in hydrological cycle. They are: 1) Evapotranspiration, 2) Condensation, 3) Precipitation, 4) Infiltration, 5) Percolation, and 6) Runoff.

Evapotranspiration

It is defined as the total loss of water from the earth through evaporation from the surface water bodies and the transpiration from vegetation. In cropped area, it is difficult to determine the evaporation and transpiration separately. Therefore it is collectively called as evapotranspiration. The following part explains the process of evaporation and transpiration separately.

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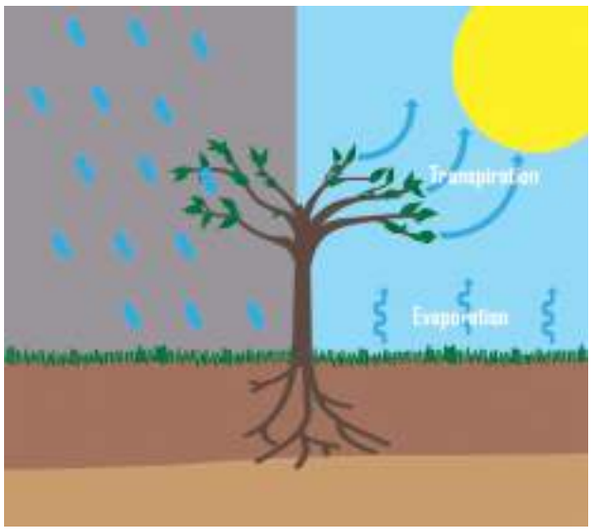


Evapotranspiration

(a) Evaporation

Evaporation refers to the process in which the liquid form of water changes into gaseous form. Water boils at 100°C (212°F) temperature but, it actually begins to evaporate at 0°C (32°F); and the process takes place very slowly. Temperature is the prime element which affects the rate of evaporation. There is a positive relationship between these two variables. Areal extent of surface water, wind and the atmospheric humidity are the other variables which affect the rate of evaporation.

The atmosphere gets nearly 90% of moisture from the oceans, seas, lakes and rivers through evaporation and 10% of the moisture from plants through transpiration.

On a global scale, the amount of water gets evaporated is about the same as the amount of water delivered to earth as precipitation. This process varies geographically, as the evaporation is more prevalent over the oceans than precipitation, while over the land, precipitation routinely exceeds evaporation. The rate of evaporation is low during the periods of calm winds than during windy times. When the air is calm, evaporated water tends to stay close to the water body. During windy, the water vapour is driven away and is replaced by dry air which facilitates additional evaporation.

DO YOU KNOW?

The rate of evaporation increases with

- Increase in wind speed
- Increase in temperature
- Decrease in humidity.
- Increase in areal extent of surface water bodies.

(b) Transpiration

Transpiration refers to the process by which the water content in the plants are released into the atmosphere in the form of water vapour. Much of the water taken up by plants is released through transpiration. The rate of transpiration is also affected by the temperature, wind and humidity. The rate of transpiration is also affected by nature of vegetation and the matheod of cultivation of crops.

(c) Condensation

It refers to the process in which the gaseous form of water changes into liquid form. Condensation generally occurs in the atmosphere, when warm air rises, cools and loses its capacity to hold water vapour. As a result, excess water vapour condenses to form cloud droplets. Condensation is responsible for the formation of clouds. These clouds produce precipitation, which is the primary route for water to return to the earth's surface in the water cycle. Condensation is the opposite of evaporation.

Forms of Condensation

Dew, frost, fog, mist and clouds are the different forms of condensation.

a) **Dew:** It is a water droplet formed by the condensation of water vapour on a relatively cold surface of an object. It forms when the temperature of an object drops below the dew point temperature.

b) **Frost:** The ice crystals formed by deposition of water vapour on a relatively cold surface of an object is known as frost. It forms when the temperature of an object drops below the freezing point of temperature.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 106 25-01-2025 10.54.04 AM

c) **Fog:** Fog is the suspended tiny water droplets or ice crystals in an air layer next to the earth's surface that reduces the visibility to 1,000 m or lower. For aviation purposes, the criterion for fog is 10 km or less.

d) **Mist:** Mist is the tiny droplets of water hanging in the air. These droplets form when the water vapour in the air is rapidly cooled, causing it to change from invisible gas to tiny visible water droplets. Mist is less dense than fog.

e) **Clouds:** Clouds consist of tiny water droplets/ice particles which are so small and light in weight. Clouds are formed by microscopic drops of water or by small ice crystals. The size of the droplets generally range from a couple of microns to 100 microns. When the size of the water droplets exceeds 100 microns, it becomes rain drops.

- Condensation occurs when the air becomes saturated.
- Warm air can hold more water vapour than the cool air.
- Saturation occurs when the temperature drops down.

Precipitation

Precipitation refers to all forms of water that fall from clouds and reaches the earth's surface. For the occurrence of precipitation, cloud droplets or ice crystals must grow heavy enough to fall through the air. When the droplets grow large in size, they tend to fall. While moving down, by collecting some small droplets, they become heavy enough to fall out of the cloud as raindrops.

Forms of Precipitation

The form of precipitation in a region depends on the kind of weather or the climate of the region. The precipitation in the warmer parts of the world is always in the form of rain or drizzle. In colder regions, precipitation may fall as snow or ice. Common types of precipitation are rain, sleet, freezing rain, hail and snow.

Rain: The most common kind of precipitation is rain. The precipitation in the form of water droplets is called rain. The precipitation in which the size of rain drops are <0.5 mm in diameter is known as drizzle and the rain drops with >0.5 mm in diameter is known as rain. Generally, drizzle takes place from stratus clouds.

Sleet: The precipitation, which takes place in the form of mixture of water droplets and tiny particles of ice (5mm in diameter) is known as sleet. Sometimes raindrops fall through a layer of air below 0°C, the freezing point of water. As they fall, the raindrops freeze into solid particles of ice. So, the mixture of water droplets and ice particles would fall on the earth surface.

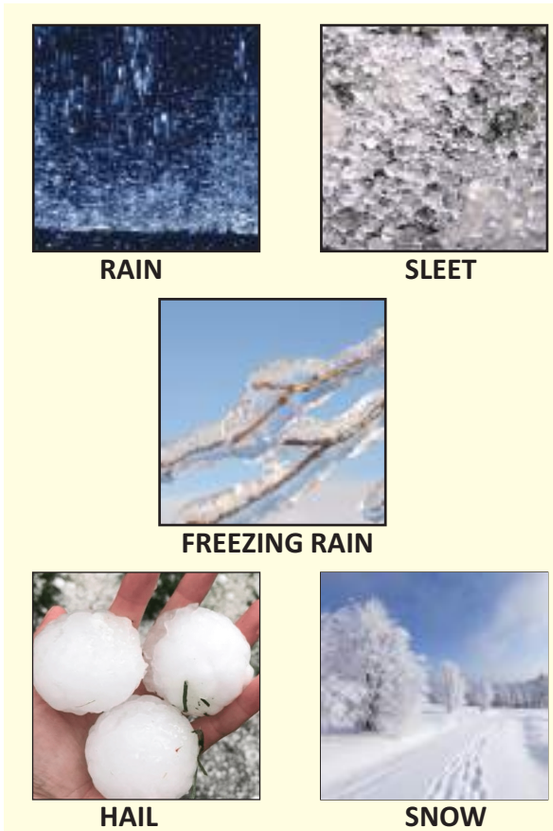
Freezing Rain: Some times raindrops falling through cold air near the ground do not freeze in the air. Instead, the raindrops freeze when they touch a cold surface. This is called freezing rain and the drops of water are usually greater than 0.5 mm in diameter.

Hail: The precipitation which consists of round pellets of ice that are larger than 5 mm in diameter is called hail or hailstones. Hail forms only in cumulonimbus clouds during thunderstorms. A hailstone starts as an ice pellet inside a cold region of a cloud. Strong updrafts in the cloud carry the hailstone up and down through the cold region many times.

Snow: Often water vapour in a cloud is converted directly into snow pieces due to lowering of temperature. It appears like a

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 107 25-01-2025 10.54.04 AM

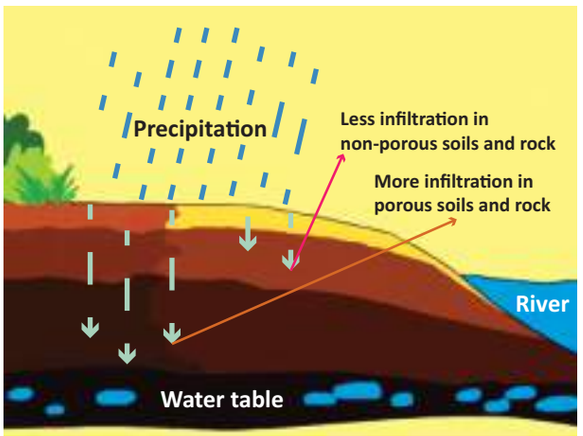
powdery mass of ice. The precipitation in the form of powdery mass of ice is known as snowfall. It is common in the polar and high mountainous regions.



Different forms of Precipitation

Infiltration

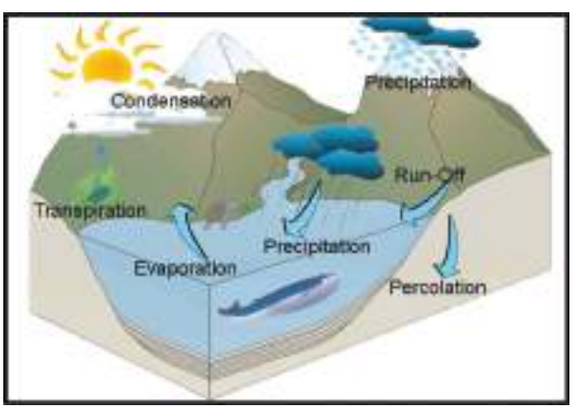
Water entering the soil at the surface of the ground is termed as infiltration. Infiltration allows the soil temporarily to store water, making it available for plants and organisms in the soil. Infiltration is an important process, where rain water soaks into the ground, through the soil and underlying rock layers. Some of this water ultimately returns to the surface through springs or low spots down hills. Some of the water remains underground and is called groundwater. The rate of infiltration is influenced by the physical characteristics of the soil, vegetative cover, moisture content of the soil, soil temperature and rainfall intensity. The terms infiltration and percolation are often used interchangeably.



Infiltration Process

Percolation

Percolation is the downward movement of infiltrated water through soil and rock layers. Infiltration occurs near the surface of the soil and delivers water from the surface into the soil and plant root zones. Percolation moves the infiltrated water through the soil profile and rock layers which leads to the formation of ground water or become a part of sub-surface run-off process. Thus, the percolation process represents the flow of water from unsaturated zone to the saturated zone.



Percolation Process

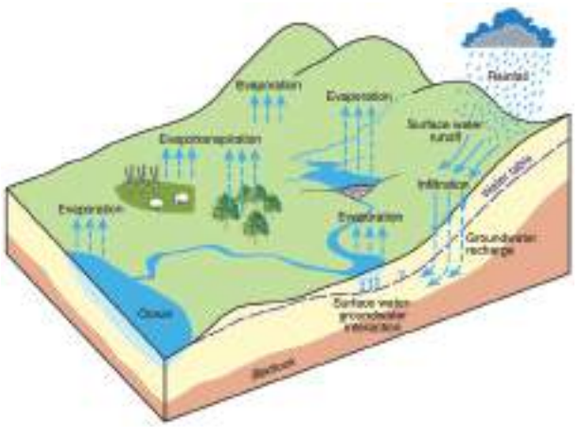
Runoff

Runoff is the water that is pulled by gravity across land's surface. It replenishes groundwater and surface water as it percolates into an aquifer (it is an underground layer of water-bearing rock) or moves into a river, stream or watershed. It comes from unabsorbed water from rain, snowmelt,

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 108 25-01-2025 10.54.05 AM

irrigation or other sources, comprising a significant element in the water cycle as well as the water supply when it drains into a watershed.

Runoff is also a major contributor to the erosion which carves out canyons, gorges and related landforms. The rate of runoff that can happen depends on the amount of rainfall, porosity of soil, vegetation and slope. Only about 35% of precipitation ends up in the sea or ocean and the other 65% is absorbed into the soil.



Runoff Process

Types of Runoff

Based on the time interval between the instance of rainfall and generation of runoff, the runoff may be classified into following three types

i) **Surface Runoff:** It is the portion of rainfall, which enters the stream immediately after the rainfall. It occurs, when the rainfall is longer, heavier and exceeds the rate of infiltration. In this condition, the excess water makes a head over the ground surface, which tends to move from one place to another following land gradient and is known as overland flow. When the overland flow joins the streams, channels or oceans, it is termed as surface runoff or surface flow.

ii) **Sub-Surface Runoff:** The water that has entered the subsoil and moves laterally without joining the water-table to the streams, rivers or oceans is known as sub-surface runoff. The sub-surface runoff is usually referred as interflow.

iii) **Base Flow:** It is a flow of underground water from a saturated ground water zone to a water channel. It usually appears at a downstream location where the channel elevation is lower than the groundwater table. Groundwater provides the stream flow during dry periods of small or no precipitation.

DO YOU KNOW?

Units of the Measurement pertaining to Hydrology

- Evaporation /interception - inches (or) cm
- Infiltration - inches (or) cm / hour
- Precipitation - inches (or) mm (or) cm
- Run off - inches (or) mm (or) cm
- Run off rate - cubic feet per second
- Run off volume - acre feet (or) cubic feet
- Storage - cubic feet (or) acre feet

Recap

- Water is one of the most important elements on earth. All plants and animals need water for survival.
- About 71% of the earth's surface is covered by water. Out of this, only about 2.8% is fresh water and the remaining 97.2% is saltwater found in seas and oceans.
- Hydrological cycle is a global sun-driven process where water is transported from oceans to atmosphere, from atmosphere to land and from land back to oceans.
- There are six main components in Hydrological cycle. They are evapotranspiration, condensation, precipitation, infiltration, percolation, and runoff.
- The precipitation in the warmer parts of the world is in the form of rain or drizzle. The common types of precipitation include rain, sleet, freezing rain, hail, and snow.
- Infiltration occurs near the surface of the soil and delivers water from the surface into the soil and plant rooting zone. Percolation moves it through the soil profile and rock layers to form groundwater.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 109 25-01-2025 10.54.05 AM

GLOSSARY		
Aquifer	It is an underground layer of water - bearing permeable rocks, rock fractures or unconsolidated materials (gravel, sand or silt)	நீர்கொள்பாறை
Evapotranspiration	It refers to the water lost through evaporation from the water bodies and transpiration from vegetation	நீராவியாதல்
Infiltration	The seepage of water into soil or rock	நீர் ஊடுருவல்
Percolation	The slow movement of water through the pores in soil	நீர் உட்கசிதல்
Precipitation	Falling products of condensation in the atmosphere, as rain, snow, or hail	பொழிவு
Runoff	Overflow	நீர் வழிந்தோடல்

Evaluation

I Choose the Correct answer

2SQOJ

1. The process in which the water moves between the oceans, atmosphere and land is called
   a) River Cycle b) Hydrological Cycle
   c) Rock Cycle d) Life Cycle
2. The percentage of fresh water on the earth is
   a) 71% b) 97.20%
   c) 2.80% d) 0.60%
3. The process of changing of water from gaseous to liquid form is known as
   a) Condensation b) Evaporation
   c) Sublimation d) Rainfall
4. Water that flows in the sub-soil or through the ground into the streams, rivers, lakes and oceans is termed as
   a) Condensation b) Evaporation
   c) Transpiration d) Runoff
5. The evaporation of water from the leaves of plants is called
   a) Transpiration b) Condensation
   c) Water vapour d) Precipitation
6. Water that is good enough to drink is called
   a) Groundwater b) Surface water
   c) Potable water d) Artesian water

II Fill in the blanks

1. The degree of water vapour present in the atmosphere is known as_____.
2. There are _____ phases in the water cycle.
3. The falling of water towards the earth surface from atmosphere in any form is known as _____.
4. The precipitation with the rain drop size of <0.5mm in diameter is known as _____.
5. Mist is denser than _____.

III Match the following

1.	Vegetation	Clouds
2.	Condensation	Sleet
3.	Snow and rain drops	At the surface
4.	Infiltration	Transpiration

IV Choose the correct statement

1. Evaporation refers to
   I. The process in which the gaseous form of water changes in to liquid form.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 110 25-01-2025 10.54.05 AM

II. It refers to the process in which the liquid form of water changes into gaseous form.

III. Water boils at 100°C temperature but, it actually begins to evaporate at 0°C.

IV. It is responsible for the formation of clouds.

a) I and IV are correct

b) II only correct

c) II and III are correct

d) All are correct

V State whether the following statements are True or False

1. Water boils at 212°F temperature but, it begins to evaporate at 32°F.
2. Mist is not the tiny droplets of water hanging in the air.
3. The sub-surface runoff is usually referred as interflow.

VI Answer briefly

1. Write a short note on aquifer.
2. Define " hydrological cycle".
3. How is the dew formation takes place?
4. Write a short note on surface run-off.

VII Give reasons

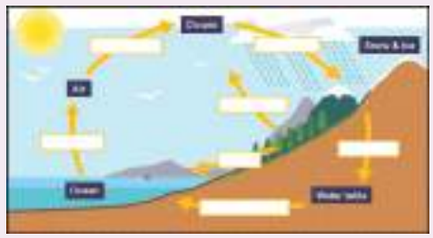
1. Infiltration of water is low in the region of non-porous soil.
2. Fresh water is less on the earth.
3. Snowfall is common in the polar region and mountainous regions.

VIII Answer in a paragraph

1. Explain the different stages involved in the hydrological cycle.
2. Distinguish between evaporation and transpiration.
3. Give a detailed explanation on different forms of precipitation.
4. Explain the run-off and its types.

ACTIVITY

Find out the missing components of Hydrological cycle in the given diagram and fill it up appropriately.



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INTERNET RESOURCES

- http://www.fao.org/docrep/X0490E/x0490e04.htm.
- https://www.sciencelearn.org.nz (University of Waikato).
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TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit_III.indd 111 25-01-2025 10.54.05 AM

Unit - 4

Migration and Urbanisation

Learning Objectives

- To study the meaning, causes and consequences of migration.
- To know the types of migration.
- To describe the concept of Urbanisation.
- To learn the origin and growth of Urbanisation.
- To understand the problems of Urbanisation.

Introduction

Rajesh and Suresh were new students joined in a school. They were allotted to Section – 'A' in VIII standard. The class teacher and other students of the class welcomed them. Teacher said, "You are going to have two new friends today. So, you all introduce yourselves to others; say your name and place from where you are coming, okay". They started from the first bench. Rajesh and Suresh were sitting in the second bench. Rajesh had a turn to introduce himself. He said, "I am Rajesh, as my mother has been transferred to this school, we migrated from Chennai to Krishnagiri". Now Suresh had a turn to introduce himself. He said, "I am Suresh, coming from the Village called Pudupatti, it is five kilometres away from the school; Madam, please tell me the meaning of 'migration' the word used by Rajesh". The teacher said, "Yes, from this lesson you are going to learn in detail about it".

MIGRATION

Migration has been defined differently by different experts. In general, migration is defined as the permanent or semi-permanent change of residence of an individual or group of people over a significant distance. So, the term migration refers to the movement of people from one place to another.

Migration

United Nations Organization Definition: Migration is a form of geographical mobility of population between one geographical unit and another, generally involving a permanent change of residence.

One of the most important aspects of social science is **"Human Migration".** It has maintained a close relation with mankind from its earliest stage. Migration is one of the most

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important dynamic human activities from the very beginning of human life. During the early days, people moved from one place to another in search of food. When most of the people ceased to live in forest and adopted civilized life, they developed relationship with domesticated animals and fertile land. As a result, mobility of mankind changed considerably. They almost left the nomadic life and started to live in permanent settlements. At this stage, people continued to move from one region to another in search of fertile land for cultivation. Afterwards, the nature of mobility frequently changed over a period of time.

Factors of Migration

There are a number of factors that are responsible for the migration of human population. These factors can be grouped under the heads of favourable and unfavourable factors.

1. The favourable factors which attract people towards a location are called pull factors.
2. The unfavourable factors which make the people to move out from a location are called push factors.

The various causes which are responsible for human migration is categorized under five groups as follows.

a) Ecological or Natural Causes of Migration

The causes operate under this category are natural ones. They include volcanic eruption, earthquake, flood, drought etc. These events force the people to leave their native places and settle in the new areas. The conditions like the availability of water resources, areas free from hazards, pollution etc., attract the migrants.

b) Economic causes of Migration

Economy is one of the most important causes of human migration from one area to another. Various economic causes determine the level and direction of migration. The availability of fertile agricultural land, employment opportunities, development of technology etc., are some of the economic causes that attract the migration. The mass poverty and unemployment force the people to move out from their native places to the places where the better employment opportunities are available.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 113 25-01-2025 10.56.18 AM

c) Socio-Cultural causes of Migration

Socio-cultural causes also play some roles in the process of migration. Migration of women after marriage and migration associated with pilgrimage are based on the socio-cultural customs.

Socio-cultural causes of Migration

d) Demographic causes of Migration

In demographic sense, the population composition like age and sex, over population and under population are the major causes of migration. It is a well-known fact that adults are more migratory than any other age-groups. Women mostly migrate after their marriage. Generally, over population is considered as a push factor and under population as a pull factor in the context of migration.

e) Political causes of Migration

Various political causes like colonization, wars, government policies etc., have always been playing important role in human migration from time to time. Wars have been one of the significant causes of migration since ancient time.

Types of Migration

Migration can be classified in several ways. It is usually categorized as follows;

a) Based on the movement associated with administrative limits

(i) Internal migration: The movement of people within a country is known as internal migration.

Further, the internal migration is classified into four categories on the basis of the place of origin and destination of migrants.

Pull Factors	Push Factors
Natural Causes	
Least hazard prone zones	Hazard prone zones
Favourable climate	Climate change (including extreme weather events)
Abundance of natural resources and minerals (e.g.water,oil,uranium)	Crop failure and scarcity of food
Economic Cause	
Potential for employment	Unemployment
Socio-cultural Cause	
Social Unification	Social Discrimination
Demographic Cause	
Under population	Over population
Political Causes	
Political security	War, civil, unrest
Independence and freedom	Safety and security concerns (ethnic, religious, racial or cultural persecution
Affordable and accessible urban services Eg: healthcare, education, transport and recreation etc	Inadequate or limited urban services and infrastructure Eg: healthcare, education, transport, water and recreation etc

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 114 25-01-2025 10.56.19 AM

Female migrants outnumber male migrants in Europe, Northern America, Oceania and Latin America and the Caribbean, while in Africa and Asia, particularly Western Asia, migrants are predominantly men. (International Migration Report, 2017).

1. **Rural-to-Urban Migration** is the movement of population from rural areas to growing towns and cities mainly in search of employment, education and recreation facilities.
2. **Urban-to-Urban Migration** is the migration between one urban centre and the other in search of higher income.
3. **Rural-to-Rural Migration** is driven by fertile land for cultivation and other sociological factors like Marriage etc.
4. **Urban-to-Rural Migration** is the movement from urban centres to rural areas to get rid-off the urban problems and returning to native places after retirement from jobs.

Rural-to-Urban migration is the most common one.

(ii) International Migration – Migration that occurs across the national boundaries are known as International Migration.

In 2017, India was the largest country of origin of international migrants (17 million), followed by Mexico (13 million). (International Migration Report, 2017).

b) Based on the willingness of the migrants for migration

(i) Voluntary Migration: If the migration takes place on person's free will, initiative and desire to live in a better place and to improve their financial status, the migration is said to be voluntary.

(ii) Involuntary or forced Migration: If the migration takes place against the will of migrants, the migration is termed as involuntary migration. The push factors like war may force the people to emigrate from a place is of this type.

Share of Regions in World Population and International Migrants by Origin - 2017

S.No.	Name of the Region	Total Population	Percentage of Global Population	International Migrants by origin	Percentage of International Migrants
1	Africa	1,256,268	16.6	36,266	14.1
2	Asia	4,504,428	59.7	105,684	41.0
3	Europe	742,074	9.8	61,191	23.7
4	Latin America and the Caribbean	645,593	8.6	37,720	14.6
5	North America	361,208	4.8	4,413	1.7
6	Oceania	40,691	0.5	1,880	0.7
7	Unknown	n/a	n/a	10,560	4.1
8	**World**	**7,550,262**	**100.0**	**257,715**	**100.0**

Source: International Migration Report, 2017, United Nations.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 115 25-01-2025 10.56.19 AM

c) Based on the duration of stay of migrants in the place of destination

(i) Short-term migration: In this kind of migration, the migrants stay outside only for a short duration before returning to the place of origin. The duration may be from a few days to few months.

(ii) Long-term migration: It is a kind of migration in which the migrants stay outside at least for a few years.

(iii) Seasonal migration: In this type of migration, usually a group of people migrates from their native places during a particular season and returns after end of that season. People migrating to hill stations during summer and the migration of agricultural workers during sowing seasons belong to this category. **Transhumance** is an another example of seasonal migration.

The number of international migrants worldwide has continued to grow rapidly in recent years, reaching 258 million in 2017, up from 220 million in 2010 and 173 million in 2000 (International Migration Report, 2017).

Consequences of Migration

Migration affects both the areas of origin of migration and the areas of destination. The following are the major consequences of migration.

a) Demographic consequences: It changes age and sex composition of population. Migration of females after their marriage leads to decline in sex ratio in the source regions and increase the sex ratio in the regions of destinations. The migration of male workers in search of jobs decreases the independent population of the source regions which increases the dependency ratio.

b) Social consequences: The migration of people from different regions towards an urban area leads to the formation of plural society. It helps the people to come out of narrow mindedness and people become generous.

c) Economic consequences: The migration of more people from over populated to under populated regions results the imbalance of the resource-population ratio. In some cases, the regions of over and under population may become the regions of optimum population. Migration may influence the occupational structure of the population of an area. Through this, it will certainly affect the economy of the regions also. **Brain drain** is a consequence of migration. Brain drain refers to the migration of skilled people from economically backward countries to developed countries in search of better opportunities. Eventually, this leads to backwardness in source regions. This is called as **"backwash effect".**

d) Environmental consequences: Large scale movement of people from rural to urban areas causes overcrowding in cities and puts heavy pressure on resources. It leads to rapid growth of cities. The over population in urban areas leads to the pollution of air, water and soil. Scarcity of drinking water, lack of space for housing, traffic congestions and poor drainage are the common environmental problems prevail in urban areas. The lack of space for housing and the rising of land cost lead to the formation of slums.

URBANISATION

Urbanisation refers to the process in which there is an increase in the proportion of population living in towns and cities.

Urbanisation

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 116 25-01-2025 10.56.19 AM

Causes of Urbanisation

Urbanisation is driven by three factors: natural population growth, Rural-to-Urban migration and the reclassification of rural areas into urban areas. Present day urbanisation includes changes in demographics, land cover, economic processes and characteristics of geographic area.

In 2007, for the first time in history, the global urban population exceeded the global rural population and the world population has remained predominantly urban thereafter. (World Urbanisation Prospects, 2014 Revision, Highlights).

Origin and Growth of World Urbanisation

The process of urbanisation in the world has a long history.

Ancient Period: The urban centres started developing during the prehistoric period (before 10000 years). During this period primitive man started domestication of plants and animals. It was the period of development of permanent settlements. The river valley regions of the Egypt, Greece and India gave rise to agrarian communities, which eventually formed the urban communities and urban centres. The excess production of food grains was the major reason for urbanisation. **Ur and Babylon in Mesopotamia, Thebes and Alexandria in Egypt, Athens in Greece, Harappa and Mohenjodaro in India were noted prehistoric cities of the world.**

In ancient period, the increase in the number and size of urban centres occurred during the two great colonizing periods of the Greeks and Romans. During the beginning of the 7th century itself many cities were found near the Aegean Sea. During the Greek colonizing period, the expansion of trade promoted the growth of towns and cities.

India, China and Nigeria – together are expected to account for 35 % of the growth in the world's urban population between 2018 and 2050. India is projected to add 416 million urban dwellers, China 255 million and Nigeria 189 million (World Urbanisation Prospects, 2018, Key facts).

A City in Harappa

Medieval Period: It refers to the period after the 11th century. During this period, the European countries, increased their overseas trade, which played an important role in the revival of European towns and cities after a period of low development. **At the end of the thirteenth century, Paris, London, Geneva, Milan and Venice were the important cities found in Europe.**

View of Carcassonne (France)

Modern Period: This period starts from 17th century. It marks the third phase of development in urbanisation. The industrial revolution in the 19th century accelerated the growth of towns and cities. The Europeans with urban civilization gave birth to a large number of new towns in North America and Soviet Union. The modern

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 117 25-01-2025 10.56.19 AM

means of transport and communication, the development of new trade routes during 19th century had strengthened the trade centres and urban areas. The latest development in urbanisation was noticed in the continent of Africa. Before 1930, Africa had towns only on its coasts but now it has 50 towns with population exceeding 10,00,000. Major cities in Africa are Cairo, Nairobi, Mombasa, Bulawayo, Duala, Abidian, Logos, Accra, Addis Abba, Leopoldville, Luanda, Cape Town, Natal, Pretoria etc. Thus, in the modern age, the accelerating urbanisation is resulting in a redistribution of population throughout the world.

Modern Urbanisation

In 1950, 30% of the world's population was urban, and by 2050, 68 % of the world's population is projected to be urban (World Urbanisation Prospects, 2018, Key facts).

World Urbanisation

S. No.	Name of the Region	Urban Population in %
1	North America	82
2	Latin America and Caribbean	81
3	Europe	74
4	Oceania	68
5	Asia	50
6	Africa	43
World Average		**55**

Source: World Urbanisation Prospects, 2018, Revision, Key facts.

World Top Five Cities

S. No.	Name of the City	Population in million
1	Tokyo *(Japan)*	37
2	Delhi *(India)*	29
3	Shanghai *(China)*	26
4	Mexico city *(Mexico)*	22
5	Sao Paulo *(Brazil)*	22

Source: World Urbanisation Prospects, 2018, Revision, Key facts

Consequences of Urbanisation

a) Housing and Slums: There is a lack of space for housing and a marked reduction in the quality of housing in the urban areas due to increase in population. This problem may increase in the years to come. Rapid rate of urbanisation results the development of slums.

Slums

b) Over Crowding: Over-crowding leads to unhealthy environment in the urban areas. It is also the cause of many diseases and riots.

c) Water supply, Drainage and Sanitation: No city has round the clock water supply in the world. Drainage situation is equally bad. The removal of garbage is a Himalayan task for urban local bodies.

d) Transportation and Traffic: Lack of planned and adequate arrangements for traffic and transport is another problem in urban centres. The increasing number of two wheelers and cars make the traffic problem worse. They cause air pollution as well.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 118 25-01-2025 10.56.21 AM

e) Pollution: Towns and cities are the major polluters of environment. Cities discharge their entire sewage and industrial effluents untreated into the nearby rivers. Industries in and around the urban centres pollute the atmosphere with smoke and toxic gases.

Recap

- Common pattern of migration is from rural to urban.
- Migration takes place due to natural, economic, socio-cultural, demographic and political causes.
- Urbanisation is the result of Rural-to-Urban migration, natural growth of population and reclassification of rural areas into urban areas.
- Problems of urbanisation are mainly owing to over population, inadequate infrastructure, industrial development and increase in number of vehicles.

GLOSSARY		
Migrant	The person who migrates from one place to another.	இடம் பெயர்பவர்
Emigration	A migration in which an individual or a group move out from home country.	குடி பெயர்தல்
Emigrant	An International migrant departing to another country by crossing the International boundary.	குடி பெயர்பவர்
Immigration	A migration in which a person or group of people move into a new country.	குடியேற்றம்
Immigrant	An international migrant who enters into an area from a place outside the country.	குடியேறுபவர்
Push factors	The factors which force the people to move out from their native places.	உந்து காரணிகள்
Pull factors	The factors which attract people from outside into a place.	இழுவைக் காரணிகள்
Transhumance	It is also called Seasonal Migration, where pastoral farmers move with their herds seasonally or periodically between plains and mountains.	கால்நடையுடன் இடம்பெயர்வு

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 119 25-01-2025 10.56.21 AM

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. People move from _____ to _____ mainly in search of better jobs.
   a) Rural to Urban
   b) Urban to Rural
   c) Hills to plains
   d) Plains to hills
2. A person moves from his own country to another country is known as _____.
   a) Immigrant b) Refugee
   c) Emigrant d) Asylum seeker
3. The migration in search of fertile. agricultural land is _____ migration
   a) Rural to Rural b) Rural to Urban
   c) Urban to Rural d) Urban to Urban
4. War is one of the _____ causes of human migration.
   a) Demographic b) Socio-Cultural
   c) Political d) Economic
5. The main reason for the development of urbanisation in pre-historic period was _____.
   a) Excess Production of food grains
   b) Domestication of cattle
   c) Fishing
   d) hunting

II Fill in the blanks

1. Urbanisation is determined by _____ number of factors.
2. _____ is the major push factor operating in rural areas.
3. _____ metropolitan city in India has the second highest urban population in the world.
4. The movement of a person based on his free will and desire to live in a better place is called _____ migration.
5. In modern time urban growth was accelerated by the development of _____.

III Match the following

1. Emigration	-	In migration
2. Immigration	-	Out migration
3. Pull factor	-	Unemployment
4. Push factor	-	Socio- Cultural migration
5. Marriage	-	Employment opportunity

IV State whether the following statements are true or false

1. Slums are generally found in cities.
2. Mass migration is absent in the modern period.
3. The process of Urbanisation has a short history.
4. Cities and towns are the major polluters of environment.
5. Transhumance is also referred as seasonal migration.

V Consider the given statements and choose the correct option from the given ones

Statement (A): Urbanisation is mainly due to the movement of people from rural to cities.

Reason (R) : Rural to Urban migration is not a predominant one.

a) A is correct but R is incorrect
b) Both A and R are incorrect
c) Both A and R are correct
d) A is incorrect and R is correct

VI Answer briefly

1. Define "Migration".
2. What are the causes of rural to urban migration?
3. State the causes of the ecological or natural migration.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 120 25-01-2025 10.56.21 AM

4. Name any two pull factors of migration.
5. What is Urbanisation?
6. List out any four most populous cities in the world.

VII Answer in Paragraph

1. What are the different types of migration? Explain.
2. Explain in detail about the various causes of migration.
3. Discuss the problems of urbanisation.

VIII Map Study

On the outline map of the world mark the following places

1. Tokyo
2. New Delhi
3. Mexico city
4. Shanghai
5. Sao Paulo
6. Oceania
7. Latin America
8. Paris
9. London
10. Cairo

IX Activities

1. List out and analyse the reason for migration of people in your locality.
2. Collect the pictures and information regarding the effects of urbanisation and make an album.

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ICT CORNER

Migration and Urbanisation

Through this activity you will know about total number of international migrations

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.

Step – 2 Go to left side menu and Select any Country (Ex. India)

Step – 3 Drag the Time line in left side menu to know about migration status of India

Web URL: https://migrationdataportal.org/latest

*Pictures are indicatives only.

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 4.indd 121 25-01-2025 10.56.22 AM

Unit - 5

Hazards

Learning Objectives

- To learn the meanings of hazard, disaster and catastrophe.
- To describe the major types of hazards, their causes and effects.
- To develop awareness regarding hazards and related prevention measures.

Introduction

Teacher : Good morning students.
Students : Good morning teacher.
Teacher : Are all present today?
Krithika : No teacher, Shruthi is absent today.
Teacher : Why is she absent today?
Pavithra : Teacher, don't you know what happened to her?
Teacher : No my dear child, what happened to her?
Theshmitha : Teacher, Yesterday, while returning home, she was struck by a big branch of a tree due to heavy rain and got injured.
Teacher : Oh my God….what a pity? Students, you all must be very careful while moving around to avoid the problems from hazards.
Kamalesh : Teacher, what do you mean by hazards? You mean the Belgian football player **'Hazard'**?
Teacher : No…no, it is an event which can affect the living and non-living things on earth. I think today is the right day to get into the interesting chapter 'hazards'.

Hazards

At the beginning of twenty-first century, the earth supported a human population that was more numerous and found healthier and wealthier than ever before. At the same time, there were a lack of awareness on the risks that faced by the people. By keeping this in mind, the present lesson of hazards is intended to familiarise the different types of hazards to promote awareness among students regarding hazards.

Hazards are defined as a thing, person, event or factor that poses a threat to people, structures or economic assets and which may cause a disaster. They could be either human-made or naturally occurring in the environment. The word 'hazard' owes its origin to the word 'hasart' in old French meaning a game of dice (in Arabic – az-zahr; in Spanish – azar).

Though the society experiences several types of hazards, it is important for a region to be aware of those threats that are most likely to affect the community most severely.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 122 25-01-2025 10.58.50 AM

A natural hazard is a natural process and event that is a potential threat to human life and property. The process and events themselves are not a hazard but become so because of human use of the land.

A disaster is a hazardous event that occurs over a limited time span in a defined area and causes great damage to property/ loss of life, also needs assistance from others.

A catastrophe is a massive disaster that requires significant expenditure of money and a long time for recovery.

Types of Hazards

Some hazards occur frequently and threat the people. Hazards are classified in different ways.

I. Based on their causes of occurrence.

II. Based on their origin.

I. Based on their causes of occurrence

Hazards can be broadly classified into three types: natural, human-made and socio-natural hazards.

1. **Natural hazards:** These are the results of natural processes and man has no role to play in such hazards. The main examples of natural hazards are earthquakes, floods, cyclonic storms, droughts, landslides, tsunamis and volcanic eruptions.

Natural hazard

2. **Human-made hazards:** These are caused by undesirable activities of human. It can be the result of an accident, such as an industrial chemical leak or oil spill, or an intentional act. Such hazards can disturb the safety, health, welfare of people and cause damage or destruction to property. The following are the examples of human-made hazards. They are explosions, hazardous wastes, pollution of air, water and land, dam failures, wars or civil conflicts and terrorism.

Human-made hazards

3. **Socio-natural hazards (Quasi-natural hazards):** These are caused by the combined effect of natural forces and misdeeds of human. Some of the examples are:

- The frequency and intensity of floods and droughts may increase due to indiscriminate felling of trees, particularly in the catchment areas of the rivers.
- Landslides are caused by natural forces and their frequency, and impact may be aggravated as a result of construction of roads, houses etc., in mountainous areas, excavating tunnels and by mining and quarrying.
- Storm surge hazards may be worsened by the destruction of mangroves.
- Smog is a serious problem in most big urban areas. The emissions from vehicles and industries, combustion of wood and coal together combined with fog leads to smog.

II. Based on their origin

Hazards can be grouped into eight categories

1. **Atmospheric hazard** – Tropical storms, Thunderstorms, Lightning, Tornadoes, Avalanches, Heat waves, Fog and Forest fire.
2. **Geologic/Seismic hazard** – Earthquakes, Tsunami, Landslide and Land subsidence.
3. **Hydrologic hazard** – Floods, Droughts, Coastal erosion and Storm surges.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 123 25-01-2025 10.58.52 AM

4. **Volcanic hazard** – Eruptions and Lava flows.
5. **Environmental hazard** – Pollution of soil/ air/water, Desertification, Global warming and Deforestation.
6. **Biological hazard** – Chickenpox, Smallpox, AIDS [HIV] and Killer bees.
7. **Technological hazard** – Hazardous material incidents, Fires, Infrastructure failures [Bridges, Tunnels, Dams, Nuclear and Radiological accidents].
8. **Human-induced hazard** – Terrorism, Bomb blast, War, Transportation accidents and Civil disorder.

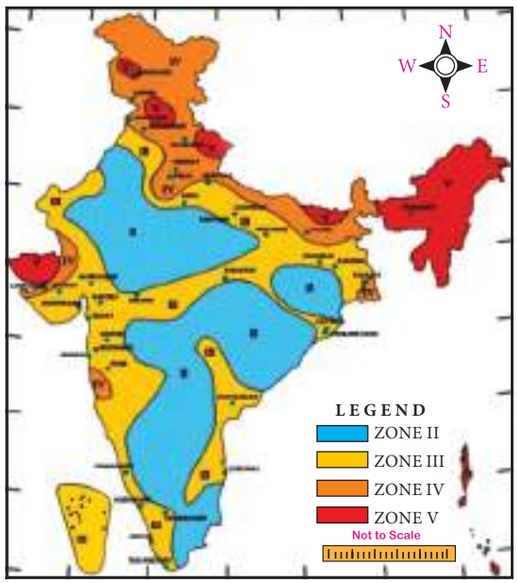
Major Hazards in India:

1) Earthquakes

Earthquake is a violent tremor in the earth's crust, sending out a series of shock waves in all directions from its place of origin.

Earthquake prone regions of the country have been identified on the basis of scientific inputs relating to seismicity, earthquakes occurred in the past and tectonic setup of the region. Based on these inputs, Bureau of Indian Standards has grouped the country into four seismic zones: Zone II, Zone III, Zone IV and Zone V (No area of India is classified as Zone I).

Seismic Zones of India



(Source: National Institute of Disaster Management, New Delhi)

Earthquakes

Earthquake-prone Zones of India

Seismic Zones	Level of Risk	Regions
Zone V	Very High	Comprises entire Northeastern India, parts of Jammu and Kashmir, Himachal Pradesh, Uttarakhand, Rann of Kutch in Gujarat, parts of North Bihar and Andaman & Nicobar Islands.
Zone IV	High	Covers remaining parts of Jammu and Kashmir and Himachal Pradesh, National Capital Territory (NCT) of Delhi, Sikkim, northern parts of Uttar Pradesh, Bihar and West Bengal, parts of Gujarat and small portions of Maharashtra near the west coast and Rajasthan.
Zone III	Moderate	Comprises Kerala, Goa, Lakshadweep Islands, remaining parts of Uttar Pradesh, Gujarat and West Bengal, parts of Punjab, Rajasthan, Madhya Pradesh, Bihar, Jharkhand, Chhattisgarh, Maharashtra, Odisha, Andhra Pradesh, Tamil Nadu and Karnataka.
Zone II	Low	Covers remaining parts of country.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 124 25-01-2025 10.58.53 AM

2) Floods

Flood is an event in which a part of the earth's surface gets inundated. Heavy rainfall and large waves in seas are the common causes of flood.

Flood

The major causes of floods are:

A. Meteorological factors

i) Heavy rainfall

ii) Tropical cyclones

iii) Cloud burst

B. Physical factors

i) Large catchment area

ii) Inadequate drainage arrangement

C. Human factors

i) Deforestation

ii) Siltation

iii) Faulty agricultural practices

iv) Faulty irrigation practices

v) Collapse of dams

vi) Accelerated urbanisation

ACTIVITY

Discuss in the classroom about the actions to be taken before, during and after flood.

The following map shows the major flood-prone areas in India. Gangetic plains covering the states of Punjab, Haryana, Uttar Pradesh, North Bihar, West Bengal and Brahmaputra Valley are the major flood prone areas in North and Northeast India. Coastal Andhra Pradesh, Odisha and Southern Gujarat are the other regions which are also prone to flood often.

Major flood prone areas of India

(Source: National Institute of Hydrology, New Delhi)

3) Cyclonic Storms

A cyclonic storm is a strong wind circulating around a low-pressure area in the atmosphere. It rotates in anti-clockwise direction in Northern Hemisphere and clockwise in the Southern Hemisphere.

Tropical cyclones are characterised by destructive winds, storm surges and exceptional levels of rainfall, which may cause flooding. Wind speed may reach upto 200 km/h and rainfall may record upto 50 cm/day for several consecutive days.

A sudden rise of seawater due to tropical cyclone is called storm surge. It is more common in the regions of shallow coastal water.

East coastal areas vulnerable to storm surges

i) North Odisha and West Bengal coasts.

ii) Andhra Pradesh coast between Ongole and Machilipatnam.

iii) Tamil Nadu coast (among 14 coastal districts, Nagapattinam and Cuddalore districts are frequently affected).

West coastal areas vulnerable to storm surges

The West coast of India is less vulnerable to storm surges than the East coast.

i) Maharashtra coast, north of Harnai and adjoining South Gujarat coast and the coastal belt around the Gulf of Cambay.

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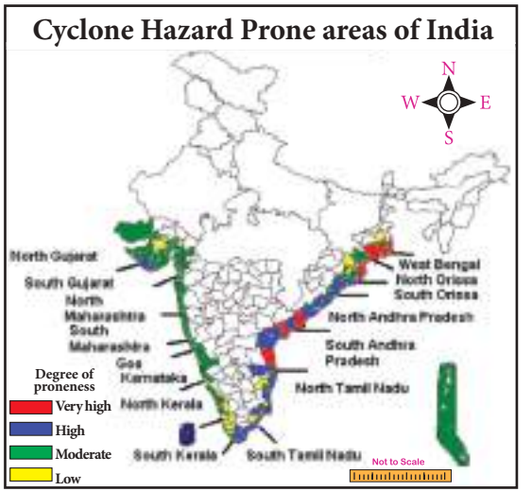
ii) The coastal belt around the Gulf of Kutch.



(Source: Mohapatra et al., 2015)

4) Droughts

Any lack of water to satisfy the normal needs of agriculture, livestock, industry or human population may be termed as a drought. Further, the drought could be classified into three major types as,

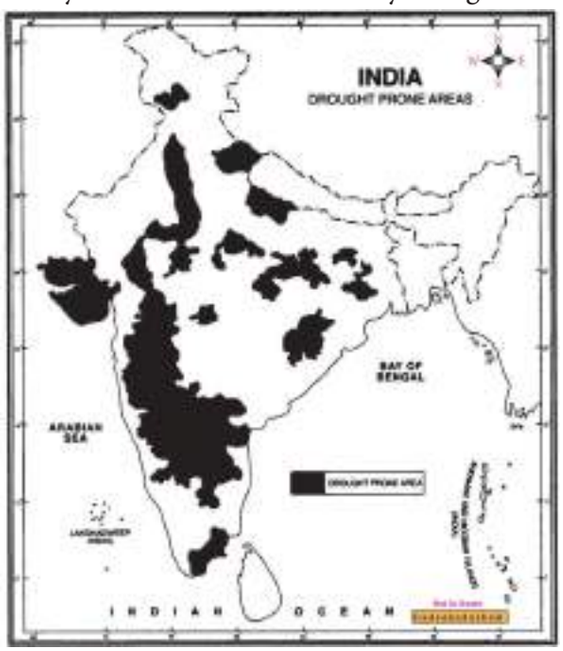
i) **Meteorological drought:** It is a situation where there is a reduction in rainfall for a specific period below a specific level.

ii) **Hydrological drought:** It is associated with reduction of water in streams, rivers and reservoirs. It is of two types, a) Surface water drought, and b) Groundwater drought.

iii) **Agricultural drought:** It refers to the condition in which the agricultural crops get affected due to lack of rainfall.

Drought

Droughts in India occur in the event of a failure of monsoon. Generally, monsoon rainfall is uneven in India. Some areas receive heavy rainfall, while other regions get moderate to low rainfall. The areas which experience low to very low rainfall are affected by drought.



(Source: Khullar, 2014)

Fact

About one third area of the country is affected by drought. It severely affects 16% of the land area and 12% of the total population of India. The areas that receive an annual rainfall of less than 60 cm are the drought prone regions of India.

The major areas highly prone to drought are:

1) The arid and semi-arid region from Ahmedabad to Kanpur on one side and from Kanpur to Jalandhar on the other.

2) The dry region lying in the leeward side of the Western Ghats.

5) Landslides

Landslide is a rapid downward movement of rock, soil and vegetation down the slope under the influence of gravity. Landslides are generally sudden and infrequent. Presence of steep slope and heavy rainfall are the major causes of landslides. Weak ground structure, deforestation, earthquakes, volcanic eruptions, mining, construction of roads and railways over the mountains are the other causes of landslides.

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About 15% of India's landmass is prone to landslide hazard. Landslides are very common along the steep slopes of the Himalayas, the Western Ghats and along the river valleys. In Tamil Nadu, Kodaikanal (Dindigul district) and Ooty (The Nilgiris district) are frequently affected by landslides.

6) Tsunami

Tsunami refers to huge ocean waves caused by an earthquake, landslide or volcanic eruption. It is generally noticed in the coastal regions and travel between 640 to 960 km/h. Tsunami pose serious danger to the inhabitants of the coastal areas.

DO YOU KNOW?

The word 'Tsunami' is derived from Japanese word 'tsu' meaning harbour and 'nami' meaning wave (Harbour wave).

Indian Ocean Tsunami of 2004

- On December 26, 2004, at 7:59 a.m. local time, an undersea earthquake with a magnitude of 9.1 struck off the coast of the Indonesian island of Sumatra.
- The Tsunami killed at least 2,25,000 people across a dozen countries, with Indonesia, Sri Lanka, India, Thailand, Somalia and Maldives, sustaining massive damage.

7) Hazardous Wastes

The wastes that may or tend to cause adverse health effects on the ecosystem and human beings are called hazardous wastes.

The following are the major hazardous wastes

i) **Radioactive substance:** tools and unused fuel pipe of nuclear power plants.

ii) **Chemicals:** synthetic organics, inorganic metals, salts, acids and bases, and flammables and explosives.

iii) **Medical wastes:** hypodermic needles, bandages and outdated drugs.

iv) **Flammable wastes:** organic solvents, oils, plasticisers and organic sludges.

v) **Explosives:** the wastes resulting from ordnance manufacturing and some industrial gases.

vi) **Household hazardous wastes:** pesticides, waste oil, automobile battery and used household batteries.

hazardous wastes

DO YOU KNOW?

Chernobyl nuclear disaster site (near Pripyat) to become an official tourist spot

Before:

- Chernobyl (then Soviet Union) nuclear accident happened on 26th April, 1986.
- The radiation emitted was more than 400 times than radiation released by the atomic bomb dropped on Hiroshima (Japan) in 1945. This accident remains the largest nuclear accident in history.
- More than 3,50,000 people were evacuated from the area and severe restrictions on permanent human settlement are still in place.

Now:

- 33 years after the accident, the Exclusion Zone, which covers an area now in Ukraine and Belarus is inhabited by numerous animals and more than 200 bird species.
- In 2016, the Ukraine part of this zone was declared as a radiological and environmental biosphere reserve by the government.

8) Pollution of Air

Air is a mixture of several gases. The main gases are nitrogen (78.09%) for forming products

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 127 25-01-2025 10.58.55 AM

such as, fertilisers for plants and the air inert, oxygen (20.95%) for breathing and carbon dioxide (0.03%) for photosynthesis. Some other gases like argon, neon, helium, krypton, hydrogen, ozone, zenon and methane are also present. Besides, water vapour and dust particles make their presence felt in one way or the other.

Air pollution is the contamination of the indoor or outdoor air by a range of gases and solids that modify its natural characteristics and percentage. Air pollutants can be categorised into primary and secondary pollutants.

A **primary pollutant** is an air pollutant emitted directly from a source. A **secondary pollutant** is not directly emitted as such, but forms when other pollutants (primary pollutants) react in the atmosphere.

Primary Pollutants

i) Oxides of Sulphur

ii) Oxides of Nitrogen

iii) Oxides of Carbon

iv) Particulate Matter

v) Other Primary Pollutants

Secondary Pollutants

i) Ground Level Ozone

ii) Smog

9) Pollution of Water

Water pollution may be defined as alteration in the physical, chemical and biological characteristics of water, which may cause harmful effects in human and aquatic life.

Water pollution

In India, water pollution has been taking place on a large scale and for a long period. Both surface and groundwater bodies are polluted to a great extent. The major causes of water pollution in India are:

i) Urbanisation

ii) Industrial effluents

iii) Sewages

iv) Agricultural runoff and improper agricultural practices

v) Seawater intrusion

vi) Solid wastes

Need for Prevention Measures

Prevention is defined as the measures taken to prevent a natural calamity or potential hazard from having harmful effects on either people or economic assets.

- Prevention planning consists of i) hazard identification, and ii) vulnerability assessment.
- Delayed actions may increase the economic losses.
- For developing countries like India, prevention is perhaps the most critical components in managing disasters.

Nature is emerging as a new weapon of mass destruction, do you agree?

Around 22,000 people have died in India in 10 years until 2017 due to major environmental disasters – Indian Meteorology Department.

In the past two decades (1998-2017) over 5,00,000 people have died due to extreme weather events around the world – stated by Global Climate Risk Index Report Published by Germanwatch (German-based non-profit organisation).

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 128 25-01-2025 10.58.55 AM

Recap

- Hazards are defined as the phenomena that pose a threat to people, structures or economic assets and which may cause disaster.
- There are three types of hazards namely natural hazards, human-made hazards and Socio-natural hazards
- Natural hazards are earthquakes, floods, cyclonic storms, droughts, landslides, tsunamis, volcanic eruptions etc.
- Human-made hazards are explosions, hazardous wastes, pollution of air, land and water, dam collapses, wars or civil conflicts, terrorism etc.
- Socio- natural hazards are caused by the combined effect of natural forces and misdeeds of human.

GLOSSARY		
Earthquake	It is a violent tremor in the earth's crust.	நிலஅதிர்வு
Floods	It is a state of high water level along a river channel or on coast that leads to inundation of land.	வெள்ளப்பெருக்கு
Drought	Any lack of water to satisfy the normal needs of agriculture, livestock, industry or human population may be termed as a drought.	வறட்சி
Tsunami	It is a series of waves caused by the earth movements under the sea.	ஆழிப் பேரலை

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. _____ percentage of nitrogen is present in the air.
   a) 78.09%
   b) 74.08%
   c) 80.07%
   d) 76.63%

2. Tsunami in Indian Ocean took place in the year _____.
   a) 1990 b) 2004
   c) 2005 d) 2008

3. The word Tsunami is derived from _____ language.
   a) Hindi
   b) French
   c) Japanese
   d) German

4. The example of surface water is _____.
   a) Artesian well b) Groundwater
   c) Subsurface water d) Lake

5. Event that occurs due to the failure of monsoons _____.
   a) Condensation b) Drought
   c) Evaporation d) Precipitation

II Fill in the blanks

1. Hazards may lead to_____.
2. Landslide is an example of _____ hazard.
3. On the basis of origin, hazard can be grouped into _____ categories.
4. Terrorism is an example of _____ hazard.
5. Oxides of Nitrogen are _____pollutants which affects the human beings.
6. Chernobyl nuclear accident took place in _____ year.

TN_GOVT_VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 5.indd 129 25-01-2025 10.58.55 AM

III Match the following

List I		List II
1. Primary pollutant	-	Terrorism
2. Hazardous waste	-	Tsunami
3. Earthquake	-	Outdated drugs
4. Meteorological drought	-	Oxides of Sulphur
5. Human induced hazard	-	Reduction in rainfall

IV Answer briefly

1. Define 'hazard'.
2. What are the major types of hazards?
3. Write a brief note on hazardous wastes.
4. List out the major flood prone areas of our country.
5. Mention the types of drought.
6. Why should not we construct houses at foothill areas?

V Distinguish between

1. Hazards and disasters.
2. Natural hazard and human-made hazard.
3. Flood and drought.
4. Earthquake and Tsunami.

VI Answer in a paragraph

1. Write an essay on air pollution.
2. Define earthquake and list out its effects.
3. Give a detailed explanation on the causes of landslides.
4. Elaborately discuss the effects of water pollution.

VII Activities

1. Name the hazards which you have identified.
2. List out the hazards that occur frequently and occasionally in your place.

Frequent Hazards		Occasional Hazards	
1		1	
2		2	
3		3	
4		4	
5		5	

3. On the map of Tamil Nadu shade the 13 coastal districts in different colours.

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Item		In and around your school	In your residential environs	On the way to school from home
1.	Hazardous factory / Industry			
2.	Roads of heavy traffic			
3.	Tall buildings			
4.	Things which burn easily			
5.	Open drainage / Septic tank			
6.	Others			

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Unit - 6

Industries

Learning Objectives

- To know about the nature and the importance of Industries.
- To understand the general classification of economic activities.
- To identify the factors responsible for location of Industries.
- To study about the classification of Industries.

2MNUP

Introduction

Anbu and Kabilan were studying in 8th standard like you. One day it was raining while they were playing in the school play ground. They started running towards the class room. Kabilan planned to stay under a nearby tree in the rain and called Anbu to accompany him. But he denied saying that lightning might strike the tree. Finally, they reached the class room. They saw an attractive new cotton towel in the class room. They used the towel for wiping their heads. Other students in the classroom said to them," The towel was brought by the teacher and you made it wet. So, she might shout at you". In order to please the teacher, Kabilan asked the teacher some questions. He said, "Madam this is so cute and colourful. From where did you buy this? How is it made?" The teacher was very happy and started explaining the raw materials used, the way it was manufactured and marketed.

Industry

Industry is a process by which the raw materials are changed into finished products. Many raw materials are not fit for human consumption. Therefore, there is a need for conversion. This transformation of commodities from one form to another form is the essence of manufacturing industry or the secondary group of economic activities. Arrival of Science and Technology helped the man to fabricate raw materials into finished products. The economic strength of a country is always measured by the development of manufacturing industries. Therefore, any country in the world is basically depends on the effective growth of industries for its economic development.

Economic Activity

Any action that involves in the production, distribution, consumption or services is an economic activity.

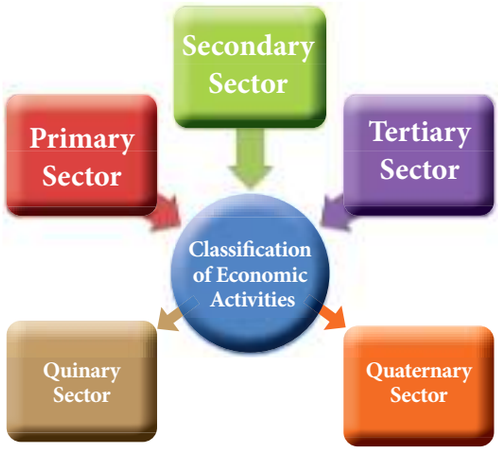
Basics of Economic Activities

The following are the major and fundamental economic activities.

1. Primary Economic Activities
   (e.g., Raw cotton production)
2. Secondary Economic Activities
   (e.g., Spinning mill)
3. Tertiary Economic Activities
   (e.g. Trade, Transport)

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 132 25-01-2025 11.00.09 AM

4. Quaternary Activities (e.g. Banking sector)
5. Quinary Activities (e.g. Judicial sector)

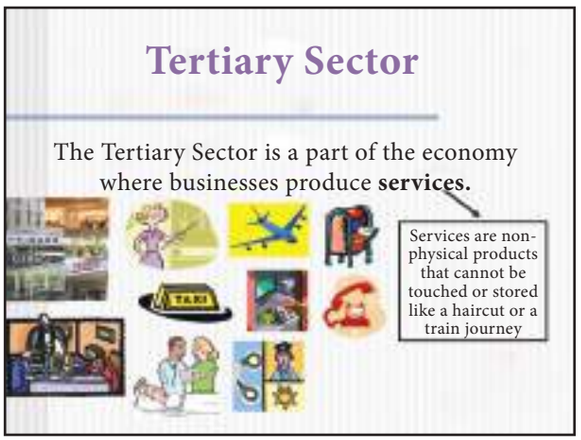


1) Primary Economic Activity: These are the economic activities that originated in the very beginning. It includes the activities such as, forestry, grazing, hunting, food gathering, fishing, agriculture, mining, and quarrying.

Primary economic activity

2) Secondary Economic Activity: Secondary activities are those that change raw materials into usable products through processing and manufacturing. Bakeries that turn flour into bread and factories that convert metals and plastics into vehicles are examples of secondary activities.

3) Tertiary Economic Activity: Tertiary economic activities are those that provide essential services and support the industries to function. Often it is called service industries, this level includes the transportation, finance, utilities, education, retail, housing, medical and other services. We are educated by school. Since, school provides a service, it comes under tertiary activity.



4) Quaternary Economic Activity: Quaternary activities are associated with the creation and transfer of information, including research and training. Often referred to as information industries, this sector achieved dramatic growth as a result of advancements in technology and electronic display and transmission of information. e.g., we watch television. The programmes are telecasted from television stations. It is an example of quaternary activity.

DO YOU KNOW?

Service sector is the one of the largest sectors of India. Currently, this sector is the backbone of the Indian economy and contributing around 53% of the Indian Gross Domestic Product.

5) Quinary Economic Activity: Quinary economic activities refer to the high-level decision making processes by executives in industries, business, education, and government. This sector include top executives or officials in the fields of science and technology, universities, health care etc. In our house, our parents

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 133 25-01-2025 11.00.13 AM

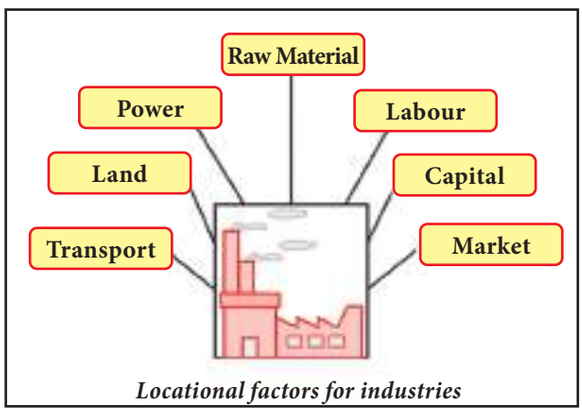
purchase household articles and make decisions by themselves in some situations. Similarly, the council of ministers take decisions to introduce various people welfare schemes in the state. These two are examples of quinary activities.

ACTIVITY

Visit any factory and find out the favourable factors which are responsible for its location.

Factors responsible for location of Industries

Industrial locations are complex in nature. They are influenced by the availability of many factors. Some of them are: Raw Materials, Land, Water, Labour, Capital, Power, Transport, and Market. The locational factors of industries are grouped into: Geographical factors and Non-Geographical factors.



Locational factors for industries

I. Geographical Factors

1. Raw Material: Bulky goods and weight-losing materials cannot be transported over long distances. Therefore, industries like iron and steel and sugar industries are located near the sources of raw materials. Steel Plant in Salem is located near Kanjamalai, where iron ore is available. Similarly, Sugar industries are located near the sugarcane-growing areas.

2. Power: Power is base and essential to run the entire industry. Power is mostly generated from the conventional sources like coal, mineral oil, and water. Therefore, one of these sources must be located near the industries to fulfill its power requirement.

3. Labour: Availability of cheap and skilled labour is another important requirement for labour intensive industries (e.g., Tea industry).

4. Transport: It is needed for transporting raw materials to the industries and also for sending the finished products to the market. Availability of easy transportation always influences the location of an industry. Therefore, the junction points of waterways, roadways and railways become active centres of industrial activity.

5. Storage and Warehousing: The finished goods should reach the market at the end of the manufacturing process. Hence, such finished products should be stored at suitable storage facilities or warehouse till the goods are taken to the market.

6. Topography: The site that is selected for the establishment of an industry must be flat. So, it can be well served by different modes of transport.

7. Climate: Climate of the area selected for an industry is also an important factor for location of industries. Extreme climate condition is not suitable for the successful industrial growth. Moreover, certain industries require a specific climate. Example: Cool, humid climate is ideal for cotton textile industry. Since Coimbatore and Tiruppur have such type of climate, many cotton textile industries are located in this zone.

8. Water Resources: Availability of water is another important factor that influences the industrial location. Many industries are established near rivers, canals, and lakes for this reason. Iron and steel industries, textile industries and chemical industries require plenty of water for their proper functioning.

Find out

Find out the reasons for uneven distribution of industries in India.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 134 25-01-2025 11.00.13 AM

II. Non-Geographical Factors

1. Capital: Capital or huge investment is needed for the establishment of industries without which no industry can be established.

2. Availability of Loan: In most cases, it is not possible to start an industry with enough capital on hand. So, the investors seek loan to start the industries. Thus, the organizational setups which provides loan and insurance are required.

3. Government Policies/Regulations: Government policies are another important factor that influences industrial location. The government sets certain restriction in the allocation of land for industries to reduce regional disparities, to control excessive pollution and to avoid the excessive clustering of industries in big cities. Therefore, the policies also affect the industrial locations.

ACTIVITY

Think about blackboard and chalk piece

1. Name the raw materials used for production.
2. Find the places of their production.
3. Name the industrial category in which chalks are made.

Classification of Industries

Industries are classified on various basis in the following ways.

On the basis of Raw Materials

Agro-Based Industries

(i) Agro-Based Industries: These industries use plant and animal-based products as their raw materials. Example: Food Processing, Vegetable Oil, Cotton Textile, Dairy Products, etc.

(ii) Mineral-Based Industries: These industries use mineral ores as their raw materials. Iron made from iron ore is the product of mineral based industry. Cement, Machine Tools, etc., are the other examples of mineral based industries.

Mineral-Based Industries

(iii) Marine-Based Industries: These industries use products from the sea and oceans as raw materials. Example: Processed Sea Food, Fish Oil manufacturing units, etc.

Marine-Based Industries

(iv) Forest-Based Industries: These industries use forest products as their raw materials. Example: Pulp & Paper, Furniture and Some Pharmaceuticals industries, etc.

Forest-Based Industries

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 135 25-01-2025 11.00.14 AM

On the basis of Size and Capital

(i) Large Scale Industries: If the capital required for the establishment of an industry is more than one crore the industry is called as large scale industry. Iron & steel, Oil refineries, Cement and Textile industries are the best examples for large scale industries.

(ii) Small Scale Industries: If the capital required for the establishment of an industry is less than one crore, the industry is called as small scale industry. Silk weaving and household industries belong to this category.

Small Scale Industries

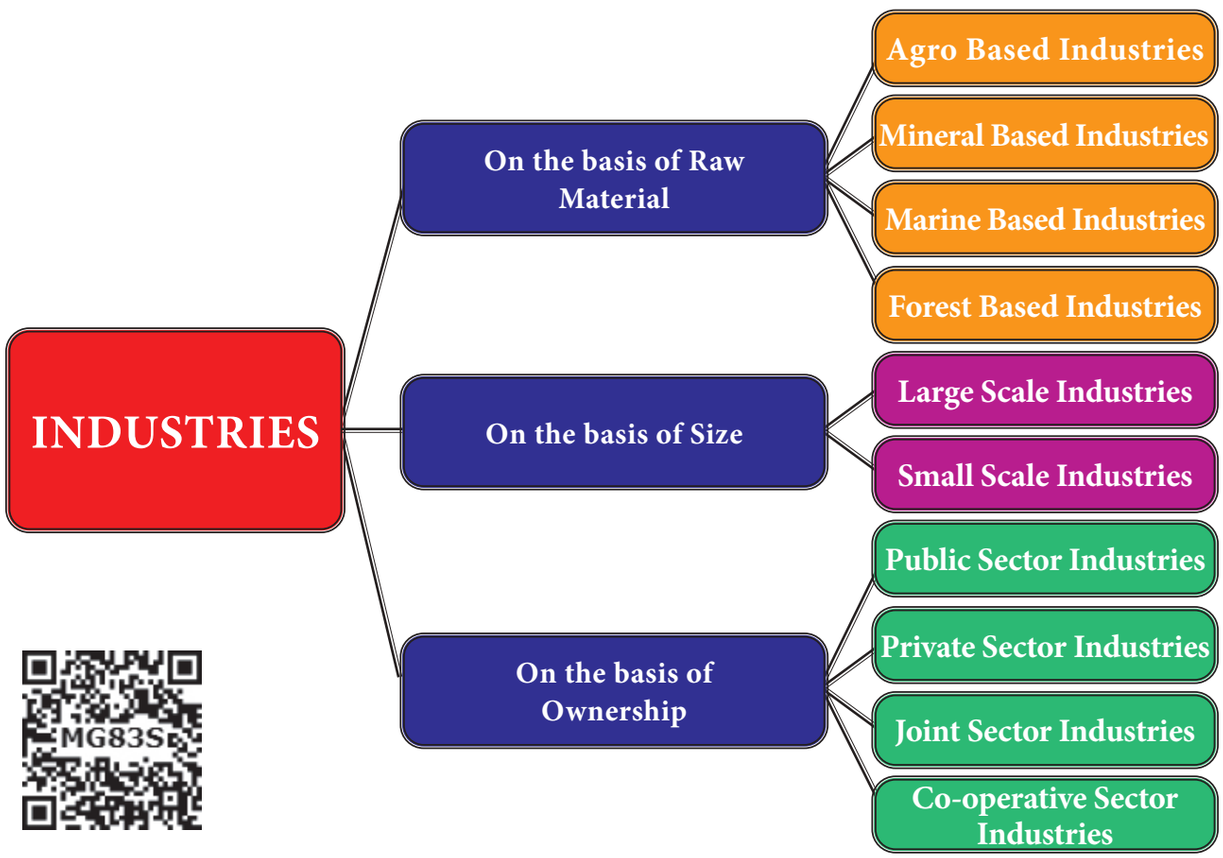
Detroit of India

Detroit city in Michigan State, USA is known as the world's traditional automotive centre. In India, Chennai is also called as 'Detroit of India'. It has the world famous automobile industries, such as GM, Ford, Hyundai and Mahindra. The city accounts for 60% of the country's automobile exports.

Apart from the above cited industries, cottage or household industries are also a type of small scale industry where the products are manufactured by hand, by the artisans with the help of family members. These industries are also classified and grouped as miscellaneous categories. Example: Basket weaving, Pot Making, handicrafts, etc.

On the basis of Ownership

(i) Private Sector Industries: These type of industries are owned and operated by individuals or a group of individuals. Example: Bajaj Auto, Reliance, etc.



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VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 136 25-01-2025 11.00.14 AM

(ii) Public Sector Industries: These type of industries are owned and operated by the Government. Hindustan Aeronautics Limited (HAL), Bharat Heavy Electricals Ltd (BHEL), Steel Authority of India Ltd (SAIL) are the examples of Public sector industries.

ACTIVITY

List out the ownership based industries which are located in your places.

(iii) Joint Sector Industries: These types of industries are owned and operated jointly by the government and individuals or a group of Individuals. Example: Indian Oil Sky Tanking Ltd, Indian Synthetic Rubber Ltd, Mahanagar Gas Ltd, Maruti Udyog, etc.

(iv) Co-operative Sector Industries: Industries of this kind are owned and operated by the producers or suppliers of raw materials or workers or both. Anand Milk Union Limited (AMUL) is the best example of the Co-operative sector.

Recap

- Industry: Industry is a place of process by which the raw materials are changed into finished products.
- Economic Activity: Any action that involves in the production, distribution, consumption or services in an activity.
- Types of Economic Activities: Primary economic activities, secondary economic activities and tertiary economic activities are the fundamental and major economic activities.
- Factors affecting location of Industries: Factors affecting location of industries are raw materials, capital, land, water, labour, power supply, transport and market.

GLOSSARY		
Quaternary activities	Creation and transfer of information	நான்காம் நிலை தொழில்
Quinary activities	Decision making processes by Executives associated with industries, government, etc.	ஐந்தாம் நிலை தொழில்
Private Sector	This industry is owned and operated by individuals or group of individuals.	தனியார்துறை
Co-operative Sector	This industry is owned by the producer or suppliers of raw materials or workers or both.	கூட்டுறவு துறை

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Silk weaving and house hold industries come under the category of _____.
   a) Small scale industry
   b) Large scale industry
   c) Marine based industry
   d) Capital intensive industry

TU2Q1

2. On the basis of ownership the industry can be divided into _____ types.
   a) 2 b) 3 c) 4 d) 5
3. Amul dairy industry is best example of _____ sector.
   a) Private Sector
   b) Public Sector
   c) Co-operative sector
   d) Joint sector

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 137 25-01-2025 11.00.14 AM

4. Iron and Steel and Cement Industries are the examples of _____ industries.
   a) Agro based b) Mineral based
   c) Forest based d) Marine based
5. Tertiary activity is divided into _____ types.
   a) 4 b) 3
   c) 2 d) 5

II Fill in the blanks

1. Banking is a _____ economic activity.
2. Tertiary activity is divided into _____ and _____.
3. Government decision making process comes under the _____ category of tertiary economic activity.
4. Raw material based perspective Cotton Textile industry is a _____ industry.
5. Capital required for establishing a large scale industry is more than _____.

III Match the following

1. Judicial sector	-	Private Sector
2. TV telecasts	-	Non Geographical factor
3. Geographical factor	-	Quaternary activity
4. Capital	-	Raw materials
5. Bajaji Auto	-	Quinary activity

IV Distinguish between

1. Secondary economic activity and tertiary economic activity.
2. Agro-based and marine-based industries.
3. Large scale industries and small scale industries.

V Answer briefly

1. Define industry.
2. What is meant by economic activity?
3. Name the major economic activities.
4. What is Quinary activity? Elucidate with an example.
5. Name the factors responsible for the location of industries.
6. Write a short note on the following:
   a) Large scale industries
   b) Small scale industries

VI Answer in Paragraph

1. Classify and explain the industries based on the source of raw materials.
2. Explain the Geographical factors which affect the location of industries?
3. Classify the industries through a flow chart.

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VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 6.indd 138 25-01-2025 11.00.14 AM

Unit - 7

Exploring Continents

Africa, Australia and Antarctica

Learning Objectives

- To study the Geographical location of the continents of Africa, Australia and Antarctica.
- To learn the physical setting, climate and drainage of the continents.
- To understand the nature of the flora and fauna of the continents.
- To identify the major resources and economic activities.
- To develop the mapping skill.

24OWY

Introduction

A teacher handling class VIII entered the classroom and asked the students what they were talking about. The class monitor told the teacher that the students were discussing about the ODI match between Australia and South Africa. The teacher said to the students, "Well, today we will learn many things about them in this lesson".

Africa

Location and size

Africa is the second-largest and second-most populous continent after Asia. It stretches from 37°21' North latitude to 34° 51' South latitude and from 17°33' West longitude to 51°27' East longitude. It spreads over an area of about 30.36 million square kilometres (20.2% of the world's land area). The equator passes through the middle of Africa and dividing into two equal halves. It is the only continent through which the major latitudes such as Tropic of Cancer, Equator and Tropic of Capricorn pass. Its north-south extent is 7,623 km and east-west extent is 7,260 km. The Prime Meridian passes near Accra, the capital of Ghana in the western part of this continent. Africa is located in all the four hemispheres.

The great explorers David Living Stone and H.M. Stanley were the first to explore the interior parts of this continent. The sources reveal that the early human ancestors have lived in Africa for more than 5 million years. Africa is nicknamed the "**Mother Continent**" as it is the oldest inhabited continent on Earth. The diverse geographical condition of the continent is the main reason for heterogeneous culture and home of several ethnic groups in Africa.

DO YOU KNOW?

Africa is called a Dark Continent. In the beginning the interior of Africa was largely unknown to them. The European explorer Henry M. Stanley was the first to use the term the "**Dark Continent**" (1878).

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 139 25-01-2025 11.03.59 AM

Political Divisions

The continent of Africa consists of 54 countries. On the basis of their geographical location, the countries are grouped as a) West Africa b) North Africa c) Central Africa d) Eastern Africa e) Southern Africa.

The Northwestern African countries such as Morocco, Algeria, Libya, Mauritania and Tunisia are collectively called '**Maghreb**' which means west in Arabic language.

Physiographic Divisions

Africa consists of mixture of land forms such as mountains, plateaus and plains. The following are the 8 major physical divisions of Africa. Madagascar is the major island of Africa.

1. Sahara dessert

Sahara dessert is the largest hot desert in the world. It is located in the northern part of Africa. It is one of the largest hot deserts in the world. It has an area of 9.2 million sq km. The Sahara is bordered by the Atlantic Ocean in the west, the Red Sea in the east, the Mediterranean Sea in the north and Sahel in the south. This desert spans across 11 countries: Algeria, Chad, Egypt, Libya, Mali, Mauritania, Morocco, Niger, Western Sahara, Sudan and Tunisia.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 140 25-01-2025 11.04.00 AM

Physical Features of Africa

It consists of many topographical features such as mountains, plateaus, ergs, oases, sand- and gravel-covered plains, salt flats, basins and depressions. Mount Koussi, an extinct volcano in Chad, is the highest point in the Sahara with 3,445 m and the Qattara Depression in Egypt is the Sahara's deepest point (lying 133 m below sea level). Nile and Niger rivers run through Sahara desert.

Atlas Mountain lies in the northwest of Africa. It is a young fold mountain. It separates the Mediterranean sea and Atlantic ocean. The highest point is Mount Toubkal (4167m).

2. Sahel

Sahel means 'border' or 'margin'. Sahel is a semi-arid tropical Savanna region lies between the Sahara Desert in the north and Savanna grassland in the south. It stretches east to west for a distance of 4,000 km and covers an area of 3 million sq km. It is largely a semi-arid belt of barren, sandy and rocky land. This region marks the physical and cultural transition between the more fertile tropical regions in the south and desert in the north.

3. Savanna

Tropical dry grasslands with scattered trees are known as '**Savanna**'. It is located near the equator and covers almost half of the area of Africa. This grassland is found in the regions just north and south of the rainforests that lie along the equator. Trees are the main features of the landscape in some parts of the savanna, while tall grass covers the other areas. Animals

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 141 25-01-2025 11.04.00 AM

of many species graze in this zone. The Serengeti Plain is one of the largest plains in Savanna. This is called the **'Open Air Zoo'**.

4. The Great Rift Valley and the Great Lakes of Africa

A rift valley is a large crack in the earth's surface formed by the shifting of tectonic plates. One of the major geographical and geological features of Africa is the Great Rift Valley. It stretches from Northern Syria in Asia to Central Mozambique in Africa spanning a distance of 6,400 kilometers. It runs through the Eastern Africa and contains many lakes.

ACTIVITY

Find out-the Great Rift Valley and the lakes connected with it from the atlas and mention them on the map of Africa.

The African Great Lakes are a series of lakes found in the Rift Valley. The water in the Great lakes of Africa constitutes about 25% of the planet's unfrozen surface fresh water. There are seven major lakes in this region.

Lake Victoria of this region is the largest fresh water body in Africa and third largest in the world. It is the source of River Nile. The other lake in the valley is Tanganyika which is the longest and deepest fresh water lake in the world. Lake Albert, Lake Edward, Lake Kivu, Lake Malawi and Lake Turkana are the other important lakes in Africa.

DO YOU KNOW?

The glaciers on the top of Kilimanjaro have been disappearing since 20th centuries.

5. East African Highlands

Most African mountains are found in these high lands. It stretches from Ethiopia to Cape of Good Hope. Mt. Kilimanjaro (5,895 m) is the highest peak located in these highlands. Mt. Kenya and Mt. Ruwenzori are the major mountains located in these high lands. This region is sparsely populated and covered with rich grassland, forests, streams and waterfalls of natural scenic beauty. It enjoys misty mornings and fresh mountain breezes which attract large number of tourists from other parts of the World.

6. Swahili Coast

Swahili coast is located along the shores of East Africa. It stretches approximately 1,610 kilometers along the Indian Ocean, from Somalia to Mozambique. It was a region where the Africans and Arabs mixed to create a unique culture referred to as Swahili Culture. People of this coast are also called '**Swahili**'.

7. The Congo Basin or Zaire Basin

Congo Basin lies on both sides of the equator in West-Central Africa. It comprises an area of more than 3.4 million square kilometres and covered with dense evergreen forest. It provides food, shelter, medicine, water, and materials for over 7.5 million people. It is the world's second-largest river basin next to Amazon.

8. South Africa

Most part of the Southern Africa is a plateau region. The *Drakensberg Mountain* is found in the eastern portion of the escarpment. It extends from northeast to southwest for 1,125 km. Its highest peak is Thabana Ntlenyana (3,482m). This region is covered with grasslands known as **'Veld'**. Kalahari Desert lies in the south and Namib Desert lies along the southwest shore of Africa. Kalahari Desert in this region is not actually a desert, but a bushy scrubland situated between the Orange and Zambezi Rivers.

DO YOU KNOW?

Sheep rearing in semi–arid region of South Africa is called '**Karoos**'.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 142 25-01-2025 11.04.00 AM

Drainage of Africa

1. River Nile

The Nile is the longest river in the world with a length of 6,650 km. It has two main tributaries. They are the White Nile, which originates in Burundi, and the Blue Nile, which originates in Ethiopia. These two join and form the Nile River at Khartoum, in Sudan. It flows towards northward and drains into the Mediterranean-sea. Nile is known as the "**Father of African Rivers**".

The country Egypt is called the "**Gift of the Nile**" as it is the lifeline of the Egypt. Without Nile the Egypt would have been a desert.

ACTIVITY

On the outline map of Africa draw the courses of main rivers and name them.

2. River Congo or Zaire

Congo is the second largest river of Africa after the Nile. Its length is approximately 4,700 km. The Congo rises in the highlands of Northeastern Zambia between lakes Tanganyika and Nyasa. It flows through West-Central Africa and drains into the Atlantic Ocean.

3. River Niger

Niger is one of the major rivers in West Africa and rises from the highlands of Guinea. It flows for about 4184 km and finally drains into the Gulf of Guinea on the Atlantic Ocean.

4. River Zambezi

The Zambezi River is the fourth longest in Africa. It rises in the Northwestern Zambia. It is about 2,574 km long and drains into the Indian ocean. The world-famous waterfall 'Victoria' is formed by this river at the height of 108 meters. It is called the Southern Africa's "**River of Life**".

River Limpopo and river Orange are the other important rivers of Africa.

Climate

Africa is divided into six major climatic zones. They are:

1. **Arid and semi-arid climate:** Northern Africa and Southern Africa have this climate. Rainfall is scanty in this part.
2. **Tropical savanna climate:** It is found from 10^0-20^0 latitudes on either side of the equator. It is a tropical wet and dry climate.
3. **Equatorial climate:** It is found in the equatorial region covering the Congo River basin and East African highlands. Temperature and rainfall are high all the year round in this region.
4. **Temperate climate:** It prevails in southern tip of South Africa. Since this part is located on the coast, the climate of this region is equable.
5. **Mediterranean climate:** It is found in the northwestern and southwestern tips of Africa. These regions get rainfall in winters while in summers it is hot and dry.
6. **Tropical Monsoon climate:** It is found in the eastern shore of Africa. Summers are hot with monsoon winds bringing good rainfall while winters are cool and dry.

FACT

Tropical deserts are located between 15° and 30° north and south of the equator on the western margin of the continents. The deserts lie in the belt of the trade winds which blow from northeast in the northern hemisphere and southeast in the southern hemisphere. Therefore, the general direction of the trade winds is from east to west. These winds shed their moisture on the eastern margins of the continents and by the time they reach the west, they lose their moisture.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 143 25-01-2025 11.04.00 AM

Flora and Fauna

African vegetation develops in direct response to the interacting effects of rainfall, temperature, topography and type of soil. Forests cover about 20% of the total land area of the continent. The flora and fauna currently found in Africa are descended from plant and animal species that existed on the continent when it was separated from other land masses during the breakup of Gondwanaland.

Baobab, Fever tree and Sausage are the major trees of Africa. There are over one million species of animals in Africa, including both the heaviest (elephants) and the tallest (giraffes) land animals on the earth. White Rhinoceros, Western Green Mamba, Zebra, African Elephants, chimpanzee, gorilla, Wildebeest, Hippopotamus, and Giraffe are the major animals of Africa. Bonobo, Wild Dogs, hyena and Lemur are the typical animals of Africa.

Lemur

Tsetse Fly

Okapi

Bonobo

Ostrich

Fox In Sahara

Wildebeest

DO YOU KNOW?

- A hot and dry dusty local wind blowing from the Sahara desert to Guinea coast is called '**Harmattan**'.
- A hot local wind blowing from Sahara to Mediterranean Sea is called '**Sirocco**'.
- Tropical rain forest is called the '**Jewel of the earth**' and the World's largest pharmacy.

Baobab Tree

Rain Forest

ANIMALS OF THE AFRICAN SAVANNA

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 144 25-01-2025 11.04.02 AM

Agriculture

Agriculture is a major economic activity of the African continent. Wheat is grown in the temperate grasslands, Mediterranean region and the Nile valley. Rice is cultivated in Guinea coast, Mozambique, Madagascar and Nile valley. Maize and millets are grown all over the plateau regions. Cotton is the chief cash crop of Africa. Egypt and Sudan cultivate the best quality long staple cotton in the world. Coffee is grown in Ethiopia. Ghana is the chief producer of cocoa. Oil palm is cultivated in West African countries. Sugarcane, rubber, sisal and tobacco are the other major crops and are mostly grown in East African countries.

Minerals

Africa is rich in few mineral deposits. The region at the south of Sahara and the plateaus of Africa are the major mineral regions of the continent. Diamonds are found in South Africa, Congo, Botswana, Sierra Leone and Angola. Kimberly in South Africa is the important producer of diamond. Angola, Nigeria, Gabon and Congo have more oil reserves. Gold is found in South Africa, Namibia, West Africa and Ghana. Chromium, cobalt, copper, iron ore, manganese, zinc and nickel are scattered across the continent.

Transport

Transports play an important role in the economic development of a region. The physical features and slow economic growth hinder the transport system in many African countries.

1. Land ways

Roadways and Railways in Africa are poorly developed due to the presence of numerous barriers. It is very difficult to lay the roads and rails across the deserts and the dense forests. South Africa, Kenya, Egypt, Libya, Morocco and Nigeria have roadways and railways to some extent.

2. Waterways

Africa has trade routes between Asia and Australia in the east, Europe in the north and America in the west. The major sea ports of Africa are Durban, Dar es Salaam and Mogadishu on the Indian Ocean; Port Said and Alexandria on the Mediterranean Sea; Cape Town, Algiers and Abidjan on the Atlantic Ocean.

3. Airways

They connect the capital cities of Africa and the other parts of the world. The major international airports on the continent are Cairo, Johannesburg, Nairobi, Dakar, Addis-Ababa, Casablanca, Durban, Douala and Logos.

Population

Africa is the world's second most populous continent. The United Nations estimated the population of Africa as 131 crores in 2019. The population is unevenly distributed due to physical barriers. The population density in Africa is 45 persons per sq km. About 41% of the population lives in urban, while 59% resides in rural areas. Nile delta region and South Africa are the densely populated regions of Africa. Nigeria is the most populous country of Africa, followed by Ethiopia.

The major tribes of the world are called the first indigenous people. These people have a strong sense of their own identity with unique lands, languages and cultures. Afar, Fatwa, Bushmen, Dinka, Masai, Pygmies, Zulu, Tswan, and Efe are the major tribes of Africa.

Australia

Australia was the last of all the continents to be discovered, and this was due to its remoteness.

Australia is the largest island and smallest continent in the world. It is the only continent that completely occupies a single country. It has diverse in unique flora and fauna. Now let us explore the continent.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 145 25-01-2025 11.04.02 AM

DO YOU KNOW?

Australia was discovered by Captain James Cook, an English Seaman in 1770.

Location and Size:

Australia extends from 10°4' south to 39°08' south latitudes and 113°09' east to 153°39' east longitudes. The Tropic of Capricorn divides the continent almost into two equal halves. Area of the country is about 7.68 million sq km.

Political Divisions

There are six states and two Union Territory in Australia 1) New South Wales 2) Queensland 3) South Australia 4) Tasmania 5) Victoria 6) Western Australia 7) Northern Territory 8) Capital Territory (Canberra). Each state has its own state constitution. Canberra is the capital of Australia. Sydney, Brisbane, Adelaide, Hobart, Melbourne, Perth and Darwin are the other important cities of Australia.

Australia has 8,222 islands. Rottnest Island, Magnetic Island, Fitzroy Island, Fraser Island, Phillip Island, Lord Howe Island, Kangaroo Island and Whitsunday Islands are the major islands.

Physical Divisions

It is the continent with very low irregularities in topography. Based on the nature of topography, it can be divided into three physical divisions namely:

Physical Divisions of Australia

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 146 25-01-2025 11.04.03 AM

1. The Great Western Australian Plateau
2. The Central Low lands
3. The Eastern High lands

The Great Western Australian Plateau

The Western Plateau is Australia's largest physical division. It covers one third of the continent. Its area is approximately 2.7 million square kilometers. It is an arid land covering large part of Western Australia, Southern Australia and the Northern Territory. The flat surface is covered by sandy and rocky features.

Ayers rock or Uluru is the largest monolith rock in the world. It is found in the central part of this arid region. It is 863 meters high above the sea level. It is one of the natural wonders of Australia. The pointed limestone pillars called Pinnacles are common in this region.

Ayers rock

Pinnacles

The McDonnell and Musgrave ranges are located in this plateau. The treeless region of Nullarbor Plain is located in the southern part of this plateau. The Great Victoria Desert is the largest desert in Australia located in Western Australia and South Australia.

The Central Low lands

The central lowlands extend from the Gulf of Carpentaria in the north to Indian Ocean in the south. In the centre of these low lands lies the large inland drainage basin of Australia. Lake Eyre is the largest salt lake located in this region. The Murray–Darling River system lies in the southeastern part of the central lowlands. Beneath the central lowlands, huge artesian basins are found.

The Eastern Highlands

The Eastern Highlands extend for about 3,860 km along the eastern edge of Australia. It stretches from Cape York in the north to Tasmania in the south. They are also known as the '**Great Dividing Range**' as it separates the west and east flowing rivers.

Australian Alps mountain range is the highest mountain range of Australia. It is covered with ice. The highest peak of this range is Mt. Kosciuszko (2,230 m) and is located in the New South Wales.

Australia has two important natural features that have enriched the country. They are

1. The Great Artesian Basin
2. The Great Barrier Reef.

The Great Artesian Basin

The Great Artesian Basins are regions on the earth's surface where water gushes out like a fountain. The Great Artesian Basin in Australia is the largest and deepest basin in the world. The artesian basin is located in the west of the Great Dividing Range. It is found in the arid and semi-arid parts of Queensland, New South Wales, South Australia and Northern Territory. It extends for 1.7 million square km and it is also a major source of water in this region.

Artesian Well (Queens Land)

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 147 25-01-2025 11.04.03 AM

Great Barrier Reef

Great Barrier Reef is located in the North East of Australia along the East Coast of Queensland in the Pacific Ocean. It is formed by the tiny coral polyps. It is about 2,300 kilometers long. It is one of the natural wonders of the world.

Great Barrier Reef

Coral Polyps

Drainage

Australia receives low average rainfall. Being a hot dry country, the rate of evaporation is high in this country. As a result, there is a very little amount of water left to flow as rivers to the seas. The River Murray and its tributary are the main rivers and a major drainage basin of Australia. This drainage basin is found in the interior part of the lowlands of Australia. It covers more than one million sq km which is about 14 per cent of area of Australia.

River Murray is the longest river in Australia. It runs 2,508 km from Australian Alps to the Indian Ocean. Darling, Alexandria, Murrumbidgee, Lachlan and Swan are the other important rivers of this continent.

DO YOU KNOW?

Bourke is the place in Australia where the highest temperature is recorded (53°C). It is located in the central low lands. The lowest temperature of the country is recorded in Canberra, the capital of Australia (-22°C).

Climate

Australia contains the second-largest area of extremely arid land in the world. The Tropic of Capricorn divides the Australia into two equal parts. The northern half is in the warm tropical zone and the southern half is in the cool temperate zone. The northern coastal region experiences monsoon type of climate with heavy rainfall during summer. The east coastal region receives good rainfall from southern east trade wind. The hot desert climate extends from central lowlands to western shores. The rainfall in this region is less than 25cm per annual. Mediterranean type of climate prevails in the southern tip of Australia in the region around Perth and Adelaide. Tasmania receives rain throughout the year from westerly winds.

Flora and Fauna

Australia is a semi-arid region. Hence, the vegetative cover is not mainly composed of trees but of scattered shrubs and herbs. Bird's eye view of Australia would reveal a very simple vegetation pattern. The plants and trees in Australia are adapted to dry conditions and can survive for long period without water. They are called **Xerophytes**. Eucalyptus is the most common tree in the west as it can withstand long period of drought. Forests and woodlands together cover about 16 percent of the area of Australian continent. Eucalyptus, Acacia and Melaleuca (swamp forests) are the major trees of Australia.

About 80 percent of animals in this country are not found in the other parts of the world. Australia has almost 400 mammal species and about 140 species of marsupials, which carry their young ones in their pouches. Kangaroo is the national animal of Australia. Koala, platypus

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 148 25-01-2025 11.04.04 AM

Kangaroo

Koala

kookaburra

platypus

Bottle tree

Rainbow lorikeet

Emu

Merino sheep

Wallaby and Dingo are the other important animals of Australia. The bird species like the laughing kookaburra, emu, and rainbow lorikeet are the major birds of Australia.

The people who work in the sheep stations in Australia are known as **Jackaroos**. **Aborigines** are the indigenous people of the Australia.

Economic Activities

Agriculture, forestry, fishing, mining, manufacturing, trade and services are the major economic activities of Australia. Wheat is the chief grain crop of Australia. Rice, sugarcane Mediterranean fruit like grapes, oranges and apricots are produced around Perth, Adelaide and Melbourne. Tasmania is known as the **Apple Island**. Rice, tobacco and cotton are grown in the northern parts of Tasmania. Sheep rearing is carried out along with cultivation in the regions of warm climate. Oats, maize and barley are also cultivated to some extent. Australia is well known for Vineyards and Orchards. Cattle rearing is common in the tropical savannas and sheep farming in the temperate grassland. **Merino sheep** are reared in southern Australia, Tasmania, Victoria and New South Wales. Dairy cattle are reared in farms close to the cities of east and south coast. Among dairy cows Illawarra, Jersey and Ayrshire are the most popular in Australia.

Fishing is also a major economic activity of Australia. Marine fishing is popular in the entire coastal regions of the country. Inland fishing is very limited. Forest resources are also very limited in the country.

The sheep industry is well developed in Australia. The wool is described as the **'Cash Crop'** of Australia.

Mineral Resources

Minerals are the largest export item of Australia. It contributes about 10 percent of country's GDP. Australia is the world's leading producer of bauxite, limonite, rutile and zircon, the second largest producer of gold, lead, lithium, manganese ore and zinc, the third largest producer of iron ore and uranium and the fourth largest producer of black coal. The coal belts of the country stretches from New Castle to Sydney on the south eastern coast. Iron ores are found mainly in southern and Western Australia.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 149 25-01-2025 11.04.04 AM

Bauxite is mined around the gulf of Carpentaria, perth and Tasmania. Petroleum and natural gas is obtained from Bass Strait and west of Brisbane. Uranium is mined in northern territory at Ram jungle and Queensland. Gold is mined in the western desert at Kalgoorlie and Koolgarlie. Lead, Zinc, Silver, Manganese, Tungsten, Nickel and copper are also mined in parts of Australia.

Industries

Food and beverage manufacturing industry is the primary industry in Australia. Ship building, information and technology, mining, aviation and telecommunication industries are the other important industries.

ACTIVITY

There are eight deserts in Australia. List them out with the help of Atlas.

The temperate grass land of Australia is known as '**Downs**'.

Transport

Many form of transports are available in Australia. This country is highly dependent on road transport. There are more than 30 airports with paved runways. Passenger rail transport includes widespread commuter networks in the major cities with limited intercity and interstate networks.

Population

As of 2019, the population of Australia is about 25.2 million. It constitutes only 0.33% of the total world's population. The population density of Australia is 3 persons per sq km. Urban population of the country is about 85.7 percent. Southeastern part of Australia is the densely populated region.

Antarctica

Location and Size

Antarctica is a unique continent, but it does not have a native population. There is no country in Antarctica. Antarctica is the southernmost and fifth-largest continent in the world. Since it is located in the polar region, it is the coldest continent with a permanent cover of ice. It is separated from the rest of the world by the icy waters of the southern portions of the Indian, Atlantic and Pacific Oceans. It covers about 9.3% of the earth surface with an area of over 14 million sq km. This continent's landforms consist of some mountain ranges, peaks, valleys, glaciers plateau, ice shelf, lakes and volcanoes. The length of the Trans-Antarctic mountain is 3,200 km which divides the entire continent into two halves:

1. West Antarctica
2. East Antarctica

The West Antarctica faces the Pacific Ocean. The Antarctic Peninsula which points towards the South America shows that it is the continuation of the Andes mountain range. The East Antarctica faces the Atlantic and the Indian Oceans. The Mt. Erebus in this region is an active volcano. It is located on the Ross Island.

It is the only continent called "White Continent". In some places its ice cap is 4,000 meters deep.

Scientists of any country are free to conduct experiments and collect data from Antarctica. Hence it is called '**Continent of Science**'.

Climate

The climate of Antarctica is freezing cold, because of its distance from the Equator. During the months of May, June and July (winter period of Antarctica) the sun never rises in this region. So, the temperature at the South Pole falls to -90°C. In the summer months of December, January

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 150 25-01-2025 11.04.04 AM

and February, the sun never sets and there is a continuous day light. The summer temperature is about 0°C. Extremely Cold and icy winds blow throughout the year.

Antarctica is the largest piece of ice on the surface of Earth. About 70% of Earth's fresh water is in the Antarctic ice cap.

Flora and Fauna

Since the temperature remains below freezing point almost throughout the year, no major vegetation is found on this continent. Simple plants such as algae, mosses, liverworts, lichens and microscopic fungi can survive and grow in Antarctica. Some algae live in the snow, while other plants grow on the coastal rocky land that is ice free. A few species of plants, such as plankton, algae and mosses are seen in and around Antarctica's fresh and saltwater lakes.

Small red fish called krill are found in large shoals .It is the food for many warm blooded sea animals. The living creatures of this region include whales, seals, walrus and sea birds such as penguins, albatross, polar Skua and Stout. The blue whale is the largest animal which feeds on plankton. All these animals and birds have a thick layer of fat called, blubber which helps them to

Vinson Massif (5,140 m) is the highest peak in Antarctica. It is located in the southern part of Sentinel Range. Lambert glacier of this continent is the largest glacier in the world.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 151 25-01-2025 11.04.05 AM

Penguin

Seal

Walrus

Albatross

Polar Suka

Blue Whale

withstand the cold condition. Penguin birds in Antarctica cannot fly. They have webbed feet and flippers instead of wings. Small invertebrates are the only land animals that live on the continent.

Minerals

Scientific studies show that the Antarctic continent is rich in gold, platinum, nickel, copper and petroleum. Traces of chromium, lead, molybdenum, tin, uranium, and zinc have also been found. The possible resources of this region also include silver, platinum, iron ore, cobalt, manganese and titanium. Coal and hydrocarbons have been explored in minimal non-commercial quantities.

DO YOU KNOW?

1. **Mcmurdo** is the largest research station in Antarctica. It was set up by the United States of America.
2. **Dakshin Gangotri** was the first Indian Scientific research base station in Antarctica.

The international agreement on this continent does not permit the extraction of minerals. So, the extraction of minerals does not take place.

Expedition to Antarctica

Maitri Research Station (Antarctica)

In 1912, British and Norwegian teams reached the South Pole. Indian expedition team to Antarctica had 21 members with Dr.S.Z.Quasim as its leader. The team left Goa on 6th December 1981 and landed in Antarctica on 9th January 1982. Dakshin Gangotri, the first Indian scientific research station was established in this continent. Maitri and Bharathi are the other research stations of India in Antarctica.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 152 25-01-2025 11.04.06 AM

Aurora

Alaska (Aurora Borealis)

A natural Curtain of combination of bright pink, red and green colour light that appears in the sky near the north and south magnetic poles is called Aurora. The effect is caused by the interaction of charged particles from the sun with atoms in the upper atmosphere. It is also called Aurora Australis or Southern Lights in the South Pole and Aurora Borealis or Northern Lights at the North Pole. These amazing colours appear in the earth's sky, especially in the high-latitudinal countries like Alaska in the north and New Zealand of Falkland in the south.

New Zealand (Aurora Australis)

Recap

- Africa consists of a mixture of landforms such as mountains, plateaues and plains.
- Australia is the largest island and smallest continent in the world.
- Antarctica is the southernmost and fifth largest continent in the world.
- The interaction of charged particles from the sun with atoms in the upper atmosphere is called Aurora.

Glossary

Continent	A large land mass	கண்டம்
Strait	A narrow water channel which connects two large water bodies and separates two land masses.	நீர்ச்சந்தி
Isthmus	A narrow strip of land that connects two large land masses and separate two water bodies.	நிலச்சந்தி
Gulf	A deep inlet of the sea, surrounded by a narrow mouth.	வளைகுடா
Rift Valley	A linear-shaped low land between the mountains.	பிளவு பள்ளத்தாக்கு
Reef	A thin layer of calcium carbonate.	பவளப்பாறை
Cataracts	A fast-flowing water falls over a cliff.	சிறு அருவி
Pinnacles	Pointed limestone pillars found in Australian desert.	சுண்ணாம்புப் பாறை தூண்
Regs	These are plains of sand and gravel in the arid regions.	மணற்பாங்கான சமவெளி
Hamada	Elevated plateaus of rock and stones.	பாறை மற்றும் கற்களால் உயர்த்தப்பட்ட பீடபூமி
Oasis	A hub of water in the desert region.	பாலைவனச் சோலை

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 153 25-01-2025 11.04.06 AM

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. The southernmost tip of Africa is _____.
   a) Cape Blanca
   b) Cape Agulhas
   c) Cape of Good Hope
   d) Cape Town

PV6AE

2. The man-made canal through an isthmus between Egypt and Sinai Peninsula is
   a) Panama Canal b) Aswan Canal
   c) Suez Canal d) Albert Canal
3. In respect of the Mediterranean climate, consider the following statements and choose the correct answer.
   1. The average rainfall is 15cm
   2. The summers are hot and dry; winters are rainy.
   3. Winters are cool and dry; Summers are hot and wet
   4. Citrus fruits are grown
   a) 1 is correct
   b) 2 and 4 are correct
   c) 3 and 4 are correct
   d) All are correct
4. The range which separates the west and east flowing rivers in Australia is
   a) Great Dividing Range
   b) Himalayan range
   c) Flinders range
   d) Mac Donnell range
5. Kalgoorile is famous for _____ mining.
   a) Diamond b) Platinum
   c) Silver d) Gold

II Fill in the blanks

1. Atlas Mountain is located in _____ continent.
2. _____is the highest peak of Africa.
3. _____ is the most common tree in Australia.
4. A temperate grass land of Australia is called _____.
5. _____ is the first Indian research station in Antarctica.

III Match the following

1.	Pinnacle	-	Equatorial forest
2.	Krill	-	Salt lake
3.	Ostrich	-	Small red fish
4.	Lake Eyre	-	Flightless bird
5.	Jewel of the earth	-	Pointed limestone pillars

IV Let us learn

1. **Assertion (A):** Aurora is a curtain of colour lights that appear in the sky.
   Reason (R): They are caused by magnetic storms in the upper atmosphere.
   a) Both A and R are individually true and R is the correct explanation for A.
   b) Both A and R are individually true but R is not the correct explanation for A.
   c) A is true but R is false.
   d) R is true but A is false.
2. **Assertion (A):** A geological feature of Africa is the Great Rift Valley.
   Reason (R): A Rift valley is a large crack in the earth's surface formed by tectonic activity.
   a) Both A and R is individually true and R is the correct explanation for A.
   b) Both A and R are individually true but R is not the correct explanation for A.
   c) A is true but R is false.
   d) R is true but, A is false.

V Answer briefly

1. Why Africa is called a "Mother Continent"?
2. What are the important rivers of Africa?
3. Name the physical division of Australia.
4. Write about the nature of Antarctic continent.
5. Mention any four economic activities of Australia.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 154 25-01-2025 11.04.06 AM

VI Distinguish between

1. Sahel and Sahara.
2. Western Antarctica and Eastern Antarctica.
3. Great Barrier Reef and Artesian Basin.

VII Give reasons

1. Egypt is called the gift of the Nile.
2. Deserts are found in the western margins of continents.
3. Antarctica is called the 'Continent of Scientists'.

VIII Answer in a paragraph

1. Give an account on mineral wealth of Australia.
2. Describe the flora and fauna of Antarctica.
3. Name the physical divisions of Africa and explain any one.

IX Map skill

Mark the following on the outline map of Africa and Australia.

Africa: Equator, Atlas Mountain, Sahara, Eastern highlands, Mediterranean Sea, Atlantic Ocean, Indian Ocean, Suez Canal, Mount Kilimanjaro.

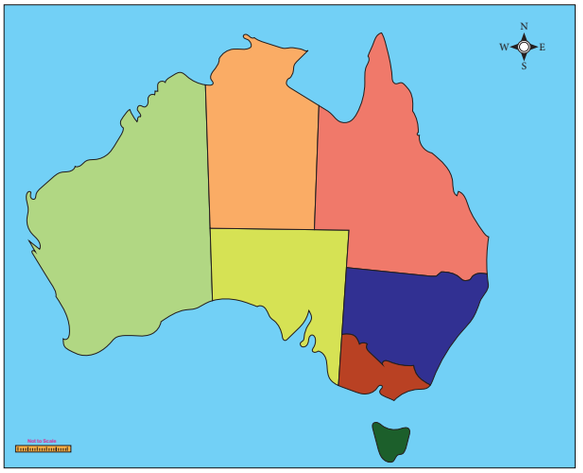
Australia: Great Dividing Range , Great barrier reef, Tasmania, tropic of Capricorn, pacific ocean, Great Australian Sandy Desert, Indian ocean, Sydney, Canberra.

X Activities

1. Find out the hemisphere and season during December for the following countries.

Country	Hemisphere	Season
South Africa		
Morocco		
Australia		
Niger		
Egypt		
Tasmania		
India		

2. Label the different states of Australia in the following map.



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3. Majid Husain (2017) *India and World Geography*, McGraw Hill education series private India limited, New Delhi.

INTERNET RESOURCES

- https//www.gph.gov.an.pups
- https//www.worldatlas.com
- https//www.blogs.nasa.gov
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- https//books.google.com.in.
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- https://www.earthobservatory.nasa.gov.

VIII_Std_Geography_Unit 7.indd 155 25-01-2025 11.04.06 AM

Unit - 8

Map Reading

Learning Objectives

- Compare maps and globes.
- Identify the components of maps.
- Know the methods of representation of scale.
- Describe how signs and symbols are used on maps.
- Understand different types of maps.

4HDGU

Introduction

Maps and globe are important tools for geographers. Maps help geographers compare places and relate people's activities to the locations where they live. Cartographers use various methods to make maps as precise as possible .They design maps in a way that they can be read and understood by people throughout the world.

What is a map?

A map is a visual representation of an entire or a part of an area, typically represented on a flat surface. The purpose of a map is to illustrate specific and detailed features of a particular area, most frequently used to illustrate geography.

Map Reading

Map reading is an act of interpreting or understanding the geographic information portrayed on a map. By map reading, the reader can develop a mental map of the real-world information by processing the symbolized information shown on maps.

Difference Between a Map and a Globe

Map is different from the globe. Map gives a two-dimensional representation of certain regions or the entire world, while a globe gives a three-dimensional representation of the entire world and it is a miniature form of the Earth (model of the Earth).

Globe

Unit 8_Geography.indd 156 25-01-2025 11.07.04 AM

Unit 8_Geography.indd 157

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The study and practice of many facets of maps and map making is called Cartography. It can be described as the art and science of map making.

Components of a map

The basic components of a map are: 1. Title 2. Scale. 3. Legend or key. 4. Direction 5. Source 6.Map projection and locational information and 7.Coventional signs and symbols

a. Title

Title tells about the content of the map and is placed mostly at the top corner or at the bottom corner of the map.

b. Scale

The scale is a ratio between the actual distance on the ground and the distance shown on the map. Generally, the cartographers cannot draw maps the same size as the land. So, they reduce the size of land or features proportionally. For this purpose, maps are drawn to scale. Each map has its own scale, which is indicated on the map. Often, the scale is shown with a scale bar or a line and number and is placed just below the title or somewhere at the bottom of the map.

To show large areas like continents or countries, small-scale maps are used. Small scale maps can show only major features omitting the minor ones due to lack of space. For example, physical map of the world will show us only the major physical features in the world. It represents more area of the earth but gives us less information.

To show a small area like a taluk or district large scale maps are used.

The large scale maps portray the information in detail than the small scale maps. For example, physical map of India represents a small area of the earth but gives us more information. However, there is no criteria for the classification of maps based on scale. It is only a comparative term.

ACTIVITY

Compare and find out the physical features of India which are omitted in the physical map of the world.

Scales on maps can be represented in three different ways. They are:

1. Statement or Verbal scale
2. Representative Fraction (RF) or Ratio Scale
3. Graphical or Bar Scale

1. Statement or Verbal scale

In this method, the map scale is stated in words i.e., 1cm to 1 km. It means 1cm distance on the map corresponds to 1 km distance on the ground. Thus it is written on the map like 1 cm to 1 km, 1 inch to 1 mile etc.

Simple statement scale has the following characteristics.

a. If the numerator is in centimetre, the denominator is either in metres or kilometres

b. If the numerator is in inch, the denominator is in miles

2. Representative Fraction (RF) or Numerical Fraction or Ratio Scale

It shows the relationship between the map distance and the corresponding ground distance in the same units of length. R.F. is generally shown as a fraction.

For example, a fraction of 1: 50,000 means that one unit of length on the map represents 50,000 of the same units on the ground i.e., 1cm or 1 inch on the map represents 50,000 cm or 50,000 inches respectively on the ground.

RF is represented as 1/ 50,000 or 1: 50,000

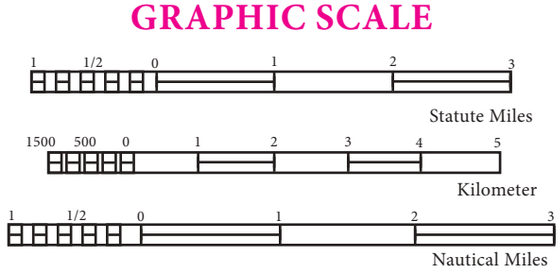
Unit 8_Geography.indd 158 25-01-2025 11.07.05 AM

TAMIL NADU - POLITICAL

N
W
E
S
ANDHRA PRADESH
KARNATAKA
KERALA
SRI LANKA
Bay of Bengal
Arabian Sea
Indian Ocean
Palk Strait
Palk Bay
Gulf of Mannar
Pulicat Lake
Periyar Lake
Hogenakal Falls
Cauvery
Moyar
Bhavani
Amaravati
Suruli Falls
Vaan Tivu
Uppu TanniTivu
Nalla Tanni Tivu
Appa Tivu
Talairi Tivu
Musal Tivu
Kurusadai I.
Tumkur
Bengaluru (Bangalore)
Kolar
Chittoor
Periyapalayam
Gummidipundi
Ponneri
Tiruttani
Arakkonam
Thiruvallur
Chennai
Sriperumbudur
Vandalur
Kovalam
Chengalpattu
Mamallapuram
Tirukkalukkunram
Vedanthangal
Tiruvettipuram
Kancheepuram
Arani
Vellore
Katpadi
Sripuram
Peranampattu
Gudiyattam
Bangarapet
Hosur
Krishnagiri
Veniyampadi
Jolarpettai
Tirupattur
Denkanikota
Anchetti
Mysuru (Mysore)
Palakkodu
Dharmapuri
Adiyamankottai
Harur
Tatakarai
Chamrajnagar
Talavadi
Binakanahalli
Tamarakarai
Mettur
Yercaud
Valappadi
Taramangalam
Mudumalai
Bannari
Gudalur
Udagamandalam
Coonoor
Sathyamangalam
Bhavani
Tiruchengodu
Rasipuram
Tammapatti
Mettuppalaiyam
Avanashi
Chennimalai
Paramathi
Turaiyur
Marudamalai
Coimbatore
Palladam
Kangayam
Karur
Aravakkurichi
Palghat
Pollachi
Dharapuram
Udumalaipettai
Anaimalai
Top Slip
Palani
Kodaikkanal
Periyakulam
Dindigul
Nattam
Manapparai
Viralimalai
Nartamalai
Srirangam
Musiri
Tiruchirappalli
Thuraiyur
Perambalur
Sendurai
Ariyalur
Kallakurichchi
Ulundurpettai
Panruti
Vriddachalam
Neyveli
Cuddalore
Vadalur
Pitchavaram
Chidambaram
Sirkazhi
Poompuhar
Tirukkadiyur
Tirunallaru
Karaikal (Puducherry)
Nagore
Nagapattinam
Velanganni
Vedaranniyam
Kodiakkarai
Point Calimere
Thiruvaiyaru
Kumbakonam
Thanjavur
Thiruvarur
Mayiladuthurai
Pattukkottai
Atiramapattinam
Tirutturaipundi
Pudukkottai
Tirumayam
Arantangi
Karaikudi
Avadaiyarkovil
Devakottai
Tiruvadanai
Tondi
Paramakudi
Devipattinam
Ramanathapuram
Pamban
Rameswaram
Dhanushkodi
Mudukulattur
Kilakkarai
Vilattikulam
Ettaiyapuram
Kovilpatti
Sankarankovil
Sivagiri
Sattur
Virudhunagar
Aruppukottai
Sivakasi
Rajapalaiyam
Srivilliputtur
Uttamapalayam
Tirumangalam
Keezhadi
Manamadurai
Vaigai
Razhamuthircholai
Theni
Bodinayakanur
Ernakulam
Painavu
Kottayam
Alappuzha
Kollam
Pattanamtitta
Courtallam
Tenkasi
Ambasamudram
Mundanthurai
Pechiparai
Kuzhitturai
Thiruvananthapuram
Nanguneri
Radhapuram
Tisaiyanvilai
Kulasekarapattinam
Tiruchendur
Palayamkottai
Thoothukudi
Kanyakumari (Cape Comorin)
Suchindram
Nagercoil
Chengam
Tiruvannamalai
Polur
Chetpat
Gingee
Tindivanam
Vikravandi
Mailam
Tiruvakkarai
Auroville
Puducherry (Pondicherry)
Villupuram
Tirukkovilur
Elagiri Hills
Mattur
Uttangarai
Cheyur
Vandavasi
Madurantakam
Melmaruvathur
Cheyyar
Thiruvannamalai
Kancheepuram
Ranipettai
Walajah
Vellore
Gudiyattam
Sripuram
Katpadi
Ranipettai
Arakkonam
Tiruttani
Periyapalayam
Ponneri
Gummidipundi
Pulicat Lake
Chennai

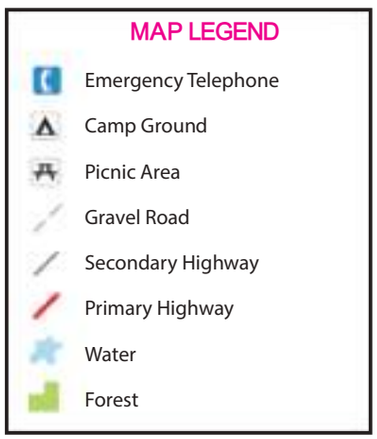
3. Graphical or Bar Scale or Linear Scale

A graphic scale looks like a small ruler drawn at the bottom of the page. This line is divided and subdivided into lengths, each of which represents a certain distance on the ground. In this way, distances on the ground can directly be measured and read off from the map by using a piece of string or dividers. This scale has added advantage for taking copies of maps, as the measurement does not change.



c. Legend or key

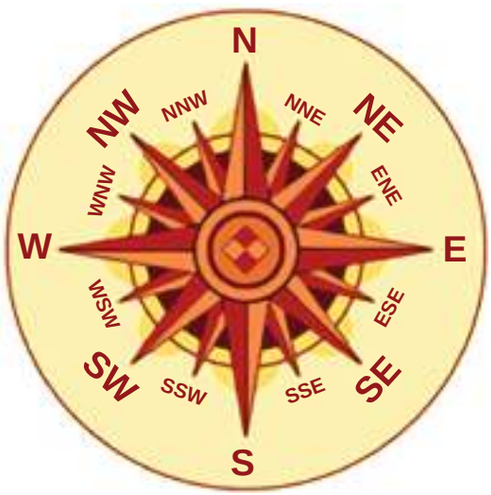
A map key or legend is included in a map to unlock it. It gives you the information needed for the map to make sense. Maps often use symbols or colours to represent features, and the map key explains what these symbols mean. Symbols in the key might be pictures or icons that represent different features on the map.



Unit 8_Geography.indd 160 25-01-2025 11.07.06 AM

d. Direction

A map must indicate direction. This is done by means of an arrow pointing to the north. Once the north is located, it is easy to find the rest of the directions. Directions on a map are often given with symbol called a compass rose, which always shows north. Sometimes all the Cardinal directions such as north, south, east and west are shown. In addition, the intermediate directions of northeast, northwest, southeast and southwest may be given.



e. Source

All maps must show the source of the data used in the respective maps. The source should normally be given outside the frame of the map on the bottom right. On the bottom left the name of the author, publisher, place of publication and year of publication must be given.

f. Map Projection and locational information

A map projection is a way of representing the spherical earth on a flat surface of a map. The curved surface of the earth cannot be shown accurately on a map. So, cartographers use map projections while mapping the earth surface which would help them to reduce distortions. Latitudes and longitudes marked on maps give the locational information of the area covered in the respective maps.

g. Coventional signs and symbols

Conventional signs are symbols used in maps to represent different features. The symbols are explained in the key of the map. These symbols give a lot of information in a limited space. With the use of these symbols, maps can be drawn easily and the concept of the map can be understood well. There is an International agreement regarding the use of certain symbols. The symbols fall under this category are Called Conventional Symbols. Other category is called contextual symbols which are decided by the cartographers.

	Battlefield		Motorway Junction
	Bus Station		Railway Line
	Bridge	PH	Public House
	Camp Site		Public Telephone
	Contour Lines		Radio or TV Mast
	Footpath		Power Line
	Lighthouse in Use		Scondary Road
H	Helliport		View Point
	Information Centre		Windmill
	Main Road	P	Parking

Types of Maps

Maps are classified on several basis. Each basis gives a different types of maps. In this lesson, we will learn about the nature and characteristics of Relief maps, Cadastral maps and Thematic Maps.

Unit 8_Geography.indd 161 25-01-2025 11.07.07 AM

1. Relief or Physical Map

The map that shows the physical features of an area is usually called a Physical Map or a Relief Map. Its primary purpose is to show landforms such as deserts, rivers, mountains, plains, plateaus etc. These maps present the overall picture of the local terrain. Different levels of altitude and depth are also shown by these maps. Generally, the sea is coloured blue and shallow waters are shown by light blue colours. For showing altitude, the following order is observed from low to high: light green, light brown, dark brown, crimson, red and finally white for the high-altitude (ice-covered) places.

2. Cadastral Map

A cadastral map refers to a map that shows the boundaries and ownership of land within a specified area. These maps are sometimes known as plans. As they are on large scale, they show full details of the boundaries and buildings. They are useful for local administration such as the city survey, taxation, management of estates and to define property in legal documents. Usually, these maps are maintained by the government and they are a matter of public record.

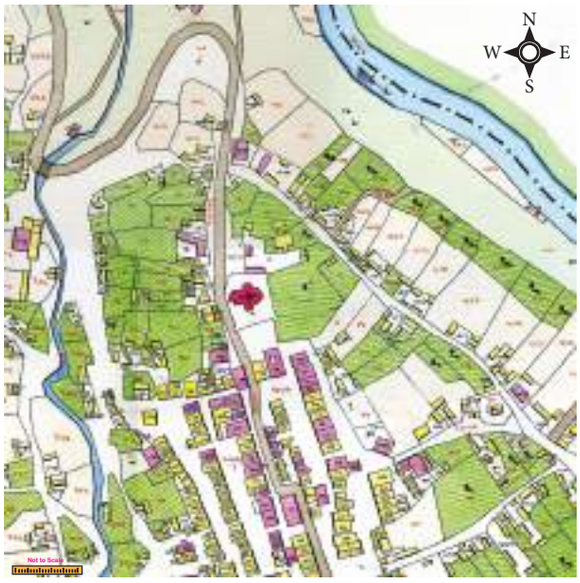
The term 'Cadastral' is derived from the French word "Cadastre" meaning , 'Register of Territorial property'

Importance of Cadastral Maps

Cadastral surveys document the boundaries of land ownership through the production of documents, diagrams, sketches, plans, charts and maps. They were originally used to ensure reliable facts for land valuation and taxation.

Scale of a Cadastral Map

Cadastral maps commonly range from scales of 1:500 to 1:10,000. Large scale diagrams or map shows more precise dimensions and features (e.g., buildings, irrigation units, etc.) are often prepared by cadastral surveys.



Cadastral maps

ACTIVITY

Prepare a cadastral map to show your school building and premises with the guidance of your teacher.

3.Thematic Map

A thematic map is a map that focuses on a specific theme or subject area, such as physical phenomena like temperature variation, rainfall distribution and population density in an area. Thematic maps emphasize spatial variation of human issues like population density or prevalence of diseases. This is in contrast to general reference maps, which just show natural features like landforms, lines of transportation, rivers, human settlements, political and administrative boundaries. General reference maps do not focus on any specific theme.

Kinds of Thematic maps

Thematic maps are classified into qualitative and quantitative thematic maps. Qualitative map represents quality of data and expresses the presence or absence of an object on the map,

Unit 8_Geography.indd 162 25-01-2025 11.07.07 AM

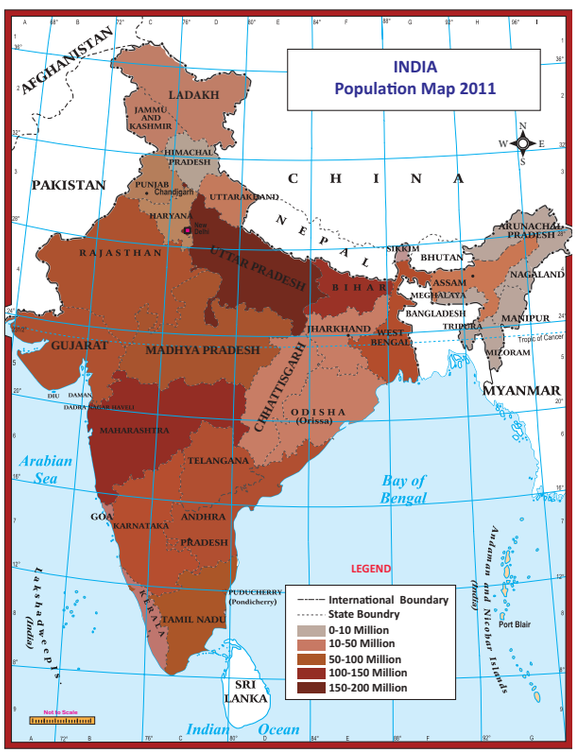
INDIA - PHYSICAL

Unit 8_Geography.indd 163 25-01-2025 11.07.08 AM

such as the kind of vegetation present or occupying a region. A Map showing the distribution of soil types is also a qualitative map. Quantitative map expresses the information of numerical values, such as elevation in metres, temperature in degrees Celsius etc. Choropleth map, isopleth map and dot density map are the common types of quantitative thematic maps.

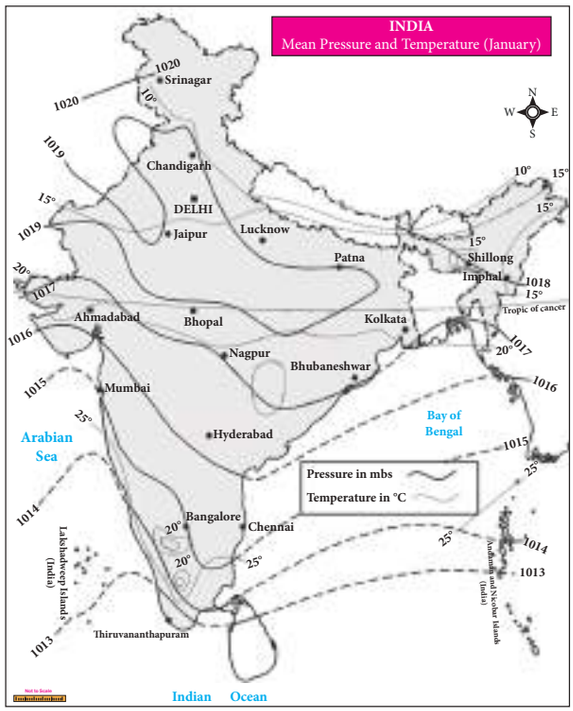
Choropleth Mapping

A choropleth map is a thematic map in which areas are shaded or patterned in proportion to the measurement of the statistical variable being displayed on the map, such as population density or per-capita income.

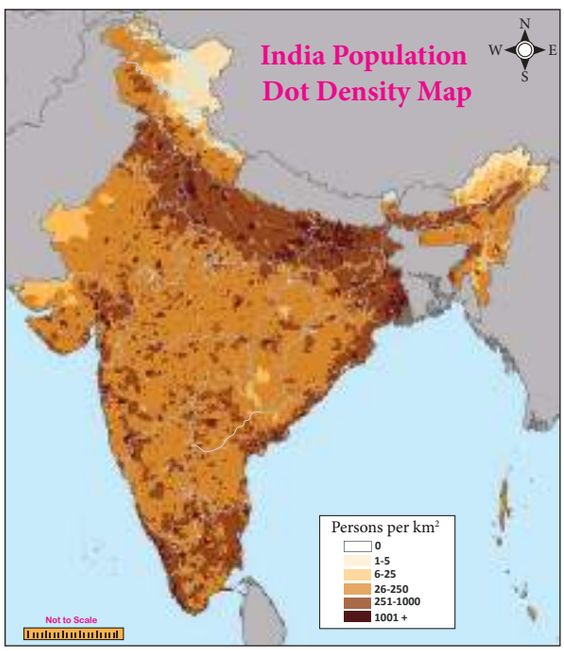


Isoline Maps

Isolines are lines drawn to link different places that share a common value. The prefix 'iso' is a Greek word meaning "equal". Therefore, an isoline is a line joining equal points. Isobars showing the distribution of atmospheric pressure and isotherms showing the distribution of temperature are the examples of isoline maps.



Dot-Density Map



A dot-density map is a type of Thematic map that uses dots on the map to show the values of one or more numeric data fields. Each dot on a dot-density map represents some amount of data. In a dot-density map, areas with many dots indicate high concentration of values for the chosen field and fewer dots indicate lower concentrations.

Unit 8_Geography.indd 164 25-01-2025 11.07.09 AM

Uses of maps

- To find the location of objects and places.
- To find the transportation routes.
- Maps showing strategic locations are useful for military purposes.
- Serve as tourist guide
- To find the spatial distribution of different phenomena.
- Displays weather conditions.
- Highly helpful in learning geography.
- Represents the real world on a small scale.

Recap

- Map reading is an act of interpreting or understanding the geographic information portrayed on a map.
- A cadastral map refers to a map that shows the boundaries and ownership of land within a specified area.
- A thematic map is a map that focuses on a specific theme or subject area.

GLOSSARY		
Map	A map is a two-dimensional representation of the earth as a whole or part of the earth drawn with a specific scale on a flat surface.	புவிப்படம்
Cartography	Cartography is the science and art of map-making.	நிலவரைபடவியல்
Map Scale	Map scale refers to the relationship (or ratio) between distance on a map and the corresponding distance on the ground.	புவிப்பட அளவை
Cadastre	'Register of Territorial property'.	காணிப் புவிப்பட பதிவேடு

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. The subject which deals with map making process is _____.
   a) Demography
   b) Cartography
   c) Physiography
   d) Topography
2. A map that shows the physical features of an area is called ____.
   a) Cadastral map b) Relief map
   c) Climatic map d) Resource map
3. Shallow water bodies are represented by _____ colour.
   a) Yellow b) Brown
   c) Light blue d) Dark blue
4. The maps which are known as plans are.
   a) Cadastral maps
   b) Topographical maps
   c) Isoline maps
   d) Transport maps
5. Actual distribution of population can be represented by _____ .
   a) Lines b) Shades
   c) Dots d) Contours

II Fill in the blanks

1. The globe is the true representation of the _____.
2. A way of representing the spherical earth on a flat surface is _____.
3. A line that joins the points of equal elevation is _____.
4. Cadastral maps are usually maintained by _____.
5. _____ map is focused on a specific theme.

Unit 8_Geography.indd 165 25-01-2025 11.07.09 AM

III Choose the option which matches the following correctly

A. Legend	-	1. 45º
B. North East	-	2. Brown colour
C. Contour Line	-	3. Thematic map
D. Cadastral map	-	4. Key of a map
E. Choropleth	-	5. Taxation

a) 3, 5, 1, 4, 2 b) 4, 1, 2, 5, 3

c) 2, 5, 1, 3, 4 d) 5, 2, 4, 1, 3

IV Match the statement with the reason and select the correct answer

1. **Statement :** Small scale maps can show only major features.

   Reason : Due to lack of space ,it shows large areas like Continents and countries.

   a) Statement is true but reason is wrong.

   b) Statement is wrong and reason is correct.

   c) Both the statement and reasons are correct.

   d) Both the statement and reasons are wrong.

2. **Statement :** The conventional signs and symbols are the keys of map reading.

   Reason : These symbols give lots of information in a limited area.

   a) Both the statement and reasons are correct.

   b) Statement is wrong and reason is correct.

   c) Statement is true but reason is wrong.

   d) Both the statement and reasons are wrong.

V Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Define "Map scale".
2. What is a Physical map?
3. Write a short note on map projection.
4. Name the Intermediate directions.
5. What are the uses of a Cadastral map?

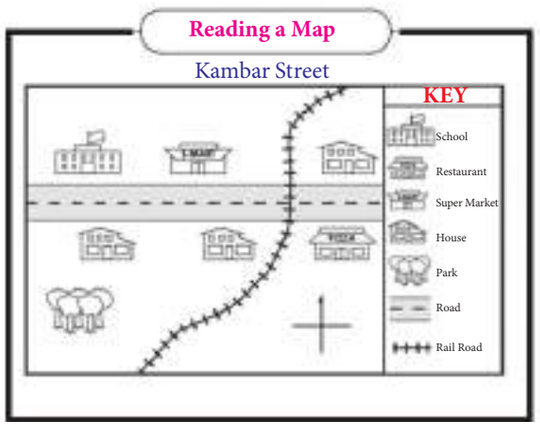
VI Distinguish between

1. Relief map and Thematic map.
2. Large scale map and Small scale map.
3. Globe and Map.

VII Answer in a paragraph

1. Explain the different types of scales in detail.
2. Describe the Cadastral map and its importance.
3. Write a paragraph about the conventional signs and symbols.

VIII Students Activity



a) Underline the map title

b) Show the direction of N, S, W & E on the map.

c) The rail track runs from southwest to _____.

d) In which direction of the rail track, the park is located?

e) Colour the school with red.

f) Colour the supermarket with brown.

g) Colour the restaurant with yellow.

h) Colour the house east of the railroad with orange.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. T.P. Kanetkar and S.V.Kulkarni , *Surveying and leveling Part-I,* AVG Ptakashan – Poona-2.
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Unit 8_Geography.indd 166 25-01-2025 11.07.10 AM

ICT CORNER

Map Reading

Through this activity you will know about map skills

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.

Step – 2 Click on **"Map Skills"** and select any topic (e.g., Scale)

Step – 3 Click on Next or previous button to know about mapping scale.

Step – 1

Step – 2

Step – 3

Web URL: http://www.ordnancesurvey.co.uk/mapzone

*Pictures are indicatives only.

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

HGW0X

Unit 8_Geography.indd 167 25-01-2025 11.07.10 AM

CIVICS

Unit - 1

How the State Government Works

Learning Objectives

Students acquire knowledge in

- The State executive.
- Powers and functions of the Governor.
- Powers and functions of the Chief Minister.
- Legislative Assembly and Council.
- State Judiciary.

PJEDC

Introduction

There are two sets of government in our country – the central government and the state government. There are 28 state governments in our country; every State has a government to run its own administration. The States have their own executive, legislature and Judiciary. The state executive consists of the Governor and the Council of Ministers headed by the Chief Minister. The Governor is an integral part of the State legislature.

The State Executive

The Governor

T8UVI

The Constitution provides for the post of the Governor as the Head of a State in India. He is appointed by the President of India. He is the constitutional Head of a State. The Governor is appointed for a term of five years. But before the expiry of his full term, the President can remove him from office. The Governor may also resign on his own interest. His term of office may be extended and he may be transferred to another State. However, the State Government cannot remove the Governor from his post. To be the Governor, a person must be a citizen of India and should have completed 35 years of age. And he cannot be a member of the Parliament or the State legislature. He should not hold any office of profit.

DO YOU KNOW?

While appointing the Governor, the President acts as per the advice of the Union Cabinet. The State Government is also consulted when the appointment is to be made. Generally, a person is not appointed Governor in his own State.

Powers and functions

- The Governor is the Nominal Executive in a State. All the executive powers of the State are

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 168 25-01-2025 11.09.45 AM

vested upon him and decisions are taken in his name. He appoints the Chief Minister and Council of Ministers.

- He makes some important appointments of the State Government, such as, the Advocate General, Chairman and members of the State Public Service Commission and others.
- The President imposes emergency in a State under Article 356 on the basis of the report of the Governor.
- The Governor also acts as the Chancellor of State Universities.
- He summons and prorogues the sessions of the State legislature and he can dissolve the Legislative Assembly.
- Money bills can be introduced in the State Legislative Assembly only with the approval of the Governor. The Governor may promulgate ordinances when the Legislative Assembly or both the Houses of the legislature (when there are two Houses) are not in session.
- The Governor may nominate one member from the Anglo- India Community to the Legislative Assembly if there are Anglo- Indian people in a State and when they are not duly represented in the State legislature. He may also nominate 1/6 members of the Legislature Council from among persons who are experts in the fields of science, literature, arts, social service and co- operative movement.
- The annual budget of the State Government is laid before the legislature with the approval of the Governor. The Governor must give his assent to all the bills passed in the legislature including money bills. The Contingency fund of the State is also placed at the disposal of the Governor.

Position of the Governor

The position of the Governor of a State is compared to the President of India as a nominal executive. But the Governor is not always a nominal executive. He can exercise his powers in the real sense on some occasions. He acts as an agent of the Central Government in a State. Therefore, he is responsible for maintaining relation between the Central Government and the State Government. The Governor may advise the Council of Ministers when faces difficult situations. The President declares emergency in a State on the basis of the report of the Governor regarding the law and order situation in the State. The Governor takes independent decisions while exercising discretionary powers. He may seek information from the Council of Ministers regarding various activities of the Government.

The Chief Minister

The Governor appoints the leader of the majority party in the State Legislative Assembly as the Chief Minister. He is the head of the State Council of Ministers. The Chief Minister has no fixed term of office. He remains in office so long as he gets support of the majority members of the Legislative Assembly. When he loses support in the legislature, he has to resign. The resignation of the Chief Minister means the resignation of the whole Council of Ministers in the State.

The Chief Minister must be a member of the State Legislature. If he is not a member of the State legislature at the time of his taking over charge, he must be so within a period of six months.

Powers and Functions

- The Chief Minister is the real executive of the State. All major decisions of the State Government are taken under his leadership.
- The Chief Minister plays an important role in the formation of the Council of Ministers. On the advice of the Chief Minister, the Governor appoints the other Ministers.
- The Chief Minister supervises the activities of different ministries and advises them accordingly. He also coordinates the activities of different ministries.
- The Chief Minister plays an important role in making policies of the State Government.

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 169 25-01-2025 11.09.45 AM

He has to ensure that the policies of the government do not go against public interest. His voice is final in policy decisions of the State Government.

- He plays an important role in making higher appointments of the State Government. The Governor appoints different higher officials of the State Government on the advice of the Chief Minister and his Council of Ministers.

The Legislature

In India, the State Legislature consists of the Governor and one or two houses. The upper house is called the Legislative Council while the lower house is called the Legislative Assembly.

Legislative Council

- The Constitution provides that the total strength of the Legislative Council must not be less than 40 and not more than 1/3 of the total strength of the Legislative Assembly of the State. The members of the Legislative Council are elected indirectly.
- One third of its members are elected by the local government bodies like the District Panchayat and Municipalities.
- Another one third is elected by the members of the Legislative Assembly.
- One twelfth is elected by the graduates of the constituency and another one twelfth by the teachers of secondary schools, colleges and universities.

At present, only six states in India have Legislative Council in their legislature. They are Bihar, Uttar Pradesh, Maharashtra, Karnataka, Andhra Pradesh and Telangana.

- One sixth of the members of the Legislative Council are nominated by the Governor of the State.

The Legislative Council is a permanent house. One-third of its members retire every two years and elections are held to fill the vacant seats. The members are elected for a term of six years. To be a member of the Legislative Council, one must be a citizen of India and should have completed 30 years of age. He cannot be a member of the Legislative Assembly or either of the houses of the Parliament. The Chairman is the presiding officer of the Legislative Council. In his absence, the Deputy Chairman presides over its meetings. They are elected from among the members of that house.

Legislative Assembly

The people who make the laws of a state government are called 'Members of the Legislative Assembly' (MLA). MLAs are chosen from different constituencies. For the election of MLAs the entire state is divided into different constituencies. These constituencies are called the legislative constituencies. One legislative constituency may have one lakh or even more people. One MLA is chosen from each legislative constituency to represent that legislative assembly.

Election to the Assembly

Different political parties compete in the elections to the legislative assembly. These parties nominate their candidates from each constituency. The candidate is that person who contests for the election and asks people to vote for him. A person has to be at least 25 years old to contest for election to the legislative assembly. One person can stand for election in more than one constituency at the same time. Even if a person does not belong to any political

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 170 25-01-2025 11.09.45 AM

party, he can contest election; such candidate is called an independent candidate. Every party has its own symbol. Independent candidates are also given election symbol. The members of legislative assembly (MLA) are elected directly by the people. All people residing in the area of a legislative constituency who are 18 years of age can cast a vote in the legislative assembly elections.

According to the Constitution, a Legislative Assembly cannot have more than 500 members and not less than 60 members. Some seats in the Legislative Assembly are reserved for Scheduled Castes and Scheduled Tribes. The members of the Legislative Assembly are elected for a term of five years. But the Governor can dissolve the house before the expiry of its term and can call for fresh elections. The meetings of the Assembly are presided over by the Speaker who is elected from among the members of the Assembly. In his absence, the Deputy Speaker conducts its meetings.

The State Council of Ministers

The leader of the majority party in the election is chosen as Chief Minister. In Tamil Nadu there are 234 legislative constituencies. The party with more than 118 elected candidates (MLA) are invited by the governor to form the Government. The Chief Minister (who also should be an MLA) chooses his ministers from the MLAs of his party. Ministers for various departments headed by the Chief Minister is called the State Government. So it is said that the party which got majority seats in the election forms the government.

The working of the State Government

After being elected to the legislative assembly the MLAs are expected to regularly participate in its sittings. The legislative assembly meets 2 or 3 times in a year. The main duty of the Legislative Assembly is to make laws for the state. It can make law on the subjects mentioned in the state list and the concurrent list. However, during state emergency, it cannot exercise its legislative power.

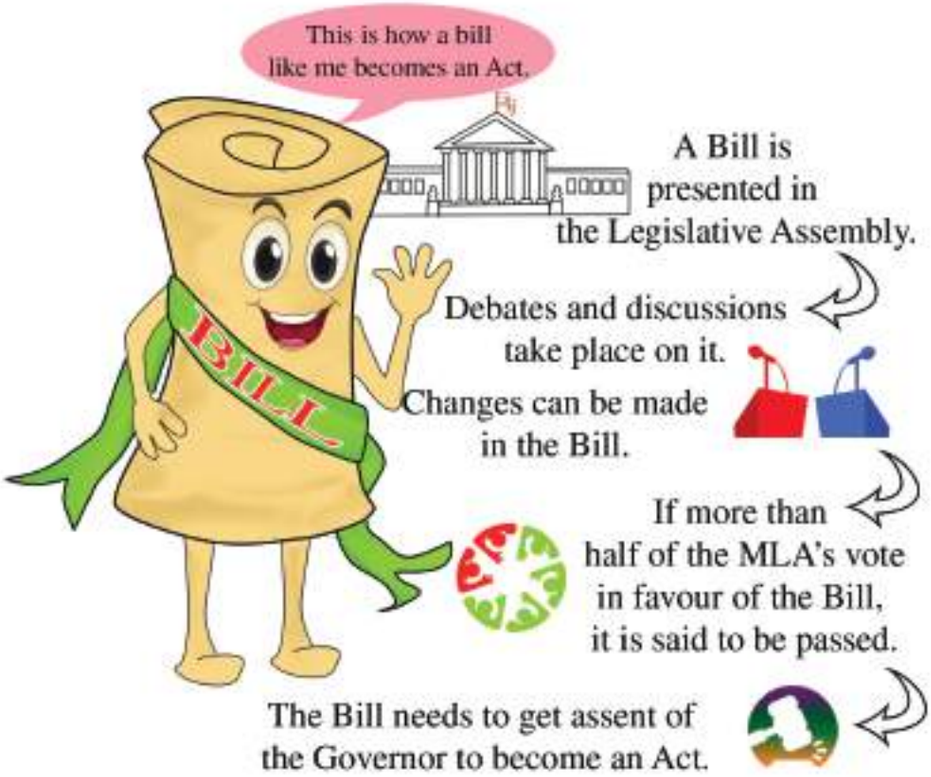
The assembly has control over the State council of Ministers. The State council of ministers are responsible or answerable to the Assembly for its activities. The Assembly may pass a no confidence motion against the council of Ministers and bring its downfall if it is not satisfied with the performance of the council of Ministers. The legislative Assembly has control over the finances of the state. A money bill can be introduced only in the Assembly. The government cannot impose, increase, lower or withdraw any tax without the approval of the Assembly. The elected members of the Legislative Assembly can take part in the election of the president of India and all members can take part in the election of the members of the Rajya Sabha from the state. The Assembly also takes part in the amendment of the Constitution on certain matters. So the government has three basic functions: making laws, executing laws and ensuring justice.

How laws are made in State Government?

Several kinds of rules and laws have been made for all people of our country. For instance, there is a law that you cannot keep a gun without having a licence for it. Or that woman cannot marry before the age of 18 years old and men cannot marry before the age of 21 years. These rules and laws have not been made just like that. People elected their government who thought carefully before making such laws. A lot of such laws are made by the state and central government.

In the legislative assembly meetings, MLAs discuss a number of topics like public works, education, law and order and various problems faced by the state. The MLAs can ask questions to know the activities of ministries, which the concern ministers have to answer. The legislative assembly makes laws on certain issues. The process of law making as follows:

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 171 25-01-2025 11.09.45 AM



Acts related to women's rights

Various social reform movements constantly work for the development of women in India. As a result, many laws are being enacted to give women equal in legal status with men. When legal rights are denied for women, they can sue for redress. Hence legislation on women's rights plays an important role.

Many laws passed in our country provide rights and protection to women. Under the Sati Abolition Act -1829 the practice of burning the widow alive in the funeral pyre of her deceased husband was prohibited. The Prevention of Child Marriage Act -1929 (Sarada Act) banned the practice of child marriage. Widows were allowed to remarry under Widow Remarriage Act-1856.

The Hindu Succession Act-1956 ensured the right of the daughter to inherit the property of her parents. However, the Act did not ensure the right of female heirs to inherit the property of Hindu Undivided Family(HUF). So, it led to the evil practice of dowry and caused women to suffer a lot.

Keeping in view, a Bill was introduced and passed in the Tamilnadu Legislative Assembly in 1989 to amend The Hindu Succession Act -1956 to provide rights to women in Hindu Undivided Family (HUF) property. This amendment is known as the Hindu Succession (Tamil Nadu Amendment) Act -1989. By this act, women got equal rights in Hindu Undivided Family property.

Being an examplar in the legislation of women's rights, the then Chief Minister Kaliagnar M. Karunanidhi enacted this amendment act in 1989. Later, an act of this kind was passed by the Indian parliament in 2005.

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 172 25-01-2025 11.09.46 AM

Students can gather information regarding the government schemes and acts such as:

1. Mid day Meal Scheme
2. Self Respect Marriage Act
3. Abolition of Hand Pulled Rickshaws
4. Nutritious Noon Meal Scheme
5. Kannoli Kappom Scheme
6. Free Bicycle Scheme
7. Pudhumai Penn Scheme
8. Naan Mudhalvan Scheme
9. Tamizh Pudhalvan Scheme
10. Chief Minister's Breakfast Scheme

Executing Laws

It is the job of the state's council of ministers to execute the law. The legislative assembly of Tamilnadu is located at Chennai. The place where a state's legislative assembly is located and where its council of ministers function is called the capital of that state.

The state government has several lakhs of government employees to execute the laws made by the legislative assembly- Collectors, Tahsildars, Block Development Officers, Revenue officers, Village Administrative Officers, Policemen, Teachers and Doctors, etc. All of them are paid salaries by the state government. They have to follow the orders of the state government.

The State legislature follows the same procedure for passing an ordinary or a money bill like that of the Parliament. In State legislatures also, the Legislative Assembly which is the lower house is more powerful than the Legislative Council which is the upper house.

Judiciary of State

High Court

The High court stands at the apex of the State Judiciary. As per the constitution there shall be a High Court in each state. But there may be a common High Court for two or more states and Union Territories. The State High Court consists of a Chief Justice and such other Judges as the President may appoint from time to time it necessary. The number of judges in the High Courts is not uniform and fixed. The President appoints the Chief Justice of High Court in consultation with the Chief Justice of India and the Governor of the state.

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 173 25-01-2025 11.09.48 AM

A Judge of High Court must have the following qualification:

- He must be a citizen of India
- He must have at least ten years' experience as an advocate in one or more High Courts.

A Judge of High Court holds the office until he completes the age of 62 years. A Judge of the High Court can be removed from office only for proven misbehaviour or incapacity and only in the same manner in which a Judge of the Supreme Court is removed.

Power and Functions of the High Court

- The High Court has been empowered to issue writs of Habeas corpus, Mandamus, Prohibition, Certiorari and Quo Warranto for the enforcement of the fundamental rights and for other purposes.
- Every High Court has a general power of superintendence over all the lower courts and tribunals within its jurisdiction except military courts and tribunals.
- If a case is pending before a sub – ordinate court and the High Court is satisfied that it involves a substantial question of the constitutional law, it can take up the case and decide it itself.
- The High Court controls all the subordinate courts in the State.
- Like the Supreme Court, the High Court also acts as a Court of Record.

For the purpose of judicial administration, each state is divided into a number of districts, each under the jurisdiction of a district judge. The district court Judges were appointed by the Governor. In the exercise of the above mentioned powers, the High Court enjoys full powers and freedom to act within its jurisdiction. The constitutional safeguards have ensured its independent working.

Governments seeking the welfare of the people enact laws and implement various schemes to promote and protect the interests of their citizens.Differences between acts and schemes are as follws:

Acts

1. In State legislature, the Bill passed with the support of majority members and signed by the Governor becomes a law. Debates and discussions take place on the bill. Amendments may be made as a result of the discussions. If majority members vote in favour of the bill, it is said to be passed.
2. In democratic form of governments, the practice is that any bill must be presented in the legislature, debated and passed by majority votes.
3. If the benefits of the acts passed by the legislature is not obtained by a individual, he/she can file a suit in the appropriate court and get remedies.

Schemes

1. Schemes are designed to benefit all the people or a certain section of the people as per the policies laid down by the government from time to time. These schemes can be designed for short term. Expenditure for the schemes is allocated in the financial statement (budget) passed by the legislature every year
2. The goverment introduces new schemes through resolutions passed by the council of ministers.
3. To avail the benefit of the schemes one has to apply through the concerned departmental offices.

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 174 25-01-2025 11.09.48 AM

GLOSSARY		
Constituency	The body of voters who elect a representative for their area	தொகுதி
Jurisdiction	Power or authority to interpret and apply the law	அதிகார வரம்பு
Legislature	An organized body having the authority to make laws for a political unit	சட்டமன்றம்
Promulgate	Announce widely known	பிரகடனம்
Prorogues	To suspend or end a legislative session	தள்ளிவை

Recap

- There are 28 state governments in our country. Every State has a government to run its own administration.
- The Constitution provides for the post of the Governor as the Head of a State in India.
- The Chief Minister plays an important role in making higher appointments of the State Government.
- The people who make the laws of a state government are called 'Members of the Legislative Assembly' (MLA).
- The High court stands at the apex of the State Judiciary. As per the constitution there shall be a High Court in each state.

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. The Governor of a state is appointed by
   a) President
   b) Vice President
   c) Prime Minister
   d) Chief Minister
2. The State Council Minsters is headed by
   a) The Governor b) Chief Minister
   c) Speaker d) Home Minister
3. Who can summon and prorogue the sessions of the State legislature?
   a) Home Minister b) President
   c) Speaker d) The Governor
4. Who does not participate in the appointment of the High Court Judge?
   a) Governor
   b) Chief Minister
   c) Chief Justice of the High Court
   d) President of India
5. The age of retirement of the Judges of the High Court is
   a) 62 b) 64 c) 65 d) 58

II Fill in the blanks

1. _____ States are there in India at present.
2. The tenure of the Governor is normally _____ years.
3. The District Judges are appointed by _____
4. The Governor is the _____ Head of the State.
5. Minimum age to become an MLA is ____ years.

III Match the following

1.	Governor	Lower House
2.	Chief Minister	Nominal Head
3.	Legislative Assembly	Upper House
4.	Legislative Council	Real Head

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 175 25-01-2025 11.09.48 AM

IV State true or false

1. Chief Minister is the chief administrator of the State.
2. The Governor nominates two members of the Anglo- Indian Community to Legislative Assembly.
3. The number of judges in the High Courts is not uniform and fixed.

V Choose the correct statement

1. The State Legislative Assembly participates in the election of

   i) President

   ii) Vice – President

   iii) Rajya Sabha members

   iv) Members of the Legislative Council of the State

   a) i, ii & iii are Correct

   b) i & iii are Correct

   c) i, iii & iv are correct

   d) i, ii , iii & iv are correct

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Name the two houses of the State legislature.
2. Write the qualifications of the members of the Legislative Assembly.
3. How is the Chief Minister appointed?
4. How is the Council of Ministers formed?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Discuss the powers and functions of the Chief Minister.
2. Discuss the powers and functions of the Legislative Assembly.
3. Write about the powers and functions of the High Court.

VIII Project and Activity

1. List out the name of the Tamil Nadu Governor and Chief Minister, Ministers and Governors and Chief Ministers of the neighbouring states.
2. List out the names of the Tamil Nadu Ministers and their Ministries.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. The Constitution of India, Government of India, Ministry of Law and Justice, 2011
2. Om Prakash Aggarawala, S.K. Aiyar The Constitution of India, Metropolitan Book Company Ltd., Delhi 1950

INTERNET RESOURCES

- www.tnrajbhavan.gov.in/
- www.tn.gov.in/
- indiancourts.nic.in/

ICT CORNER

How the State Government Works

Steps

- Enter the following URL or scan the QR code to land in Lok Sabha official website. Select "Members" tab to explore the sitting members of the parliament.
- Scroll the middle section of the page to know the cabinet members of different departments that governs India.
- Hover the mouse over the "pie chart" to know the strength of the different parties that constitutes the central government.
- Click "Virtual tour" from the lower section of the page and view the structure of the parliament.

Website URL:

https://indiancitizenshiponline.nic.in/Home.aspx

UNIT 1_Civics.indd 176 25-01-2025 11.09.48 AM

Unit - 2

Citizens and Citizenship

Learning Objectives

Students acquire knowledge in.

- Meaning, definition of citizens and citizenship.
- The Constitutional Provisions of India.
- Acquisition and termination of Indian citizenship.
- Nature of overseas citizenship of India.
- Rights and responsibility of a citizen.

EVGMY

Introduction

Civics is the study of government. The word 'Citizen' is derived from the Latin word 'Civis' which means resident of a City State of Ancient Rome. After the disappearance of City-State system, it has been used to mean a member of the State. The citizens of a state enjoy full civil and political rights.

Citizen and Citizenship

Citizen is a person of a country who is entitled to enjoy all the legal rights and privileges granted by a state and is obligated to obey its laws and to fulfill his duties.

Citizenship is the status given to the citizens which provide them the right to legally live in a country as long as they want.

Types of Citizen

There are two types of citizens, Natural and Naturalised citizens.

1. Natural citizens: are the citizens by birth.
2. Naturalised citizens: are the one who acquires citizenship.

DO YOU KNOW?

Indian Citizenship Act, 1955

This act is to provide for the acquisition and termination of Indian citizenship.

Acquisition of citizenship

The citizenship Act of 1955 prescribes five ways of acquiring citizenship. They are by birth, descent, registration, naturalisation and incorporation of territory.

1) By Birth

HKGAP

- A person born in India on or after 26th January 1950 but before 1st July 1987 is a citizen of India by birth irrespective of the nationality of his Parents.
- A person born in India on or after1st July 1987 is considered as a citizen of India only if either of his Parents is a citizen of India at the time of his birth.

UNIT 2 Civics.indd 177 25-01-2025 11.11.18 AM

- Those born in India on or after 3rd December 2004 are considered citizens of India or one of whose parents is a citizen of India and the other is not an illegal migrant at the time of their birth.

2) By Descent

- A Person born outside India on or after 26th January 1950 but before 10th December 1992 is a citizen of India by descent, if his father was a citizen of India at the time of his birth.
- A person born outside India on or after 10th December 1992 is considered as a citizen of India if either of his parents is a citizen of India at the time of his birth.
- From 3rd December 2004 onwards, a person born outside India shall not be a citizen of India by descent, unless his birth is registered at an Indian consulate within one year of the date of birth.

3) By Registration

- A Person of Indian origin who is ordinarily resident in any country or place outside undivided India.
- A Person of Indian origin who is ordinarily resident in India for seven years before making an application for registration.
- A Person who is married to a citizen of India and is ordinarily resident in India for seven years before making an application for registration

4) By Naturalisation

The Central Government may, on an application, grant a certificate of naturalization to any person

- if he is not a citizen of any country where citizens of India are Prevented from becoming subjects or citizens of that country
- a citizen of any country, renounce the citizenship of that country
- he has either resided in India or been in the service of a Government in India or throughout the period of twelve months
- he is a good character and has an adequate knowledge of a language specified in the Eighth Schedule to the Constitution. (presently 22 languages)

5) By incorporation of Territory

- If any foreign territory becomes a part of India, the Government of India specifies the persons who among the people of the territory shall be the citizens of India. Such persons become the citizens of India from the notified date. For example, when Pondicherry became a part of India, the Government of India issued the citizenship (Pondicherry) order, 1962.

Loss of Indian Citizenship

Part II of the Constitution of India (Article 5-11) prescribes three ways of losing citizenship.

Renunciation: (is a voluntary act) when a person after acquiring the citizenship of another country gives up his/her Indian citizenship.

Termination: (takes place by operation of law) When an Indian citizen voluntarily acquires the citizenship of another country; he/she automatically ceases to be an Indian citizen.

Deprivation: (is a compulsory termination) The citizenship is deprived on the basis of an order of the Government of India in cases involving acquisition of Indian citizenship by fraud, false representation or being disloyal to the Constitution.

Nationality and Citizenship

Nationality is the status of belonging to a particular nation by origin, birth basically, it's an ethnic and racial concept. Nationality of a person cannot be changed.

Citizenship is granted to an individual by the government of the country when he/she complies with the legal formalities. Citizenship can be changed.

UNIT 2 Civics.indd 178 25-01-2025 11.11.18 AM

Single Citizenship

Our Indian Constitution provides for only Single citizenship, that is, the Indian citizenship. But federal states like USA and Switzerland has dual citizenship. (National citizenship and the State citizenship). In India, all citizens irrespective of the state in which they are born or reside enjoy the same political and civil rights of citizenship all over the country.

As per the order precedence President is the first citizen of our country.

Rights and Duties of Citizen

Our Constitution confers the following rights for the citizen of India.

- Fundamental Rights
- Right to vote in the election to the Lok Sabha and the State Legislature
- Right to hold certain public offices
- Right to become the Member of Parliament and State Legislature.

According to 42nd Amendment of our Constitution, a set of Fundamental Duties are prescribed for all citizens of India. (For e.g., paying taxes honestly, respecting the rights, beliefs and opinions of others, defending the country, respect and obey state and local laws and so on)

Alien and **immigrant** are two terms that are used to refer to non-nationals of a country.

Alien refers to all non-citizens or non-nationals residing in a country.eg. tourists, foreign students.

Immigrant refers to alien who has been granted the right to reside and work permanently without restriction in a particular country.

Qualities of a Good Citizen

- Loyalty to the Constitution.
- Obeys laws.
- Contributes to society and community and performs civic duty.
- Quality of goodness and justice.
- Respecting diversity.

Global Citizenship

Global citizenship is an idea that everyone, no matter where they live is part of a worldwide community rather than as the citizen of particular nation or place. All people have rights and civic responsibilities. It is fundamental in enabling young people to access and participate in shaping modern society.

Overseas Citizenship of India

Non - Resident Indian

An Indian citizen who is residing outside India and holds an Indian passport.

Person of Indian Origin

A person whose any ancestors was an Indian nationals and who is presently holding another country's citizenship.(other than Pakistan, Bangladesh, Sri Lanka, Bhutan, Afghanistan. China and Nepal). The PIO scheme was rescinded w.e.f. 09-01-2015

Overseas Citizen of India Card Holder

It is an immigration status permitting a foreign citizen of Indian origin to live and work in the Republic of India indefinitely. (Except the citizen of Pakistan and Bangladesh). There are no voting rights for an OCI card holder.

UNIT 2 Civics.indd 179 25-01-2025 11.11.19 AM

Overseas Indians' Day

Pravasi Bharatiya Divas (PBD) Sponsored by Ministry of External Affairs of Government of India is celebrated once in every two years, to "mark the contributions of Overseas Indian Community in the development of India". The day (January 9) commemorates the arrival of Mahatma Gandhi in India from South Africa.

Conclusion

Our Constitution of India has introduced Single citizenship and provides uniform rights for the people of India to promote the feeling of fraternity and unity among them to build an integrated Indian nation.

Recap

- Citizen is a person of a country who is entitled to enjoy all the legal rights and privileges granted by a State.
- Part II of the constitution of India, Articles 5 – 11 deals with the Citizenship of India.
- Indian Citizenship Act of 1955 provides for the acquisition and termination of Indian citizenship.
- Our Indian Constitution provides for Single Citizenship.

Glossary		
Acquisition	Act of acquiring	முயன்று அடைதல்
Amendment	A minor change	திருத்தம்
Constitutional law	Law determining the fundamental political principles of a government	அரசியலமைப்புச் சட்டம்
Fraternity	Brotherhood	சகோதரத்துவம்
Resident	Inhabitant	குடியிருப்பவர்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Which of the following is not a condition for becoming the citizen of India?
   a) Birth b) Acquiring property
   c) Descent d) Naturalization

2. _____of the Constitution of India deals with the Citizenship.
   a) Part II b) Part II Article 5-11
   c) Part II Article 5-6 d) Part I Article 5-11

3. Who is called the first citizen of India?
   a) The Prime Minister
   b) The President
   c) The Chief Minister
   d) The Chief Justice of India

II Fill in the blanks

1. _____ of a state enjoy full civil and political rights.
2. Our Indian Constitution provides for only _____citizenship.
3. An Indian citizen who is residing outside India and holds an Indian passport are called_____.
4. All have right and _____responsibility citizens.
5. _____ is an idea enabling young people to access and participate in shaping modern society.

UNIT 2 Civics.indd 180 25-01-2025 11.11.19 AM

III State true or false

1. USA has single citizenship.
2. OCI card holder has voting rights in India.
3. Citizen of India can enjoy Fundamental Rights guaranteed by our constitution.
4. Nationality can be change and citizenship can not be changed.

IV Consider the following statements. Tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. Indian Citizen of a person can be terminated if
   I. A person voluntarily acquires the citizenship of some other country.
   II. A person who has become a citizen through registration.
   III. The Government of India is satisfied that citizenship was obtained by fraud.
   IV. A citizen who is by birth indulges in trade with an enemy country during war.
   a) I and II are correct.
   b) I and III are correct
   c) I, III, IV are correct.
   d) I, II, III are correct.
2. **Assertion (A):** When Pondicherry becomes the part of India in 1962, the people lived there became Indian citizens.
   Reason (R): It was done by one of the provisions of the Act of 1955- by incorporation of Territory.
   a) R is the correct explanation of A
   b) R is not the correct explanation of A
   c) A is wrong but R is correct.
   d) Both A and R are wrong.

V Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Name the types of citizens.
2. What are the Rights that a citizen can enjoy in our country?
3. Mention any three qualities of a good citizen.
4. Name the five ways of acquiring citizenship.
5. What do you know about the citizenship Act of 1955?

VI Answer the following in detail

1. On what grounds that the citizenship of a person is cancelled?

VII Student Activity

1. Tabulate: How will you be a good citizen inside the classroom and outside the classroom.
2. My responsibility as a Good Citizen (write any three points)

At Home	At School
To Myself	To the Environment

ICT CORNER

Citizens and Citizenship

Steps

- Enter the following URL or scan the QR code to land in Ministry of Home Affairs official website.
- Select "Act/Rules/Regulations" tab to explore constitutional procedures to become an Indian citizen.
- Select "Required Documents" tab from bottom section to know about important documents.
- Click "Sample Forms" and explore the format to apply for citizenship.

EW8TG

Website URL:

https://indiancitizenshiponline.nic.in/Home.aspx

UNIT 2 Civics.indd 181 25-01-2025 11.11.19 AM

Unit - 3

Understanding Secularism

Learning Objectives

- To understand the meaning of secularism.
- To know the importance of secularism.
- To develop the appreciation of the rights guaranteed in the Constitution.
- To analyse the importance of secular education.
- To discuss the constitutional provisions related to secularism.

H1NQ9

India will be a land of many faiths, equally honoured and respected, but of one national outlook.
- Jawaharlal Nehru

Introduction

India is a land of multi-religious faith and multi-cultural beliefs. It is the birth place of four major religions; Hinduism, Jainism, Buddhism and Sikhism. In our country people of diverse religions and beliefs have been living peacefully for a long time. Modern nation-states are multi-religious states, hence there is a need for tolerance of all religions. The concept of secularism is aimed at creating a society in which people of religious beliefs or people who do not belong to any religion can live together in harmony and peace.

Rajaram Mohan Roy, Sir Syed Ahmad Khan, Rabindranath Tagore, Mahatma Gandhi and B.R. Ambedkar were some of the noted individuals held high in public regards who contributed towards the spread of secularism in the various spheres of Indian society. Secularism is invaluable for a society like India which is characterised by religious diversity.

DO YOU KNOW?

- The term secularism is derived from the Latin word 'saeculum' meaning 'an age' or 'the spirit of an age'.
- George Jacob Holyoake a British newspaper editor coined the term secularism.

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 182 25-01-2025 11.13.13 AM

What does Secularism mean?

Secularism means an attitude of tolerance towards other religions and peaceful co-existence of citizens belonging to different faiths. It is a policy of neutrality and equality by the states towards all religious communities.

Secularism is the principle of separation of state and religion or more broadly no interference of the state in the matters of religion and vice-versa. This means that every citizen is free to propagate, practice, and profess their faith, change it or not have one, according to their conscience.

Atheism - is a lack of belief in god and gods.
Secularism - is non – interference of the state in religious affairs and vice-versa.

Objectives of Secularism

- One religious group does not dominate another.
- Some members don't dominate other members of the same religious community.
- The state does not enforce any specific religion nor take away the religious freedom of individuals.

A simple statement by poet Iqbal illustrates the secular view "Religion does not teach us animosity; We are Indians and India is our home!"

12th Rock Edict, Ashoka

Emperor Ashoka was the first great emperor to announce as early as 3rd century BC (BCE) that the state would not prosecute any religious sect. In his 12th Rock Edict, Ashoka made an appeal not only for the tolerance of all religious sects but also to develop a spirit of great respect towards them.

The Characteristic Features of a Secular State

Principle of Liberty – the state permits the practice of any religion.

Principle of Equality – the state does not give preference to any religion over another.

Principle of Neutrality – the state remains neutral in religious matter.

A secular state is the one in which the state does not officially promote any one religion as the country's official religion and every religion is treated equally. It gives to every citizen not only the equal right to freedom of conscience but also the right to profess, practice and propagate any faith of their own choice. The state observes an attitude of neutrally and impartiality towards all religions. In a secular state no one is given preferential treatment and the State does not discriminate any person on the basis of their religious practices and beliefs. All citizens are eligible to enter government service irrespective of their faith. There should be absolutely no religious instructions in educational institutions and no taxes to support any particular religion.

Importance of Secularism

The concept of secularism evolved in India as equal treatment of all religions. We need secular state to maintain peace and harmony between people of various religious ideologies. It is a part of democracy, which grants equal rights

The Mughal emperor Akbar followed the policy of religious toleration. His propagation of Din-i-Illahi (Divine Faith) and Sulh-e-Kul (Peace and harmony among religions) were advocated for religious toleration.

Constitution and Secularism

Secularism is the part of Indian Constitution. The makers of the Indian Constitution were

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 183 25-01-2025 11.13.13 AM

aware that a strong and united nation could be built only when all sections of people had the freedom to practice their religion. So secularism was accepted as one of the fundamental tenets for the development of democracy in India.

The word secularism was not mentioned in our Constitution when it was adopted in 1950. Later on in 1976, the word secular was incorporated in the Preamble through the 42nd Amendment of the Indian Constitution. (India is a Sovereign, Socialist, Secular, Democratic, Republic) The basic aim of our Constitution is to promote unity and integrity of the nation along with individual dignity.

There is no state religion in India. The state will neither establish a religion of its own nor confer any special patronage upon any particular religion. The freedom of religion guaranteed under the Indian Constitution is not confined to its citizen alone but extends to aliens also. This was pointed out by the Hon'ble Supreme Court in the case Ratilal Panchand vs. State of Bombay in 1954.

A 19th century Hindu temple in Khajuraho, India incorporates a Hindu spire, a Jain cupola, a Buddhist stupa and Muslim style dome in place of usual shikara.

The Constitution of India has the following distinguishing features

a. The state will not identify itself with or be controlled by any religion

b. The state guarantees to everyone the right to profess any religion of their own.

c. The state will not accord any preferential treatment any of them.

d. No discrimination will be shown by the state against any person on account of his religious faith.

e. It creates fraternity of the Indian people and gives assurance the dignity of the individual and the unity of the nation.

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The secular Indian state declares public holidays to mark the festivals of all religions.

Mosaic of Constitutional Provisions

Article 15 – prohibition of discrimination on grounds of religion, caste, sex or place of birth etc.,

Article 16 – equality of opportunity in public employment.

Article 25(1) – guarantees the freedom of conscience and the right to profess, practice and propagate religion individually.

Article 26 – Freedom to manage religious affairs

Article 27 – The state shall not compel any citizen to pay any taxes for the promotion of any particular religion.

Article 28 – on religious instruction or religious worship in certain educational institution.

Article 29(2) – A ban on discrimination in state-aided educational institution **.**

Why do we need secular education?

Secularism in education means making public education free from any religious dominance. Children as future citizens must get education which should aim at their development of character and moral behavior irrespective of religious affiliation.

Secular education is needed

- to remove narrow mindedness and makes dynamic and enlightened view;
- to develop moral and humanistic outlook;

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 184 25-01-2025 11.13.14 AM

- to train the youth to be good citizen;
- to strengthen democratic values like liberty, equality, and fraternity and co-operative living;
- to give wider vision towards life;
- to develop an attitude of appreciation and understanding of others point of view;
- to develop the spirit of love, tolerance, co-operation, equality and sympathy;
- to synthesise materialism and spiritualism.

Conclusion

The Indian State is secular and works in various ways to prevent religious domination. Secularism undoubtedly helps and aspires to enable every citizen to enjoy fully blessings of life, liberty and happiness. The Indian Constitution guarantees fundamental rights that are based on secular principles. It is one of the glowing achievement on Indian democracy. Secularism allows us to live in civility. It compels people to respect other religion. It grants equal rights to the people in respect of their religious faith. It is desirable for a country like India.

Akbar's tomb at Sikandara near Agra, India

Akbar's instruction for his mausoleum was that it would incorporate elements from different religions including Islam and Hinduism

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 185 25-01-2025 11.13.14 AM

Recap

- India is the land of multi – religious country. Hence there is a need for tolerance of all religions.
- Secularism is the belief that no one should be discriminated on the basis of religion.
- Secularism is very essential for the smooth functioning of a democratic country.
- A secular state is one in which the state does not officially promote any one religion as state religion.
- The Indian Constitution allows individuals the freedom to live by their religious beliefs and practices.
- The Indian state works in various ways to prevent religious domination.

Glossary

Diversity	The state of being diverse	பன்முகத்தன்மை
Propagate	Spread and promote widely	பரவச்செய்
Liberty	Freedom	சுதந்திரம்
Equality	Fairness	சமத்துவம்
Neutrality	Impartially	நடுநிலைமை
Ideology	Doctrine	சித்தாந்தம்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Secularism means
   a) State is against to all religions
   b) State accepts only one religion
   c) An attitude of tolerance and peaceful co-existence on the part of citizen belonging any religion
   d) None of these
2. India is a land of _____
   a) Multi - religious faith
   b) Multi - cultural beliefs
   c) Both (a) & (b)
   d) None of these
3. The Preamble of the Constitution was amended in_____.
   a) 1951 b) 1976 c) 1974 d) 1967
4. Which one of the following describes India as a secular state?
   a) Fundamental Rights
   b) Fundamental Duty
   c) Directive Principles of State Policy
   d) Preamble of the Constitution
5. Right to freedom of religion is related to
   a) Judiciary
   b) Parliament
   c) Directive principles of State Policy
   d) Fundamental rights
6. According to Article 28, which type of education is restricted in state aided educational institutions?
   a) Religious instruction
   b) Moral education
   c) Physical education
   d) None above these

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 186 25-01-2025 11.13.15 AM

7. The country will be considered as a secular country, if it _____

a) Gives importance to a particular religion

b) Bans religious instructions in the state – aided educational institutions.

c) Does not give importance to a particular religion

d) Bans the propagation of any religious belief.

II Fill in the blanks

1. Religion does not teach us _____.
2. Secularism is a part of democracy which grants _____.
3. _____ is a lack of belief in god and gods.
4. The basic aim of our constitution is to promote _____and _____.
5. Article 15 prohibits _____on the grounds of religion, caste, sex or place of birth.

III Match the following

1.	Atheism	-	Coined the word secularism
2.	Children	-	Social reformer
3.	Din-i-Illahi	-	Lack of belief in god
4.	Constitution	-	Future citizen
5.	Holyoake	-	Divine faith
6.	Rajaram Mohan Roy	-	1950

IV State true or false

1. There is state religion in India
2. The term secularism has been derived from the Greek word.
3. The Mughal emperor Akbar followed the policy of religious toleration.
4. Jainism originated in China.
5. Government of India declares holidays for all religious festivals.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. i) Secularism is invaluable for a society like India which is characterized by religious diversity.

ii) The word secularism was not mentioned in the Constitution when it was adopted in 1950.

iii) Article 26 deals with payment of taxes for the promotion of any particular religion.

iv) Akbar's tomb situated at Sikandara near Agra.

a) i, ii only

b) ii, iii only

c) iv only

d) i, ii and iv only

2. **Assertion (A)**: A foreigner can practice his own religious faith in India.

Reason (R): The freedom of religion is guaranteed by the constitution not only for Indians but also for the aliens also.

a) A is true but R is false.

b) Both A and R are true and R is the correct explanation of A.

c) A is false but R is true.

d) Both A and R are true. R is not the correct explanation of A.

3. **Assertion (A):** Secularism is invaluable in India.

Reason (R): India is a multi- religious and multi- cultural country.

a) A is correct and R is the correct explanation of A.

b) A is correct and R is not the correct explanation of A.

c) A is wrong and R is correct.

d) Both are wrong.

4. **Find out the wrong pair.**

a)	Din-i-Illahi	-	A book
b)	Khajuraho	-	Hindu temple
c)	Ashoka	-	Rock Edict
d)	Iqbal	-	Poet

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Name some of the Indians who contributed to spread of secularism.
2. What does secularism mean?
3. State the objectives of secularism.

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 187 25-01-2025 11.13.15 AM

4. Why is it important to separate religion from the state?
5. What are the characteristic features of a secular state?
6. Mention any three Constitutional provisions related to secularism.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Why we need secular education?
2. Secularism is necessary for a country like India. Justify.

VIII Hots

1. Will the Government intervene if some religious group says that their religion allows them to practice human sacrifice?

IX Project and Activity

1. Look at the holidays of your school calendar. How many of them pertain to different religions? List them based on religions. What does it indicate?

2. How can you develop religious tolerance?

At home	At school
In your locality	At National level

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1. *The Consitution of India*, Government of India, Ministry of Law and Justice, New Delhi.
2. Sekhar Bandyopadhyay., and Aloka Parasher Sen., *Religion and Modernity in India,* Oxford Publication, 2017

INTERNET RESOURCES

- http:// legislative.gov.in contitution-of-india
- http://legislative.gov.in/ sites/ default/files/ part1.pdf

UNIT 3_Civics.indd 188 25-01-2025 11.13.15 AM

Unit - 4

Human Rights and UNO

Learning Objectives

- Understand what human rights are.
- Understand the relationship between rights and responsibilities.
- Know the importance of Human rights.
- Understand that human rights belong to everybody.
- Appreciate the meaning and significance of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, 1948.

OBP5S

Introduction

Everybody is born equal. Each individual in the world has the right to lead a dignified life of his or her own choice. Human rights are related to individuals and society. Human rights denotes all those rights that are inherent and ensure that we live as free people and exercise our choices. The state's role is to ensure that people have equal rights.

What are Human Rights?

Human Rights are rights inherent to all human beings regardless of race, sex, nationality, ethnicity, language and religion. Human rights include freedom from slavery and torture, freedom of opinion and expression and fair trial, the right to life work and education.

Where do Human Rights come from?

A set of basic rights and freedoms has deep roots in European and American countries.

a. Written Precursors of Human Rights Documents

The Magna Carta of 1215(England) – gave people new rights and made the king subject to the law.

The Petition of Right 1628(England) – set out the rights of the people.

The Habeas Corpus Act of 1679(England) – an act for the better securing liberty of the subject.

The English Bill of Rights of 1689 – set out certain basic civil rights.

The French Declaration on the Rights of Man and Citizen 1789 – a document of France, stating that all citizens are equal under the law.

The US Constitution and Bill of Rights 1791- safeguards the rights of the citizens.

b. The Birth of United Nations

The idea of human rights emerged stronger after the Second World War. This War led to

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 189 25-01-2025 11.16.10 AM

unimaginable violation of human rights. During the times of war, human lives lost its value and those affected by war had to struggle till the end of their life. Atrocities during the Second World War made clear that previous efforts to protect individual rights from government violations were inadequate. The rights of man were prevented or eliminated in several parts of the world due to several factors. It is proved that the government of some countries alone could not protect human rights. People wanted to ensure that never again would anyone be unjustly denied life, freedom, food, shelter, and nationality. These voices played a critical role in the San Francisco meeting in which the United Nations Charter was drafted in 1945. At this juncture, an International body, the United Nations Organisation (UNO) which was established on 24th October 1945 took up the issue. Human Rights is an important theme in all UN policies and programmes in the areas of peace and security, development, humanitarian assistance and economic and social affairs.

c. The Universal Declaration of Human Rights (UDHR)

One of the greatest achievements of United Nations is the creation of human rights law. To advance this goal, the UN established a Commission on Human Rights. The Commission guided by Eleanor Roosevelt's (wife of former US president Franklin D Roosevelt) forceful leadership captured the world's attention. Finally, the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (UDHR) was adopted by the UN General Assembly in 1948. It is a milestone document in the history of Human rights. The Declaration was proclaimed by the UN General Assembly in Paris, France on 10th December 1948(General Assembly resolution 217A). In remembrance of every year 10th December is observed as the Human Rights Day and its regular observance commenced from 1950. It is also known as modern International Magna Carta of Human Rights. Its principles have been incorporated into the Constitutions of most of the (more than 185) nations. UDHR has been translated into more than 500 languages. It is the most translated document in the world.

Preamble of UDHR

All men are born free and all are equal in status and rights. They are endowed with intelligence and conscience and obliged to promote the spirit of common brotherhood amongst all men.

The Cyrus Cylinder 539 BC (BCE)

Cyrus the Great, the first king of ancient Persia, freed the slaves and declared that all people had the right to choose their own religion and established racial equality. These and other decrees were recorded on a baked-clay cylinder in the Akkadian language in cuneiform script. It is translated into all six official languages of the United Nations and its provisions parallel the first four Articles of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights.

Human Rights are based on the values of

a. Dignity – The right to life, the right to integrity, the prohibition of enforced labour, slavery and degrading punishment.

b. Justice – The right to fair trial, proportional punishment to crime, the right not to be trialed more than once for the same crime

c. Equality – Equality before law. No discrimination on race, religion, gender, age, ability/disability etc.

Basic Characteristics of Human Rights

Inherent – they are not granted by any person or authority.

Fundamental – they are fundamental rights because without them, the life and dignity of man will be meaningless.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 190 25-01-2025 11.16.10 AM

Inalienable – they cannot be taken away from the individual.

Indivisible – they can't be denied even when other rights have already been enjoyed .

Universal - they are universal. They apply irrespective of one's origin or status. They are enforceable without national border.

Interdependent - they are interdependent because the fulfillment or exercise of one human right cannot be had without the realization of the other.

Human Rights Day is celebrated annually on 10th December every year. It is to honour the United Nations General Assembly for declaring the human rights universally.

Kinds of Human Rights

There are 30 Articles incorporated in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights.

These rights are broadly classified into Five primary categories. They are as follows

a. Civil Rights

The term civil rights refers to the basic rights afforded by laws of the government to every person. This is the right to be treated as an equal to anyone else. It includes the rights to life, liberty, freedom from slavery and arbitrary arrest.

b. Political Rights

Political rights are exercised in the formation and administration of a government. The Civil and Political rights are directly related to modern democracy. They protect the individual from the misuse of political power and recognise every individual's right to participate in their country's political process. It includes the freedom of expression, and peaceful assembly, the right to take part in the government of one's country, the right to vote, the freedom of speech and obtain information.

c. Social Rights

It is necessary for an individual to fully participate in the society. Social rights are those rights necessary for an adequate standard of living including the right to education, health care, food, clothing, shelter and social security.

d. Economic Rights

The right to participate in an economy that benefits all and to desirable work. Economic rights guarantee every person to have condition under which they are able to meet their needs. This includes the rights to employment and fair wage, the reasonable limitation of working hours, shelter, education and adequate standard of living, and the right to property.

e. Cultural Rights

The right to freedom of religion and to speak the language and to practice the cultural life of the community, the right to share in scientific advancement, and right to the protection of moral and material interest.

The Difference between Human Rights and Civil Rights

Human Rights	Civil Rights
Human rights belong to everyone, everywhere, regardless of *nationality, sexuality, gender, race, religion or age*.	Civil rights are those rights that one enjoys by virtue of citizenship in a particular nation or state.
Human rights are considered universal to all human beings and universal in all countries.	Civil rights vary greatly from country to the country's or government to government. It is related to the Constitution.
No nation may rightfully deprive human rights to an individual.	Different nations can grant or deny different civil rights and liberties.
Human rights are basic rights inherent with birth.	Civil rights are creation of the society.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 191 25-01-2025 11.16.10 AM

Human Rights Commission

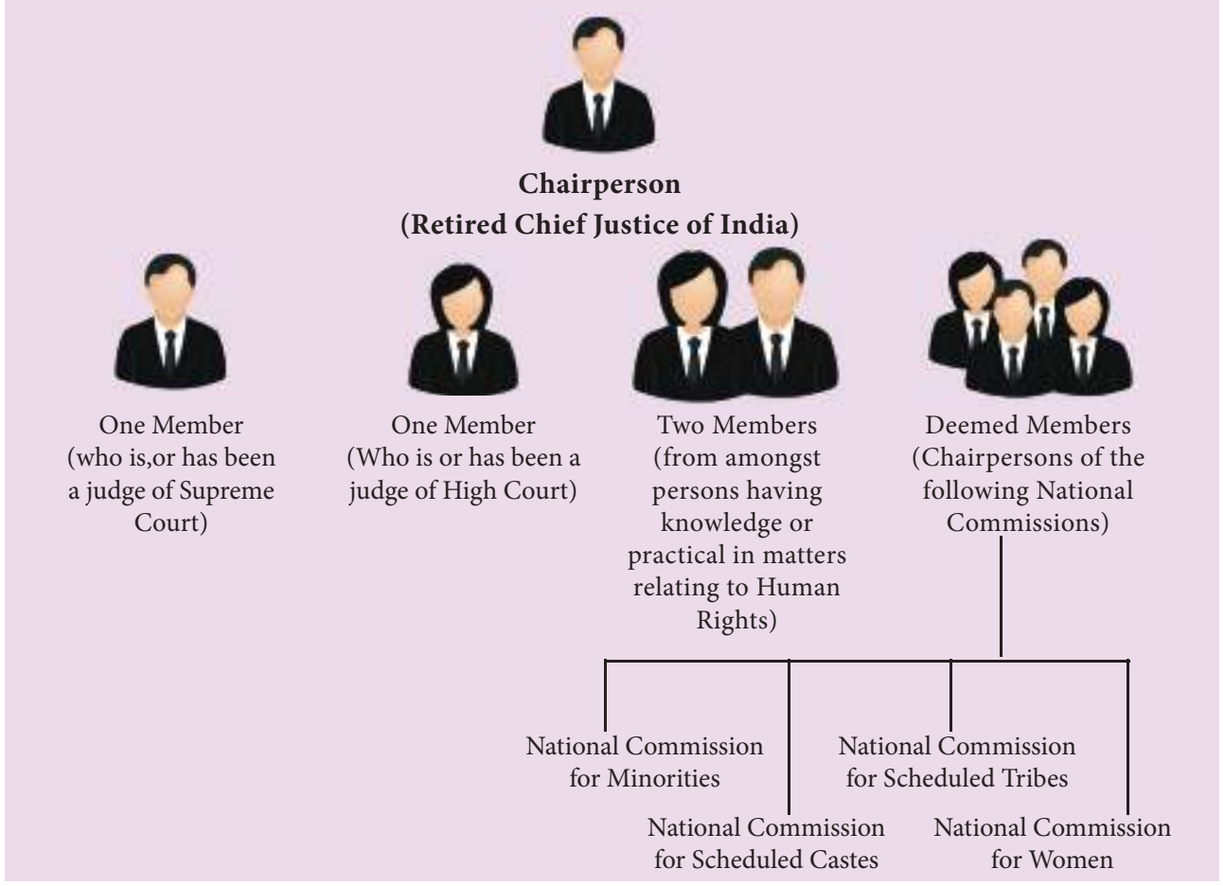
The Economic and Social Council (ECOSOC), a principal organ of the United Nations was empowered to setup a commission for the promotion of human rights. National level and State level human rights commissions were established to ensure the protection of human rights.

a. National Human Rights Commission (NHRC)

The National Human Rights Commission (NHRC) of India was established on 12th October, 1993. It is an independent statutory, and non-constitutional body. Its headquarter is located in New Delhi. NHRC is a multi-member body which consists of a Chairperson and other members. The President appoints the Chairperson and other members. They are appointed for 5 years or till the age of 70 years whichever is earlier. NHRC has five divisions. Law Division, Investigation Division, Policy Research & Programmes Division, Training Division and Administrative Division. The National Human Rights Commission is responsible for the protection and promotion of human rights in India.

b. State Human Rights Commission (SHRC)

The State Human Rights Commission of Tamil Nadu was formed on 17th April, 1997. It functions at the state level. It consists of three members including a Chairperson. A state Human Rights Commission can inquire into violation of human rights related to subjects covered under State list and Concurrent list in the seventh schedule of the Indian Constitution. (not if NHRC already enquiring)



UNIT 4_Civics.indd 192 25-01-2025 11.16.10 AM

Human Rights Organisations

Many organisations around the world have taken their efforts to protect human rights and for ending human rights abuses. These Non-governmental organisations monitor the actions of governments and pressure them to act according to human right principles. Some of these organisations are Amnesty International, Children's Defense Fund, Human Rights Watch.

Indian Constitution Article

24 - prohibits child labour.

39 (f) - provides for children to develop in healthy manner.

45 – provides that the state shall endeavor to provide early childhood care and education for all children until they complete the age of six years.

Child Rights

According to Article 1 of the United Nations Convention on the Rights of the Child 1989, 'a child means every human being below the age of eighteen years'. The Convention on the Rights of the Child was proclaimed by UN on 20th November 1989.

The child is considered as an important national asset. The future of a nation depends on how its children mature and develop. So protection of children from all kinds of exploitation and abuses has become the main objective of our society. There are laws in India protecting the rights of the children.

UNO has declared

1978 as International year of women.

1979 as the International year of children.

a. Right to Education Act

Article 21A provides that the state shall provide free and compulsory education to all children aged six to fourteen years.

b. The Child Labour Act (Prohibition and Regulation Act 1986)

It provides no child who has not completed 15 years of age can be employed

c. The Juvenile Justice Act 2000 (Care and Protection of Children)

The Juvenile Justice (Care and Protection of Children) Act, 2015, is a comprehensive legislation that provides general principles for the care and protection of children. This Act also outlines procedures for children in need of care and protection. Additionally, it addresses procedures for children in conflict with the law. The Act seeks to hold the children committing offenses accountable, not through punishments, but through counseling and various rehabilitation measures. The Act enacted in 2015, changed the nomenclature of juvenile to 'child' and 'juvenile in conflict with law' as 'child in conflict with the law'.

d. POCSO Act 2012

The Act was amended in 2019, to introduce more stringent punishments including the death penalty for committing sexual crimes against children, with a view to deter the perpetrators and prevent such crimes against children. The Government of India also notified the POCSO Rules, 2020, to ensure the effective implementation of the Act.

1098 Child Line This is India's first 24 hours' free emergency phone service for children in need of assistance. Special care is given for vulnerable children those affected by child labour, child marriage and children affected by any abuse.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 193 25-01-2025 11.16.11 AM

Women Rights

Women and girl's rights are human rights. Women are entitled to the full and equal enjoyment of all of their human rights and to be free from all forms of discrimination. This is fundamental to achieve human rights, peace and security and sustainable development. The Charter of the United Nations guarantees equal rights to both women and men.

The Convention on the Elimination of All Forms of Discrimination against Women (CEDAW), adopted in 1979 by the UN General Assembly, is described as an International bill of rights for women.

In 1995 the Fourth World Conference of Women, held in Beijing, developed a Platform for Action to recognise women's rights and improve women's livelihood worldwide, and follow-up meetings monitored progress towards meeting these goals. The United Nations Development Fund for Women (UNIFEM), has worked since 1995 to implement the Beijing Platform for Action. Only when women and girls have full access to their rights will true equality exist.

Maintenance and Welfare of Parents and Senior Citizen Act 2007

This Act makes it legal obligation for children and heirs to provide maintenance to senior citizens and parents. Protection and support during old age are envisaged as human rights.

Conclusion

Human rights are about equality and fairness for everyone and it ensures that everyone is treated with dignity and respect. The protection of human right is everyone's responsibility. An understanding and respect for human rights provides the foundation for peace, harmony, security and freedom in our community.

Legislations	Provisions
The Hindu Widow Remarriage Act 1856	Legalised widow remarriage.
The Hindu Marriage Act 1955	States that the marriageable age for women is 21.
The Hindu Succession Act 1956	Ensures the right to women to inherit their parental property.
The Dowry Prohibition Act 1961	Provides drastic punishments for those ill-treating the bride in the name of dowry.
The Eve Teasing Act 1997	Gives relief to women.
Indecent Representation Act 1999	Prohibits the indecent representation of women in magazine, newspapers etc.
The Factory Act 1948, The Plantation Labour Act 1951, The Mines Act 1952 The Maternity benefit Act 1961	Protects the women workers.
Protection of Women from Domestic Violence Act 2005	Protects women from harassment by husband and family members.

Recap

- Human rights are freedoms that all human beings are entitled to enjoy. They include civil, political, economic, social and cultural rights.
- Human rights are inherent, inalienable, interdependent and indivisible.
- One of the greatest achievements of the United Nations is the creation of comprehensive body of human rights law.
- The Universal Declaration of Human Rights was adopted by the UN General Assembly in 1948.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 194 25-01-2025 11.16.11 AM

- Human rights are based on dignity, justice and equality.
- National level and State Level Human Rights Commissions were established to ensure the protection of human rights.
- The protection of human rights is everyone's responsibility.

GLOSSARY		
Nationality	People having common origin	தேசிய இனம்
Humanitarian	Seeking to promote human welfare	மனிதாபிமானம்
Brotherhood	State of being brothers	சகோதரத்துவம்
Fair trial	Justify with legal	நியாயமான விசாரணை
Harmony	Agreement of opinions	இசைவு
Heir	A person legally entitled to the property	வாரிசு/வழித்தோன்றல்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. After the Second World War _____ has taken several measures to protect the human rights.
   a) UNO
   b) Supreme Court
   c) International Court of Justice
   d) none
2. In 1995 women from all over the world gathered at _____.
   a) Beijing b) New York
   c) Delhi d) None
3. The National Human Rights Commission was constituted in _____.
   a) 1990 b) 1993 c) 1978 d) 1979
4. The UNO declared 1979 as the International year of _____.
   a) Girl Child b) Children
   c) Women d) None
5. When is Human Rights Day observed?
   a) 9th December b) 10th December
   c) 11th December d) 12th December
6. Which one is known as modern International Magna Carta of Human rights?
   a) UDHRC b) NHRC
   c) SHRC d) International Year for Women
7. Who can be appointed as the chairperson of the National Human Rights Commission?
   a) Retired judge of high court
   b) Any retired Chief Justice of the Supreme Court.
   c) Any person appointed by the president.
   d) Retired Chief Judge of any court.
8. How many articles does the Universal Declaration of Human Rights contain?
   a) 20 b) 30 c) 40 d) 50
9. What is the tenure of the Chairperson of the National Human Rights Commission?
   a) 5 years or up to 62 years of age
   b) 5 years or up to 65 years of age
   c) 6 years or up to 65 years of age
   d) 5 years or up to 70 years of age
10. Where is the headquarters of the National Human Rights Commission?
    a) New Delhi b) Mumbai
    c) Ahmedabad d) Kolkata

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 195 25-01-2025 11.16.11 AM

II Fill in the blanks

1. Each individual has _____to lead a dignified life.
2. Human Rights are _____rights.
3. The State Human Rights commission was formed on_____.
4. Article 24 of Indian Constitution prohibits _____.
5. United Nations Organisation was established in the year_____.

III Match the following

1.	Eleanor Roosevelt	-	World's first charter of human rights
2.	The Cyrus Cylinder	-	1997
3.	Eve Teasing Act	-	Freedom from slavery
4.	Child help line	-	Human Rights Commission
5.	Civil right	-	Right to vote
6.	Political right	-	1098

IV State true or false

1. Human rights and civil rights are the same.
2. Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen was proclaimed in India.
3. The Human Right Act of 1993 provides the creation of National Human Rights Commission.
4. National Human Rights Commission has empowered to give punishment to the victims.
5. Human Rights Commission was empowered to setup commission for the promotion of Human rights at National and State level.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. Find the wrong statement
   a) National Human Rights Commission is a statutory body.
   b) National Human Rights Commission is a constitutional body.
   c) National Human Rights Commission is an independent body.
   d) National Human Rights Commission is a multilateral institution.

2. Which of the following statement is not correct about the National Human Rights Commission?
   a) It was established in 1993.
   b) In the cases of human rights violation, the Commission has no rights to punish the culprit.
   c) The Chairperson and members are of this Commission are appointed by the Supreme Court of India.
   d) The Commission sends its annual report to the Central Government and State Governments.

3. **Assertion :** Human Rights day is observed on 10th December

   Reason : It commemorates Eleanor Roosevel's birthday.
   a) A is correct but R does not explain A
   b) A is correct but R explains A
   c) A and R are correct
   d) A and R are Wrong

4. Consider the following statements
   1. The State Human Rights commission is a multi-member body.
   2. The State Human Rights Commission consists of a chairperson and three members.

   Which of the statements given above is /are correct?
   a) 1 only
   b) 2 only
   c) Both 1 and 2
   d) None

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. What are Human Rights?
2. Bring out the importance of UDHR.
3. What does Article 45 of Indian Constitution provide?
4. Write about Right to Education Act.
5. State any three legislations passed to safeguard the welfare of women.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 196 25-01-2025 11.16.11 AM

6. Mention some of the political rights.
7. Name the five primary categories of Human Rights.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Distinguish between Human rights and Civil rights.
2. Describe any five basic characteristics of Human Rights.
3. What are the measures taken by the government to protect the children?

VIII HOTs

1. To whom does the Universal Declaration of Human Rights apply? Why is it important to you?

IX Project and Activity

1. Make a list of 10 rights that you enjoy, and the responsibilities that you have.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. NCERT - *India and the World,* 2004
2. Arun Ray., *National Human Rights Commissionof India,* Khama Publisher, New Delhi, 2004
3. Parikshith K. Naik., and Mehrabudin Wakman., *Human Rights & International Organisations,* Trinity Publication, 2013

INTERNET RESOURCES

- www.shrc.tn.gov.in
- www.nhrc.nic.in
- www.un.org

ICT CORNER

Human Rights and UNO

Through this activity you will learn about pictorial Time Line events of United Nations organisation and India.

Step - 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.

Step - 2 Scroll down and Click on **'IN FOCUS'**

Step - 3 Select any year from the bottom time line (Ex.1948) and select the 'box' to learn more about the UNO and India.

Web URL: https://in.one.un.org/

*Pictures are indicative only

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

UNIT 4_Civics.indd 197 25-01-2025 11.16.12 AM

Unit - 5

Road Safety Rules and Regulations

Learning Objectives

- Understand the importance of road safety.
- Analyze the causes for the road accidents.
- Recognize the safety measures to be followed while driving.
- Develop skills to identify and respond to traffic hazards.
- Can move confidently and safely on road.

Y6J57

Introduction

Our entire civilization has been based upon some of our extraordinary infrastructures which give us speed and connectivity. The roads are one of the most crucial inventions of man. In today's world transport has become an integral part of every human being. Roads minimises the distance but on the other hand road accidents injures lakhs of people and results in loss of lives. Road safety is primarily meant about to protect and provide security of all those who travel on roads.

Importance of Road Safety

Every day the newspapers report of accidents of road and mishaps occurring frequently. Road accidents are undesired events that lead to injury or death. These deaths and injuries result in significant social and economic costs. The problem does not lie with roads; it is our carelessness that results in such misfortune. The loss of life results in the loss of livelihood. Our traffic is a heterogeneous mix of slow moving as well as high-speed vehicles which is the cause for the problem.

Direct Consequences of Accidents: Fatality(death), Injury, Property damage.

Reasons for the Road Accidents

Over Speeding – The higher the speed, greater the risk. Most of the fatal accidents occur due to over speeding. Increase in speed multiplies the risk of accident and severity of injury during an accident. Tailgating is illegal and dangerous habit. (driving too close behind a vehicle)

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 198 25-01-2025 11.19.24 AM

Drunken Driving – Consumption of alcohol reduces concentration. It hampers vision due to dizziness. And driving under the influence of alcohol causes accidents. (Random breath test is done to detect consumption of alcohol)

Distraction to Drivers – Distraction could be outside or inside the vehicle. The Major distraction nowadays is talking on mobile phones while driving. The act of talking on phone occupies a major portion of the brain's function and the smaller part handles the driving skills. Some other distractions are inattentive or lost in thought (daydreaming), adjusting mirrors while driving, stereo in vehicle, animals on road, banners and billboards etc.

Red Light Jumping – The main motive behind red light jumping is saving time. Studies have shown that traffic signals followed properly by all the drivers saves time and commuters reach destination safely and on time.

Avoiding Safety Gears
Use of seat belt in four wheelers and helmets for two wheelers have been brought under law. These two things reduce the severity of injury during accidents.

Other different factors

a. Drivers - over speeding, rash driving, violation of rules, failure to understand signs, fatigue and consumption of alcohol.

b. Pedestrian - carelessness, illiteracy, crossing at wrong places, moving on roads and jaywalkers

c. Passengers - projecting their body outside the vehicle, by talking to drivers, travelling on footboards, catching a running bus etc.

d. Vehicles – failure of brakes or steering, tyre burst, insufficient headlights, overloading and projecting loads.

e. Road Condition – damaged road, potholes, eroded road merging of rural road with highways, diversion and illegal speed breakers

f. Weather Conditions – fog, snow, heavy rainfall, wind, storms and hail storms

Safety Measures

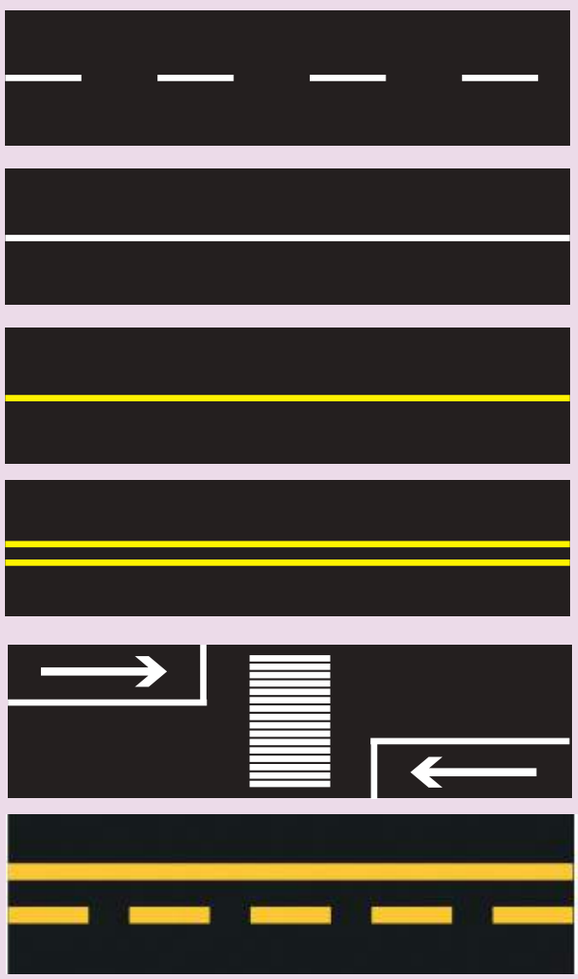
- Always keep to the left - While driving, keep to the left and allow vehicles to pass from the opposite direction.
- Slow down on bends and turn - A very important thing to keep in mind is to become cautious and slow down on the bends.
- Use helmets - Make it a habit of strapping the helmet before mounting the bikes.

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 199 25-01-2025 11.19.26 AM

- Never exceed the speed limit - The speed limit is related to the traffic condition of the area. So maintain speed limit.
- Maintain the right distance - Collisions occur because we do not maintain adequate distance from the vehicle in the front. So maintain a safe distance from the bigger vehicles. Keep out of their blind spot (an area not seen through the rear view and wing mirror)
- Park the vehicles only along the designated parking bays/zones not on the sides of the high ways. Use parking lights and caution triangle while attending breakdown.
- Follow the road signs - Road signs are mostly pictorial so it is not hard to comprehend.
- Some other safety tips are - Never ever drive when drunk, never use cell phone while driving, avoid listening to too loud music, check your mirrors before changing lanes, always wear seat belts, always remain calm while driving and never yell or shout at pedestrian or other drivers.
- For pedestrians - Cross only at zebra crossing. The two minutes' time that you waste for the signals are worth your life. Never cross on red and yellow light. Take a sidewalk and avoid walking on the roads.

The 108 Emergency Response Service

It is a free emergency service providing integrated medical (ambulance), police and fire services. If you find any victims on road don't panic. Call 108 for help and 103 for traffic accidents.



Broken white line – basic marking on roads. you may change lanes, and are allowed to overtake a vehicle or take U turn of it is safe to do so.

Solid white line – seen on areas of strategic importance. These implies that you are not allowed to overtake and to stay within the lane.

Single solid Yellow lines – used in areas where visibility is low. It implies that you can overtake And should drive on your side.

Double solid yellow lines - used on dangerous roads or for two-way traffic. It strictly prohibits anybody from crossing over into the lane. You can overtake inside your own lane.

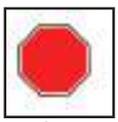
Stop line - This is marked before the pedestrian crossing and sets the deadline where car should stop before traffic signal.

Solid and Broken lines - if you are driving on the side with the broken line you are allowed to overtake and if you are driving on the side of the solid line you are not.

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 200 25-01-2025 11.19.26 AM

Mandatory Signs

The first category of traffic signs is mandatory signs. Violation of any mandatory traffic sign is an offence punishable by law by the Roadways and Transport Department.


Stop

Give Way

One Way

No Entry

One Way

Heavy Vehicles Prohibited

Right Turn Prohibited

Left Turn Prohibited

U-Turn Prohibited

Over Taking Prohibited

Horns Prohibited

Speed Limit

Bus Stop

Compulsory Turn Left

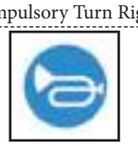
Compulsory Ahead Only

Compulsory Turn Right

Compulsory Ahead Or Turn Right

Compulsory Ahead Or Turn Left

Compulsory Keep Left


Compulsory Sound Horn

Cautionary Signs

A total of 40 cautionary traffic signs have been added by the Roadways and Transport Department. The main function of cautionary signs is to warn the driver to take necessary action to manage the situation.

Right Hand Curve

Left Hand Curve

Right Hairpin bend

Left Hairpin bend

Right Reverse Bend

Left Reverse Bend

Steep Ascent

Narrow Road Ahead

Broad Road Ahead

Bridge

Slippery Road

Cycle Crossing

Pedestrian Crossing

School Ahead

Men At Work

T-junction

Falling Rocks

Level Crossing

Informatory Signs

These signs provide information to the drivers via boards.

Public Telephone

Fuel

Hospital

Railway station

Eating Place

Light Refreshment

Resting Place

Road Closed

Park This Side

Parking Lot Scooter & Motor Cycle

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 201 25-01-2025 11.19.27 AM

Traffic Signs

Traffic signs are there to regulate traffic, warn about hazards and to guide the road users. Understanding traffic signs is essential. We should have a proper knowledge of traffic signs. The government has made it mandatory for a person who wants to obtain driving license to be well versed with the traffic signs. Traffic signs prevent the undesirable risks posed on the road to drivers and passengers in the vehicle.

There are three types of traffic signs.

Mandatory Signs – give order and need to be followed strictly. They are generally in circular in shape.

Cautionary Signs – warn the user regarding road situation ahead. They are generally, in triangular shape.

Informatory signs – give information regarding directions, destinations, etc., They are generally in rectangular shape.

Traffic Signals

Traffic lights are a signalling device that are positioned at a road intersection, pedestrian crossing to indicate when it is safe to drive, ride or walk using a universal colour code.

Red – this signal indicates to stop behind the stop line.

Amber (Yellow) – this signal indicates stop. Do not pass through or start until green shows. If, by mistake, you are caught in yellow signal in the middle of a large road crossing, continue with care and do not accelerate in panic.

Green – this signal indicates you may go if the way is clear.

Steady Green Arrow Signal – this signal may be provided in addition to the full green signal. This indicates to proceed with caution in the direction the arrow points.

Flashing Red Signal - it means to come to complete stop. Proceed only when the way is clear.

Flashing Yellow Signal – it indicates to slow down and proceed with caution.

Lights at Night:

STOP, LOOK, PROCEED SLOW, LOOK, PROCEED

At night, when traffic has dwindled, the traffic police might switch off the signals in many intersections which means proceed with caution but no need to stop.

Traffic Rules in India

The Motor Vehicle Act 1988 passed by the Parliament which came into force in 1989 is applicable to the whole of India.

- On one-way road the driver should allow the overtaking vehicle through the right. Never park the vehicle in reverse on a one-way street.
- On a two-way road, the driver must drive on the left side of the road.
- It is mandatory for the driver to slow down at all inter junctions and pedestrian crossing.
- Drivers should not use the horns in prohibited areas like hospital zones, school zones etc.,
- It is our responsibility to give way to emergency vehicles such as Army convoy fire engine and ambulance.
- Driver should use high – beam only when necessary. It is important to dim the lights when there are oncoming vehicles or when driving closely behind another.
- When the driver is slowing down his vehicle, he has to raise the right arm and swing it up and down gently.
- When the driver stopping his vehicle he has to raise the arm vertically for the indication to the other vehicles behind it.

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 202 25-01-2025 11.19.28 AM

- If the driver is turning right, he has to extend the arm straight out with the palm facing front.
- If the driver is turning left, he has to rotate the hand in the anti-clockwise direction.
- In case of emergency, the hazard indicator should be used, which will switch on both the indicators.
- On a two-wheeler only one pillion rider is allowed.
- The horn should not sound really shrill irritating or loud. Electronic horn is permitted.
- Parking vehicles in front of rescue vehicles such as an ambulance, fire engine or a police vehicle is punishable by law and the individual doing so has to pay fine.

304 A of the Indian Penal Code
The police will file a criminal case under this section, which deals with offences relating to death due to rashness and negligence of the driver.

Different colour Number Plates

– is used in the vehicle for the President of India and Governor of States.

– is given to a vehicle that is used by foreign delegates/ ambassadors.

– it means that the car belongs to a common citizen.

– is for commercial vehicle.

Essential Documents – A driver should possess the following documents while driving the vehicle: -

Driving License, Registration Certificate of the Vehicle, Taxation Certificate, Insurance Certificate, Fitness Certificate, and Permit.

Steps taken by the Government to prevent Road Accidents

The Ministry of Road Transport and Highways has taken a number of steps to prevent road accidents and road accident fatalities.

These include:-

A multi – pronged strategy has been adopted based on four Es – Engineering, Enforcement, Education and Emergency care for ensuring road safety. They are meant to provide better and safer road engineering, improved vehicular safety standards, training of drivers, improved trauma care and creating public awareness.

Improving Vehicular Safety Standards - Trucks are prohibited from carrying protruding rods. Anti – locking Brake System (ABS) has been made mandatory on heavy vehicles. Induction of ABS/CBS for two wheelers are made mandatory. AHO (Automatic Headlight On) made mandatory for two-wheelers to make them more conspicuous.

Pilot Projects for Cashless Treatment of Road Accident Victims - This project has already done in the stretch of NH 8 and NH 33. Now it is proposed to implement this scheme along the Golden Quadrilateral, North South and East West Corridors.

Quick response ambulances are parked in every 50 kms on the National Highways by the National Highway Authority of India (NHAI). 24 x 7 call centre to receive calls for ambulances has been created and training has been given for providing first aid to road safety volunteers.

Setu Bharatam - a program was launched in 2016 for building bridges for safe and seamless travel on National Highways. It aims to make all National Highways free of railway level crossing by 2019.

Speed Governors – This device has a series of sensors that can detect how fast a vehicle is going and if this crosses the limit set by it,

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 203 25-01-2025 11.19.28 AM

it restricts the flow of air and fuel to the engine. This automatically slows down and stops the vehicle from crossing the pre-determined speed.

Variable Message Signs – These are LED boards which can display important information that needs to be communicated to commuters. These can be used to update road users the traffic conditions in case of major breakdowns, congestions and so on.

Brasilia Declaration on Road Safety

It is the Second Global High level Conference on Road Safety co–sponsored by the WHO. Taking road safety as a serious issue, India signed Brasilia Declaration in 2015 through which the participants across the world are committed to improve road safety and ways to reduce the traffic deaths by the end of this decade.

The Ministry of Road Transport and Highways has released a set of comic books on road safety called *Swachha Safer* and *Suvarshit Yatra* with the aim of creating awareness among children.

Save LIFE Foundation is an independent, non-profit, non-governmental and public charitable trust that is working to improve road safety and emergency medical care across India.

Road Safety Week

Road safety week is a national event aimed at raising public awareness about traffic rules and ultimately to reduce casualties due to road accidents. It is also intended to reinforce road safety behaviour among road users. Celebrating the road safety campaign was initiated by the Ministry of Road Transport and Highways. National Road Safety Week in India is organised by the National Safety Council of India (NSC). It is an autonomous body set up by the Indian government to engage the public on safety, health and environment issues. National Road Safety Week is observed in the month of January every year.

Decade of Action for Road Safety 2011 - 2020

Decade of Action for Road Safety 2011 -2020, officially proclaimed by the UN General Assembly. The decade seeks to save millions of lives by improving the safety of roads and vehicles, enhancing the behavior of road users and improving emergency services.

The international Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies (IFRC)

Suggested 10 points as follows

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 204 25-01-2025 11.19.29 AM

Conclusion

Road traffic accident are predictable and therefore preventable. So everyone should strictly follow the road safety rules and signs.

Start early! Drive slowly!! Reach safely!!!

Recap

- Road safety is primarily meant about the protection and security of all road users.
- Road accidents are undesired events. The loss of life or serious injury results in the loss of livelihood.
- Traffic signs are to regulate traffic, warn about hazards and to guide the road user.
- There are three types of traffic signs such as mandatory signs, cautionary signs, and informatory signs.
- The rule of the road regulation was brought into effect from July 1, 1989.
- The Ministry of Road Transport and Highways has taken a number of steps to prevent road accidents.
- To strengthen the awareness on road safety systems, rules and regulations, Ministry of Transport and Highways Road Safety Week every year.

GLOSSARY

Commuters	Passengers	பயணிகள்
Billboard	A hoarding	விளம்பரபலகை
Panic	Anxiety	பதட்டம்
Hazard	Danger/risk	ஆபத்து
Mandatory	Compulsory	கட்டாயம்
Pillion	A seat for a passenger behind a motorcyclist	இரு சக்கர வாகனத்தின் பின்னிருக்கை
Congestion	Overcrowding	நெரிசல்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

C8UK3

1. At a red light
   a) You can keep going if the path looks clear.
   b) You must stop and wait for it turn green.
   c) Quickly you can reply your friend's text message.
   d) You can attend call.

2. Pedestrians can cross the road only _____.
   a) At anywhere b) Near the signals
   c) At zebra crossing d) None

3. Road Safety Week is celebrated in the month of _____ every year.
   a) December b) January
   c) March d) May

4. For emergency, call _____for ambulance service.
   a) 108 b) 100 c) 106 d) 101

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 205 25-01-2025 11.19.29 AM

5. What are the causes for the road accidents?

a) Over Speeding

b) Drunken Driving

c) Distraction to Drivers

d) All of these

6. The first category of traffic signs is_____

a) Mandatory Signs

b) Cautionary Signs

c) Informatory Signs

d) None of these

7. 'Setu Bharatam', a program was launched in_____

a) 2014 b) 2015 c) 2016 d) 2017

8. Expand ABS:

a) Anti Brake start

b) Annual Base System

c) Anti – locking Brake System

d) None of these

9. Overtaking when approaching a bend is

a) Permissible b) Not permissible

c) Permissible with care d) Our wish

10. When the ambulance is approaching

a) Allow passage if there are no vehicles from front side

b) No preference need be given

c) Allow free passage by drawing to the side of the road

d) Drive behind the ambulance with great speed

II Fill in the blanks

1. Always keep _____while driving.
2. Mandatory signs are exhibited in _____shape.
3. _____controls the speed of the vehicle.
4. Higher the speed; _____ the risk.
5. Use of _____in four wheelers and _____for two wheelers has been brought under law.

III Match the following

1.	Pollution under control certificate	-	Zebra crossing
2.	One-time tax for new car	-	Comic book on road safety
3.	Pedestrian	-	6 months
4.	Brasilia Declaration	-	15 years
5.	Swachha safer	-	Global conference

IV State true or false

1. The problem of accidents lies with roads only.
2. Check mirrors before changing lanes.
3. Flashing yellow signal indicates to slow down and proceed with caution.
4. On a two wheeler only one pillion rider is allowed.
5. The roads are one of the worst invention of man.

V Consider the following statements and tick (✓) the appropriate answer

1. Which of the following statement is/are not correct?

i) Maintain the right distance to the vehicle in the front.

ii) Maintain speed limit, never exceed the speed limit

iii) Wearing seat belt is not necessary while driving.

iv) Don't slow down on bend and turn in the road.

a) i, iii only b) ii, iv only

c) i, ii only d) iii, iv only

2. Assertion (A): Drunken driving causes accidents.

Reason (R): It hampers vision due to dizziness.

a) A is correct and R is the correct explanation of A

b) A is correct and R is not the correct explanation of A

UNIT 5_Civics.indd 206 25-01-2025 11.19.29 AM

c) A is wrong and R is Correct

d) Both are wrong

3. **Assertion (A)**: Road signs are easy to comprehend.

Reason (R): They are mostly pictorial

a) A is true but R is false.

b) Both A and R are true and R is the correct explanation of A

c) A is false but R is true.

d) Both A and R are true. R is not the correct explanation of A

4. Find the odd one out (road safety rules)

a) Slow down on the bends

b) Maintain speed limit

c) Use cell phone while driving

d) Avoid walking on roads

5. The following signs represent.

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. How do you ensure road safety?
2. Why road safety is very important to us?
3. What are the direct consequences of road accidents?
4. Draw traffic lights signals and indicates the meaning.
5. Write a note on Brasilia Declaration on road safety.
6. what is the aim of observing Road Safety Week?
7. Write any four traffic rules.
8. How does alcohol affect driving?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Explain the factors contributed for road accidents.
2. Describe the steps taken by the Government of India to prevent Road accidents.
3. What are the preventive measures of road accidents?

VIII HOTs

1. What is the requirement for a two wheeler rider during night?
2. Tabulate tips for avoiding driver fatigue.

IX Project and Activity

1. Tabulate a few basic road safety rules for children.
2. Demonstrate road safety techniques.
3. Prepare Road Safety Awareness pocket guide and circulate in school.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. The Motor Vehicles Act, 1988
2. The Tamil Nadu Motor Vehicles Rules, 1989
3. Ministry of Road Transport & Highways, Government of India.
4. இருசக்கர வாகன ஓட்டிகளுக்கான சாலைப் பாதுகாப்பு விழிப்புணர்வு கையேடு, போக்குவரத்து துறை, தமிழ்நாடு அரசு.

INTERNET RESOURCES

- http://tnsta.gov.in
- http://parivahan.gov.in
- www.tn.gov.in>tnmvr1989

Unit - 6

Defence & Foreign Policy

Learning Objectives

Students acquire knowledge about

- The Indian Armed Forces.
- Paramilitary Defence Forces.
- Foreign Policy of India.
- India's relation with neighbouring countries.

28GSX

I. Defence

Introduction

India is a peace loving country. India has always maintained cordial relationship with all the other countries in general and with its neighbours in particular. At the same time, it has to strengthen its security to defend its border from any foreign aggression. So the Government of India has given higher priorities to the defence sector. Let us understand the various defence forces of our country.

Need for Defence System

National Security is very essential for the political, social and economic development of any country. It is also important for the growth of a country's peace and prosperity.

Indian Defence Services

The President of India being the head of the State occupies the highest position in our defence organisation. He is the supreme commander of the Armed forces in India.

Security Forces in India can be divided into

Indian Armed Forces – They are primary forces consist of country's Army, Navy, Air Force and Coast guard. They serve under the Ministry of Defence.

Paramilitary Forces – They are Assam Rifles and Special Frontier Force.

Central Armed Police Forces – They are BSF, CRPF, ITBP, CISF and SSB. They serve under the authority of Ministry of Home Affairs. CAPF work along with both Army and Police in different roles assigned to them.

Indian Armed Forces

Army

The Indian Army is the land-based branch and it is the largest volunteer army in the world. It is commanded by the Chief of Army Staff

4RBCP

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 208 25-01-2025 11.23.19 AM

The National War Memorial is a monument built by the Government of India to honour the Indian Armed Forces. The memorial is spread over 40 acres of land and is built around the existing chhatri (canopy) near India Gate, New Delhi. The names of armed forces personnel martyred during the conflicts are inscribed on the memorial walls.

(COAS), who is a four-star general. The primary mission of the Indian Army is to ensure national security, national unity, defending the nation from external aggression, internal threats and maintaining peace and security within its borders. It conducts humanitarian rescue operations during natural disaster and calamities. The Indian Army has a regimental system. It is operationally and geographically divided into seven commands.

Navy

The primary objective of the navy is to safeguard the nation's maritime borders, and in conjunction with other Armed Forces of the union, act to deter or defeat any threats or aggression against the territory, people or maritime interests of India. The Chief of Naval Staff, a four-star Admiral, commands the navy. It has three Naval Commands.

Air Force

The Indian Air Force is the air arm of the Indian armed forces. Its primary mission is to secure Indian airspace and to conduct aerial warfare during armed conflict. The Chief of Air Staff, an air chief marshal, is a four-star officer and is responsible for the bulk of operational command of the Air Force. It has seven commands.

Indian Coast Guard (ICG)

The Indian Coast Guard was established in 1978 by the Coast Guard Act, 1978 of the Parliament of India as an independent Armed force of India. It operates under the Ministry of Defence. The Coast Guard works in close cooperation with the Indian Navy, the Department of Fisheries, the Department of Revenue (Customs) and the Central and State police forces.

Paramilitary Defence Forces

The Forces which help in maintaining internal security, protecting the coastline and assisting the army are known as "Paramilitary Forces". The responsibility is the security of important places like Railway stations, Oil fields and refineries, water reservoirs lines. They also participate in the management of natural

Field Marshal – is a Five Star General officer rank and the highest attainable rank in the Indian Army.

Sam Manekshaw was the first Field Marshal of India and the second Field Marshal was **K. M. Cariappa.**

Arjan Singh was the first and the only office of the Indian Air Force to be promoted to Five Star Rank as Marshal.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 209 25-01-2025 11.23.20 AM

The Madras Regiment is one of the oldest infantry regiment of the Indian Army, originating in the year 1758. The Regimental Centre is at Wellington, Udhagamandalam, Tamil Nadu.

In 1962, after the Sino-Indian War, the need to expand the number of officers was felt. Two Officers Training Schools (OTS) were established in Pune and Chennai to train officers for Emergency Commission into the Army. On 1st January 1988, the school was renamed as the Officers Training Academy (OTA).

or man-made disasters. During peace time, the paramilitary forces also have the responsibility of protecting the international borders.

a) Assam Rifles (AR)

b) Special Frontier Force (SFF)

Assam Rifles (AR)

The Assam Rifles came into being in 1835 which was established by the British in the Assam region, as a militia called the 'Cachar Levy'. There are currently 46 battalions of Assam Rifles. It is under the Ministry of Home Affairs (MHA).

Special Frontier Force (SFF)

The Special Frontier Force (SFF) is a paramilitary special force of India created in 1962. This force was put under the direct supervision of the Intelligence Bureau, and later, under the Research and Analysis Wing, India's external intelligence agency.

Central Armed Police Forces (CAPF)

Following five forces which come under Ministry of Home Affairs were earlier considered paramilitary forces, but from March' 2011, They have been reclassifled as Central Armed Police Forces (CAPF) to avoid confusion.

In 1025 AD (CE), Rajendra Chola I, the Chola king from Tamil Nadu launched naval on the city-state of expedition Srivijaya in maritime Southeast Asia, and conquered Kadaram (modern Kedah). Rajendra's overseas expedition against Srivijaya was a unique event in India's history.

i) Central Reserve Police Force (CRPF)

ii) Indo-Tibetan Border Police (ITBP)

iii) Border Security Force (BSF)

iv) Central Industrial Security Force (CISF)

v) Special Service Bureau (SSB)

Central Reserve Police Force (CRPF)

The mission of Central Reserve Police force shall be to enable the government to maintain Rule of law, public order and internal security effectively and efficiently, to preserve national integrity and promote social harmony and development by upholding supremacy of the Constitution.

The Rapid Action Force is a specialised wing of the CRPF (Central Reserve Police Force) to deal with riot, crowd control, rescue and relief operations, and related unrest situations.

Indo-Tibetan Border Police (ITBP)

It is a border guarding police force. This force is specialized in high altitude operations. It is deployed for border guarding duties from Ladakh to Arunachal Pradesh (India – China border).

Border Security Force (BSF)

The border security force is a Border Guarding Force of India. BSF is charged with guarding India's land border during peace time and preventing transnational crimes.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 210 25-01-2025 11.23.21 AM

National Cadet Corps (NCC)

National Cadet Corps is a Tri-Services Organization, comprising the Army, Navy and Air Force, engaged in grooming the youth of the country into disciplined and patriotic citizens. The National Cadet Corps in India is a voluntary organization which recruits cadets from high schools, colleges and universities all over India. The Cadets are given basic military training in small arms and parades.

Central Industrial Security Force (CISF)

The Central Industrial Security Force was set up under an Act of the Parliament of India on 10th March 1969. Its duties are guarding sensitive governmental buildings, the Delhi Metro, and providing airport security.

Sashastra Seema Bal/ Special Service Bureau (SSB)

Sashastra Seema Bal (SSB), in English the Armed Border Force is the border guardening force for Nepal and Bhutan border.

Home Guard

The Indian Home Guard is a voluntary force, tasked as an auxiliary to the Indian Police.

15th January	-	Army Day
1st February	-	Coast Guard Day
10th March	-	Central Industrial Security Force Day
7th October	-	Rapid Action Force Day
8th October	-	Air Force Day
4th December	-	Navy Day
7th December	-	Armed Forces Flag Day

Home Guards are recruited from various cross sections of the civil society such as professionals, college students, agricultural and industrial workers, etc. who give their spare time for betterment of the community. All citizens of India, in the age group of 18–50, are eligible. Normal tenure of membership in Home Guards is three to five years.

To protect and guard our nation, our armed forces are always kept ready. Youth should come forward to service and save the nation by joining the armed forces. Recruitment to the Defence services is open to all Indians. It is the duty of every citizen to have an opportunity to serve the country.

II. Foreign Policy of India

A foreign policy is a set of political goals that define how a sovereign country will interact with other countries in the world. It seeks to secure the best interest of the people, territory and economy of the country. Our country's external relation is based on certain principles and policies. India's foreign policy was evolved with the background of her colonial sufferings.

Basic Principles of Foreign Policy

- Preservation of national interest
- Achievement of world peace
- Disarmament
- Abolition of Colonialism, Racism and Imperialism
- Incresing the number of friendly nations
- Economic development

Panchsheel

Jawaharlal Nehru, the first Prime Minister of India was the chief architect of India's foreign policy. Nehru was a supporter of world peace. Hence he gave utmost importance to world peace in his policy planning. He declared the five principles of peace, known as Panchsheel.

These principles included

1. Mutual respect for each other's territorial integrity and sovereignty
2. Mutual non-aggression
3. Mutual non-interference in each other's internal affairs
4. Equality and mutual benefit
5. Peaceful co-existence.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 211 25-01-2025 11.23.21 AM

Non-Alignment

The word Non-Alignment was coined by V.K. Krishna Menon. Non-alignment has been regarded as the most important feature of India's foreign policy. Non-alignment aimed to maintain national independence in foreign affairs by not joining any military alliance formed by the USA or Soviet Union in the aftermath of the Second World War. Non-alignment was neither neutrality nor non-involvement nor isolationism. It was a dynamic concept which meant not committing to any military bloc but taking an independent stand on international issues.

The founding fathers of Non-Aligned Movement: Jawaharlal Nehru of India, Tito of Yugoslavia, Nasser of Egypt, Sukarno of Indonesia, and Kwame Nkumarah of Ghana.

Nelson Mandela – Leader of the African National Council of South Africa. A determined fighter against apartheid. Apartheid is the worst form of racial discrimination. It is against humanism and democracy. India fought against Apartheid and opposed all types of racial discrimination. The end of racialism in South Africa in 1990 was a great success for India's policy.

India's Relation with Neighbouring Countries

India's position is unique in its neighbourhood. India has always favoured international and regional cooperation, because she believes that through cooperation all disputes and problems among nations can be sorted out peacefully. India's foreign policy is based on the principle of developing friendly relations and cooperation with her neighbours.

India shares a common land border with Pakistan, Afghanistan, Nepal, China, Bhutan, Bangladesh and Burma. It also shares a common sea border with Sri Lanka.

India is a vast country with

- Pakistan and Afghanistan to the north-west
- China, Nepal, Bhutan to the north
- Bangladesh to the east
- Myanmar to the far east
- Sri Lanka (south-east) and
- Maldives (south-west)

Neighbourhood First policy

It is part of India's foreign policy that actively focuses on improving ties with India's immediate neighbours. India provides neighbours with support as needed in the form of resources, equipment and training. Greater connectivity and integration is provided so as to improve the free flow of goods, people, energy, capital and information.

Act East Policy

South East Asia begins with North East India. Myanmar is our land bridge to the countries of the Association of the Southeast Asian Nations (ASEAN). The purpose is to ensure a stable and multipolar balance of power in the Indo-Pacific and to become an integral part of Asia.

India is actively engaged in general economic diplomacy with its neighbouring countries as below.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 212 25-01-2025 11.23.21 AM

SAARC

India believes in regional co-operation. To foster the bonds of brotherhood, co-operation and peaceful co-existence SAARC (South Asian Association for Regional Cooperation) was established. India, Bangladesh, Pakistan, Nepal, Bhutan, Sri Lanka, Maldives and Afghanistan are the eight members of the SAARC.

BCIM

This Bangladesh – China – India - Myanmar Economic corridor envisages the formation of a thriving economic belt, focusing on cross- border transport, energy and telecommunication networks.

BIMSTEC

It refers Bay of Bengal Initiative for Multi-Sectoral Technical and Economic Cooperation. Its main objectives are to strengthen and improve the technological economic cooperation, international trade and foreign direct investment cooperation. The member countries are Bangladesh, India, Myanmar, Sri Lanka, Thailand, Bhutan and Nepal.

BBIN

Bangladesh – Bhutan - India – Nepal has signed a framework to enable movement of passengers, cargo vehicles and for energy development.

To summarise, India is a huge country with manifold cultures. It has high status in the South East Asia. India's foreign policy is to maintain peace, freedom and mutual co-operation among the nations. Though India is not in any major military alliance, our relations with the major powers have acquired a strategic depth.

Recap

- National security is very essential not only for peace but also for the economic development.
- Indian defence forces consist of the Army, Navy, Air force, various paramilitary organisations and various inter – service institutions.
- The president is the Supreme Commander of the Indian Armed Forces.
- India has maintained cordial relationship with all the countries.
- India gives highest priority to her neighbours. A peaceful periphery is essential for India to achieve her multifarious developmental goals.
- India has been implementing a policy of asymmetric engagement to strengthen bridges of friendship and create new opportunities for the growth and security.

GLOSSARY

National Security	Safety of nation	நாட்டின் பாதுகாப்பு
Defence forces	Force with arms for the safety of a country	நாட்டின் பாதுகாப்பிற்கான படைகள்
Neutrality	The state of not supporting or helping either side in a conflict	எப்பக்கமும் ஆதரவளிக்காமல் இருத்தல்
Racialism	A practice of discrimination on the basis of racial origin	இன அடிப்படையில் வேறுபாடு காணுதல்
Frontier	A border separating two countries	எல்லை

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 213 25-01-2025 11.23.22 AM

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. The Supreme Commander of the Armed forces is our
   a) President
   b) Prime Minister
   c) Governor
   d) Chief Minister

2. The primary mission of Indian Army is to ensure
   a) National Security
   b) National Unity
   c) Defending the nation from external aggression
   d) All the above
3. The Army day is
   a) 15th January
   b) 1st February
   c) 10th March
   d) 7th October
4. Assam Rifles is under the control of
   a) Ministry of Defence
   b) National Security Advisor
   c) PMO
   d) Ministry of Home Affairs
5. Indian Coast Guard was established in
   a) 1976 b) 1977
   c) 1978 d) 1979
6. India's foreign policy is based on several principles. One of which is
   a) Satyameva Jayate
   b) Panchasheel
   c) Both of these
   d) None of these
7. Which of the following islands belong to India?
   a) Andaman and Maldives
   b) Andaman and Lakshadweep Island
   c) Sri Lanka and Maldives
   d) Maldives and Lakshadweep Island

II Fill in the blanks

1. The Madras Regimental Army centre is at _____.
2. The Indian Navy Chief is _____.
3. _____ is first and only officer of Indian Air Force to be promoted to Five Star rank Marshal of Indian Air Force.
4. The chief architect of India's foreign policy was _____.
5. The Word Non – Alignment was coined by _____.

III Match the following

1.	Nelson Mandela	-	8 members
2.	National war Memorial	-	Field Marshal
3.	Manekshaw	-	Energy development
4.	SAARC	-	Apartheid
5.	BCIM	-	New Delhi

IV State true or false

1. Central Armed Police Force serve under the Ministry of Defence.
2. The Madras Regiment is one of the oldest infantry regiment.
3. The Rapid Action Force is a specialised wing of the CRPF.
4. NCC Cadets are given basic military training.
5. Bangladesh is a part of India.
6. Myanmar is land bridge to ASEAN nations.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 214 25-01-2025 11.23.22 AM

V Choose the correct statement

1. Consider the following statement related to Armed forces.

   i) The Indian Army is the land based branch of Armed forces.

   ii) The mission of Indian Army is not only ensure the national security but also conducts humanisation rescue operations.

   a) i only b) ii only

   c) Both i and ii d) Neither i nor ii

2. **Assertion (A):** The President is the Supreme Commander of the Armed forces of India.

   Reason (R): The President is the head of the State and occupies the highest position.

   a) A is correct and R explains A

   b) A is correct and R does not explain A

   c) A is correct and R is wrong

   d) Both A and R are wrong

3. **Assertion (A):** India has favoured international co-operation.

   Reason (R): She believes that all disputes among nations can be solved through friendly co-operation.

   a) A is correct and R is wrong

   b) Both A and R are wrong

   c) A is correct and R explains A

   d) A is correct and R does not explain A

4. Which of the following statements is not true about "Apartheid?"

   i) Apartheid is a policy of racial discrimination.

   ii) It is against humanism.

   iii) The policy of racialism is practiced in India.

   a) i and ii b) ii and iii

   c) ii only d) iii only

5. Find the odd one out

   a) Maldives b) Sri Lanka

   c) Myanmar d) Lakshadweep

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Why national security is very essential?
2. What does the following abbreviation stand for?

   a) SFF b) ICG

   c) BSF d) NCC
3. Write a short note on CRPF
4. Name the founding fathers of Non-Aligned Movement
5. Write the basic principles of India's Foreign Policy.
6. Name the member countries of the SAARC.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Describe the structure and administration of Indian Army.
2. Write about Paramilitary Defence Forces.
3. Write five principles of Panchasheel
4. India focuses on improving ties with its neighbours. How?

VIII HOTs

1. A career in defence forces promises one of the most prestigious and respected position in the country. State the importance.

IX Project and Activity

1. Prepare an album about our Defence System
2. Collect information about awards in the Indian Army (for Example: Param Vir Chakra)

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 215 25-01-2025 11.23.22 AM

3. Divide the whole class into eight groups, each representing one SAARC countries. Each group should Display the name of the country and its national flag. Hold group discussion or quizzes and the Following topics

   i) Land and people

   ii) Form of Government

   iii) Capital

   iv) Currency

   v) Points of agreement with India

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- www.madrasregiment.org
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ICT CORNER

Defence & Foreign Policy

Step – 1 Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.

Step – 2 Scroll down , Click on Army from "Important organisation"

Step – 3 Go to Explore army in main menu and select 'War Memorial'

Web URL: https://mod.gov.in/

*Pictures are indicatives only.

*If browser requires, allow Flash Player or Java Script to load the page.

UNIT 6_Civics.indd 216 25-01-2025 11.23.22 AM

Unit - 7

The Judiciary

Learning Objectives

- To trace the evolution of the Judicial system.
- To understand the hierarchical structure of the Indian judiciary.
- To explain the Jurisdiction of Supreme court, High Court and Subordinate Courts.
- To understand the need for the independent Judiciary.
- To know the differences between Civil Law and Criminal Law.

"The excellence of the judiciary is a measure of the excellence of the government."

Introduction

The judicial system of a country needs to be efficient to ensure proper justice for all. India has a single, unified and integrated judicial system. Judiciary plays an important role as an organ of the government. It administers justice, settles disputes, interprets laws, protects fundamental rights and acts as the guardian of the Constitution.

Law: It is a system of rules imposed through a government or institution to govern people.

Judiciary: In law, the Judiciary or Judicial system is the system of courts which administers Justice in the name of the State.

Evolution of Indian Judiciary

a. Judiciary during ancient period

During ancient times, the concept of justice was linked with religion. The king was regarded as the fountainhead of Justice. Most of the Kings' courts dispensed justice according to 'dharma', (righteousness and duty) a set of conventional laws, Dharmic laws governed not only the individual but also the society.

Smiritis
In ancient India Smiritis included Manusmiriti, Naradasmiriti, Yajnavalkya smiriti etc.

The republics of Ganas had their own system of law. We find the existence of Kulika court. Amongst the Vajjis, there was a board of eight Kulikas for the investigation of Criminal cases. Appeal proceeded from Kula courts to Gana Courts.

b. Judiciary during Medieval period

The Tughlaq period saw the compilation of the code of civil procedure. It was called Fiqha-e-Feroze Shahi. The code prescribed details of the procedure and the law in several matters. It was written in Arabic and was

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 217 25-01-2025 11.26.54 AM

translated into Persian. This code was followed till the reign of Aurangazeb when it was replaced by Fatawa-i-Alamgiri written in 1670.

c. Judiciary during Modern period

The Indian judicial system and laws we have today were formed by the British during the colonial rule in the country. The beginning of Indian codified common law can be traced back to 1727 (Under the Charter of 1726) when the Mayor's court in Madras, Bombay and Calcutta were established by the East India Company. The Regulating Act of 1773 made provision for the formation of Supreme Court. A Supreme Court was established for the first time at Fort Williams in Calcutta. Sir Elijah Imphey was appointed as chief justice of that court. In 1801 and 1824 Supreme Courts were established in Madras and Bombay. These Supreme Courts functioned until 1862 when they were replaced by the High Courts in all the three places.

Warren Hasting, established Mofussil Diwani Adalat to resolve civil disputes and Mofussil Fauzdari Adalat to resolve criminal disputes. The appeals from these courts could be taken to Sadar Diwani Adalat (civil court of appeal) and Sadar Nizamat Adalat (criminal court of appeal). Lord Cornwallis reorganised the civil and criminal judicial system. Under Cornwallis, the District Fauzdari court was abolished and Circuit Court was setup at Calcutta, Dacca, Murshidabad and Patna. During the period of William Bentinck four Circuit courts were abolished.

The Calcutta High Court is the oldest High court in the country, established in 1862, whereas the Allahabad High Court is the largest Court.

Sadar Diwani Adalat and Sadar Nizamat Adalat were established at Allahabad. A law commission was setup by Macaulay, which codified the Indian Laws. On the basis of this Commission, A Civil Procedure Code of 1859, An Indian Penal Code of 1860, and a Criminal Procedure Code 1861 were prepared. The Government of India Act 1935 created Federal Court. It was not the highest court as appeals could lie in certain situation to the Privy Council in England. The Jurisdiction of Privy council was abolished by the Abolition of the Privy Council Jurisdiction Act, 1949. The Supreme Court of India was inaugurated on 28 January 1950.

Judiciary and constitution

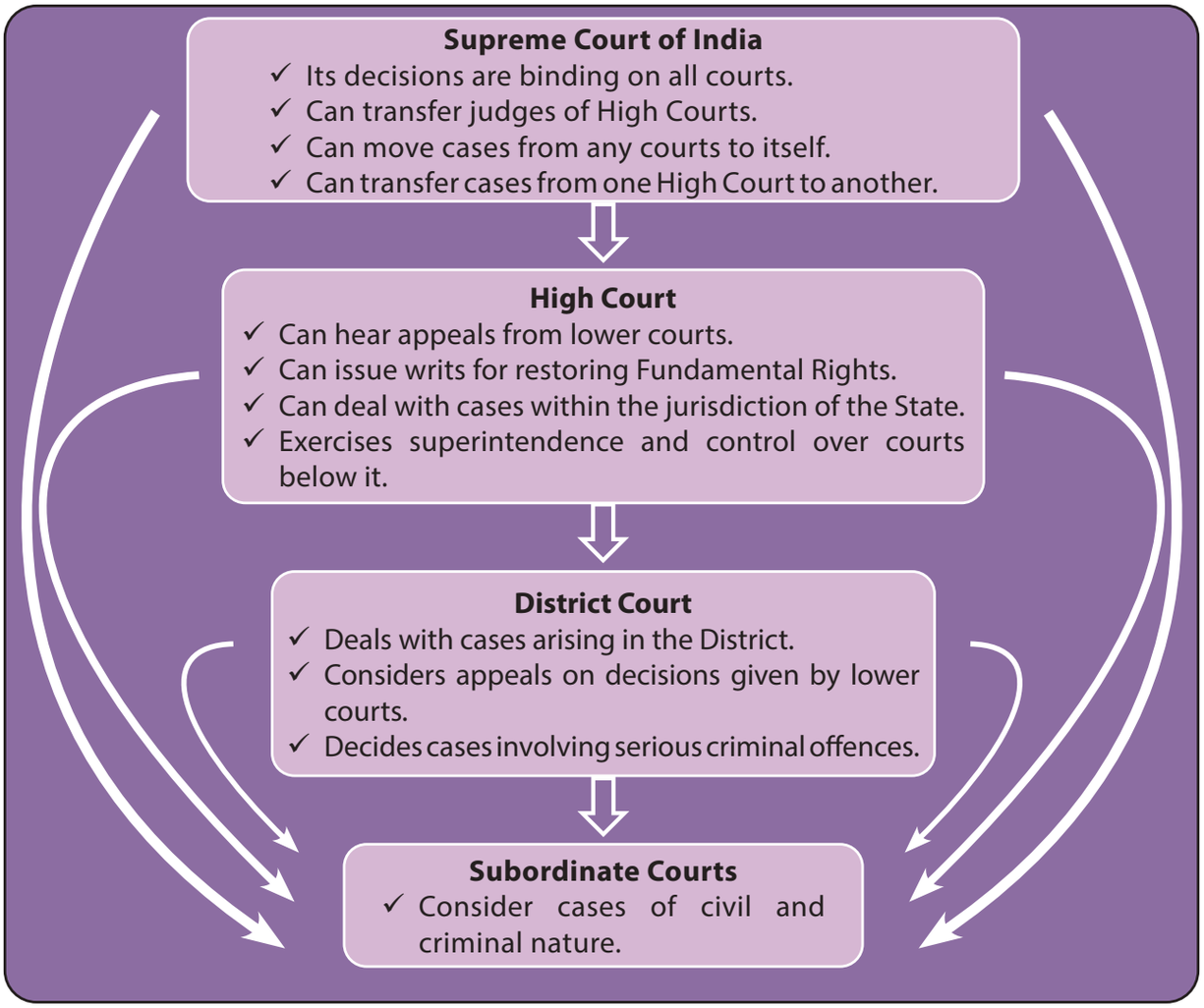
India framed its own Constitution. Among the noble aims and objectives of the Constitution, the founding fathers accorded the highest place to 'Justice'. During British period, Indian had neither law nor courts of their own and both the law and courts had been designed for the Colonial Power. The Constituent Assembly members therefore tried to ensure the independence of the Courts with full power of Judicial review. Supreme Court Rules, 1966 are framed under Article 145 of the Constitution to regulate the practice and procedure of the Supreme Court. The Supreme Court of India is the highest court of the land as established by Part V ('The Union') under Chapter IV titled 'The Union Judiciary' and Part VI ('The State') under Chapter VI titled 'Subordinate Courts' of the Constitution of India. Articles 124 to 147 of the Constitution of India lay down the composition and jurisdiction of the Supreme Court of India.

The first political philosopher, who propounded the idea of an independent judiciary, was Montesquieu, the famous French philosopher. He believed in the theory of separation of powers among the three branches of the Government - Legislature, Executive and Judiciary.

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 218 25-01-2025 11.26.55 AM

Structure of courts in India

There are three different levels of courts in our country.



District Courts: The Courts that hear civil cases at the district level are called District Courts

Sessions Court: The Courts that hear criminal cases are called the Sessions Court.

The Panchayat Courts: The Panchayat Courts deal with Civil and Criminal cases at the village level.

The Revenue courts: The Revenue courts deal with the cases of land records. It also assesses and collects land revenue from the land holders.

Lok Adalat: Lok Adalat was set up to provide speedy justice. It hears and settles the disputes in the language of the people in the public presence. A Lok Adalat is presided over by a retired judge along with a lawyer and a social worker. Cases are presented without advocates. These cases are solved through mutual consent. The first Lok Adalat was held on 1982 at Junagadh of Gujarat.

Fast Track courts: These courts were established in the year 2000 with an aim to clear the long pending Sessions and other lower judicial cases.

Tele Law Initiative: To provide legal aid and service to the people in rural areas, the Tele Law Initiative was launched by the Ministry of Law and Justice in collaboration with the Ministry of Electronics and Information Technology. People can seek legal advice from the lawyers through video conferencing available at the common service centre on the 'Tele Law' Portal – a technology enabled platform.

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 219 25-01-2025 11.26.55 AM

Family Courts: Family courts specifically handle family law matters. They are civil courts and are utilised for various family related claims such as Child custody, Divorce, Adoption, Juvenile issues etc.,

Mobile courts: Mobile courts will be of great relief to the rural people. It would create greater awareness about the judicial system among the rural masses, cut costs for them and render justice as their doorstep.

E–Courts: The E–Courts project was established in 2005. According to the project all the courts will get computerised. Judicial service centre is the part of e-court. The public as well as the advocates can ask directly the case status and next hearing dates with free of cost.

NALSA – The National Legal Service Authority has been constituted under the Legal Services Authorities Act, 1987 to provide free Legal Services to the weaker sections of the society and to organise Lok Adalats for amicable settlement of disputes.

Role of the Judiciary

Role of Judiciary can be classified as,

Supreme Court of India

Supreme Court of India, New Delhi

This is the highest court of India and is located in New Delhi. According to the Constitution of India, the Supreme Court is the guardian of the Constitution and the highest Court of appeal.

IKRNG

Jurisdiction of Supreme Court

a. **Original Jurisdiction:** The Supreme Court can hear dispute for the first time in that court only. It is mainly concerned disputes between the Union and one or more states and between two or more states.

Dispute Resolution	The Judicial system provides a mechanism for resolving disputes between • Citizen • Citizens and the government • Two State governments • The centre and the State governments
Judicial Review	The Judicial has the power to declare a law unconstitutional if it believes that the law passed by the Parliament is violating the basic structure of the Constitution.
Upholding the Law and Enforcing Fundamental Rights	Every citizen of India can approach the Supreme Court or High Court if they believe that their fundamental rights have been violated.

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 220 25-01-2025 11.26.55 AM

b. **Appellate Jurisdiction:** It can hear appeals against the decisions made by the High Court on the granting of certificate by the High Court.

c. **Advisory Jurisdiction:** The Court can report to the President its opinion about a question of the public importance referred to it by the President.

d. **Writs Jurisdiction:** The Writs are issued by the Supreme Court under Article 32 and by the High Courts under Article 226 of the Constitution of India.

e. **Court of Record:** It maintains records of the court proceedings and its decisions are finding upon the lower courts.

f. **Special Powers:** It supervises the functioning of the lower courts.

High Court

High Court of Madras

This is the highest court in the states. Every state in India has a High Court. Two or three states may have a common High Court. For example Punjab, Haryana and Chandigarh is having one High Court. It has original, Appellate and Writs Jurisdiction. Below the High Court there are a Subordinate courts in the States.

Independent and impartial function of Judiciary

The framers of the Constitution established independent and impartial judiciary in India. Independence of judiciary is important for the purpose of fair justice. Democratic country like India, judiciary is the custodian of rights of citizens. Therefore, the framers of the Indian Constitution at the time of framing of our constitution were concerned about the kind of judiciary our country should have. This concern of the members of the constituent assembly was responded by Dr. *B.R. Ambedkar* in the following words:

"There can be no difference of opinion in the House that our judiciary must be both independent of the executive and must also be competent in it. And the question is how these two objects can be secured."

An effective judiciary should be independent as well as accountable. The independence of the judiciary is the independence of the exercise of the functions by the judges in an unbiased manner i.e. free from any external influence.

The Litigation Process

There are two different types of legal sections in India: Civil and Criminal

Civil Law	Criminal Law
• It deals with disputes over money property and social matters. Eg. Disputes relating to land, rent, marriage dispute etc. • A petition has to be filed before the relevant court by the affected parties. • Sentences awarded in the form of money remuneration and as per the petitioner's claim.	• It deals with conducts or acts that the law defines as offences. Eg. Theft, murder, women harassment etc. • It usually begins with lodging of an FIR (First Information Report) with police investigation after which a case is filed in the court. • Punishment is awarded if proven guilty, the accused is sent to jail.

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 221 25-01-2025 11.26.55 AM

Public Interest Litigation (PIL): PIL is a litigation filed in a court of law for the protection of "public interest". The Supreme court introduced this system which allows a person to approach the court with his case. PIL can be filed for the following reasons such as violation of basic human rights, religious rights, pollution, and road safety. This could be done by a written letter stating the case. This concept is unique to the Indian Judiciary.

Conclusion

Judiciary plays a crucial role in a democratic state. Judiciary is the custodian of the Constitution and the guardian of fundamental rights. India, the largest representative democracy in the world possesses a well-structured and independent judicial system.

Recap

- Sadar Diwani Adalat and Sadar Nizamat Adalat were established at Allahabad.
- Lok Adalat was set up to provide speedy justice.
- The E–Courts project was established in 2005.
- According to the Constitution of India, the Supreme Court is the guardian of the Constitution

Glossary

Litigation	The process of taking legal action	வழக்கு
Writ	A form of written command in the name of legal authority	நீதிப்பேராணை
Lok Adalat	People's court	மக்கள் நீதிமன்றம்
Judicial review	Receiving the laws by the court	நீதிபுனராய்வு

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1 The highest and final judicial tribunal of India is
   a) President
   b) Parliament
   c) Supreme Court
   d) Prime Minister

2 Judicial system provides a mechanism for resolving disputes between
   a) Citizen
   b) Citizen and the government
   c) Two State governments
   d) All the above

3. Dispute between States of India comes to the Supreme Court under
   a) Original jurisdiction
   b) Appellate jurisdiction
   c) Advisory jurisdiction
   d) None of these

4. Which of the following state/ Union territories have a common High Court?
   a) Punjab and Jammu Kashmir
   b) Assam and Bengal
   c) Punjab, Haryana and Chandigarh
   d) Uttar Pradesh and Bihar

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 222 25-01-2025 11.26.56 AM

5. The System of Public Interest Litigation has been introduced in India by

   a) Supreme Court

   b) Parliament

   c) Political parties

   d) Constitutional amendments

6. How many courts are there in apex level in India?

   a) One b) Two

   c) Three d) Four

7. Supreme court is located at

   a) Chandigarh b) Bombay

   c) Calcutta d) New Delhi

8. F I R means

   a) First Information Report

   b) First information Result

   c) First Incident Report

   d) None of these

9. The court that hear criminal cases are called

   a) District court b) Sessions court

   c) Family court d) Revenue court

II Fill in the blanks

1. The _____ High Court is the oldest High Court in India.
2. The framers of the Constitution established _____ and _____ judiciary in India.
3. _____, a famous French philosopher propounded the idea of an independent judiciary.
4. _____ deals with disputes over money, property and social matters.
5. During ancient times, most of the Kings' courts dispensed justice according to _____.

III Match the following

1.	Supreme Court	-	Social duties
2.	High Court	-	Speedy justice
3.	Lok Adalat	-	Highest court of appeal
4.	Sir Elijah Impey	-	Highest court in the States
5.	Smiritis	-	Chief justice

IV State true or false

1. The Supreme Court of India was inaugurated on 28th January 1951.
2. During the Tughlaq period, the code of procedure was written in Arabic.
3. The Regulating Act of 1773 made provision for the formation of Supreme Court.
4. Sadar Diwani Adalat was a Criminal court of appeal.
5. The Allahabad High Court is the largest court in India.
6. The Constitution of India secures justice to all its citizen.

V Choose the correct statement

1. Consider the following statements.

   i) A law commission was setup by Macaulay.

   ii) It codified the Indian Laws.

   Which of the statements given above is / are correct?

   a) i only b) ii only

   c) Both i and ii d) Neither i nor ii

2. Consider the following statements.

   i) An Indian Penal Code was prepared in 1860.

   ii) The Calcutta High Court was established in 1862.

UNIT 7_Civics.indd 223 25-01-2025 11.26.56 AM

iii) The Government of India Act, 1935 created Federal Court.

Which of the statements given above is/ are correct?

a) i only b) ii, iii only

c) i,iii only d) All the above

3. Which of the following statement is not true about India's Supreme Court?

i) The Supreme Court of India is the highest court of the land.

ii) It was established by part V under Chapter IV of Indian Constitution.

iii) Supreme court cannot transfer cases from one High court to another

iv) Its decisions are binding on all courts

a) i b) ii c) iii d) iv

4. **Assertion (A):** The Supreme Court is a Court of Record.

Reason (R): It maintains records of the court proceedings and its decisions are finding upon the lower courts.

a) A is correct and R is wrong.

b) Both A and R are Wrong

c) A is correct and R explains A

d) A is correct and R does not explain A

5. Agree or disagree

a) Every citizen of India can approach the Supreme court.

b) Rich and powerful people control the judiciary system.

c) Every citizen has a right to get justice through the courts.

d) Politicians cannot control over judges.

VI Answer the following in one or two sentences

1. Why do we need judicial system?
2. What are the different levels of courts in India?
3. Differentiate Law and Judiciary.
4. Write a note on Lok Adalat.
5. What are the advantages of mobile courts?

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Write about the role of judiciary.
2. Differentiate Civil Law and Criminal Law.
3. Describe Jurisdiction of Supreme Court.

VIII Project and Activity

1. Discuss: Is it necessary to have an independent judiciary? List two reasons.
2. Organize your classroom for a mockup courtroom session. (Take a case with the help of the teacher)

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UNIT 7_Civics.indd 224 25-01-2025 11.26.56 AM

ECONOMICS

Unit - 1

Money, Savings and Investments

"Learning gives creativity, creativity leads to thinking, thinking provides knowledge, knowledge makes you great".

–A.P.J. Abdul Kalam

Learning Objectives

- To know about the Evolution of Money.
- To know about the value, nature, function, and importance of money.
- To understand about Savings and Investments.
- To know about the black money.

A4H53

Introduction

Money is a fascinating subject and full of curiosities. It is important to capture this element for the students. The history of money and how various forms were used at different times is an interesting story. Modern forms of money are linked to the banking system.

Money is a fundamental discovery, which has eased the day-to-day transactions, valuing goods and services and has allowed us to store the wealth and trade in future. "Money is anything which is widely accepted in payment for goods or in discharge of other business obligations" Robertson.

Evolution of Money

The word Money is derived from Roman word "Moneta Juno". It is the Roman goddesses and the republic money of Roman empire. The Indian rupee is derived from Sanskrit word 'Rupya' which means silver coin. Today we use paper notes, coins as money. But the evolution of this stage has not happened overnight. It took thousands of years to reach such a stage. There are many stages of evolution of money. The earliest and primitive stage is Barter system.

Barter system

Barter system is exchanging goods for goods without the use of money in the primitive stage. A barter system is an old method of exchange. This system has been used for centuries and long before money was invented. People exchanged services and

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 226 25-01-2025 12.00.40 PM

goods for other services and goods in return. The value of bartering items can be negotiated with the other party. Bartering doesn't involve money which is one of the advantages.

Hence Barter system had many deficiencies like :

1. Lack of double coincidence of wants,
2. Common measure of value
3. Indivisibility of commodities
4. Difficulties of storing wealth

Major stages of Evolution of Money

Commodity Money, Metallic Money, Paper Money, Credit Money or Bank Money, Near Money and recent forms of Money. Money has evolved through different stages according to the time, place and circumstances.

Commodity Money

In the earliest period of human civilization, any commodity that was generally demanded and chosen by common consent was used as money. Goods like furs, skins, salt, rice, wheat, utensils, weapons etc., were commonly used as money. Such exchange of goods for goods was known as 'Barter Exchange'.

Metallic Money

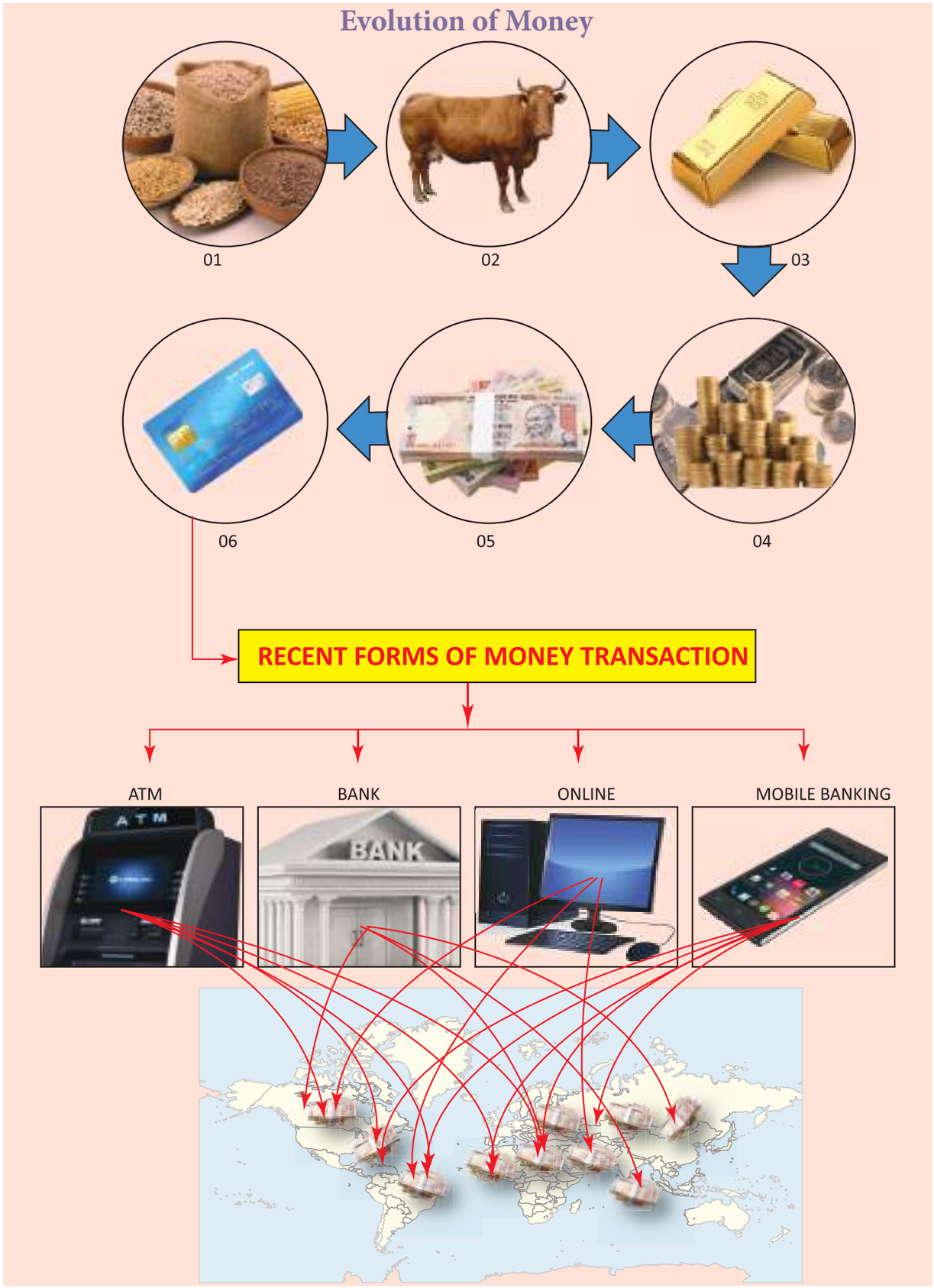
With progress of human civilization, commodity money changed into metallic money. Metals like gold, silver, copper, etc., were used as they could be easily handled and their quantity can be easily ascertained. It was the main form of money throughout the major portion of recorded history.

During the ancient time.....
BARTER SYSTEM:

Goods and Services are traded in exchange for other good.

Barter system

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 227 25-01-2025 12.00.40 PM



Evolution of Money

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 228 25-01-2025 12.00.53 PM

History of Metallic Money

The precious metals especially gold, silver, bronze were used for metallic money. The standard weight and fineness of metal particularly gold and silver with a seal on it became medium of exchange. They were of different denomination easily divisible, portable and were convenient in making payment.

King Midas of Lydia innovated metal coin in the 8th century BC (BCE) by the ancient historian Herodotus. But gold coins were in use in India many centuries than in Lydia.

The earliest issuers of coins in the world are the ancient Indians along with Chinese and lydians from the middle east. The first time Indian coins were minted in the 6th century BC (BCE) by the Mahajanpadas known as Puranas, Karshapanas or Panas.

The Mauryas came up with the Punch Marked Coins minting of silver, gold copper or lead and Indo-Greek Kushan kings introduced the Greek custom of engraving portraits on the coins. Turkish sultans of Delhi has replaced the royal designs of Indian kings with Islamic Calligraphy by the 12th century AD (CE). The currency was made up of gold, silver and copper known as Tanka and lower valued coin known as Jittals.

The Mughal Empire from 1526 AD (CE) consolidate the monetary system for the entire empire. In this era evolution of rupee occurred with Sher Shah Suri defeated Humayun and issued a silver coin of 178 gms known as Rupiya and was divided into 40 copper pieces or paisa and during the whole Mughal period silver coin remained in use. During the British East India company i.e. 1600, the Mughal currency remained popular but in 1717 AD (CE), Farrukhsiyar the Mughal Emperor gave permission to the Britishers to coin Mughal Money at the Bombay mint. The British gold coins were termed as Carolina, the silver coins as Angelina, the copper coins as cupperoon and the tin coins as tinny.

Metallic Money

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 229 25-01-2025 12.00.54 PM

Paper Money

It was found inconvenient, as well as dangerous to carry gold and silver coins from place to place. So, invention of paper money marked a very important stage in the development of money. The development of paper money started on the basis of storage of gold and the receipts were issued by the goldsmiths for these storages. This receipts of goldsmiths were a substitute for money and became paper money. Paper money is regulated and controlled by Central Bank of the country. In India, printing, regulating, controlling the paper currencies are done by the Reserve Bank of India (RBI) which was established in 1935. At present, a very large part of money consists mainly of currency notes or paper money issued by the Reserve Bank of India.

ACTIVITY: 1

Fill in the following Table:

Sl. No.	Name in the Country	Name in Currency
1	India	
2	Germany	
3	Japan	
4	Singapore	
5	Malaysia	
6	Saudi Arabia	
7	USA	
8	UK	
9	Sri Lanka	
10	Pakistan	

Reserve Bank of India

Credit Money or Bank Money

Emergence of credit money took place almost side by side with that of paper money. People keep a part of their cash as deposits with banks, which they can withdraw at their convenience through cheques. The cheque (known as credit money or bank money), itself, is not money, but it performs the same as functions of money.

Near Money

The final stage in the evolution of money has been the use of bills of exchange, treasury bills, bonds, debentures, savings certificate etc.

Recent forms of Money

Plastic Money

The latest type of money is plastic money in the form of credit cards and debit cards. They aim for cashless transactions.

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 230 25-01-2025 12.00.55 PM

E-Money

Electronic Money is money which exists in banking computer systems and is available for transactions through electronic system.

Online Banking (Net Banking)

Online Banking, also known as internet banking is an electronic payment system that enables customers of a bank or other financial institutions to conduct a range of financial transactions through website.

E-Banking

Electronic banking, also known as National Electronic Funds Transfer (NEFT), is simply the use of electronic means to transfer funds directly from one account to another rather than by cheque or cash.

ACTIVITY: 2

- Prepare the duplicate model of different stages of Money, like Commodity money, Metal money, Plastic Money, etc. (including Barter System)
- Give the models to the each group students.
- Teacher and students discuss about the different stages of money.

Value of Money

Value of money is meant the purchasing power of money over goods and services in a country. Thus it is related to the price level of goods and services. But the relation between the value of money and price level is an inverse one.

Symbol of Rupee

The Indian Rupee symbol designed by Mr. Udayakumar, Villupuram Dist (presently Kallakurichi) Tamil Nadu. It was approved by the Government of India on 15 July 2010.

The value of money is of two types

1. Internal value of money
2. External value of money

The Internal value of money refers to the purchasing power of money over domestic goods and services. The External value of money refers to the purchasing power of money over foreign goods and services.

ACTIVITY: 3

- Students to know about the value of money.
- Set up your classroom like a shop or market.
- Students are asked to purchase some commodities from the shop.
- Do the market activities.
- Teacher and students together discuss the value of money.

Nature of Money

There has been a lot of controversy and confusion over the meaning and nature of money, Scitovsky states that "Money is a difficult concept to define, partly because it fulfils not one but three functions, each of them providing a criterion of moneyness, those of a unit of account, a medium of exchange, and a store of value". Sir John Hicks, says that "Money is defined by its functions, anything is money which is used as money, "Money is what money does".

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 231 25-01-2025 12.00.55 PM

These are the functional definitions of money because they define money in terms of the functions it performs. Some economists define money in legal terms saying that "anything which state declares as money is money". Such money possesses general acceptability and has the legal power to discharge debts. But people may not accept legal money by refusing to sell goods and services against the payments of legal tender money. On the other hand, they may accept some other things as money which are not legally defined as money in discharge of debts. This may circulate freely.

Functions of Money

Functions of money are classified into Primary or Main functions, Secondary functions and Contingent functions.

Primary or main functions

The important functions of money performed in every economy are classified under main functions:-

i) Medium of exchange or means of payment

Money is used to buy the goods and services.

ii) Measure of value

The values of all the goods and services are expressed in terms of money. It is easier to determine the rate of exchange between various type of goods and services.

Secondary functions

The three important secondary functions are :

i) Standard of deferred payment

Money helps the future payments too. A borrower borrowing money today places himself under an obligation to pay a specified sum of money on some specified future date.

ii) Store of value or store of purchasing power

Savings were discouraged under barter system as some commodities are perishable. The introduction of money has helped to save it for future as it is not perishable.

iii) Transfer of value or transfer of purchasing power

Money makes the exchange of goods to distant places as well as abroad possible. It was therefore felt necessary to transfer purchasing power from one place to another.

Contingent functions

1. Basis of credit
2. Increase productivity of capital
3. Measurement and Distribution of National Income

Hots

If there is no invention of money - imagine.

Inflation and Deflation

Inflation refers to the prices are rising, the value of money will fall.

Deflation refers to the prices are falling, the value of money will rise.

Savings in Banks and Investments

Savings

Savings are defined as the part of consumer's disposable income which is not used for current consumption, rather kept aside for future use. There are several ways through which a person can save money. The banking facilitates saving money through various forms of accounts.

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UNIT 1_Economics.indd 232 25-01-2025 12.00.55 PM

SAVINGS

1. Student Savings Account

Some banks offer saving accounts specifically for young people enrolled in high schools or colleges. The main features of these account is to maintain zero Balance.

2. Savings Deposits

Savings deposits are opened by customers to save the part of their current income. The customers can withdraw their money from their accounts when they require it. The bank also gives a small amount of interest to the money in the saving deposits.

3. Current Account Deposit

Current accounts are generally opened by business firms, traders and public authorities. The current accounts help in frequent banking transactions as they are repayable on demand.

4. Fixed Deposits

Fixed deposits accounts are meant for investors who want their principle to be safe and yield them fixed yields. The fixed deposits are also called as Term deposit as, normally, they are fixed for specified period.

Benefits of Savings

- You will be financially independent sooner.
- You would not have to worry any unforeseen expenses.
- In future, you will have financial backup in place if you lose your job.
- You will be prepared if your circumstances change.
- You will be more comfortable in retirement.
- Save today for better tomorrow.

Intensity to save among the students

- Teach them about taxes and accounting.
- Involve them in grown-up money decisions.
- Encourage them to apply for scholarship.
- Help them budget and apply for student loans.
- Teach them personal savings.

Investments

The process of investing something is known as an investment. It could be anything, i.e. money, time efforts or other resources that you exchange to earn returns in future.

Investment can be made in different investment vehicles like,

1. Stock
2. Bonds
3. Mutual funds
4. Insurance
5. Annuities
6. Deposit account or any other securities or assets.

An investment always comes with risks of losing money, but it is also true that you can reap more money with the same investment vehicle. It has a productive nature that helps in the economic growth of the country.

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 233 25-01-2025 12.00.55 PM

Comparison of Savings and Investments		
Basis for comparison	**Savings**	**Investments**
Meaning	Savings represent that part of the person's income which is not used for consumption	Investment refers to the process of investing funds in capital asset, with a view to generate returns
Purpose	Savings are made to fulfill short term or urgent requirements	Investment is made to provide returns and help in capital formation
Risk	Low or negligible	Very high
Returns	No or Less	Comparatively high
Liquidity	Highly liquid	Less liquid

Black Money

Black Money

Black Money is a form of unaccountable Money. Black Money is mostly created by business people. They do not show actual income earned in their economic activities. They show only a part of income earned for the purpose of Tax evasion.

The black money is accumulated by the criminals, smugglers, hoarders, tax-evaders and other anti-social elements of the society. In India, black money is funds earned in the black market, on which income and other taxes have not been paid. The total amount of black money deposited in foreign banks by Indians is unknown. The root cause for the increasing rate of black money in the country is the lack of strict punishments for the offenders.

Effects of Black Money on economy

1. Dual economy (Dual economy in terms of developed sector on one side under developed sector on the other side.)
2. Tax evasion, thereby loss of revenue to government.
3. Undermining equity.
4. Widening gap between the rich and poor.
5. Lavish consumption spending.
6. Distortion of production pattern
7. Distribution of scarce resource
8. Effects on production.

Demonetization

On 8th November 2016, the Government of India announced demonetization of all ₹500 and ₹1000 bank notes against Black Money.

Recent steps against Black Money

1 Under pressure from India and other countries, Switzerland has made key changes in its local laws governing assist foreign allegedly stashed in Swiss Banks.

2 Special Investigation Team appointed by government on the directions of Supreme Court on black money.

3 Demonetization

Some Legislative Framework in India against to Black Money

1 Prevention of money laundering act 2002

2 Lokpal and Lokayukta act

3. Prevention of corruption act- 1988
4. The undisclosed foreign Income and Asset Bill (Imposition of Tax) 2015
5. Benami transactions prohibition act 1988 amended in 2016
6. The Real Estate (Regulation and Development) Act, 2016

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 234 25-01-2025 12.00.55 PM

Recap

- The word Money is derived from Roman word "Moneta Juno".
- Barter System - Men exchanged goods for goods without the use of Money.
- Some of the major stages through which money has evolved are Commodity Money, Metallic Money, Paper Money, Credit Money, Near Money and recent forms of Money.
- Value of money is meant the purchasing power of money over goods and services in a country.
- Money is defined by its functions: anything is money which is used as money: "Money is what money does".
- Savings are defined as the part of consumer's disposable income which is not used for current consumption, rather kept aside for future use.
- Black Money is money earned through any illegal activity controlled by country regulations.

GLOSSARY		
Coincidence	Accident	தற்செயல்
Demonitization	To officially stop using particular	பண மதிப்பு குறைப்பு
Dual economy	An economic system that consists of two very different parts	இணை பொருளாதாரம்
Purchasing power	The value of money considered as the amount of goods it will buy	வாங்கும் சக்தி
Unanimity	The state of being unanimous	ஒரு மனதாக முடிவெடுத்தல்
Tax evasion	Ways of illegally paying less tax	வரி ஏய்ப்பு
Deterioration	The process of becoming progressively worse	மோசம் அடைதல்

Evaluation

I Choose the correct answer

1. Which metals were used for metallic money?
   a) Gold
   b) Silver
   c) Bronze
   d) All the above
2. Who designed the symbol (₹) of Indian rupee?
   a) Udayakumar b) Amartya Sen
   c) Abijith Banerjee d) None of these
3. The value of money is
   a) Internal value of money
   b) External value of money
   c) Both a & b
   d) None of these
4. Which is the Bank Money?
   a) Cheque
   b) Draft
   c) Credit and Debit cards
   d) All the above
5. Pick out the incorrect one: Investment can be made in different vehicle.
   a) Stock b) Bonds
   c) Mutual fund d) Pay tax

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 235 25-01-2025 12.00.56 PM

6. Among the following who are responsible for Black Money?
   a) Tax evaders
   b) Hoaders
   c) Smugglers
   d) All of the above

II Fill in the blanks

1. Online Banking is also known as _____.
2. _____ is what money does.
3. Electronic banking is also known as _____.
4. Credit cards and Debit cards are _____ Money.
5. In the _____ year Reserve Bank of India was established.

III Match the following

1.	Barter system	Tax evaders
2.	Reserve Bank Act	Electronic Money
3.	E- Money	Consumer's disposable income
4.	Savings	Exchanged goods for goods
5.	Black money	1935

IV Write the one word answer

1. The word Money is derived from?
2. Who Prints and issues paper currencies in India?

V Choose the correct statement

1. Barter system had many deficiency like
   I. Lack of double coincidence of wants
   II. No difficulties of storing wealth
   III. Common measure of value
   IV. Indivisibility of commodities
   a) I and II is correct
   b) I and IV is correct
   c) I, III and IV is correct
   d) All are correct

VI Find out the odd one

1. Recent forms of money transactions are
   a) Credit card b) Barter system
   c) Debit card d) Online banking
2. Effects of black money on economy is
   a) Dual economy
   b) Undermining equity
   c) No effects on production
   d) lavish consumption spending

VII Write short answer

1. What is the Barter System?
2. What are the recent forms of money?
3. Short note on E-Banking and E-Money.
4. What is the Value of Money?
5. What is Savings and Investment?
6. What is meant by Black Money?
7. What are the effects of black money on economy?

VIII Write Brief answer

1. What are the disadvantages of barter system?
2. Write about the evolution of Money.
3. What are the functions of Money? and explain it.
4. Explain the types of bank Deposits.

IX Project and Activity

1. Students are asked to prepare a chart containing dummy images of new and old currencies in India and also from other countries.
2. Go to your nearest Post Office and know about the savings scheme in India and teachers and students are discuss about the savings schemes.

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 236 25-01-2025 12.00.56 PM

3. X Life skills

1. Students to know about the value of money, Set up your classroom like a shop or market.
2. Students are asked to purchase some commodities from the shop,Do the market activities.
3. Teacher and students together discuss the value of money.

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1. *Jhingan - Monetary Economics*
2. *JagdishHanda – Monetary economics*
3. *Wynne A. H. Godley – Monetary economics*
4. *Mervyn K. Lewis – Monetary Economics*

INTERNET RESOURCES

- *www.investopedia.com*
- *www.vikaspedia.com*
- *www.coinsindia.com*

ICT CORNER

Money, Savings and Investments

Steps

- Open the Browser and type the URL given below (or) Scan the QR Code.
- Go to Currency converter
- Go to drop down menu, select any country name (e.g., India-America)

Website URL:

https://fx-rate.net/

UNIT 1_Economics.indd 237 25-01-2025 12.00.56 PM

Unit - 2

Public and Private Sectors

Learning Objectives

- To know the history of public sector.
- To know the various indicators of Socio-Economic Development.
- To understand the importance of public sector.
- Appreciate the difference between public and private sectors.
- Understand the functions of private sectors.

TI9CV

Introduction

India was basically an agrarian economy with a weak industrial base at the time of Independence. There were high level of poverty, illiteracy and unemployment in the country. India experienced very poor economic and social over heads. It is principally for these reasons that the state had to play an extensive role in developing the country. Hence India conceived to have the Indian economy on socialist lines. The economic growth may be sustained at a maximum rate, if private sector and public sector join hands. India followed mixed economic system that it is operated both by private enterprises and public enterprises.

Public and Private Sector

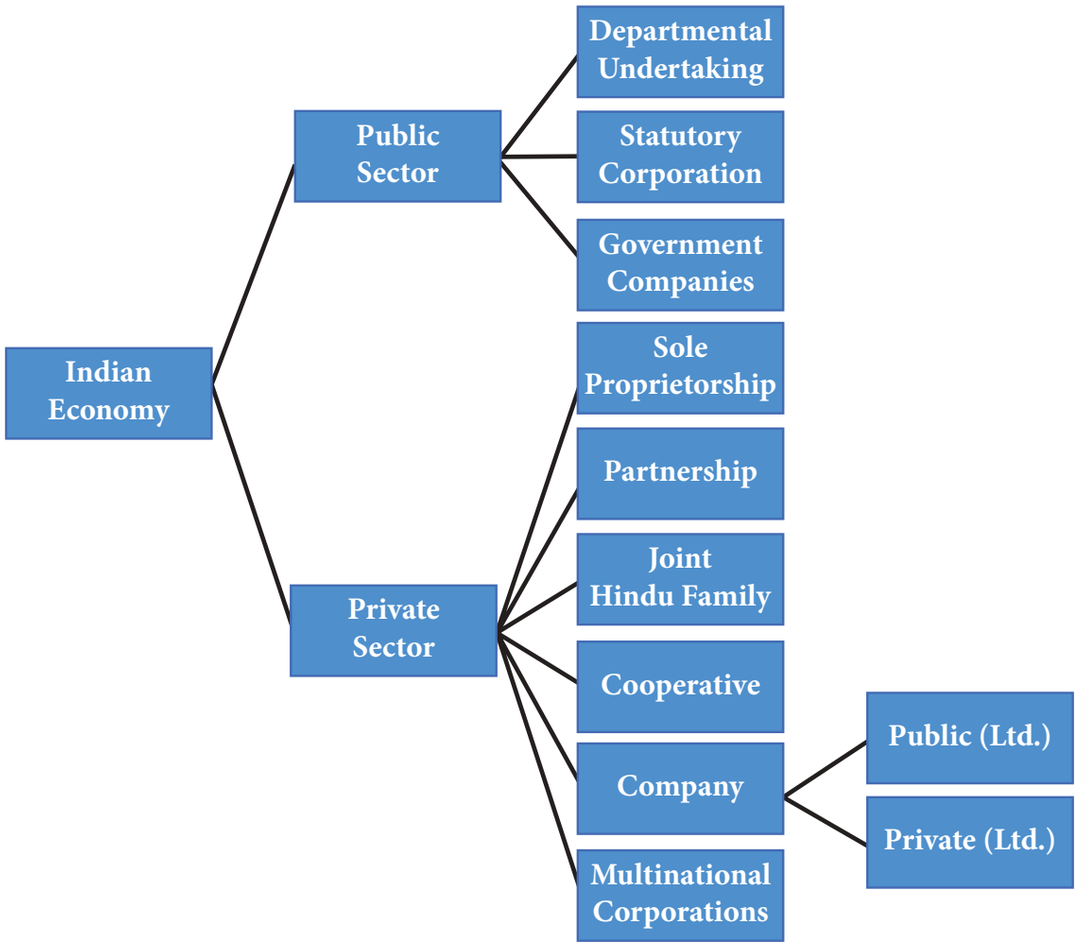
There are all kinds of business organizations – small or large, industrial or trading, private owned or government owned in our country. These organizations affect in our daily economic life and therefore become part of the Indian economy. The Government of India has opted for a mixed economy where both private and government enterprises are allowed to operate. The economy, therefore, may be classified into two sectors viz., private sector and public sector.

The public sector and the private sector are allotted their respective roles in promoting the economic welfare of all sections of the community. Public sector industries are under the ownership of Government whereas the private sector industries are under the ownership of private people. The public sector enables the full growth in an economy. Public sector is on service motive and the private sector is on profit motive.

DO YOU KNOW?

Mixed economy is the mixture of merits of both capitalism and socialism.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 238 25-01-2025 12.03.24 PM



Definition of Public Sector

The sector, which is engaged in the activities of providing government goods and services to the general public is known as Public Sector. The enterprises, agencies, and bodies are fully owned, controlled and run by the government whether it is central government, state government or local bodies.

History of public Sector

When India achieved independence in 1947, it was primarily an agricultural country with a weak industrial base. There were only eighteen Indian Ordinance Factories in the country which the British had established for their own economic interest and rule the subcontinent with brute force. The national consensus was in favour of rapid industrialisation of the economy which was seen as the key to economic development, improving living standards and economic sovereignty.

Building upon the Bombay Plan (1940), which noted the requirement of government intervention and regulation, the first Industrial Policy Resolution announced in 1948 laid down broad contours of the strategy of industrial development. Subsequently, the Planning Commission was formed by a cabinet resolution in March 1950 and the Industrial Act was enacted in 1951 with the objective of empowering the government to take necessary steps to regulate industrial development.

Prime Minister Jawaharlal Nehru promoted an economic policy based on import substitution industrialisation and advocated a mixed economic system. He believed that the establishment of basic and heavy industry was fundamental to the development and modernisation of the Indian economy. India's second five year plan (1956–60) and the Industrial Policy Resolution of 1956 emphasised the development of public sector enterprises

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 239 25-01-2025 12.03.24 PM

to meet Nehru's national industrialisation policy. His vision was carried forward by Dr. V. Krishnamurthy known as the "Father of Public sector undertakings in India". Indian statistician Prof. P.C. Mahalanobis was instrumental to its formulation, which was subsequently termed the Friedman–Mahalanobis model.

The 1991 industrial policy was radically different from all the earlier policies where the government was deliberating disinvestment of public sector and allowing greater freedom to the private sector. At the same time, foreign direct investment was invited from business houses outside India. Thus, multinational corporations, which operate in more than one country gained entry into the Indian economy. Thus, we have public sector units, private sector enterprises and multinational corporations coexisting in the Indian economy.

The objectives of Public Sector

- To promote rapid economic development through creation and expansion of infrastructure
- To generate financial resources for development
- To promote redistribution of income and wealth
- To create employment opportunities
- To promote balanced regional growth
- To encourage the development of small-scale and ancillary industries
- To accelerate export promotion and import substitution

Public Sector Organizations:

There are two types of public sector organizations, i.e. either the Government fully finances them through the revenues they raise by collection of taxes, duties, fees, etc., of the government holds more than 51% of the total share capital of the company which comes under various ministries. The enterprises are established with service motive.

It is the largest sector, which works for the upliftment of the people by providing the following services to the people : Postal services , Railway services , Providing security, education and health facilities at low cost and generation of employment opportunities, etc.

Organs of public sector:

1. Administration by a Government Department

It is very common in almost all countries.

Example - Post and Telegraph, Railways, Port Trust, Irrigation Projects on India etc.

Chennai Port

2. The Joint sector companies:

It is governed by a company law and controlled by the Government as the principal major share holder. Examples include Indian Oil Petronas Pvt. Ltd., Indian Oil Sky Tanking Limited.

Ratnagiri Gas and Power Private Limited, Indian Synthetic Rubber Limited.

Indian Oil Petronas Pvt. Ltd.

3. Public Corporation :

This type of organization is the establishment of public corporation by the state of the parliament of legislature. Example - LIC, Air India, The Reserve bank of India, Electricity Board.

Reserve Bank of India

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 240 25-01-2025 12.03.25 PM

Nine Categories of Public Sectors

Classification of Industries

- The public sector in India owes its origin to the 1956 Industrial Policy Resolution of the Government of India. This resolution classified industries into three categories. The Industries that would be exclusively owned by the state are referred to as **Schedule-A**
- The industries in which the private sector could supplement the efforts of the state sector, with the state taking the sole responsibility for starting new units which are specific in **Schedule-B.**
- The remaining industries that were in the private sector are mentioned in **Schedule-C**

Public Sector is divided into the following nine categories

1) Public sector enterprises must supply essential infrastructure for economic development which are known as primary public utilities which include the following: Airlines, Shipping, Railways, Power Generation, Tele communication etc.
2) Public sector enterprises also to have control of the "commanding heights of the economy" e.g., Defence, Banks, Coalmines, Oil, Steel etc.
3) They are to play an entrepreneurial role which is, in other words, called capital intensive industries: e.g., Iron ore, Petro-Chemicals, Fertilizer, Mining, Ship - Building. Heavy Engineering etc.
4) Public sector enterprises under Government monopoly which includes: Telecommunication equipment, Defence production, Railways, Rolling Stock etc.
5) Public sector enterprises which are exclusively meant for High Technology industries, e.g.: Atomic energy.
6) Consumer oriented public sector undertakings. e.g., Medicine, Paper, Hotels etc.
7) Public Sector enterprise which is set up in order to take over the sick private units, e.g.: Textile, Engineering etc.
8) Public sector enterprises which are set up as Trade Corporation, e.g.: FCI, CCI, etc.
9) Public sector enterprises which serves as a consultancy and engineering service, etc., e.g., MECON.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 241 25-01-2025 12.03.26 PM

NITI Aayog (National Institution for Transforming India)

NITI Aayog

- NITI Aayog replaced 65 years old planning commission. Planning commission has power to allocate funds to ministries and states, but at present the finance ministry has the power for allocation.
- NITI Aayog was formed on January 1st, 2015.

Socio-Economic Development

Socio-economic development is the process of social and economic development in a society. Socio-economic development is measured with indicators, such as GDP, life expectancy, literacy rate and levels of employment.

The new "Think Tank" is NITI Aayog can form a suitable platform in integrating the social sector initiatives of the Centre, state and the local bodies.

INDICATORS OF SOCIO-ECONOMIC DEVELOPMENT

Gross Domestic Product (GDP)

GDP supports in developing Socio-Economic Development. The proportion of GDP by the industrial sector both private and public sector has been increased. It results in increasing government funds and increase public spending.

Life Expectancy

According to 2011 Census of India, Life expectancy in India is 65.80 years for men and 68.33 years for women. Government provides high degree of health measures through various programmes. The Government announced in the Union Budget 2018-19 the "National Health Production Scheme" (NHPS) to serve poor and vulnerable families.

Literacy

Educational skill plays a vital role in the Socio Economic Development. Sarva Siksha Abhiyan (SSA) is government of India's flagship programme. It is implemented to provide free and Compulsory Education to the children of 6-14 years with life skills. The Government also introduced RMSA, Smart class, e-learning, free computer skill classes and eco-friendly studying environment.

Employment

There is a clear shift in employment to secondary and tertiary sector from the primary sector. A growing number of people moved urban areas in search of employment. It increased urban population, hence government started the 'Smart city' Scheme which provides the city with many facilities like hospitals, schools, housing facilities and shopping centres. To promote rural and backward areas in terms of employment the government encourages private sectors to start an industry in backward areas by providing tax benefit electricity at a lower tariff, etc., It removes regional inequality.

Provision of House , Clean Drinking Water and Sanitation

Government sector provides housing facilities, clean drinking water facilities and sanitary facilities under clean India Planning. Providing clean water and sanitary facilities overcome diseases and malnutrition. By providing these facilities the Life Cycle of the people increases.

Importance of Public sector

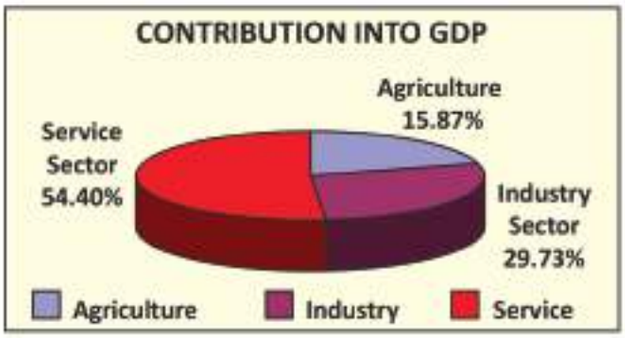
Public sector plays a major role in the development of any economy. It has following importance:-

1. **Public Sector and Capital Formation:** The role of public sector in collecting saving and investing them during the planning period has been very important.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 242 25-01-2025 12.03.26 PM

Socio-Economic Development

Gross Domestic Product (2018 - 2019)



Literacy

Life Expectancy

Employment

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 243 25-01-2025 12.03.27 PM

Provision of House, Clean Drinking water and Sanitation

2. **Economic Development:** Economic development mainly depends upon industrial development. Heavy & basic industries like iron & steel, shipping, mining, etc., are required for supplying raw materials to small industries.

3. **Balanced Regional Development:** Public sector undertakings have located their plants in backward parts of the county. These areas lacked basic industrial and civic facilities like electricity, water supply, township and manpower. Public enterprises have developed these facilities thereby bringing about complete transformation in the socio-economic life of the people in these regions.

4. **Employment Generation:** Public sector has created millions of jobs to tackle the unemployment problem in the country. The number of persons employed during the year 2011 was 150 lakh. Public sector has also contributed a lot towards the improvement of working and living conditions of workers by serving as a model employer.

5. **Export Promotion and Foreign Exchange Earnings:** Some public enterprises have done much to promote India's export. The State Trading Corporation (STC), the Minerals and Metals Trading Corporation (MMTC), Hindustan Steel Ltd., the Bharat Electronics Ltd., the Hindustan Machine Tools, etc., have performed very well in export promotion.

6. **Protection to Sick Industries:** Public sector, to prevent sick unit closing down, takes over their responsibility & prevent many people from getting unemployed not only this but it prevents unnecessary locking of capital, land, building, machinery, etc.

7. **Import Substitution:** Some public sector enterprises were started specifically to produce goods which were formerly imported and thus to save foreign exchange. The Oil and Natural Gas Commission (ONGC), the Indian Oil Corporation Ltd., the Bharat Electronics Ltd., etc., have saved foreign exchange by way of import substitution.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 244 25-01-2025 12.03.27 PM

DO YOU KNOW?

The largest public sector employer in India is Indian Railways.

Difference between Public sector and private sector

Though the public sector and private sector work together for developing the country they have different goals and motives. Here are some important differences between them.

S. No.	PUBLIC SECTOR	PRIVATE SECTOR
1.	Ownership of industries is with government	Ownership of industries is with private individuals
2.	Public Revenue depends upon levy of taxes, on income and commodities and services	Issuing shares and debentures or by taking loan
3.	Public sector ensures proper wages	Private sector exploits the workers
4.	It does not allow the concentration of huge wealth in the hands of a few rich people	It allows the concentration of huge wealth in the hands of a few rich people
5.	Public sector industries: Example NLC, SAIL, BSNL	Private sector industries: Example TVS Motors, Ashok Leyland, TATA Steel
6.	No tax evasion	Tax evasion is possible
7.	It is service oriented	It is purely profit oriented
8.	Reservations are implemented. Priority is given to the socially backward people	It does not care the socially backward class, reservation is not followed

Definition of Private sector

The segment of a national economy that is owned, controlled and managed by private individuals or enterprises is known as Private sector. The private sector companies are divided on the basis of sizes which are privately or publicly traded organizations. They can be created in two ways, i.e. either by the formation of a new enterprise or by the privatization of any public sector enterprise.

The Private sector is a part of country's economic system that is run by individuals and companies, rather than the government. Despite the vast expansion of the public sector, the contribution of the private sector continued to be very large. This is largely due to the development of medium, small and very small or micro industries.

Also, the contribution of the products of cottage, and village industries and the small, scale industries is the major portion of the wholesale and retail trade. The contribution of private sector towards national production is higher than the public sector, Private sector is dominant in road, ship, and airways transport and also in consumer industries.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 245 25-01-2025 12.03.27 PM

Major private companies

- Infosys
- Aditya Birla Company
- Reliance Industrial companies
- Tata Group of companies
- WIPRO Limited
- Hindustan Unilever Limited
- ICICI Bank Limited.

Infosys-software IT services

Functions of Private Sector

- The main function of private sector is to create innovation and modernization. The profit motive drives them to invent, innovate new production techniques and manage productive activities in a scientific manner.
- Develop and maintain infrastructure and services.
- Promote and expand existing businesses.
- Promote human capital development, to help vulnerable groups especially to participate in the labour market and encourage community development by promoting community business and co-operatives, local exchange systems and informal credit etc.
- Promote small, micro and medium enterprises (SMME) through supply side measures and demand side measures and attract investment in the city.

India, being a mixed economy, has assigned great importance to the private sector for attaining rapid economic development. The most dominant sector of India, i.e., agriculture and other allied activities like dairying, animal husbandry, poultry etc., is totally under the control of the private sector. Thus, the private sector is playing an important role in managing the entire agricultural sector and thereby providing the entire food supply to the millions.

Moreover, the major portion of the industrial sector engaged in the non-strategic and light areas, producing various consumer goods both durables and non-durables, electronics and electrical goods, automobiles, textiles, chemicals, food products, light engineering goods etc., is also under the control of the private sector. The social and economic challenges before the country are great. To meet the targets in structural transformation and economic growth, the public and private sectors must join and work together.

Recap

- The public sector and the private sector are allotted their respective roles in promoting the economic welfare of all sections of the community.
- The sector, which is engaged in the activities of providing government goods and services to the general public is known as Public Sector.
- The Planning Commission was formed by a cabinet resolution in March 1950 and the Industrial Act was enacted in 1951 with the objective of empowering the government to take necessary steps to regulate industrial development.
- Socio-economic development is the process of social and economic development in a society.

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 246 25-01-2025 12.03.28 PM

- Statistics from the Union Ministry of Health and Family Welfare reveals that life expectancy in India is 65.80 years for men and 68.33 years for women.
- The segment of a national economy that is owned, controlled and managed by private individuals or enterprises is known as Private sector.

GLOSSARY		
Emphasized	Intensity or forcefulness of expression	சொல்வன்மை
Accelerate	Cause to move faster	விரைவுபடுத்துதல்
Disinvestment	To sell off certain assets such as a manufacturing plant, a division or subsidiary, or product line	முதலீடுகளைத் திரும்பப் பெறுதல்
Debenture	A certificate or voucher acknowledging a debt	கடனீட்டுப் பத்திரம்
Ensure	Be careful or certain to do something; make certain of something	உறுதிப்படுத்து
Vulnerable	Capable of being wounded or hurt	பாதிக்கக்கூடிய

Exercise

I Choose the correct answer

1. The public sector in India owes its origin in the _____ Industrial policy resolution of the Government of India.
   a) 1957 b) 1958
   c)1966 d) 1956

2. Mixed economy is the mixture of merits of both_____.
   a) Capitalism b) Socialism
   c) a & b are correct d) a & b are incorrect

3. _____ is governed by a company law and controlled by the Government as principal major share holders.
   a) Private Sector b) Joint Sector
   c) Public Sector d) None of these

4. Public sector is on _____ motive.
   a) Profit Motive b) Service Motive
   c) Speculative Motive d) None of these

II Fill in the blanks

1. The _____ and _____ are allotted their respective roles in promoting the economic welfare of all sections of the community.
2. The private sector is on _____ motive.
3. _____ is the process of social and economic development in a society.
4. The main function of private sector is to create _____ and _____.
5. The government is committed to strengthening _____ and co-operation among the citizens.

III Match the following

1. Think Tank - Primary Sector
2. Agriculture - Gross Domestic Product
3. Industries - NITI Aayog
4. GDP - Secondary Sector

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 247 25-01-2025 12.03.28 PM

IV Which is the Odd one

1. Which one of the following is not the indicator of the Socio Economic Development.
   a) Black Money
   b) Life Expectancy
   c) Gross Domestic Product (GDP)
   d) Employment

V Which of the following is a correct answer

1. i) The Industries which would be exclusively owned by the state are referred to as Schedule-A
   ii) The industries in which the private sector could supplement the efforts of the state sector, with the state taking the sole responsibility for starting new units which are specific in Schedule-B.
   iii) The remaining industries which were in the private sector are not mentioned in Schedule.
   a) All are correct
   b) i and iii are correct
   c) i and ii are correct
   d) None of these

VI Answer in briefly

1. Write short note on public sectors.
2. What does the society want?
3. Write the objectives of Public sector.
4. What are the three organs of public sectors?
5. Name some indicators that measure socio-economic development.
6. Write short note on Private sector.
7. Name any three Major Private Sector industries.

VII Answer the following in detail

1. Explain the organs of public sector.
2. Write briefly explain the history of public sector.
3. Explain any five measured indicators of socio - economic development.
4. What are the importance of public sector?
5. Write the differences between public and private sector.
6. Write the functions of private sector.

VIII Activity

Life expectancy - ability to lead a long and health life.

S. No.	Name of the Person	Nature of work done	Agriculture/ Industry / Service
1.			
2.			
3.			
4.			
5.			

Explain your reasons for the classification.

IX. Life Skill

1. Teacher and students discuss about the Socio - Economic Development and Industrial Growth and Development in that locality.

REFERENCE BOOKS

1. Datt and Sundharam's - Indian Economy
2. Sankaran - Indian Economy

INTERNET RESOURCES

- www.wikipedia.com
- www.tn.gov.in
- www.statisticstimes.com
- India's industries related websites

UNIT 2_Economics.indd 248 25-01-2025 12.03.28 PM

SOCIAL SCIENCE – VIII
List of Adviser, Experts, Reviewers and Authors

HISTORY

Domain Expert

Dr. A. THENNARASU
Associate Professor & Head,
Govt. Arts College, Salem Dist.

Reviewer

Dr. K. JAYAKUMAR
Periyar E.V.R. College,
Tiruchi Dist.

Dr. J. MURUGAN
Arignar Anna Govt. Arts College,
Attur, Salem Dist.

Authors

S. GOMATHI MANICKAM
GHSS., Old Perungalathur
Kanchipuram Dist.

A. JAFAR ALI
P.G. Assistant,
GHSS., Keeripatty,
Salem Dist.

P. BALAMURUGAN
P.G. Assistant
GBHSS., Thammampatti
Salem Dist.

K. VELU
B.T. Assistant,
GGHSS., Thalaivasal,
Salem Dist.

K. KARTHIKEYAN
P.G. Assistant
K.A.N. GBHSS., Konganapuram,
Salem Dist.

J. SHAKILA
P.G. Assistant
Fathima Girls HSS, Omalur,
Salem Dist.

K. SELVAKUMAR
B.T. Assistant
GHS., Kunnathur,
Thiruvannamalai Dist.

K. RAMAKUMARI
B.T. Assistant
Holy Angles Matric. HSS.,
Alagapuram, Salem Dist.

B. LATHA
BT. Assistant
Holy Angles Matric. HSS.,
Alagapuram, Salem Dist.

V. UMAMAHESHWARI
P.G. Assistant
MNS GGHSS, Attayampatti,
Salem Dist.

G. SARADHA
P.G. Assistant
GHSS, Alagappampalayam Pudur,
Salem Dist.

GEOGRAPHY

Domain Expert

V. TAMILARASAN
Associate Professor & Head
Govt. Arts College, Karur Dist.

Reviewer

Dr. P. ARUL
Associate Professor
Govt. Arts College, Salem Dist.

A. RAJA
Professor & Head,
Govt. Arts College, Salem Dist.

Authors

Dr. K. RUTHARVEL MURTHY
Guest Lecturer,
Arignar Anna Govt. Arts College
Namakkal Dist.

Dr. S. SENTHIL KUMAR
Guest Lecturer
Arignar Anna Govt. Arts College
Namakkal Dist.

T. SHRI JANANI
P.G. Assistant
GBHSS., Pappireddipatti,
Dharmapuri Dist.

R. EZHILMOHAN
B.T. Assistant
GGHS., Yethapur
Salem Dist.

V. RAVIKUMAR
B.T. Assistant
GHSS., Thandavarayapuram
Salem Dist.

C. IYANDURAI
B.T. Assistant
GHS., D. Perumapalayam
Salem Dist.

C. SELVAM
B.T. Assistant
Subramaniya Sastriyar HSS.,
Arani, Thiruvannamalai Dist.

K.G. JOTHI
B.T. Assistant
GHSS, Vrinchipuram
Vellore Dist.

V. JAYACHANDRAN
B.T. Assistant,
GBHSS, Thammampatti,
Salem Dist.

B. MUNIRAJU
B.T. Assistant, GHS.,
Choodapuram, Krishnagiri Dist.

S. SHANKAR
B.T. Assistant
GHSS, Kattukottai, Salem Dist.

CIVICS

Domain Expert & Reviewer

Dr. M. KALIYAPERUMAL
Professor & Head of the Department
of Political Science (Retd.)
Presidency College, Chennai Dist.

Authors

D. SUGANTHI
B.T. Assistant
Govt. Kallar High School
Annanji, Theni Dist.

P. BALAMURUGAN
P.G. Assistant
GBHSS., Thammampatti
Salem Dist.

S. GOMATHI MANICKAM
B.T. Assistant
GHSS., Old Perungalathur
Kanchipuram Dist.

V. VELMURUGAN
B.T. Assistant
GHSS., Vellalagundam
Salem Dist.

G. AYYADURAI
P.G. Assistant
GBHSS., Mecheri, Salem Dist.

D. VANI
P.G. Assistant,
Malco Vidyalaya MHS.,
Mettur Dam, Salem Dist.

EMIS Technology Team

R.M. SATHEESH
State Coordinator Technical,
TN EMIS, Samagra Shiksha.

K.P. SATHYA NARAYANA
IT Consultant,
TN EMIS, Samagra Shikaha

R. ARUN MARUTHI SELVAN
Technical Project Consultant,
TN EMIS, Samagra Shiksha

ICT Team

D. NAGARAJ
GHSS., Rappusal
Pudukkotai Dist.

S. SURENTHIREN
GHSS., Madhavalayam
Kanyakumari Dist.

Typist

R. MOHANAMBAL,
Velachery, Chennai.

Adviser & Expert

Dr. P. KUMAR
Joint Director (Syllabus)
SCERT, Chennai.

Academic & Subjects Co-ordinators

T. SRINIVASAN
Principal
DIET, Krishnagiri.

P. SURESH
P.G. Assistant in History
GGHSS., Attur
Salem Dist.

Dr. G. VIRUTHASARANI
Senior Lecturer
DIET, Krishnagiri Dist.

ECONOMICS

Domain Expert & Reviewer

Dr. R. SUBRAMANIAN
Retd. Professor (Economics)
Salem Soudeshwari College
Salem Dist.

Authors

L. GOWSALYADEVI
P.G. Assistant
GHSS., Thoppur
Dharmapuri Dist.

S. SRINIVASAN
P.G. Assistant
GHSS., B. Thurinjipatti
Dharmapuri Dist.

Layout Co-ordination

RAMESH MUNISAMY

Layout Artist

Kamatchi Balan Arumugam
S. Ashok Kumar
Petchimuthu Kailasam
R. Balasubramani
Selvakumar Manickam
V. Sridhar
A. Adison Raj
Madhan Kumar
Prasanth
Santhiyavu Stephen
V. Vinoth Kumar

Wrapper Design

KATHIR ARUMUGAM

Quality Control

Arun Kamaraj Palanisamy
Rajesh Thangappan

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